

United States Coast Guard for Maritime Homeland Security, SecDef has authorized CDRUSNORTHCOM, CDRUSPACOM, and the JS to transfer forces to operate under TACON of Commandant, USCG; USCG Atlantic Area; and USCG Pacific Area for maritime HS operations in the USNORTHCOM and USPACOM AORs, as described in the annexes attached to the MOA. This authority may be further delegated to appropriate flag officer/general officer commanders subordinate to CDRUSNORTHCOM and CDRUSPACOM.

e. Military commanders are authorized to take action under immediate response authority in certain circumstances. In response to a RFA from a civil authority, under imminently serious conditions and if time does not permit approval from higher authority, DOD officials (i.e., military commanders, heads of DOD components, and responsible DOD civilian officials) may provide an immediate response by temporarily employing the resources under their control—subject to any supplemental direction provided by higher HQ—to save lives, prevent human suffering, or mitigate great property damage within the US. Such immediate response authority does not permit actions that would subject civilians to the use of military power that is regulatory, prescriptive, proscriptive, or compulsory. The DOD official directing a response under immediate response authority should immediately notify the National Joint Operations and Intelligence Center, through the chain of command, of the details of the response.

For further information on immediate response authority, refer to DODD 3025.18, Defense Support of Civil Authorities (DSCA).

f. Military forces may also help DOJ or other federal, state, or local law enforcement agencies (LEAs) when requirements are met. This includes military assistance in response to civil disturbances. In addition to emergency or disaster assistance, other USG departments and agencies may request DOD assistance as part of HS. Such assistance may be in the form of information and intelligence sharing, mapping, or damage assessment assistance. Other types of military assistance to LEAs include counterdrug operations, combating terrorism, general support such as training civilian law enforcement officials, and infrastructure protection. Military commanders should review, with legal counsel, each request for domestic aid for statutory compliance, especially for law enforcement assistance to civil authorities. SecDef must personally approve any request to assist LEAs in preplanned national events. Requests for DOD assets in support of law enforcement require careful review during planning to ensure DOD support conforms to law and policy and does not degrade the mission capability of CCDRs. The US Constitution, federal laws, and USG policies and regulations restrict domestic military operations. Requests for DOD assistance should be coordinated with the supporting organization's legal counsel or SJA. Laws and policy that restrict domestic military operations include:

(1) The Posse Comitatus Act (Title 18, USC, Section 1385); DODI 3025.21, *Defense Support of Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies*; and additional federal statutory and case law define conditions under which military forces can be employed, as well as criminal penalties and the legal constraints intended to prevent misuse of military force. With the exception of members of the USCG and members of the NG in state service

(Title 32, USC, or state active duty), military personnel are prohibited under either the Posse Comitatus Act or DOD policy from direct participation in the execution of laws of the US unless specifically authorized by statute or the Constitution. The restrictions in the Posse Comitatus Act do not apply to the USCG when not operating under DOD authorities (Title 14, USC) or the NG operating under state active duty status or Title 32, USC, duty status. The NG, due to local presence, will likely be the first military responder during a domestic emergency. The early employment of the NG usually will be in either a state active duty status or Title 32, USC, status—both are at the direction of the governor and the command of TAG. Absent an applicable exception, the Posse Comitatus Act and DOD policy prohibit federal military personnel performing DSCA operations within the US from directly participating in certain activities, such as:

- (a) Interdiction of a vehicle, vessel, aircraft, or other similar activity.
- (b) A search or seizure.
- (c) An arrest, apprehension, stop and frisk, or similar activity.
- (d) Surveillance or pursuit of individuals, or acting as undercover agents, informants, investigators, or interrogators.

(e) The Posse Comitatus Act and DOD policy, however, provide an exception for activities or situations specifically authorized by statute or the Constitution. A number of statutes, for example, authorize DOD to provide specified assistance to civilian law enforcement. These include addressing the restoration of civil order and the enforcement of federal law (Insurrection Act, Title 10, USC, Sections 331-335); the provision of specified types of technical assistance that may be used for, among other things, counterdrug efforts (Title 10, USC, Sections 371-381); and certain emergencies involving WMD (Title 10, USC, Section 382, and Title 18, USC, Section 831[e]). The provision of technical assistance under Title 10, USC, Sections 371-381, is qualified by Title 10, USC, Section 375, which provides: “The Secretary of Defense shall prescribe such regulations as may be necessary to ensure that any activity (including the provision of any equipment or facility or the assignment or detail of any personnel) under this chapter does not include or permit direct participation by a member of the Army, Navy, Air Force, or Marine Corps in a search, seizure, arrest, or other similar activity unless participation in such activity by such member is otherwise authorized by law.”

(2) National events may be targeted by adversaries. The Secretary of Homeland Security, in consultation with the NSC, may designate public events (e.g., the Olympic Games or the presidential inauguration) as national special security events (NSSEs). Once so designated, an event becomes the focal point for interagency planning and the primary agency may request support from DOD.

For more information, refer to DODI 3025.21, Defense Support of Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies; DOD 5240.1-R, Procedures Governing the Activities of DOD Intelligence Components that Affect United States Persons; DODD 5200.27, Acquisition

of Information Concerning Persons and Organizations not Affiliated with the Department of Defense; and *CJCSI 3710.01*, Counterdrug Support.

g. **CBRN Response.** Supporting CBRN missions requires a number of specialized capabilities. These capabilities may be required to support civil authorities as part of efforts ranging from the prevention of an attack to technical nuclear forensics to support attribution. For example, the 2011 Interagency Domestic Radiological/Nuclear Search Plan specifies that DOD maintains an operational radiological/nuclear search capability. Additionally, managing the consequences of a CBRN incident is a USG effort. The US military has experience and expertise in protecting its members from CBRN hazards and in operating in a contaminated area. When requested by domestic civil authorities and approved by the President or SecDef, this experience and expertise will be shared. Governors have the authority to deploy and employ NG forces under their control in response to domestic incidents. NG CBRN response-specific forces such as the WMD-civil support teams; CBRN and high-yield explosive enhanced response force packages; and homeland response forces are deployed and employed under state control, per Title 32, USC, authorities, unless ordered to active duty under the authorities in Title 10, USC.

For more information, refer to CJCSI 3125.01, Defense Response to Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear (CBRN) Incidents in the Homeland; JP 3-41, Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Response; and Army Techniques Publication 3-11.41/Marine Corps Reference Publication 3-37.2C/Navy Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-11.24/Air Force Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-2.37, Multi-Service Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures for Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Consequence Management Operations.

h. For domestic missions, DOD may provide information in support of USG communication initiatives, but will not seek to influence US citizens. Additionally, for HD and DSCA missions, DOD will typically support another lead federal agency. DOD communications programs will be coordinated with the lead federal agency, especially if USG communication focuses on US audiences.

3. Joint Force Considerations

a. When the President or SecDef directs DSCA, CDRUSNORTHCOM or CDRUSPACOM will generally be designated as the supported commander. Events that trigger DSCA generally require the supported GCC to activate and deploy an initial C2 element and follow-on JTF to serve as the C2 node for responding Title 10, USC, federal forces. NG forces under Title 32, USC, and state active duty will likely have already been deployed to the incident area.

(1) While DOD response to domestic emergencies is normally coordinated through SecDef, the military may also respond when an interdepartmental MOA is in effect (e.g., the United States Navy [USN] agrees to rapid deployment of oil containment and recovery equipment to the USCG under an interdepartmental MOA). The MOA bypasses negotiations at the HQ level and sets procedures to deploy and employ equipment and personnel, and for reimbursement of operational costs. When military

assets respond to domestic emergencies, the supported GCC integrates the capabilities of each component to accomplish the mission. The joint force should be organized for optimum response. Frequently, innovative uses of military resources (e.g., land forces fighting wildfires) optimizes the response.

(2) DHS, the FEMA regions, and their associated regional interagency steering committees typically meet on a quarterly or monthly basis. Committee meetings may be conducted virtually or face-to-face. Supporting GCCs can use steering committee meetings to interface with USG departments and agencies, and their regional and state partners. These regional interagency steering committees plan, coordinate, and support preparations for disaster and relief efforts. Regional interagency steering committee meetings are typically attended by the defense coordinating officer (DCO) and defense coordinating element (DCE) personnel assigned to the FEMA region offices.

(3) The USCG and many other federal, state, tribal, and local response agencies and organizations have adopted ICS as their standard response system for nonmilitary incident management. Non-DOD entities, including local civil authorities and first responders, are generally not familiar with US military terms and doctrine. In an emergency, clear, effective, and mutually understandable communication with non-DOD entities and partners can save lives, mitigate suffering, and protect property. DOD elements will work more seamlessly, efficiently, and productively by employing operational concepts and terms that other departments, agencies, and authorities understand. The national frameworks, NIMS, ICS, and other federal and national standards provide common language and concepts. US military forces that might be involved in emergency or major disaster operations should become familiar with these documents, and be prepared to provide DSCA IAW the national frameworks, NIMS, and ICS.

b. USNORTHCOM, through its Army Service component (i.e., US Army North), permanently assigns DCOs at the 10 FEMA region HQ to coordinate DSCA and collaborate with FEMA. DCEs are also identified to support these DCOs. During disaster operations, the supported GCC normally activates a DCO upon receipt of an RFA from the primary agency sent through the CCDR to the DOD Executive Secretary. The DCO is normally the initial DOD representative at a FEMA regional response coordination center. The DCO subsequently serves as DOD's single point of contact (POC) at the JFO to receive RFAs directed to DOD. Upon federal declaration of a disaster, FEMA normally sets up a JFO in or near the affected area. The JFO is a temporary federal facility that provides a central location for coordination among federal, state, tribal, and local governments; NGOs; and the private sector with primary responsibility for response and recovery. Depending on the size or area of a disaster site, there may be more than one JFO coordinating federal disaster response and support (e.g., there were three JFOs operating in support of Hurricane Katrina response operations—one each in Alabama, Mississippi, and Louisiana). There will normally be a DCO at each JFO to be the primary interface for US military support to the unified coordination group. The DCO works with the FCO and state coordinating officer at the JFO to integrate DOD support to the operation. They serve as the on-scene military POC for the FCO and principal representatives of other organizations. **However, the DCO remains the POC**

for the FCO, in the JFO, IAW the NRF. Once DOD forces are deployed, requests from civilian departments and agencies are coordinated through the DCO under the procedures delineated in the NRF. Some factors in the provision of DSCA include:

(1) USG departments and agencies or state, tribal, and local governments request DOD support for emergency response through a formal RFA process. DOD evaluates every RFA using the following criteria: cost, appropriateness, legality, lethality, risk, and impact on readiness.

(2) In general, the FCO receives RFAs from civil authorities and submits RFAs/mission assignments approved for funding to the DCO for initial validation. After receiving the RFA from the state/local/tribal authority, FEMA prepares a mission assignment. If FEMA determines DOD has the best sourcing solution, the mission assignment is passed to the DCO to begin DOD validation. Once SecDef approves the request for forces/capabilities that will support the RFA, orders are issued to accomplish the mission.

(3) JFO and JTF relations are a catalyst for DSCA operations. The JFO is the primary federal incident management field structure and is the principal venue for interorganizational cooperation. The JTF is deployed to conduct C2 of federal military forces conducting DSCA. The NRF states that if a JTF is established, its C2 element will be colocated at the JFO—consistent with operational requirements—to ensure coordination and unity of effort. The colocation of the JTF C2 element does not eliminate the requirement for a DCO to coordinate on behalf of the JFO. It also does not change the DCO's role to coordinate RFAs to DOD. DCOs also liaise with other entities, maintain situational awareness, and report to the JS. The CJTF is normally a member of the unified coordination group at the JFO during DSCA operations. The CJTF should provide robust liaison to the DCO and the DCE to ensure JTF capabilities are understood, help share situational awareness, and analyze future support requirements.

(4) The NIMS framework describes how the incident command posts and area command centers relate to the multiagency coordination centers for operational information sharing and resource coordination (particularly the RFA process).

(5) The JFO is a scalable organization (i.e., the management, operations, planning, logistics, and finance/administration sections) built around the ESFs defined in the NRF. The CJTF and designated liaisons can optimize DOD integration in the JFO through this structure. Once established, the JFO subsumes the role of the regional FEMA HQ or regional response coordination center as the primary structure for interorganizational cooperation to achieve unity of effort.

(6) Use an existing common, unclassified, information sharing mechanism (or establish one) to collaborate and share information with other stakeholders. DHS uses the Homeland Security Information Network as one of its main information networks. DSCA tasks normally require a variety of information sharing methods and techniques (e.g., web posting, instant messaging, and printed reports or information downloaded onto compact discs delivered by couriers or LNOs). Since many employees of state,

local, and tribal government agencies; private sector firms; and NGOs are not cleared to access classified information, most information provided in support of DSCA should be at the unclassified level.

c. The JTF is the command element that provides personnel, equipment, and supplies to a disaster area for approved missions. With input from the DCO, the JTF identifies tasks; generates forces; prioritizes assets against requirements; assists federal, state, tribal, and local authorities; and provides disaster response support to the local government based on FEMA mission assignments.

d. A dual-status commander (DSC) is an intermediate link in two distinct, separate chains of command flowing from different federal, territorial, and state governments. The DSC is a commissioned officer of the Regular Army or Air Force or a federally recognized ARNG or ANG officer authorized, pursuant to Title 32, USC, Section 315 or 325, appointed by SecDef, with the consent of the applicable governor of a state, to exercise command on behalf of, and receive separate orders from, a federal chain of command and exercise command on behalf of, and receive separate orders from, a state chain of command. Although empowered to exercise command on behalf of, and able to receive orders from, two separate chains of command, those chains of command must recognize and respect the DSC's duty to exercise all authority in a completely mutually exclusive manner (i.e., giving orders on behalf of or relaying orders from the federal chain of command to federal military forces and giving orders on behalf of or relaying orders from the state chain of command to state military forces, but never relaying federal orders to state military forces or state orders to federal military forces). Title 32, USC, Section 101, also clarifies that DSC-led JTFs are the usual and customary C2 arrangement established in response to an emergency or major disaster within the US when both federal and state military forces are supporting the response.

For more information on a DSC, refer to JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

e. Organizational tools that may assist interagency support of civil authorities include:

(1) **Liaison Section.** Liaisons provided by the CCDR to the primary agency and other USG departments and agencies are spokespersons for the CCDR, clarify operational concepts and terminology, and help assess military requirements. The LNO can articulate how military units might perform nontraditional roles and the military contribution to the federal response. NGB LNOs colocated with the DCO coordinate federal and state military support to civil authorities. Conversely, liaisons working with the military can articulate core competencies and resources of participating organizations.

(a) Emergency preparedness LNOs are reserve officers who plan and liaise between DOD components and USG departments and agencies, USG regional HQ, and state or US territory emergency service HQ. These officers are directed by their DOD component through the Service planning agent. They also interface with the private sector. Each Military Department is authorized to assign emergency preparedness LNOs

at FEMA national and regional HQ; military HQ that serve as the DOD, Service, or regional planning agents for domestic emergency support; and state or US territorial HQ.

For additional information about emergency preparedness LNOs, refer to DODI 3025.16, Defense Emergency Preparedness Liaison Officer (EPLO) Programs.

(b) Supported commanders (e.g., CDRUSNORTHCOM or CDRUSPACOM) are responsible for a liaison structure at the state level within their respective AORs.

(2) **Media Operations Center (MOC).** MOCs provide information to the public. They may be established at each echelon of command, and should be composed of representatives from all organizations involved. MOCs disseminate accurate and timely information to help the public deal with emergencies and disasters or other events. Promoting federal efforts is a secondary goal. DOD media operations should complement and support the primary agency's or joint information center's media plan or effort.

4. State, Local, Territorial, and Tribal Considerations

a. When a disaster threatens or occurs, a governor may request federal assistance. If DOD support is required and approved as part of that federal assistance, then DOD may execute mission assignments in support of the primary federal agency that often result in a wide range of assistance to local, tribal, territorial, and state authorities. Incidents can have a mix of public health, economic, social, environmental, criminal, and political implications with potentially serious long-term effects. Significant incidents require a coordinated response across organizations and jurisdictions, political boundaries, sectors of society, and multiple organizations.

b. Federal law, as codified in Title 10 and Title 32, USC, creates distinct mechanisms for local and state authorities to request NG forces or resources. Local and state authorities may also request federal forces (active and reserve) under Title 10, USC, authority for a contingency response. The NG of the US is administered by the NGB, which is a joint activity under DOD and provides communication for NG to DOD to support unified action. The NG active, reserve framework is built on mechanisms that coordinate among federal, state, territorial, tribal, and local governments to prevent, protect against, and respond to threats and natural disasters. NG forces operate under state active duty, Title 32, USC, or federal active duty, Title 10, USC, depending on activation status.

c. **NG JFHQ-State.** NG JFHQ-State gives DOD, through the NGB, a focused communication channel between OSD, the JS, CCDRs (e.g., CDRUSNORTHCOM, CDRUSPACOM), and the non-federalized NG; joint C2 for non-federalized NG operations; and a contingent joint C2 capability in each state for Title 10, USC, HD, DSCA, and other related operations. In this respect, NG JFHQ-State is able to link the state and federal levels of government. The Services provide active duty LNOs to the NG JFHQ-State.

d. NG forces have primary responsibility to provide military assistance in all 50 states, Puerto Rico, Guam, the US Virgin Islands, and the District of Columbia during civil emergencies. Unless federalized, these forces are under the command of their respective governor (the Secretary of the Army in the case of the District of Columbia), who normally exercise C2 through the state or territory TAG. NG personnel may be employed for civil emergencies in a volunteer status, be ordered to active duty for annual training or be called to active duty under the authority of the governor or the President.

e. Each US state and territory has an office of emergency services (OES), or an equivalent office (e.g., the office of emergency management), responsible to plan and assist the governor in response to emergencies. In some states, TAG is also head of this office. The OES coordinates state or territorial assistance to its local governments through authority of the governor or TAG. The OES operates the state emergency operations center during a disaster or emergency and coordinates with federal officials for support, if required. The state will usually designate a state coordinating officer, with authorities similar to the FCO, to coordinate and integrate federal and state activities.

f. DOD counterpart relationships to those of DCO, FCO, and state coordinating officer can be established at lower echelons to facilitate coordination.

g. The emergency management assistance compact (EMAC) is an interstate agreement that enables entities to provide mutual assistance during times of need. The EMAC mutual aid agreement and partnership, either between or among member states, enables states to provide and receive aid for disasters ranging from hurricanes to earthquakes, wildfires to toxic waste spills, and terrorist attacks to CBRN incidents. Since its ratification and signing into law in 1996 (Public Law 104-321), 50 states, the District of Columbia, Puerto Rico, Guam, and the US Virgin Islands have enacted legislation to become EMAC members. EMAC is administered by the National Emergency Management Association, which provides the day-to-day support and technical backbone for EMAC education and operations. DOD has no active role in EMAC. However, DSCA planners at the CCMD level should be aware of the EMAC as it can affect the readiness and availability of non-DOD resources that may be considered for other activities.

h. The US recognizes certain Indian tribes as domestic dependent nations under its protection. These tribes have the right to self-government, tribal sovereignty, and self-determination. USG departments and agencies should respect Indian tribal self-government and sovereignty, honor tribal treaty and other rights, and meet the responsibilities that arise from the unique legal relationship between the USG and Indian tribal governments. State governors should request a presidential disaster declaration on behalf of a tribe under the Stafford Act for federal assistance for disasters on tribal lands. In the absence of such a declaration, however, USG departments and agencies may have separate authorities to work directly with tribes. US treaties, statutes, and executive orders mandate that the USG deal with Indian tribes on a government-to-government basis, reflecting the federally recognized tribes' right of self-government as sovereign domestic dependent nations. A tribe may opt, however, to deal directly with state and local officials. USG departments and agencies involved in potential or actual incidents

requiring a coordinated federal response should consult and collaborate with tribal governments on matters affecting the tribes and should be aware of the social, political, and cultural aspects of tribal lands that might affect incident management operations. USG departments and agencies recognize the unique political and geographical issues of tribes whose aboriginal and contemporary territory is on, or near, the current international borders of Canada and Mexico. USG departments and agencies should include tribes in all aspects of incident management operations that affect tribes. For incidents that directly impact tribal jurisdictions, a tribal representative should be included in the unified coordination group. A tribe may appoint a tribal liaison in the JFO.

5. Nongovernmental Organizations

a. Domestic NGOs can play a prominent role in response to disasters. Many of these are charity- and faith-based organizations that provide assistance to disaster victims. NGOs make a significant impact at the local level, and DSCA planners at the CCMD level should consider domestic NGOs capacity and capability as they assess potential critical shortfalls that can lead to RFAs.

b. National Voluntary Organizations Active in Disaster (NVOAD) (<http://www.nvoad.org>) is a nonprofit, nonpartisan organization that provides a forum for organizations to share knowledge and resources to help communities prepare for and recover from disasters. NVOAD is the primary POC for voluntary organizations in the National Response Coordination Center (at FEMA HQ). Inside the US, NVOAD has a membership of over 50 national organizations (faith-based, community-based, and other NGOs) and more than 50 state and territory equivalents.

6. The Private Sector

a. The private sector owns or operates approximately 85 percent of the nation's critical infrastructure. Federal, state, local, and tribal governments and the private sector are partners in CIP. Government departments and agencies have access to critical threat information and both the government and private sector control security programs, participate in research and development, and have other resources that are more effective if discussed and shared in a partnership setting. The National Infrastructure Protection Plan provides the framework for partnership between government and the private sector to protect critical infrastructure and key resources. Information sharing and analysis centers, sector coordinating councils, and state and local fusion centers enable information sharing and security efforts for the various sectors of our nation's critical infrastructure. The private sector is integral to DSCA planning and collaboration.

b. Private sector entities provide sector, facility, and installation security for critical infrastructure and telecommunications systems. Critical infrastructure and key resources are owned and operated by the public and private sectors and support the delivery of critical and essential services. DOJ has primary ESF #13, Public Safety and Security Annex, responsibility (i.e., ESF coordinator and primary agency) and, along with DHS, state and local authorities and police, and state NG, assists the private sector in protecting our nation's critical infrastructure. DOD also supports security at facilities that are part

of the nation's defense critical infrastructure. CIP incident response is coordinated through DHS's Office of Infrastructure Protection. The private sector, under ESF #14, Long-Term Community Recovery and Mitigation, defines and addresses risk reduction and long-term community recovery priorities, and supports the community recovery planning process.

c. Private sector entities can enhance USG situational awareness and enable DOD DR operations in both foreign and domestic settings. The US Business Executives for National Security is a private association of commercial practitioners who can provide information on disasters and help identify resources to mitigate their impact.

d. The American Red Cross (ARC) (<http://www.redcross.org>) is a corporation chartered by the US. The ARC supports a number of ESFs, most notably ESF #6, Mass Care, Housing, and Human Services. It works with state, territorial, tribal, and local authorities as a direct provider of DR services (e.g., emergency sheltering, feeding, basic first aid support, mental health counseling, and disaster assessment). Under ESF #8, Public Health and Medical Services, the ARC supports the DHHS to provide blood products. Due to its stature, the ARC can coordinate among NGOs, as well as the various entities of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement.

7. Interorganizational Cooperation with Canada, Mexico, and the Bahamas

a. **Canada.** North American Aerospace Defense Command (NORAD), USNORTHCOM, and Canada Joint Operations Command (CJOC) share the task of defending North America and building cooperative approaches to ensure its security. CJOC conducts Canadian Armed Forces operations in North America and around the world; however, it is not directly involved in NORAD operations. North American defense is a collaborative effort among the three commands and other mission partners. USNORTHCOM and CJOC are national commands reporting to their respective governments while NORAD is a binational command reporting to both governments (see Figure III-1). The commands have complementary missions and work closely together to meet their individual and collective responsibilities for the defense and security of North America. Unity of effort, situational awareness, and coordination with a variety of mission partners link and enable all these commands.

(1) **Commander, NORAD.** By international agreement (i.e., The North American Aerospace Defense Command [NORAD] Agreement and Terms of Reference, and the Canadian/US Basic Security Document 100/35), Commander, NORAD (who also serves as CDRUSNORTHCOM and Commander of the US Element to NORAD) leads a binational command composed of Canadian and US forces which conducts persistent aerospace warning, aerospace control, and maritime warning in the defense of North America. Military actions outside of these three NORAD mission areas are a national responsibility. Bilateral military operations are planned and coordinated by USNORTHCOM and CJOC. NORAD and USNORTHCOM are separate commands with distinct missions and authorities, but a majority of USNORTHCOM's AOR overlaps with NORAD's operational area. They share HQ facilities and staffs that work closely together. Canadian and US general officers serve as NORAD and

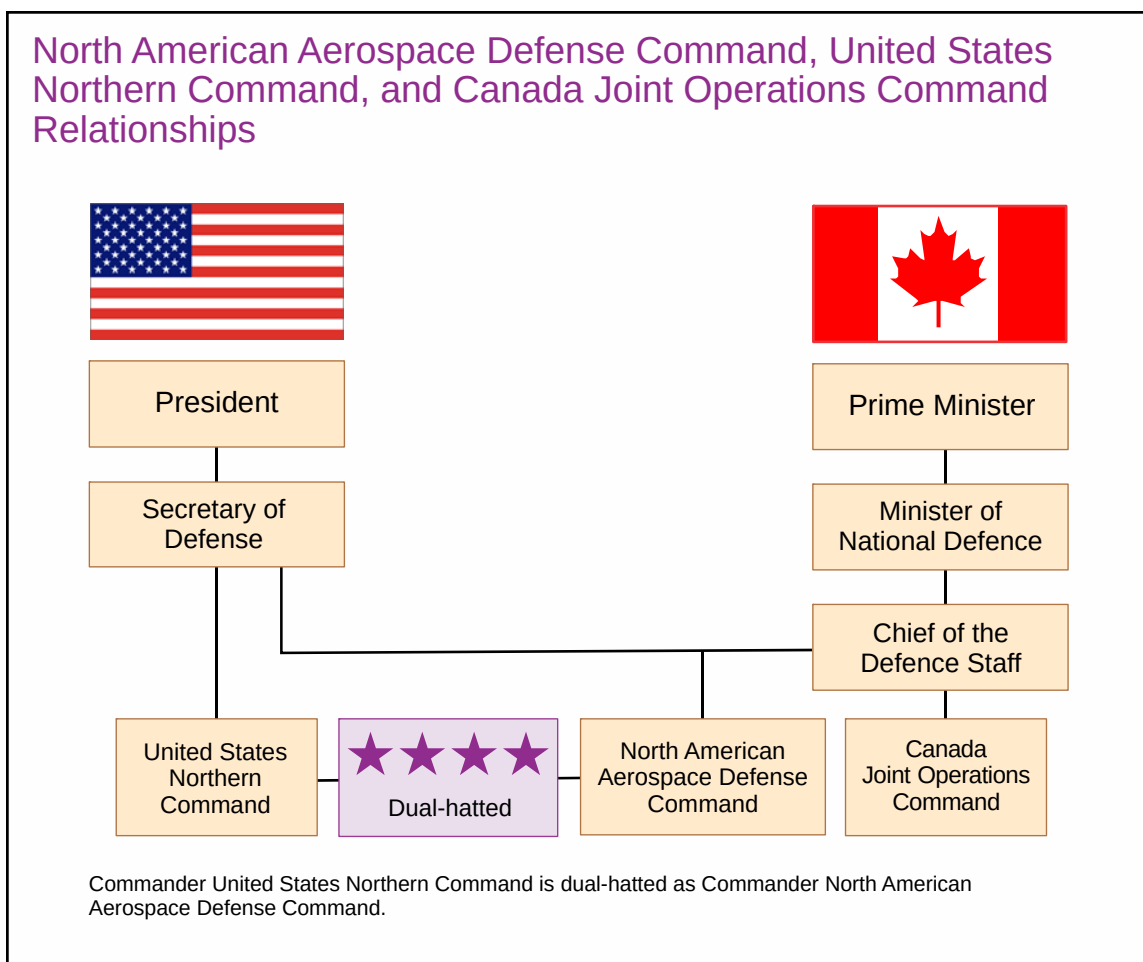


Figure III-1. North American Aerospace Defense Command, United States Northern Command, and Canada Joint Operations Command Relationships

USNORTHCOM deputies. Separate agreements between the two nations provide for bilateral military actions outside of NORAD.

(2) The commanders, USNORTHCOM, NORAD, and CJOC, build close relationships with each other, their staffs, and supporting and partner agencies. These relationships enable the commands to provide timely and coordinated response to defense and security challenges to North America while respecting both nation's sovereignty, but leveraging the capabilities and common cause they share.

(3) The Canada-United States Civil Assistance Plan was developed to provide a framework for the military of one nation to provide support to the military of the other nation in the performance of civil support operations (e.g., floods, forest fires, hurricanes, earthquakes, and effects of a terrorist attack). This framework is designed to save lives, prevent human suffering, and mitigate damage to property.

(4) NORAD also provides air defense for NSSEs in the US and similar events in Canada.

b. **Mexico.** USNORTHCOM works in partnership with the Mexican military and civil response partners to increase mutual long-term capacity to counter common security threats and build consequence management capability. This is accomplished primarily through USNORTHCOM's TCP, and executed through security cooperation and disaster preparation and response programs. Together these efforts strengthen the Mexican security and response forces' capacity and improve security and disaster preparation and response in North America. While there is no formal military agreement between the US and Mexico, USNORTHCOM works closely with the Mexican Armed Forces and civil agencies through the embassy country team, military LNOs, and interagency partners. This coordination facilitates a whole-of-government approach to a wide range of programs, events, and activities that strengthen the bilateral relationship and the collective defense of our respective nations. There is broad Mexican law enforcement and intergovernmental cooperation and collaboration for HS and humanitarian support activities.

c. **The Bahamas.** USNORTHCOM works in partnership with the Royal Bahamas Defence Force and their National Emergency Management Agency civil response partners to increase long-term capacity to counter security threats to both the Bahamas and the US and build cooperative consequence management capabilities. Goals are accomplished primarily through USNORTHCOM's TCP; the Building Partnership Capacity Program; the Overseas Humanitarian and Civic Assistance Program; and Operation Bahamas, Turks and Caicos. Operation Bahamas, Turks and Caicos is a cooperative counterdrug mission supported by Royal Bahamas Defence Force; Royal Bahamas Police Force; USCG; CBP; and US Drug Enforcement Administration (DEA), with USNORTHCOM assistance. It provides equipment, training, and intelligence support to strengthen the Royal Bahamas Defence Force's capacity, and improve security in the northern Caribbean and southeastern maritime approaches to the US.

8. Critical Infrastructure Information Sharing and Analysis

DHS leads the evaluation of vulnerabilities and coordinates with other federal, state, local, tribal, international, and private entities to plan responses. DHS focuses on critical infrastructure—the physical and virtual assets, systems, and networks so vital that their incapacitation or destruction would debilitate security, the national economy, public health, or safety. To evaluate vulnerabilities, DHS collects, protects, evaluates, and disseminates information to the American public, state and local governments, tribal authorities, international partners, and the private sector.

a. Many of the critical infrastructure sectors have formal processes and structures to support sector-wide information sharing activities.

b. Private sector information sharing and analysis centers enable information sharing in some sectors. These centers collect, distribute, analyze, and share sensitive and sometimes proprietary information regarding threats, vulnerabilities, alerts, and best practices.

c. Some sectors use alternate mechanisms to communicate internally and with government partners and other sectors about threat indications, vulnerabilities, and protective strategies. Many of these information sharing mechanisms are compatible and help leaders identify and account for cross-industry dependencies in emergency response planning.

d. State and regional fusion centers provide geographically relevant information to the critical infrastructure owners and operators in their jurisdictions. Many fusion centers have infrastructure analysts in their centers to produce risk analyses of their regions or local areas.

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CHAPTER IV

FOREIGN CONSIDERATIONS

"In such circumstances, we should not go it alone. Instead, we must mobilize allies and partners to take collective action. We have to broaden our tools to include diplomacy and development, sanctions and isolation, appeals to international law, and, if just, necessary, and effective, multilateral military action."

Barack Obama
President of the United States
Address at United States Military Academy
28 May 2014

1. United States Government Structure in Foreign Countries

a. **The Diplomatic Mission.** The US has bilateral diplomatic relations with almost all of the world's independent states. The US bilateral representation in the foreign country, known as the diplomatic mission, is established IAW the Vienna Convention on Diplomatic Relations, of which the US is a party. Missions are organized under DOS regional and functional bureaus. The boundaries for the DOS regions roughly approximate those of the CCMDs and therefore geographic and functional seams must be addressed and managed. DOS provides the core staff of a diplomatic mission and administers the presence of representatives of other USG departments and agencies in the country. A diplomatic mission is led by a COM, usually the ambassador, but at times another person designated by the President, or the chargé d'affaires (the chargé) when no US ambassador is accredited to the country or the ambassador is absent from the country. The deputy chief of mission (DCM) is second in charge of the mission and usually assumes the role of chargé in the absence of the COM. For countries with which the US has no diplomatic relations, the embassy of another country represents US interests and at times houses an interests section staffed with USG employees. In countries where an international organization is headquartered, the US may have a multilateral mission to the international organization in addition to the bilateral mission to the foreign country.

(1) **The Ambassador.** The President, with the advice and consent of the Senate, appoints the ambassador. The ambassador is the President's personal representative to the government of the foreign country or to the international organization to which accredited. As such, the ambassador is normally the COM and recommends and implements national policy regarding the foreign country or international organization, and oversees the activities of USG employees in the mission. While the majority of ambassadors are career members of the Foreign Service, many are appointed from outside the Foreign Service. The ambassador, as COM, has extraordinary decision-making authority as the senior USG official on the ground during crises.

(a) The COM has authority over all USG personnel in country, except for those under the command of a CCDR, a USG multilateral mission, or an international organization. The COM may be accredited to more than one country. The COM interacts daily with DOS's strategic-level planners and decision makers. The COM

provides recommendations and considerations for planning directly to the GCC and JTF commander. While forces in the field under a GCC are exempt from the COM's statutory authority, the COM confers with the GCC regularly to coordinate US military activities with the foreign policy direction being taken by the USG toward the HN. The COM's political role aligns and links joint operations with USG strategic objectives. Generally, each COM has a formal agreement with the GCC as to which DOD personnel are under the security responsibility of the COM, and which are under the GCC.

(b) All executive branch agencies under COM authority, and every element of the mission, must keep the COM fully informed at all times of their current and planned activities. The COM has the right to see all communications to, or from, mission elements, however transmitted, except those specifically exempted by law or executive decision. The COM is responsible for the security of the mission and all personnel, whether inside or outside the chancery (the main building of the embassy) gate. The COM reviews programs, personnel, and funding regularly, and ensures all agencies do likewise. Every executive branch agency under COM authority must obtain approval before changing the size, composition, or mandate of its staff. All USG personnel, other than those in country under command of a US CCDR or on the staff of an international organization, must obtain country clearance before entering the country on official business.

(2) **The DCM.** The DCM is chosen from the ranks of career foreign service officers, through a rigorous selection process, to be the principal deputy to the ambassador. Although not appointed by the President, the DCM wields considerable power, especially when acting as the chargé. The DCM is usually responsible for the day-to-day activities of the embassy.

(3) **The Embassy.** The HQ of the mission is the US embassy, usually located in the capital city of the HN. Although the various USG departments and agencies that make up the mission may have individual HQ elsewhere in the country, the embassy is the focal point for interagency coordination within that country. The ambassador's house is known as the residence. The chancery and residence usually enjoy extraterritorial privileges (i.e., exemption from the jurisdiction of local law). Each embassy has an associated consular section, frequently located in the chancery, to provide services to US citizens and to issue visas to foreigners wishing to travel to the US.

(4) **Consulates.** Consulates—branch offices of the mission located in key cities—may be established in large cities or commercial centers. Consulates are often far from the US embassy. A consulate is headed by a consul general. In addition to providing consular services, the consulate is usually a mirror of the embassy, albeit on a much smaller scale. It is the focal point of interagency coordination for the assigned consular district. Working with the embassies and consulates provides the JFCs with their best forums to achieve unity of effort at the operational level. They are the entry points for coordination with USG departments and agencies, and potentially with other external stakeholders. Moreover, the embassies and consulates can improve the JFC's situational awareness of stakeholders who can impact the command's mission. JFC

coordination with embassies and consulates enables the USG's comprehensive approach to the operational environment.

b. **DOS Plans.** The overall global plan is the DOS/USAID Joint Strategic Plan. The Quadrennial Diplomacy and Development Review is a study completed by DOS every four years that analyzes the short-, medium-, and long-term blueprint for the US diplomatic and development efforts abroad. In addition, DOS regional bureaus influence specific geographic areas and functional bureaus focus on specific interests such as terrorism or arms control. US missions prepare an integrated country strategy every three years that sets country-level US foreign policy goals and objectives, and establishes an action plan to achieve those objectives. The integrated country strategy is a concise, streamlined document that facilitates long-term diplomatic and assistance planning. They are coordinated among the departments and agencies represented on the country team, both in their embassy and in the Washington, DC, interagency community. DOS regional bureaus in Washington, DC, and their joint regional strategies cover geographic regions that are not identical to the GCCs' AORs. In addition, DOS functional bureaus develop functional bureau strategies (e.g., Arms Control Verification and Compliance, Conflict and Stabilization Operations, Counterterrorism, International Narcotics and Law Enforcement Affairs, and Political-Military Affairs). USAID missions develop and use country development cooperation strategies (<http://www.usaid.gov/results-and-data/planning/country-strategies-cdcs>). These five-year, country-based strategies are designed to synchronize USAID assistance with other USG departments' and agencies' efforts.

For more information on USAID, refer to JP 3-29, Foreign Humanitarian Assistance. For more information on DOS strategies, refer to: https://intellipedia.intelink.gov/wiki/Joint_Regional_Strategy; https://intellipedia.intelink.gov/wiki/Functional_Bureau_Strategy; and https://intellipedia.intelink.gov/wiki/Integrated_Country_Strategy (common access card required).

c. The differences between geographic CCMD, DOS, and USAID regional boundaries create challenging seams and may pose significant coordination problems. Similar to the distinction between DOD's functional and geographic CCMDs, DOS has both functional and regional bureaus. The countries included in each region can be viewed at the DOS website (<http://www.state.gov/p/>). Integrated country strategies and joint regional strategies are available at https://intellipedia.intelink.gov/wiki/Integrated_Country_Strategy and https://intellipedia.intelink.gov/wiki/Joint_Regional_Strategy.

For more information on DOS and USAID planning, refer to the 3D Planning Guide: Diplomacy, Development, Defense (<http://www.usaid.gov/documents/1866/diplomacy-development-defense-planning-guide>). For more information on civil-military cooperation, refer to USAID Civilian-Military Cooperation Policy (http://pdf.usaid.gov/pdf_docs/pdaci777.pdf).

d. **The Country Team.** The country team, headed by the COM, is the senior in-country interagency coordinating body. It is composed of the COM, DCM, section heads, the senior member of each USG department or agency in country, and other USG

personnel, as determined by the COM. Each member presents the position of the parent organization to the country team and conveys country team considerations back to the parent organization. The COM confers with the country team to develop and implement foreign policy toward the HN and to disseminate decisions to the members of the mission.

(1) The country team system provides the foundation for rapid interagency consultation and action on recommendations from the field and effective execution of US programs and policies. Under the country team construct, USG departments and agencies are required to coordinate their plans and operations and keep one another and the COM informed of their activities. Country team members who represent USG departments and agencies other than the DOS are routinely in contact with their parent organizations. Issues arising within the country team can become interagency issues at the national level if they are not resolved locally or when they have broader national implications. Prior to providing any DOD logistical support, the reimbursement mechanism and policies should be clearly specified, understood, and coordinated with the supporting comptroller per DODI 4000.19, *Support Agreements*.

(2) In almost all bilateral missions, the SDO/DATT is the principal DOD official and representative on country teams. In locations with no SDO/DATT, the chief of the security cooperation organization (SCO) may act as the SDO/DATT. The SCO is called by various names (e.g., the Office of Defense Cooperation, the security assistance office/organization, the military group) and is largely determined by the preference of the host country. The SDO/DATT is the COM's principal military advisor on defense and national security issues and the senior diplomatically accredited DOD military officer assigned to a US diplomatic mission. All DOD elements assigned to, attached to, or operating from US embassies are aligned under the coordinating authority of the SDO/DATT. Where separate SCO and SDO/DATT offices exist, they remain separate with distinct duties and statutory authorities. SDO/DATT duties include:

(a) Plan, coordinate, support, and/or execute US defense issues and activities in the HN, including oversight of GCC security cooperation programs.

(b) Liaise on behalf of the embassy with HN defense establishments and help develop national security and operational policy.

(c) Represent SecDef and DOD components to HN counterparts and foreign diplomats accredited to the HN, and represent DOD, SecDef, and DOD components in-country.

(d) Present coordinated DOD views on all defense matters to the COM and provide the COM a single POC to assist in carrying out the COM's responsibilities.

(e) Represent SecDef and the CCDR to coordinate administrative and security matters for all DOD personnel not under the command of a CCDR.

(f) Carry out the duties and instructions in CJCSI 5205.01, *Implementing Instructions for Defense Attaché Offices and Security Cooperation Organizations (U)*.

(g) Coordinate for DOD elements under the direction and supervision of the COM. This coordination does not preempt the COM's authority over these elements, the parent DOD component's mission authority, or the GCC's command authority under the Unified Command Plan.

(h) Provide information to USG officials on the scope of in-country activities for all DOD component command elements assigned to the mission, to include the missions, locations, organization, and unique security requirements.

(3) The COM has the discretion to accept or reject LNOs from USG departments and agencies, including DOD. The COM may not want additional military in and around the embassy because of HN political concerns (e.g., many nations limit the number of military members allowed in US embassies as a quid pro quo to how many are allowed into their embassies in the US), space and communications limitations, or to avoid confusing new coordination requirements. Sending LNOs to an embassy, whether for a short-term crisis response or for a sustained presence, is a negotiated process and requires close coordination with the COM.

For more information, refer to DODD 5205.75, DOD Operations at US Embassies; DODI C-5105.81, Implementing Instructions for DOD Operations at US Embassies (U); and CJCSI 5205.01, Implementing Instructions for Defense Attaché Offices and Security Cooperation Organizations (U).

e. **CCMDs.** USG departments and agencies augment CCMDs to help integrate the instruments of national power in plans.

(1) GCCs, functional CCDRs, and, increasingly, JTF commanders are assigned a POLAD by DOS. POLADs are senior DOS officers (often flag-rank equivalent) detailed as personal advisors to senior US military leaders and commanders, and they provide policy analysis and insight regarding the diplomatic and political aspects of the commanders' duties. The POLAD is directly responsible to the CCCR or CJTF. They do not serve as DOS representatives. However, due to their status and contacts, they can enable interorganizational cooperation relationships. The POLAD provides USG foreign policy perspectives and diplomatic considerations and establishes links to US embassies in the AOR or JOA and with DOS. They articulate DOS objectives relevant to GCC's theater strategy or CJTF's plans.

(2) USAID also places senior development advisors (SDAs) at most geographic CCMDs, USSOCOM, and Pentagon (JS) to coordinate GCC relations with USAID HQ and field missions. These advisors are senior USAID Foreign Service officers (usually flag-rank equivalents like POLADs). They inform GCC planning and operations concerning USAID programs and processes and serve as the CCCR's principal advisor on all development matters in the AOR. OFDA places HA advisors at the CCMDs and Pentagon to coordinate responses involving DOD assistance, provide training, and participate in planning. HA advisors are experts in FHA with extensive experience in both civilian and joint HA responses.

(3) United States Africa Command (USAFRICOM) and United States Southern Command (USSOUTHCOM) have appointed senior non-DOD civilian deputies. Most of these appointed senior officials have previously served as ambassadors. While these civilian deputies cannot exercise Title 10, USC, command authority (necessitating the assignment of a military deputy as well), their foreign service rank and experience enhances those HQ's interorganizational cooperation.

(4) The JIACG (or equivalent organization), when formed, participates in planning efforts. Each JIACG (or equivalent organization) is a multifunctional, advisory element that facilitates information sharing. It provides regular, timely, and collaborative day-to-day support to plan, coordinate, prepare, and implement agency activities. It may provide products and inputs that feed planning, assessment, and the CCDR's decision cycle.

(5) Other USG departments and agencies may detail liaison personnel to CCMD staffs to improve interagency coordination. For example, intelligence representatives may be assigned to geographic CCMD staffs to support intelligence and antiterrorism activities.

(6) DOD regional centers (e.g., United States European Command's [USEUCOM's] Marshall Center and USPACOM's Asia-Pacific Center) (<http://www.dsca.mil/programs/DOD-regional-centers>) are aligned with the geographic CCMD's programs and objectives and are DOD's primary instruments for regional outreach and alumni network-building efforts among US and foreign military, civilian, and non-government actors. GCCs rate regional center directors, provide direction and designate regional priorities and objectives for the regional center mission in support of the security cooperation objectives.

(7) DOS and USAID assess conflict prevention, mitigation, and stabilization activities with ICAF and CAF, respectively. USAID's CAF analyzes sources of conflict, events that could exacerbate conflict, opportunities to resolve contention, and sources of resilience. A USAID mission usually initiates the request for a CAF to support the development or revision of a country development cooperation strategy or to inform the design of a new program. Led by USAID's Office of Conflict Management and Mitigation, the CAF team typically includes members of the mission concerned and may include staff from USAID's Washington offices and outside consultants. DOS's CSO's ICAF can help a country team and participating Washington-based officials reach a shared understanding of a country's conflict dynamics and identify potential USG responses. An ICAF may originate either from a CSO's need to inform its operations or a request from an embassy, a CCMD, a DOS regional bureau, the NSC, or other interagency partners. The ICAF may involve participants from USG departments and agencies, external partners, or CSO personnel.

2. International Organizations

a. **The UN.** Coordination with the UN begins at the national level with DOS, through the US ambassador to the UN, officially titled the US Permanent Representative.

The ambassador typically has the status of Cabinet rank and is assisted at the US mission to the UN by a military assistant who coordinates military interests primarily with the United Nations Department of Peacekeeping Operations (UNDPKO) and the UNOCHA. USG coordination with UN PO missions or agencies in-theater is through the US country team, which includes DOS's refugee coordinators focused on humanitarian response through UN agencies and the International Committee of the Red Cross (ICRC). In some countries, US UN military observers attached to some UN PO missions may provide information and advice through the US country team.

(1) The UN normally conducts PO under the provisions of a resolution from the Security Council. Mandates are developed through a political process that generally requires compromise, and sometimes results in ambiguity. As with all military operations, UN mandates are implemented by US forces through orders issued by SecDef through the CJCS. During such implementation, the political mandates are converted to workable military orders.

(2) As part of a broader UN strategy, the Integrated Mission Planning Process provides guidelines for a comprehensive and inclusive UN system approach to plan integrated PO (hereafter "integrated missions"). The Integrated Mission Planning Process is the authoritative basis to plan all new integrated missions, as well as revise existing integrated mission plans, for all UN departments, offices, agencies, funds, and programs.

(a) When UN peacekeeping missions are authorized, UNDPKO provides UN peacekeeping operations policy guidance and strategic direction. In the field, the head of mission (HOM) has authority over the UN peacekeeping operation's activities, including military, police, and civilian resources. Military personnel provided by member states are placed under the OPCON of the UN force commander or head of military component, but not under UN command. In integrated missions, the special representative of the Secretary-General (SRSG)/HOM is a civilian who reports to the Secretary-General through the Under-Secretary-General for Peacekeeping Operations at UN HQ. The SRSG/HOM is delegated authority to set the direction of the mission and lead the participation with local political leaders. The SRSG/HOM coordinates the activities of the entire UN system in the field.

(b) The UN generally provides a resident coordinator (RC) prior to initiating a peacekeeping mission. In the initial stages of a complex emergency or natural disaster, the UN RC coordinates the policies, programs, and actions in all countries with a UN presence. The RC is typically the most senior UN representative in-country, unless an SRSG is appointed. The RC is appointed by the Secretary-General, and represents all organizations of the UN unless they have a presence on the ground. As such, the RC often represents UNOCHA in the early warning and initial response phase of an emergency. In many cases, the RC also represents the United Nations Development Programme (UNDP). The RC is usually in place and familiar with the crisis. In their coordinating role, the RC convenes regular meetings of the UN country team, which is composed of representatives of the operational UN agencies on the ground. In a crisis, the RC also organizes broader coordination forums comprised of NGOs, the International

Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement, private donors, and other international organizations, including subcommittees that help coordinate humanitarian relief in a particular sector or region. If a UN peacekeeping mission is authorized, an integrated mission is launched under the leadership of an SRSG. In that case, the RC will be designated the deputy of the SRSG and coordinate both humanitarian operations and UN development operations. The RC will also maintain links with governments and other parties, donors, and the broader humanitarian and development communities.

(c) In certain situations, the Secretary-General may appoint a special representative who reports to them through the Under-Secretary-General, but also advises UNDPKO and UNOCHA at UN HQ. The special representative may direct day-to-day operations.

(3) **US Military Support.** The United Nations Participation Act of 1945, and Executive Order 10206 (Support of Peaceful Settlements of Disputes, 1951), and the Foreign Assistance Act of 1961 authorize various types of US military support to the UN, either on a reimbursable or non-reimbursable basis.

(a) US military operations in support of the UN usually fall within Chapter VI (Pacific Settlement of Disputes) or Chapter VII (Action with Respect to Threats to the Peace, Breaches of the Peace, and Acts of Aggression) of the UN Charter.

For more information on the UN Charter, refer to Annex B, “United Nations,” of Appendix B, “International Organizations” or <http://www.un.org/en/documents/charter/index.shtml>.

(b) The UN conducts operations employing military forces as contingent units under the OPCON of the head of the military contingent, as staff augmentation to the mission HQ, or as “experts on mission” (i.e., UN military observers). The US has provided military forces and personnel to each of these categories. Additionally, the US can support the UN by conducting parallel missions under Chapter VIII of the UN Charter. US forces conducting these missions are under US OPCON, in collaboration with UN forces. The US usually uses JTFs to conduct multinational operations. The CJTF will normally conduct operations as part of an MNF. US forces should coordinate operations with a variety of USG departments and agencies, military forces of other nations, local authorities, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities.

For more information on the range of military operations, refer to JP 3-0, Joint Operations.

(c) The chain of command, from the President to tactical commands, remains inviolate. On a case-by-case basis, the President may place US forces participating in multilateral PO under OPCON or TACON of a UN mission, limited by a memorandum of understanding (MOU) between the US and the UN. The President retains, and will never relinquish, command authority over US forces. OPCON or TACON for UN multilateral PO is given for a specific time or mission and includes the authority to assign tasks, designate objectives, and give authoritative direction to US

forces already deployed by the President, The limits of OPCODE or TACON include the following: a foreign UN commander cannot change the mission or deploy US forces outside the operational area agreed to by the President, and the foreign UN commander may not separate units, divide their supplies, administer discipline, promote US personnel, or change their internal organization.

(d) US personnel serving as UN military observers may be able to provide information and advice to both the US country team and JFCs. They represent the commitment of US national interest to PO missions—fostering the missions’ legitimacy and encouraging the participation of other nations. Through a discreet relationship with the US country team, US personnel serving as UN military observers can improve situational awareness and the international intervention. They contribute to the UN mission, and provide advice and coordinate for the US country team. US personnel serving as UN military observers are not under the command of a GCC or the authority of a COM. They are OPCODE to the Commander, US Military Observer Group-Washington, a joint command.

(e) Additionally, the US military may provide logistics support to the UN through an acquisition and cross-servicing agreement between the US and the UN.

b. **NATO.** NATO is an alliance of 28 countries from North America and Europe committed to fulfilling the goals of the North Atlantic Treaty. IAW the treaty, the fundamental role of NATO is to safeguard the freedom and security of its member countries by political and military means. It provides a forum for member countries to consult on security issues of common concern and take joint action to address them. The Alliance is committed to defending its member states against aggression or coercion, and to the principle that an attack against one or several members is considered an attack against all. NATO remains an international organization in which each member country retains its sovereignty. All NATO decisions are taken jointly by the member countries on the basis of consensus. NATO’s most important decision-making body is the North Atlantic Council (NAC), which brings together representatives of all the Allies at the level of ambassadors, ministers, or heads of state and government. NATO has no operational forces of its own other than those assigned to it by member countries or contributed by partner countries to carry out a specific mission. It has a number of mechanisms available for the defense planning and resource planning that form the basis of cooperation within the Alliance. These include the implementation of political commitments to improve capabilities and a military structure that combines the functions of an MNF planning organization with an Alliance-wide system of C2 of the military forces assigned to it.

For more information, refer to Allied Joint Publication (AJP)-01, Allied Joint Doctrine, and Annex A, “North Atlantic Treaty Organization,” to Appendix B, “International Organizations.”

3. Nongovernmental Organizations

a. **The Role of NGOs.** NGOs typically operate under approval of the HN and provide humanitarian or other assistance in many of the world's trouble spots. NGOs range in size and experience from those with multimillion dollar budgets and decades of global experience in developmental and humanitarian relief to newly created, small organizations dedicated to a particular emergency or disaster. The capability, equipment and other resources, and expertise vary greatly from one NGO to another. NGOs are involved in such diverse activities as education, technical projects, relief activities, refugee assistance, public policy, development programs, human rights, and conflict resolution. The number of lives they affect, the resources they provide, and the moral authority conferred by their humanitarian focus sometimes enable NGOs to wield a great deal of influence within the interagency and international communities. In fact, individual organizations are often funded by both government and private entities, as implementing partners, to carry out specific functions. An NGO's funding sources can provide insight to their organizational objectives and policies. Similarly, internationally active NGOs often employ indigenous personnel for their expertise in language and culture, as well as their familiarity with local conditions and actors.

b. There are thousands of NGOs worldwide and they possess a significant collective capacity. A JTF or MNF may encounter scores of NGOs in an operational area and must understand how they affect the command's mission. Over 600 such agencies are registered with USAID. InterAction, a US-based consortium of NGOs, has a membership of over 180 private agencies. The International Council of Voluntary Agencies (ICVA) has a predominantly European membership numbering in the hundreds. Globally, over 1,660 NGOs are registered with the UN's Department of Public Information, while over 3,000 have consultative status with the UN Economic and Social Council (ECOSOC). NGOs often operate independently. They should be assessed individually, without preconceived assumptions as to their motives and policies.

c. **Military and NGO Relations.** In a hostile or uncertain environment, the military's initial objective is stabilization and security for its own forces. NGOs normally seek to address humanitarian needs first and are often unwilling to subordinate their objectives to military missions, which they had no part in determining. Many NGOs view their relationship with the military under the UNOCHA Guidelines on the Use of Foreign Military and Civil Defence Assets in Disaster Relief, commonly referred to as the Oslo Guidelines, ([https://docs.unocha.org/sites/dms/Documents/Oslo%20Guidelines%20ENGLISH%20\[November%202007\].pdf](https://docs.unocha.org/sites/dms/Documents/Oslo%20Guidelines%20ENGLISH%20[November%202007].pdf)) and UNOCHA Guidelines on the Use of Military and Civil Defence Assets to Support United Nations Humanitarian Activities in Complex Emergencies (<https://docs.unocha.org/sites/dms/Documents/ENGLISH%20VERSION%20Guidelines%20for%20Complex%20Emergencies.pdf>) that define the humanitarian principles and the importance of distinction and last resort. The Oslo Guidelines emphasize and discuss the principle of humanitarian space (humanitarianism, neutrality, and impartiality). Some organizations employ a more strident interpretation of these principles, applying them not just to HA, as referenced in the guidelines, but also to advocacy, development, and civil society work. Therefore, the extent to which specific NGOs are willing to cooperate with the military can vary

considerably. NGOs desire to preserve the impartial character of their operations, accept only minimal, essential assistance from the military, and ensure military actions in relief and civic action are consistent with the standards and priorities common to the civilian relief community. In a permissive environment (e.g., responses to natural disasters), military engagement, security cooperation, and deterrence activities may align with NGO objectives.

(1) NGO's extensive involvement, local contacts, and experience in various nations can make them valuable sources of information about local and regional affairs and civilian attitudes. They are sometimes willing to share such information on the basis of shared interests. The JFC should identify NGOs in the commands' operational area, and how and where joint forces might interact with them. In austere environments, joint forces and NGOs sometimes use and compete for the same limited resources (e.g., water or fuel). DOD should coordinate and communicate with NGOs. Awareness of NGO activities can influence resource planning and budgeting by allowing the commander to shape resourcing requirements to mitigate shortfalls. Additionally, communication with NGOs can forestall unintended second- and third-order effects of DOD actions within the operational area. For instance, NGOs can utilize their extensive local experience to inform the JFC that a large military footprint may drive up prices in the local economy, undermining progress. Communication between the US military and NGOs can promote US national interests and policy. Civil-military operations (CMO) are the activities of a commander performed by designated CA or other military forces that establish, maintain, influence, or exploit relationships between military forces and IPI, by directly supporting the achievement of objectives relating to the reestablishment or maintenance of stability within a region or HN.

(2) While some NGOs will seek the protection afforded by armed forces or military transport to move relief supplies to, or sometimes within, the operational area, others may avoid a close affiliation with military forces, preferring autonomous, impartial operations. This is particularly the case if US military forces are involved in a conflict in the operational area. Many NGOs have little, if any, communications equipment or personal security, preferring instead to trust the local populace for their safety; however, many larger NGOs have robust communications capabilities. Some NGOs provide support and assistance in the security arena. Any activity that undermines the perception of an NGO's impartiality, such as close collaboration with a particular military force, could eliminate that organization's primary source of security. Therefore, joint forces should respect an NGO's request for independence to avoid compromising the NGOs security. NGOs may also avoid cooperation with the military out of suspicion that military forces intend to take control of, influence, or even prevent their operations, or out of suspicion that the military will use information obtained from the NGO to plan lethal activities. Commanders and their staffs should respect these concerns and consult these organizations, along with the competent national or international authorities, to identify local conditions that impact military-NGO relationships.

(3) During large-scale operations, dealing directly with myriad NGOs may be impractical. Some NGOs may be reluctant to coordinate directly with the military. The USAID mission in country, if one exists, normally tracks USAID-funded NGO activity in

country. Under some circumstances, USAID may act as an intermediary with NGOs in the operational area.

(4) PA planning should identify NGO POCs that operate in the JOA. Military spokespersons may comment on NGO operations based on approved PA guidance and refer media queries to the NGO's spokesperson.

d. **Military Support of NGOs.** SecDef may task US military forces with missions that bring them into contact with international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities. In such circumstances, it can be mutually beneficial to coordinate the activities of all entities in the operational area. JFCs should look to create a climate of cooperation between international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities willing to work with the military; however, they should equally respect and maintain a good rapport with NGOs and the ICRC that choose to maintain neutrality in a complex emergency. When cooperation is not feasible, JFCs should monitor openly hostile NGOs and develop mitigation strategies. A framework for structured civil-military interaction (e.g., a CMOC, HACC, or HOC) provides a location for military and NGOs to meet and work together to advance common goals. Some NGOs may be reluctant to conduct coordination meetings in a setting managed by the military. The UN humanitarian cluster system may be the primary forum for civil-military interaction. Taskings to support international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities in an HA/DR scenario are normally for a short-term purpose due to urgent requirements to save lives and mitigate suffering and will usually be provided by USAID/OFDA, using the MITAM or similar process. In most situations, logistics, communications, and security are those capabilities most needed. It is, however, crucial to remember that in such missions the role of military forces should be to enable, not perform, international organization, NGO, and private sector tasks. Military support should focus on tasks that cannot be performed by civilian entities at that point in time (e.g., helicopter lift and engineering assessments). Commanders and other decision makers should also understand that mutually beneficial arrangements between the military and other organizations may be critical to the success of the campaign plan or OPLAN. While they can be reluctant to engage with DOD, NGOs can affect the achievement of DOD mission objectives.

e. The Guidelines for Relations Between US Armed Forces and Non-Governmental Humanitarian Organizations in Hostile or Potentially Hostile Environments (http://www.usip.org/sites/default/files/guidelines_pamphlet_0.pdf), agreed to by the DOD, InterAction, and USIP, should facilitate interaction between the US military forces and NGOs. They were developed by InterAction, OSD, JS, DOS, and USAID, and facilitated by USIP. The fundamental principle underlying the guidelines is the importance of maintaining the distinction between civilian and military actors and activities when both are operating in the same area. Examples of how these principles can be put into practice include directing military personnel to wear uniforms when conducting relief activities to avoid being mistaken for NGOs, and NGO representatives should avoid traveling in military vehicles, wearing camouflage or military-style clothing, and being colocated with military units. They provide practical guidelines for interaction between US military forces and NGOs that may be helpful, even though they are not joint doctrine or expressed in doctrinal terms. They also complement the

development of other guidelines such as UNOCHA country- or region-specific guidelines. During operations in a permissive environment, documents such as Guidelines on the Use of Foreign Military and Civil Defence Assets in Disaster Relief are more applicable. When developing guidelines for a specific operation, the following considerations apply:

(1) Should the liaison between the humanitarian community and the military be conducted in confidence or transparently?

(2) How will liaison arrangements affect the public's perception of the impartiality of humanitarian activities?

(3) Can civil-military liaison arrangements be transparent and maintain a clear distinction between the military and humanitarian organizations?

(4) Can misperceptions and misguided conclusions be prevented regarding the nature and purpose of civil-military liaison arrangements?

(5) Which circumstances call for formal liaison arrangements? When is it better to maintain liaison on an ad hoc basis?

(6) What is the appropriate size and structure of the civil-military liaison component?

(7) When, if ever, should the LNOs of the humanitarian and military communities be colocated?

For more information, refer to “Civil-Military Guidelines and Reference for Complex Emergencies” (<https://docs.unocha.org/sites/dms/Documents/ENGLISH%20VERSION%20Guidelines%20for%20Complex%20Emergencies.pdf>) and Appendix C, “Nongovernmental Organizations.”

4. Legal Considerations for Private Sector Entities Supporting Operations

The private sector possesses the skills and expertise to contribute to US objectives. These capabilities can be used to reduce operational requirements and maximize use of finite resources. A number of DODIs regulate the conduct of private military and security companies operating with DOD. These include DODI 3020.41, *Operational Contract Support (OCS)*, which establishes and implements policy and guidance, assigns responsibilities, and provides DOD policy and procedures concerning DOD contractor personnel authorized to accompany the Armed Forces of the United States. DODI 3020.50, *Private Security Contractors (PSCs) Operating in Contingency Operations, Humanitarian or Peace Operations, or Other Military Operations or Exercises*, regulates the selection, accountability, training, equipping, and conduct of personnel performing private security functions under a covered contract during contingency operations. It also assigns responsibilities and establishes procedures for incident reporting, use of and accountability for equipment, rules for the use of force, and a process for administrative action or the removal, as appropriate, of private security contractors and private security

contractor personnel. DODI 5525.11, *Criminal Jurisdiction Over Civilians Employed by or Accompanying the Armed Forces Outside the United States, Certain Service Members, and Former Service Members*, provides policy for exercising extraterritorial criminal jurisdiction over civilians employed by, or accompanying, the Armed Forces outside the US. Roles, responsibilities, accountability, and privileges of defense contractors should also be detailed in HN or status-of-forces agreements.

5. Foreign Operations

a. **The POLMIL Dimension.** Within the executive branch, DOS is the lead foreign affairs agency, assisting the President in foreign policy formulation and execution. DOS oversees the coordination of DOD external POLMIL relationships with overall US foreign policy. USAID is the lead agency for overseas development and disaster response and carries out programs that complement DOD efforts in stabilization, foreign internal defense, and security force assistance. USG policy, treaties, and agreements bring DOD into a wide range of external POLMIL relationships that include:

- (1) Bilateral military relationships.
- (2) Multinational military forces.
- (3) Multilateral mutual defense alliances.
- (4) Treaties and agreements involving DOD activities or interests (e.g., armaments cooperation/production, security assistance/foreign military sales, international aviation, law of the sea, nuclear regulation, and environmental pollution).
- (5) Use of US military assets for FHA or PO (including those conducted under UN auspices).

b. **Theater or Regional Focus.** CCDRs implement DOD external POLMIL relations within their campaign plans. The geographic and functional CCMD's operations and activities align with the DSR and the GEF. The GEF prioritizes campaign objectives for each CCMD, which then develops a TCP or FCP. The CCMD campaign plan and nested country plans should complement the current DOS joint regional strategy, the integrated country strategy, and if applicable, USAID's country development cooperation strategy. The geographic CCMD's regional focus is similar to the regional focus of DOS's regional bureaus; however, the geographic boundaries differ. Most other USG foreign affairs agencies are regionally organized as well, again with varying geographic boundaries. The CCMDs include security cooperation activities requiring interorganizational cooperation in their campaign plans, which include posture and country-specific security cooperation sections. In contrast, the DOS focal point for formulation and implementation of regional foreign policy strategies requiring interorganizational cooperation is the regional bureau headed by an assistant secretary at DOS in Washington, DC. USAID has a similar structure, with geographic bureaus headed by assistant administrators in Washington, DC. Although the CCDRs will often find it more expeditious to approach the COMs for approval of an activity in HNs, the political effect of the proposed US military activity usually goes beyond the boundaries

of the individual HN. In such cases, the CCDR should not assume that the position of the COM corresponds to the region-wide position of DOS. The CCDR's POLAD can assist in ascertaining whether the activity has regional bureau approval.

c. **CCMD Campaign Plans, Crisis Response, and Limited Contingency Operations.** The CCMD's campaign plan and nested country plans should complement DOS integrated country strategies and other plans developed by the country teams and USG interagency partners. In a crisis response and limited contingency operation, coordination between DOD and other USG departments and agencies normally occurs within the NSC/IPC and, if directed, during development of the USG strategic plan. During lesser operations and operations not involving armed conflict, the CCDR's staff may deal directly with a COM or members of the country team regarding issues that do not transcend the boundaries of the HN. In some operations, a special envoy of the President may be involved.

d. The CCDR and staff should establish habitual working relationships with relevant organizations before incidents that trigger planning and requests for military resources. As emergent events requiring planning develop, the normal flow of DOS and other agencies reporting from the field will increase significantly. This may be amplified by informal contacts between the CCDR's staff (e.g., POLAD, SDA, JIACG [or equivalent organization]) and appropriate embassies, as well as the relevant bureaus at DOS. Such informal communications can facilitate development of viable COAs, but should not be used in place of established, authoritative planning processes.

e. **Crisis Action Organizational Considerations.** CCMD crisis action planning commences upon receipt of the CJCS warning or alert order, or at the direction of the CCDR. Activation of various planning cells to administer the specific requirements of task force operations may be directed shortly thereafter. These cells support not only functional requirements of the JTF (e.g., logistics), but also coordination of military and nonmilitary activities and the establishment of a temporary framework for interorganizational cooperation. Liaison and coordinating mechanisms the CCDR may select to synchronize military and nonmilitary activities to achieve unity of effort include:

(1) **Humanitarian Assistance Survey Team (HAST).** Early in crisis response planning, an assessment can help identify resources to immediately mitigate a humanitarian crisis. The supported CCDR may organize and deploy a HAST to acquire information for planning. This assessment should analyze existing conditions and recommend FHA force structure. Before deploying, the HAST should review the current threat assessment; current intelligence; geospatial information and services support; and embassy, DOS, and USAID POCs. The disaster assistance response team (DART) and USAID mission can provide some of this information to the HAST. Once deployed, the HAST can assess the HN government's capabilities, identify primary POCs, determine the threat, survey facilities that may be used for FP purposes, and coordinate support arrangements for the delivery of food and medical supplies. If dislocated civilians are an element of the crisis, the DOS Bureau of Population, Refugees, and Migration (PRM), International Organization for Migration (IOM), or the United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees (UNHCR) can also be resources. The HAST works closely

with the DART to prevent duplication of effort. Unlike the DART, which assesses overall humanitarian conditions and requirements in the affected country, the HAST focuses its efforts to assess the opportunities and conditions to provide specific military support to civilian agencies.

(2) **USAID**, through its OFDA DART, is the lead agency for foreign disaster response. USAID/OFDA may deploy a DART into the crisis area to coordinate the FHA effort and activate an on-call, Washington, DC-based response management team. The DART links the geographic CCMD and USG departments and agencies, international organizations, and NGOs that participate in FHA operations. The DART team leader represents the USG response and may be supported by DOD. In addition to personnel from OFDA and other parts of USAID, the DART may include liaisons from DOS, parts of DOD (e.g., US Army Corps of Engineers), or other USG departments and agencies (e.g., Centers for Disease Control and Prevention [CDC]), depending on the nature of the response. DARTs provide specialists in a variety of DR skills to help US embassies and USAID missions manage the USG response to foreign disasters. DARTs assess the disaster situation and recommend follow-up actions.

For more information on FHA, refer to JP 3-29, Foreign Humanitarian Assistance.

(3) **HACC**. The supported GCC may establish a HACC to plan and coordinate with interagency partners. Normally, the HACC is a temporary body that operates during the early stages of the operation. Once a CMOC or civilian HOC has been established, the role of the HACC diminishes, and its functions transition to one or both of these organizations. Staffing for the HACC should include a director appointed by the supported GCC, a CMO planner, a USAID/OFDA advisor or liaison, a PA officer, an NGO advisor, and other augmentation (e.g., preventive medicine physician, veterinarian).

(4) **JLOC**. The JLOC supports the geographic CCMD's joint operations center and the operations planning teams. The GCC reviews the requirements and establishes priorities to use supplies, facilities, mobility assets, and personnel effectively. The geographic CCMD may also be responsible for provision of supplies for certain interagency personnel. Formed at the discretion of the GCC and operated by the logistics directorate of a joint staff at the geographic CCMD, a JLOC functions as the single POC to coordinate logistic response into the AOR, relieving the JTF of as much of this function as possible. The JLOC may also coordinate with strategic-level providers (e.g., the Defense Logistics Agency, USTRANSCOM, the Services, and the geographic CCMD's staff) to meet JTF support requirements.

For more information on the JLOC, refer to JP 4-0, Joint Logistics.

(5) **Liaison Section**. The liaison section in foreign operations coordinates with USG departments and agencies, NGOs, international organizations, and private sector entities. A liaison section coordinates military activities among MNFs, other USG departments and agencies, participating international organizations and NGOs, the private sector, HNs, and indigenous populations. Military forces, participating agencies, and HNs should consider exchanging liaison personnel to maximize information flow.

Information should flow between all parties. NGO liaisons should have access to the military. The CMOC can facilitate coordination. Alternatively, the HN may establish a coordination center.

(a) Civilian agencies that associate with uniformed military may be targeted by adversaries. This can deter some organizations from meeting with the military. When open civilian organizational contact with the military causes security concerns, coordination, cooperation, and information sharing can still be attempted through more discrete means of communication.

(b) Establishing liaison relationships. Liaison is contact or communication between elements of military forces or other agencies to build mutual understanding and unity of purpose and action. Various types of liaison coordination models may be used, depending on the level of commonality between stakeholders (i.e., is relationship cooperative or based on coexistence?). To empower LNOs to establish relationships, the JFC should clearly define the liaisons' roles and authorities, and what authority they have to speak for their home agencies or organizations. Liaisons should not replace standing DOD processes, especially at the strategic level, but they can help streamline information flows. Liaisons can provide advice and information, translation between organizational cultures, and reachback to a home agency or organization.

(c) Types of liaison structures:

1. Colocation: this enables regular and direct communication.
2. Liaison exchange: temporary or permanent exchange of LNOs.
3. Limited liaison: exchange of officers for a limited time period, normally for meetings or specified hours.
4. Interlocutor: using bridge organization liaison or coordination officers to link or buffer civilian and military members.

(6) The Multinational Planning Augmentation Team (MPAT) program is a cooperative multinational effort to facilitate establishment and augmentation of a multinational task force HQ. The MPAT provides multinational expertise in planning and integrates other nations' militaries, international organizations, and NGOs in the planning process. The MPAT uses a trained cadre that has worked with international organizations and NGOs prior to a crisis and deploys to the task force HQ once a crisis occurs. The MPAT program develops techniques and exercises multinational planning activities for operational-level task forces. This includes coordination, collaboration, and cooperation with USG organizations, international organizations, NGOs, private sector entities, and HN government agencies.

For more information, refer to JP 3-16, Multinational Operations, and <https://community.apan.org/mpat/default.aspx>.

CIVIL-MILITARY COOPERATION

“The 24th MEU [Marine Expeditionary Unit] had a unique mission and reporting relationship. We fell under NATO [North Atlantic Treaty Organization] ISAF [International Security Assistance Force] and were operating in the Task Force Helmand AO [area of operations]; consequently, “CIMIC” [civil-military cooperation], CA [civil affairs], and PRT [provincial reconstruction team] responsibility for Helmand Province belonged to the British. On the military side, the CA coordination involved ISAF headquarters in Kabul, Regional Command South (RC South) in Kandahar, Task Force Helmand and also the PRT in Lashkar Gah. Outside the military channels were USAID [United States Agency for International Development] (the major redevelopment entity in Afghanistan), the United Nations (UNICEF [United Nations Children’s Fund], WHO [World Health Organization] and UN [United Nations] Assistance Mission to Afghanistan ‘UNAMA’) and the International Committee of the Red Cross. Also operating in Afghanistan are hundreds of NGOs [nongovernmental organizations]. In addition to all these actors, the Afghan government itself is in the early stages of its redevelopment and its ministries, which control most programs centrally from Kabul, are fledgling enterprises with varying degrees of competency.

We hit the ground in Kandahar somewhat blind of this highly complex mixture of governmental organizations and nongovernmental organizations involved in stabilization and reconstruction/redevelopment activities. Only near the end of the deployment did I fully ascertain the depth and breadth of agencies and plans at play in Afghanistan.

The impact to any unit deploying to Afghanistan is that there needs to be awareness of the agencies, organizations, plans, and programs that are or will be in play within an area of operations. This is no small task as there is no entity wholly responsible for all these actors and programs; consequently, activities can occur within an AO without knowledge of the PRT or even the responsible Ministry. Interagency coordination is a constant endeavor and will be essential to ensuring unit efforts are integrated with big-picture plans.”

SOURCE: After Action Review
Detachment 4-3, 4th Civil Affairs Group
2 October 2008

(7) JFCs should not assume an HN has a functioning national government with which to liaise. The lack of a functioning HN national government places more importance on coordinating with international organizations and NGOs operating in the area. Also, HN liaison may be required at multiple levels of government (e.g., national, regional, local) and involve informal structures (e.g., tribes, clans).

f. **PA and Media Support** The proactive release of accurate information to domestic and international audiences puts joint operations in context; facilitates informed perceptions about military operations; undermines adversarial propaganda; and helps

achieve national, strategic, and operational objectives. By conveying the facts about joint force activities in a proactive manner, PA helps the JFC to impact the information environment, particularly as it relates to public support. The JFC's PA officer helps inform USG departments and agencies and NGOs concerning joint force operations. The PA officer also coordinates public information activities to align messages.

(1) At the national level, the ASD(PA) interfaces with USG departments and agencies in the NSC/DC and issues PA guidance; advises on public information, command information, and community relations; and provides DOD information to the public, Congress, and the media.

(2) At the theater level, PA planning includes coordination with USG departments and agencies, the ambassador and country team (particularly the embassy PA section), the HN, national and international media, media elements of member forces, and other external stakeholders. It is essential that the overall plan be developed with consideration given to the public communication requirements of the operation and associated capabilities needed for execution. Additionally, a PA and media plan should be developed before the operation begins. JFCs may establish a MOC to disseminate information and media coverage of operations. When a MOC is established, it should include media and PA representatives from the aforementioned organizations.

(3) The JFC's PA officer plays a major role in keeping USG departments and agencies, as well as other external organizations, informed on the capability and intent of the joint force, and in coordinating public information activities to ensure consistency of USG messages. The PA staff should coordinate all themes, messages, and press releases impacting a HN through the respective US embassy channels. CCMD POLADs can facilitate access to DOS and have reachback to resources for PA officers.

(4) PA Planning with International Organizations. The Office of the ASD(PA) provides PA guidance and, in coordination with DOS's PA office, coordinates PA actions affecting international organizations. Planning for support to UN missions will normally be with UN press office personnel through the ASD(PA). JTF PA efforts should include the identification of POCs and authorized spokespersons within each international organization.

For more information on PA, refer to JP 3-61, Public Affairs.

6. Joint Task Force Considerations

a. Mission Analysis

(1) **JTF Assessment Team.** A JTF assessment team may deploy to the JOA to establish liaison with the ambassador or COM, country team, HN, multinational members, UN representatives, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector representatives. The assessment team may also assist in clarifying the mission, force requirements, and time-phasing of force deployments for the JTF. USAID, because of the extensive contacts at the community level, can provide in-depth local information for JTF assessments. The JTF assessment team is similar to the HAST and may be able to

conduct assessments in association with the HAST. The CJTF determines the composition of the assessment team. It should include subject matter experts and representatives from Service and functional components expected to participate in the operation. USG department and agency representation may include the USAID/OFDA DART for FHA operations. Special operations personnel with cultural, language, regional, and technical skills may be included.

(2) **Coordinated Operations.** Operations by USG departments and agencies, the equivalent agencies of other national governments, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities, in concert with or supplementing those of HN entities, may be in progress when US forces arrive in a JOA.

(3) **Priority Task.** This may be a military action, a humanitarian task, or a combination of both. In certain situations, interorganizational cooperation must be a top priority of the CJTF.

(4) **Regional Strategy.** In further analyzing the mission, consider how the theater or functional strategy will affect joint force planning and operations in the projected JOA. The NSC, DOS, COM, and the supported CCDR will provide the regional strategy and an appreciation for how the regional strategy affects the countries involved in projected operations. This may affect COA development, themes and messages, and planning and execution activities. A well-defined regional strategy will delineate the military mission and assist in determining force requirements and defining the theater objectives.

(5) **Political Considerations.** The assessment team should have sufficient expertise to evaluate the political impact of USG activities and programs in the HN and surrounding region. The JFC should establish a relationship with the COM, the country team, the USAID mission director, and USG department and agency representatives in country. The JFC may request that USG departments and agencies augment the assessment team, or establish reachback to those organizations.

(a) The JFC and key staff members should meet with the regional and functional elements of the partner USG departments and agencies, the JS, and the embassies (in Washington, DC) of the nations in the area of operations. The JFC should work with the COM to align joint operations with USG priorities. Each US mission, as well as the various DOS geographic and functional bureaus involved, will likely provide different perspectives and issues to consider.

(b) CJTFs should build relations to enable information sharing with external stakeholders. One important step to develop confidence and facilitate mutually beneficial information exchange with non-USG entities is to clearly inform them of the JTF's intent to share information. In this regard, the JFC staff should not over-classify information and should allow information to be declassified as early as operational conditions permit. Additionally, commanders may provide the means (e.g., accessible portal, communication equipment, and technical support) to external stakeholders to access and share information. While building a COP with non-DOD entities enables

unity of effort, most JFC COP displays are classified. Commanders should seek technological solutions that offer an unclassified version of the COP to share with participants who do not have security clearances. Another factor affecting information sharing is that some USG departments and agencies cannot easily access classified information. Classified computers may be limited in US embassies and not all staff may have access to them.

(6) **JTF HQ.** The JTF HQ, whether afloat or ashore, should be positioned in a defensible area, with access to HN political and private sectors, relief organizations, the media, and MNFs, if present. Proximity to the US embassy or US diplomatic mission may enhance interorganizational cooperation.

b. **Organizational Tools for the JTF.** The CJTF should establish structures to coordinate all activities in the JOA. In addition to military operations, these structures should include political, civil, administrative, legal, and humanitarian elements, as well as international organizations, NGOs, private sector entities, and the media. The CJTF should consider how joint force actions and those of other organizations contribute to the desired objectives. This consideration requires liaison and routine contact with all parties, as well as reliable communications. An assessment team can develop recommendations for the CJTF concerning formation of an executive steering group (ESG), CMOC, and liaison teams.

(1) **ESG.** The ESG is composed of senior military representatives from the JTF, principals of the embassy (e.g., ambassador, DCM, political or POLMIL counselor), the HN, international organizations, and possibly NGOs and private sector entities present in the JOA. It is the high-level outlet to exchange information about operational policies and resolve difficulties arising among the various organizations. The ESG interprets and coordinates strategic policy. The ESG should either be co-chaired by the CJTF and ambassador or assigned outright to either individual, depending on the nature of the US mission. A commander at any echelon may establish an ESG to provide information and policy guidance to participating agencies.

(2) **Civil-Military Coordination Board.** This board is the CJTF's vehicle to coordinate civil-military support. Membership is restricted typically to representatives from JTF staff sections involved in CMO. The board can help commanders refine their intent for CMO. CMO is a commander's responsibility, not the responsibility of the CA staff/unit assigned to the JTF. The civil-military coordination board may include representatives from key international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities.

c. JFCs are responsible to conduct CMO. They may establish a JCMOTF when the scope of CMO requires coordination and activities beyond the organic CMO capability. The US Army CA command and brigade, or the United States Marine Corps (USMC) CA group, are staffed to provide the operational core of a JCMOTF. NGOs in the operational area may not have a similarly defined structure. Further, many of these organizations may be in the operational area at the invitation of the HN. As such, they may be structured to conform with HN regulations or restrictions that do not align with military operations.

For more information on the JCMOTF, refer to JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations.

7. Civil-Military Operations Center

a. Military forces should normally develop relations with USG departments and agencies, civilian authorities, international organizations, NGOs, private sector entities, and the population during contingency operations. The CMOC is a mechanism to coordinate CMO that can also provide operational and tactical level coordination between the JFC and other stakeholders. The CMOC generally does not set policy or direct operations, but rather coordinates and facilitates. The CMOC is the meeting place of stakeholders. It may be physical or virtual, and conducted collaboratively through online networks, as NGOs may be reluctant to conduct coordination meetings in settings managed by the military. The organization of the CMOC is theater- and mission-dependent. A commander at any echelon may establish a CMOC. In fact, more than one CMOC may be established in an operational area and each is task-organized based on the mission. Horizontal and vertical synchronization among multiple CMOCs assists in unity of effort.

(1) A CMOC is formed to:

(a) Carry out guidance and JFC decisions regarding CMO.

(b) Exchange information. Sharing information is a key function of the CMOC, but military staff must be careful to avoid the impression that stakeholder organizations are being used for intelligence gathering.

(c) Liaise and coordinate between joint forces and other agencies, departments, and organizations to meet the humanitarian needs of the populace.

(d) Provide a forum for military and other participating organizations. Other organizations may decide to attend CMOC meetings but choose not to identify themselves as members of the CMOC to better maintain their autonomy and impartiality. Many of these organizations consider the CMOC a venue for informal stakeholder discussions, but not as a binding stakeholder coordination forum.

(e) Receive, validate, and coordinate requests for support from NGOs, international organizations, IPI, the private sector, and regional organizations. The CMOC then forwards these requests to the joint force for action.

(2) CMOCs are tailored for each mission. When a CMOC is established, the CJTF should invite representatives of other entities, which may include the following:

(a) USAID.

(b) DOS, country team, and other USG departments and agencies.

(c) Military liaison personnel from participating countries.

(d) HN or local government agencies.

(e) International organizations, NGOs, IPI, regional organizations, and the private sector (as appropriate).

(3) For foreign operations, the CMOC may be the focal point where US military forces coordinate any support to NGOs. However (particularly in FHA), an international organization may have already established coordination centers such as the UN HOC and cluster system. In these cases, the JFC should consider how to leverage such extant structures to perform CMOC functions rather than trying to duplicate coordination structures. A JFC may employ a CMOC, or provide CMOC capabilities, to support HN or civilian partners or otherwise coordinate with civilian partners. NGO LNOs should be identified to work within the CMOC. Often, NGO representatives who are unwilling to come to a military or USG facility are more comfortable communicating at a UN or HN site. As private organizations, NGOs may be reluctant to support the military. They may, however, accept grant funding from international organizations or USG departments and agencies like USAID. This funding may make NGOs, USG departments or agencies, or international organizations implementing partners. As an implementing partner, when NGOs receive a grant from USAID where the principal purpose is the transfer of money, property, services or anything of value to the recipient in order to accomplish a public purpose of support or stimulation authorized by federal statute, substantial USAID involvement is not anticipated.

For more information on the CMOC, refer to JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations.

b. During large-scale FHA operations, US forces may organize using the CMOC. If both are established, the CMOC should colocate with the HOC to facilitate operations and assist in later transition of any CMOC operations to the HOC.

c. In FHA operations, the UN organizes along key clusters. Coordination meetings hosted by UN elements may supplant the need for a US-military run CMOC. Commanders should complement, rather than compete with, the UN cluster meetings. NGOs are far more likely to participate in UN-sponsored meetings than US- (especially US military) sponsored coordination and deconfliction meetings.

(1) The UN cluster approach provides structures to enhance humanitarian response capacity, predictability, accountability, and partnership. The cluster approach aims to provide a clear system of leadership and accountability for all the key sectors or areas of the humanitarian response. The cluster approach is intended, therefore, to strengthen rather than replace sectoral coordination under the overall leadership of the humanitarian coordinator (HC), with a view to improve humanitarian response in emergency situations. The global clusters include agriculture; camp coordination/management; early recovery; education; emergency shelter; emergency telecommunications; health; logistics; nutrition; protection; and water, sanitation, and hygiene. Some or all clusters may be used or modified based on the situation.

(2) The UN may also form a combination of a UN disaster assessment and coordination team, an on-site operations coordination center, or a humanitarian operations coordination center. These operations centers help the HN's local emergency management authority coordinate international relief efforts.

(3) In NATO or multinational operations, CMO may be called civil-military cooperation.

For more information, refer to JP 3-29, Foreign Humanitarian Assistance, and JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations.

d. The CJTF must carefully consider where to locate the CMOC. Security, FP, and easy access for external stakeholders are all valid considerations. The location should be distinct and separate from the joint force operations center, even if geographically colocated, and should be segregated from any nation's classified information. If security conditions permit, every effort should be made to locate the CMOC "outside the wire" to maximize participation by organizations that want to minimize the appearance of close association with military operations.

e. Political representatives in the CMOC may provide the CJTF with avenues to align operational considerations and concerns with political actions. Additionally, the CMOC provides stakeholders a single point to coordinate with the military, which facilitates the efforts of a joint force and the relief community.

(1) The military should not attempt to dictate USG civilian counterpart or international organization, NGO, and private sector partner activities, but to coordinate a team approach to problem resolution.

(2) JFCs cannot direct organizations or people not under their command to cooperate. However, a JFC can work with these entities to forge unity of effort on issues like security, logistic support, information sharing, communications, and other items.

f. Periodic meetings can be scheduled in the CMOC to match civil-sector needs to organizations capable of meeting them. USG validated RFAs go to the appropriate JTF or agency representative for action.

For more information on the CMOC, refer to JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations.

g. **Liaison Teams.** Once established in the JOA and operating primarily from the CMOC, or HOC, JTF liaison teams work to increase understanding of mission and tactics with other forces, convey information, enhance mutual trust, and improve teamwork.

(1) Liaison aligns joint operations with USG, HN, and international organization objectives. Liaison teams or individuals may be dispatched from higher to lower, lower to higher, laterally, or any combination of these. In multinational operations, senior and subordinate commands and lateral or like forces should exchange liaisons.

CLUSTER SYSTEM IN HAITI

Following the devastating earthquake in Haiti on January 12, 2010, the international humanitarian community has made significant progress in establishing humanitarian coordination structures. The US Agency for International Development Disaster Assistance Response Team staff highlight the critical role of the internationally recognized humanitarian cluster system in coordinating response efforts. Clusters provide a forum for humanitarian organizations to coordinate response efforts by sector and are led by designated agencies with relevant technical expertise. The cluster system seeks to ensure greater predictability and accountability in response efforts, while simultaneously strengthening partnerships between agencies. Application of the cluster system has contributed to significant progress on a range of issues, including broadened partnerships with nongovernmental organizations (NGOs); agreement on common sector standards, tools, and guidance; development of common training modules; creation of common stockpiles; and development of surge deployment rosters.

The Office for the Coordination of Humanitarian Affairs activated twelve sector-specific clusters within the first ten days following the crisis. The active clusters include camp coordination and camp management; education; emergency shelter and non-food items; food aid; logistics; nutrition; protection; water, sanitation, and hygiene; agriculture; early recovery; emergency telecommunications; and health. Ten international humanitarian agencies and the Government of Haiti (GoH) are currently serving as lead agencies managing the twelve clusters.

Early in the operation, many small NGOs (mostly from the United States) did not understand the system and went directly to the joint task force with requests for support, which caused confusion.

Subsequently, most NGOs operating in Haiti are participating in the cluster coordination structure, due in large part to a consistent message from the United Nations, donors, other NGOs, and the GoH that if agencies want to be involved in the response, participation in the coordination and planning structure is critical.

Various Sources

(2) Liaisons are vital to multinational operations. Future JTFs likely will operate not only with traditional allies, but also with nations with which the US does not have a long history of military cooperation. The CJTF may face increased liaison and advisory requirements.

(3) A JTF LNO assigned to a national or multinational operation should know doctrine and force capabilities, be proficient in the language of the receiving organization, and provide regional expertise and cultural awareness. CA or multinational support teams may be available to serve as LNOs. The use of contracted interpreters to augment a liaison team may be another option.

CIVIL-MILITARY OPERATIONS CENTER IN PROVIDE COMFORT

Humanitarian relief organizations operating in southern Turkey and northern Iraq coordinated their activities with those of the joint task force through the civil-military operations center (CMOC). The CMOC was colocated with the humanitarian operations center that coordinated the activities of the UN [United Nations] and other humanitarian relief organizations. The CMOC was coequal with the traditional J-staff sections. CMOC military officers coordinated activities with both State Department officials and relief workers. The CMOC in Turkey demonstrated the efficiency and effectiveness of the concept. It provided a focal point for coordination of common civil-military needs and competing demands for services and infrastructure, rather than relying on random encounters between relief workers and staff officers.

SOURCE: *Operations Other Than War, Vol. 1, Humanitarian Assistance*, Center for Army Lessons Learned, December 1992

h. **HOC.** During large-scale FHA operations, when it becomes apparent the magnitude of a disaster will exceed a HN's capacity to manage it unilaterally, the UN or the HN may want to establish a HOC to facilitate the coordination of international aid.

(1) Although the functions of the HOC and CMOC are similar, there is a significant difference. The CMOC is established by, and works for, the CJTF. The HOC is normally established under the direction of the government of the affected country or the UN, or possibly USAID/OFDA, during a US unilateral operation. HOCs, especially those established by the UN, are horizontally structured with no command or control authority; all members are responsible to their own organizations or countries. The COM, or designated representative, will lead USG participation in the HOC. Additionally, the HOC coordinates at the senior, national level to enable strategic and operational unity of effort, while the CMOC coordinates USG actions at subnational and local levels to achieve operational and tactical unity of effort.

(2) HOC members should include representatives of the affected country, the US embassy or consulate, joint force (most likely from the CMOC), USAID/OFDA, UN, international organizations, NGOs, private sector entities, and other major organizations.

(3) The HOC coordinates relief strategy; identifies logistic requirements for the various organizations; and identifies, prioritizes, and submits requests for military support. Requests for JTF military support to the HOC may be submitted to the JTF, through the CMOC, by the US lead agency.

(4) The HOC should seek to create the conditions in which the HN can provide for its population's humanitarian needs, and no longer require external assistance.

For more information on the HOC, refer to JP 3-29, Foreign Humanitarian Assistance.

i. **CMOC–JIACG (or Equivalent Organization) Relationship.** A CA command can provide theater-level analysis of civil considerations, in coordination with the JIACG (or equivalent organization), and develop civil input to the supported JFC. A CMO staff section plans, coordinates, and provides staff oversight of CMO and civilian component issues through coordination with the supported unit’s designated staff directorate (normally the J-3). This staff section’s plans officer fuses civil inputs from subordinate CA elements, maneuver elements, USG departments and agencies, NGOs, international organizations, and HN sources (private and public sectors) to the JFC’s COP.

8. Civil-Military Teams

A civil-military team combines diplomatic, informational, military, and economic capabilities to enhance the legitimacy and the effectiveness of the HN government. A civil-military team can combine military and civil efforts to diminish the means and motivations of conflict, while developing provincial, district, state, or local institutions so they can lead in governance, provide basic services and economic development, and enforce the rule of law. Civil-military teams of interagency experts can be formed to conduct specific missions (e.g., agricultural, economic, and CT). Examples of civil-military teams include JIATFs, and provincial reconstruction teams (PRTs) in Iraq and Afghanistan.

For more information on JIATFs and civil-military teams, refer to Appendix E, “Joint Interagency Task Force,” and Appendix F, “Civil-Military Teaming,” respectively.

9. Aligning Words and Deeds

a. The USG builds on coordinated actions and information to maintain credibility and trust with foreign populaces, governments, adversaries, and US citizens alike. This is done through accuracy, consistency, timeliness, and transparency in words and deeds. Credibility is important to build relationships that advance our national interests.

b. All USG departments and agencies share responsibility to use information as an instrument of national power. This includes developing processes to access and analyze communication and to deliver information to key audiences, both US and foreign. DOD synchronizes, aligns, and coordinates communication to facilitate understanding by key audiences. This is done to create, strengthen, or preserve conditions favorable to USG objectives. National strategic direction provides the building blocks for the JFC’s communication guidance. It is also essential to DOD initiatives to achieve unity of effort through unified action with our interagency partners and the broader interorganizational community. Key audience beliefs, perceptions, and behavior are essential to develop any strategy, plan, or operation. PA, IO, and defense support to public diplomacy (DSPD) are supporting capabilities. While CCDRs directly control assigned PA and IRC assets, they do not direct those assets conducting public diplomacy, which are the responsibility of DOS or the local US embassy.

c. The synchronized application of IO enables joint forces freedom of operation across the information environment. While IO is focused against adversaries, a broader set of DOD information activities serve broader USG interests. For example, DOD may collaborate with other agencies for public diplomacy programs that also support DOD's mission.

d. The JFC should identify a platform to exchange information and collaborate across multiple networks and throughout the operational environment with a broad range of stakeholders (interagency, multinational, and private sector). For example, DOD and, on occasion, USAID used an unclassified platform, All Partners Access Network, during the disaster response to Typhoon Haiyan in the Philippines.

e. Media reports influence public attitudes about operations, which in turn can affect policy decisions. Most USG departments and agencies have representatives dedicated to reporting their activities, each with multiple sources in the respective organization. DOD's primary media representatives are PA personnel. Potential operations draw intense media scrutiny. This scrutiny can influence USG departments and agencies, international organizations, and NGOs from the strategic level of the NSC, to the field, as international organizations and NGOs vie for public attention and charitable contributions. Responding to competing or contradictory news reports can divert personnel from planning and execution. Commanders and their staffs evaluate the impact of information on the operation and the interagency coordination process, to integrate PA expertise in crisis planning for operations. The White House Office of Global Communications facilitates USG communication with foreign audiences. The DOS Bureau of International Information Programs is the communications service for the US foreign affairs community. Commanders and their staffs should coordinate PA activities with national-level communication initiatives. Early in the planning process, all agencies and organizations should develop agreed procedures for media access; issuing and verifying credentials; and briefing, escorting, and transporting of media members and their equipment. PA guidance should be published before executing the plan. This guidance provides a common reference for all military and USG organizations. PA guidance helps the USG present a coherent theme. Commanders should identify spokespersons, and where, when, and how they will address media.

f. Whole-of-government themes and an overarching narrative provide a foundation to build unity of effort. Subordinate themes, messages, or stories tailored to specific audiences and built on cultural understanding and knowledge of the key communicators in the operational area can help implement unified action. For example, an appreciation for the values system of the intended audience can enable a better connection with the local population and provide insight to discredit adversary information activities. What works in one environment will not necessarily work in another due to variables such as the sophistication of the local populations, differences in government, value systems, media, and communication systems. More dispersed units conducting decentralized operations rely on junior leaders to conduct key leader engagement in the indigenous population and PA with the media. JFCs synchronize themes, messages, images and actions, selecting the delivery vehicle, optimizing types of media, and infusing messages with beliefs and attitudes to influence the audience. Leaders should evaluate the

information environment, the impact of timing and tempo of information released to the media, and how the information will be received by the intended and unintended audiences.

g. CCDRs and staffs should evaluate communication considerations with the interagency partners when planning joint operations. Joint operations can influence and inform key foreign audiences, foster understanding of US policy, and advance US interests. Words, images, and actions can shape the operational environment. CCDRs plan, execute, and assess activities to implement security cooperation plans in support of US embassies' information programs, public diplomacy, and PA programs directly supporting DOD missions.

h. DSPD are DOD activities and measures to support and facilitate USG public diplomacy efforts.

(1) DSPD helps align DOD activities with a coherent and compelling DOS diplomacy of deeds in concert with other USG departments and agencies. DOS leads public diplomacy, with the DOD in a supporting role. Through DSPD, DOD collaborates with other USG departments and agencies for public diplomacy programs that directly support the DOD mission. All DOD information activities are conducted in concert with the broader USG effort and support the NSS.

(2) DSPD can support USG information activities through security cooperation efforts.

(3) DSPD activities can also support USG information activities through humanitarian and civic assistance, FHA, counterdrug activities, and activities supporting global CT.

(4) DSPD activities should be documented in annex Y of the plan.

(5) DSPD activities include:

(a) Identify target audiences, assign responsibility, and outline specific plans for communicating key public diplomacy programs and policies to target audiences.

(b) Identify partners with whom DOD works.

(c) Identify subject matter experts who can explain and advocate US policy.

(d) Identify workers who speak foreign languages and could translate/participate in interviews.

(e) Recommend envoys to advance public diplomacy efforts.

(f) Outline current activities and programs that can be linked to support global public diplomacy.

(g) Develop criteria to evaluate effectiveness.

For more information, refer to JP 3-61, Public Affairs.

APPENDIX A

UNITED STATES GOVERNMENT DEPARTMENTS AND AGENCIES

Annex	A	National Security Council
	B	Department of Agriculture
	C	Department of Commerce
	D	Department of Defense
	E	Department of Education
	F	Department of Energy
	G	Department of Health and Human Services
	H	Department of Homeland Security
	I	Department of Housing and Urban Development
	J	Department of Justice
	K	Department of Interior
	L	Department of Labor
	M	Department of State
	N	Department of the Treasury
	O	Department of Transportation
	P	Department of Veterans Affairs
	Q	United States Agency for International Development
	R	Central Intelligence Agency
	S	Environmental Protection Agency
	T	General Services Administration
	U	Office of the Director of National Intelligence
	V	Peace Corps

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ANNEX A TO APPENDIX A NATIONAL SECURITY COUNCIL

1. Core Mission

a. The NSC (<http://www.whitehouse.gov/administration/eop/nsc>) is the President's principal forum for considering national security and foreign policy matters with the President's senior national security advisors and Cabinet officials. Since its inception under President Truman, the NSC's function has been to advise and assist the President on national security and foreign policy matters. The NSC also serves as the President's principal arm for coordinating these policy matters among various USG departments and agencies.

b. The NSC advises and assists the President to integrate all aspects of national security policy as it affects the US—domestic, foreign, military, intelligence, and economic matters. It develops policy options, considers implications, coordinates operational problems that require interdepartmental consideration, develops recommendations for the President, and monitors policy implementation. The NSC staff is the President's principal staff for national security issues and supports the NSCS.

c. The NSC assists the President in formulating certain presidential documents, establishing national security policies, and directing actions by USG departments and agencies to implement those policies. Each administration typically adopts different names for these documents. For example, the George W. Bush Administration used NSPD and HSPD. The Obama Administration uses PPD and Presidential study directive.

d. The NSC manages an interagency process that is strategic, agile, transparent, and predictable to advance US national security interests. At its core, the purpose of the interagency process is to advance the President's policy priorities and, more generally, to serve the national interest by ensuring all USG departments and agencies, and perspectives that can contribute to achieving these priorities, participate in making and implementing policy. Those who participate in the interagency process—regardless of position—do so as representatives of their respective USG departments and agencies. They also serve the nation's greater interests by being participants in a unique process to resolve common problems and advance common policies.

e. **NSC Functions.** Through its function of advising and assisting the President with unifying elements of national security policy, the NSC helps enable the Services and other USG departments and agencies to cooperate more effectively in national security matters. Along with its subordinate committees, the NSC is the President's principal means for coordinating executive departments and agencies in the development of national security policy. The NSC subsequently monitors the implementation of national security policy. The NSC assesses and appraises the objectives, commitments, and risks of the US in relation to our actual and potential military power; considers policies on matters of common interest to USG departments and agencies concerned with national security; and makes recommendations to the President.

f. Figure A-A-1 depicts the three levels of formal interagency committees (the NSC/PC, NSC/DC, and NSC/PCs) for coordinating and making decisions on national security issues, as well as the participation of USG departments and agencies in the NSC system and these advisory bodies.

g. The NSC/PC is the senior Cabinet-level interagency forum for consideration of policy issues affecting national security. The NSC/PC meets at the call of, and is chaired by, the National Security Advisor.

Participation in National Security Council System Activities

	Participants			
	Office of the Secretary of Defense	Joint Staff	Department of State	Other Executive Branch
National Security Council	Secretary of Defense		Secretary of State	President, Vice President, Director National Intelligence, National Security Advisor, US Representative to UN, Secretary of US Department of the Treasury, Assistant for Economic Policy, Chief of Staff to the President, Attorney General, Other
Principals Committee	Secretary of Defense	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff	Secretary of State	National Security Advisor, Director National Intelligence, US Representative to UN, Assistant for Economic Policy, Other
Deputies Committee	Deputy Secretary or Under Secretary for Policy	Vice Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff	Deputy Secretary	National Security Advisor to the Vice President, Other Deputies
Interagency Policy Committees	Representatives from the executive departments, offices, and agencies represented in the National Security Council/Deputies Committee.			

Legend

UN United Nations

Figure A-A-1. Participation in National Security Council System Activities

h. The NSC/DC is the senior sub-Cabinet-level (deputy secretary-level) interagency forum for consideration of policy issues affecting national security. The NSC/DC reviews and monitors the work of the NSC interagency process, including NSC/IPC's. The NSC/DC helps to ensure issues being brought before the NSC/PC or the NSC have been properly analyzed and prepared for decision. The NSC/DC focuses significant attention on policy implementation. Periodic reviews of the Administration's major foreign policy initiatives are scheduled to ensure they are being implemented in a timely and effective manner. Such reviews should periodically consider whether existing policy directives should be revamped or rescinded. Finally, the NSC/DC is responsible for day-to-day crisis management and reports to the NSC. Any NSC principal or deputy, as well as the National Security Advisor, may request a meeting of the NSC/DC in its crisis management capacity. The NSC/DC meets at the call of, and is chaired by, the Assistant to the President and Deputy National Security Advisor.

i. NSC/IPC's are the main day-to-day fora for interagency coordination of national security policy. NSC/IPC's manage the development and implementation of national security policies by multiple USG departments and agencies, provide policy analysis for consideration by the more senior committees of the NSC system, and ensure timely responses to decisions made by the President. The NSC/IPC's are established at the direction of the NSC/DC, and chaired by the NSC (or National Economic Council, as appropriate); at its discretion, the NSC/DC may add co-chairs to any NSC/IPC. The NSC/IPC's convene on a regular basis to review and coordinate the implementation of presidential decisions in their policy areas. Strict guidelines are established (e.g., regarding participants, decision-making paths, and time frames) to govern the operation of the IPC's.

2. Interactions

a. Routine: Concerns focus on broader aspects of national policy and long-term strategy perspectives. Policy and strategy documents outline specific national interests, overall national policy objectives, and tasks for the appropriate components of the executive branch.

b. Emergency: The President may request the National Security Advisor to convene the NSC. The NSC reviews the situation and takes appropriate action.

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ANNEX B TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF AGRICULTURE

1. Core Mission

The United States Department of Agriculture (USDA) provides leadership on food, agriculture, natural resources, rural development, nutrition, and related issues based on sound public policy, the best available science, and efficient management. USDA's core mission is sub-categorized into seven mission areas, which include:

a. **Rural Development.** This mission area is to increase the economic opportunities of rural Americans and improve their quality of life.

b. **Marketing and Regulatory Programs.** This mission area facilitates domestic and international marketing of US agricultural products and ensures the health and care of animals and plants.

c. **Food Safety.** This mission area ensures the nation's commercial supply of meat, poultry, and egg products is safe, wholesome, and properly labeled and packaged.

d. **Food, Nutrition, and Consumer Services.** This mission area focuses on reducing hunger and food insecurity, in partnership with cooperating organizations, by providing access to food, a healthful diet, and nutrition education to children and needy people in a manner that supports American agriculture.

e. **Farm and Foreign Agricultural Services.** This mission area delivers commodity, credit, conservation, disaster, and emergency assistance programs that help improve the stability and strength of the agricultural economy, including improving foreign market access for US products.

f. **Research, Education, and Economics.** This mission area is dedicated to the creation of a safe, sustainable, competitive US food and fiber system, as well as strong communities, families, and youth through integrated research, analysis, and education.

g. **Natural Resources and Environment.** This mission area ensures the health of the land through sustainable management by preventing damage to natural resources and the environment, restoring the resource base, and promoting good land management.

For more information on these USDA mission areas, refer to United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>).

2. Interactions

a. Routine domestic interactions between USDA and DOD tend to focus on military families, community partnerships and commodity procurement, pest management, and land management operations. The most recent routine interaction that will continue into

the future will center on biofuel, biorefineries, and raw biomaterials. Past and present examples of routine interactions include, but are not limited to:

(1) USDA/DOD Military Extension Partnership to support military Service members and their families in their communities.

(2) USDA's National Institute of Food and Agriculture and the Office of the Under Secretary of Defense for Military Community and Family Policy seek to implement a DOD child care curriculum development that is high quality, research- and evidence-based, comprehensive, developmentally appropriate, and cost-effective for deployment across the DOD's Child Development System. The curriculum standardizes the delivery of child care education across the Services for children up to five years (center and home-based care) and has the potential to enhance the quality of child care across the nation.

(3) USDA/USSOCOM to Support Military Families MOU.

(4) DOD Fresh Fruit and Vegetable Program allows schools to use USDA foods entitlement dollars to buy fresh produce. The program is operated by the Defense Logistics Agency.

(5) For more than 30 years, Agricultural Marketing Service's Processed Products Division's operational rations inspection team (<http://www.ams.usda.gov/AMSV1.0/getfile?dDocName=STELPRDC5098085>) has been partnering with the DOD to ensure our warfighters have a steady supply of safe, wholesome, and nutritious operational (i.e., combat) rations, including DOD's flagship meals, ready to eat ration.

(6) Multiple USG departments and agencies share responsibility in addressing various aspects of tick-borne disease problems in the US. Through the coordination of efforts across these stakeholders, the USG has the opportunity to improve efficacy of control and reduce the risk from tick-borne disease. The Tick-borne Diseases Integrated Pest Management Workgroup was created for the purpose of enhancing communication and collaboration among USG departments and agencies involved in tick management as it relates to human health, companion animals, and wildlife that may serve as potential zoonotic reservoirs of human disease (http://www.ars.usda.gov/SP2UserFiles/Program/104/TBD_IPM_WG_Final_White_Paper%2026%20February%202014.pdf).

(7) Through the Sentinel Landscapes partnership (<http://www.usda.gov/wps/portal/usda/usdamediafb?contentid=2013/07/0142.xml&printable=true>), USDA, Department of the Interior (DOI), and DOD work together in overlapping priority areas near military installations to help farmers and ranchers make improvements to the land that benefit their operation, enhance wildlife habitat, and enable DOD's training missions to continue.

(8) USDA and USN Farm to Fleet program is the program in which the USN adds biofuels into its regular domestic purchases of JP5 [jet propulsion fuel, type 5] and F-76 [marine diesel] each year.

(9) Interagency Agreement for the Provision of Temporary Support During Wildland Firefighting Operations among the DOI, USDA, and DOD (<http://www.nifc.gov/nicc/mobguide/CHAPTER40.pdf>)

(10) National Interagency Fire Center Military Use Handbook (http://www.nifc.gov/nicc/predictive/intelligence/military/Military_Use_Handbook_2006_2.pdf)

b. Emergency domestic interorganizational cooperation between the USDA and DOD is centered on natural disasters such as wildfires, animal disease outbreaks, and hurricanes. Past and present examples of domestic emergency interactions include, but are not limited to:

(1) The Firefighter Property Program (<http://www.fs.fed.us/fire/partners/fepp/>) refers to one of the DOD's special programs where firefighters can get excess DOD property to be used for firefighting and emergency services. Certain property obtained from this program passes ownership after it has been in use for a specified period of time. This program is managed by the USDA Forest Service with cooperation of the state forestry agencies.

(2) The US Forest Service mobilized DOD C-130s equipped with Modular Airborne Firefighting Systems (<http://www.fs.fed.us/news/releases/forest-service-mobilizes-modular-airborne-firefighting-systems-assist-wildfire>) to assist with wildfire suppression efforts.

(3) USDA provides disaster payments to farmers, ranchers, and others through eight separate programs.

c. Foreign operations that involve coordination efforts with USDA and DOD primarily converge on biological: threats, surveillance, protection, and countermeasures, as related to zoonotic diseases. USDA also provided agriculture advisors for PRT in support of Operation IRAQI FREEDOM and Operation ENDURING FREEDOM. Examples of foreign emergency interactions include, but are not limited to:

(1) The UN's Food and Agriculture Organization's Emergency Center for Transboundary Animal Diseases team has developed significant experience in managing and coordinating H5N1 highly pathogenic avian influenza activities in Eastern Africa. Part of this USDA and Defense Threat Reduction Agency (DTRA) collaboration is the "Control of Transboundary Animal Diseases in Africa and a Global Alliance to Combat African Swine Fever" project.

(2) The Iraq Agricultural Extension Revitalization project is managed cooperatively by the National Institute of Food and Agriculture and the USDA's Foreign Agricultural Service (FAS), with support from the DOS. Designed to foster strong partnerships between US land grant universities and the Iraqi Ministry of Agriculture and agricultural universities, the Iraq Agricultural Extension Revitalization project is intended to revitalize the Iraqi extension system through short- and long-term training, research, and other activities.

(3) USDA Natural Resources Conservation Service volunteers embed in the US military and work on conservation projects with local farmers in Afghanistan and Iraq as part of the nation's civilian effort in reconstruction.

(4) The Deployed War-Fighter Protection Research Program is an initiative to develop and validate novel methods to protect deployed military personnel from threats posed by disease-carrying insects. The program consists of a noncompetitive funding process for USDA Agricultural Research Service-based research, and a competitive grants process open to non-USDA scientists. The program's objective is to find industry partners and get useful products into the market/military stock system (<http://www.afpmb.org/content/deployed-war-fighter-protection-dwfp-program-overview-0>).

3. Lessons

a. US Forest Service Modular Airborne Fire Fighting Systems and DOD: During the course of a fire season, situations arise in which firefighting resources available within natural resource agencies cannot meet firefighting resource demand. Through an agreement between many resource agencies and the DOD, DOD can deploy resources under its control in support of national firefighting efforts (<http://naldc.nal.usda.gov/download/40958/PDF>).

b. Iraq/Afghanistan PRT (Agriculture Advisor). In July 2009, the Center for Complex Operations facilitated a USDA-sponsored workshop to capture the experiences of USDA agricultural advisors deployed to ministries and PRTs in Iraq and Afghanistan. This article presents a broad overview of the challenges identified by workshop participants and highlights key recommendations generated as a result of suggestions and comments made at the workshop (http://cco.ndu.edu/Portals/96/Documents/prism/prism_1-3/Prism_139-150_Carreau.pdf).

4. Other Information for the Joint Force Commander

a. **Overseas.** For in-country (i.e., "field") coordination, initial contact should be made through the FAS agricultural counselor or attaché at the respective US embassy. For coordination with USDA's HQ, or for countries where there is no USDA representation at a US embassy, the FAS Office of Capacity Building and Development is a principle POC. Additionally, USDA also provides ongoing agricultural technical assistance in many overseas areas and can develop coordinated DOD CMO and USDA projects for given countries or regions.

b. **Domestic Support.** The Office of Homeland Security and Emergency Coordination serves as USDA's focal point for coordination of HS and preparedness policy. Their National Security Policy staff serves as the primary liaison to coordinate across USDA mission areas and with the Executive Office of the President and other USG departments and agencies on development and implementation of HS and preparedness policy. As with DOD, USDA is assigned to all 14 ESFs within the NRF. USDA is the lead coordinator for ESF #11, Agriculture and Natural Resources, which

includes providing nutrition assistance; responding to animal and agriculture health issues; providing technical expertise; coordinating and supporting animal and agriculture emergency management; ensuring safety and defense of the nation's supply of meat, poultry, and processed egg products; and ensuring the protection of natural and cultural resources and historic properties (NCH). As the designated coordinator of ESF #4, Firefighting, USDA/Forest Service manages and coordinates federal firefighting activities, including the detection and suppression of fires on federal lands, and provides personnel, equipment, and supplies in support of state, tribal, and local agencies involved in wildland, rural, and urban firefighting operations. Additionally, USDA is assigned to all six recovery support functions (RSFs) in the *National Disaster Recovery Framework*.

5. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOUs

(1) Coordination in Federal Agency Review of Electric Transmission Facilities on Federal Land.

(2) Interagency Coordination and Collaboration for the Protection of Indian Sacred Sites.

b. MOA. Conduct of Forest Insect and Disease Suppression on Lands Administered by DOD.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

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ANNEX C TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF COMMERCE

1. Core Mission

a. The mission of DOC (<http://www.commerce.gov>) is to promote job creation, economic growth, sustainable development, and improved living standards for all Americans by working in partnership with businesses, universities, communities, and our nation's workers.

b. DOC is the primary USG department for building government-to-government relationships with HN ministry-level representatives from trade, industry, and economic development-related ministries; resolving international trade issues; understanding the economic impact of weather and protecting maritime resources; advising HNs on government economic statistical reporting, census, and measures of standards and weights; developing private sector economic growth and job creation strategies; and developing telecommunications policies to encourage infrastructure development and to leverage e-commerce, e-government, and educational goals.

c. DOC is comprised of 12 agencies, 5 of which interact with DOD overseas.

(1) **International Trade Administration (ITA).** The ITA mission is to help assure the continued ability of US firms and workers to compete and win in the global marketplace and to create prosperity by strengthening the competitiveness of US industry, promoting trade and investment, and ensuring fair trade and compliance with trade laws and agreements.

(2) **National Oceanic and Atmospheric Administration (NOAA).** The NOAA mission is to understand and predict changes in climate, weather, oceans, and coasts; to share that knowledge and information with others; and to conserve and manage coastal and marine ecosystems and resources.

(3) **National Institute of Standards and Technology.** The National Institute of Standards and Technology promotes US innovation and industrial competitiveness by advancing measurement science, standards, and technology in ways that enhance economic security and improve our quality of life.

(4) **National Telecommunications and Information Administration (NTIA).** NTIA is the executive branch agency that is principally responsible for advising the President on telecommunications and information policy issues. NTIA's programs and policymaking focus largely on expanding broadband Internet access and adoption in the US, expanding the use of spectrum by all users, and ensuring the Internet remains an engine for continued innovation and economic growth.

(5) **Bureau of Industry and Security (BIS).** BIS advances US national security, foreign policy, and economic objectives by ensuring an effective export control and treaty compliance system and promoting continued US strategic technology

leadership. BIS administers the Defense Priorities and Allocations System that is used by DOD to prioritize contracts and orders for industrial resources needed to support US and foreign military requirements.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Commerce Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

d. As the designated coordinator of RSF Economic, to the *National Disaster Recovery Framework*, DOC leads the nation's efforts to integrate the expertise of the USG to help local, state, and tribal governments and the private sector sustain and/or rebuild businesses and employment, and develop economic opportunities that result in sustainable and economically resilient communities after large-scale and catastrophic incidents.

2. Interactions

a. Routine interactions between DOC and DOD primarily focus on ongoing technical assistance in foreign countries, as well as developing coordinated DOD and DOC projects for various countries or regions. DOC has significant capacity building capabilities that have been used when working with HNs in the pursuit of national security objectives. DOC has a number of intelligence and national security functions to include overseeing the export of sensitive technology, and reviewing the Coastal Zone Management Act.

(1) DOC has an international presence through several different bureaus.

(a) The ITA has Foreign Commercial Service officers in most embassies and has resident country desk expertise.

(b) NOAA has worldwide weather monitoring capability and participates in a wide variety of international, scientific, technical, policy, and political forums. Internationally, NOAA supports and promotes national policies and interests in ecosystem-based management, climate change, earth observation, and weather forecasting and will seek to maximize the mutual benefits of international exchange with its global partners. NOAA participates with the USN in the Global Fleet Station pilot program; with the USAF to provide space weather monitoring and forecasting, and in the management and operation of the US Satellite Aided Search and Rescue program; and with the USCG and USN (by providing scientific support) on oil spill cleanup and recovery for both inland and coastal areas. NOAA also has Uniformed Services personnel who can provide liaison support to DOD.

(c) The NTIA routinely participates in US delegations globally and works directly with foreign colleagues around the world, particularly with respect to information sharing and technical assistance.

(d) BIS routinely participates in US delegations globally and works directly with foreign colleagues around the world as part of the multilateral export control regimes. BIS also has seven export control officers stationed in six countries that conduct end-use checks and represent BIS interests.

b. Emergency: DOC is the designated coordinator for RSF Economic to the *National Disaster Recovery Framework*.

c. Foreign operations that involve coordination efforts with DOC and DOD primarily focus on stabilization and DR. Foreign emergency interaction highlights include:

(1) Support to interagency reconstruction efforts in Haiti (1994, 2004).

(2) Support to stabilization in Bosnia and Kosovo.

(3) Operation of the Afghanistan and Iraq Investment and Reconstruction Task Force (2002-present).

(4) Support of reconstruction efforts after the 2006 southeast Asia tsunami and the 2010 Haiti earthquake.

For more information, refer to the NRF on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOU. Coordination in Federal Agency Review of Electric Transmission Facilities on Federal Land.

b. MOAs

(1) United States Satellite-Aided Search and Rescue System.

(2) Interagency Operations of the Weather Surveillance Radar.

(3) Reimbursable Detail.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

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ANNEX D TO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF DEFENSE

1. Core Mission

a. The mission of DOD is to provide the military forces needed to deter war and to protect the security of our country.

b. The purpose of the Armed Forces is to fight and win the nation's wars.

c. As prescribed by higher authority, DOD will maintain and employ Armed Forces to fulfill the following aims: support and defend the Constitution of the United States against all enemies, foreign and domestic; ensure, by timely and effective military action, the security of the US, its possessions, and areas vital to its interests; and uphold and advance US national policies and interests.

d. Key Personnel in the DOD Command Structure

(1) **The President of the United States.** The President exercises authority and control of the Armed Forces through two distinct branches of the chain of command. One branch runs from the President, through SecDef, to the commanders of CCMDs for missions and forces assigned to their commands. The other branch, used for purposes other than operational direction of forces assigned to the CCMDs, runs from the President through SecDef to the Secretaries of the Military Departments.

(2) **SecDef.** SecDef is the principal assistant to the President for all DOD matters, with authority, direction, and control over the entire DOD.

(3) **CJCS.** CJCS is the principal military advisor to the President, the NSC, and SecDef. CJCS functions under the authority, direction, and control of SecDef, transmits communications between SecDef and CCDRs, and oversees activities of CCDRs, as directed by SecDef.

(4) **Secretaries of the Military Departments.** The authority vested in the Secretaries of the Military Departments in the performance of their role to organize, train, equip, and provide forces runs from the President through SecDef to the Secretaries. Then, to the degree established by the Secretaries or specified in law, this authority runs through the Service Chiefs to the Service component commanders assigned to the CCMDs and to the commanders of forces not assigned to the CCMDs.

(5) **CCDRs.** CCDRs exercise combatant command (command authority) over assigned forces and are directly responsible to SecDef for the performance of assigned missions and the preparedness of their commands to perform assigned missions.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the DOD strategic documents on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interactions

a. Routine: DOD has a major role in the foreign and domestic interagency arenas. It interacts with almost every USG department and agency and is involved in interagency coordination at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels. SecDef is a member of the NSC, and CJCS serves as an advisor to the NSC. DOD is significantly involved in the entire NSC interagency process, with representatives (e.g., OUSD[P] and JS) assigned to all NSC subgroups (e.g., NSC/PC and NSC/DC) and most NSC/PCs.

b. Emergency: DOD is the coordinator for ESF #3, Public Works and Engineering, under US Army Corps of Engineers and a primary agency for ESF #3 and ESF #9, Urban Search and Rescue, of the NRF. DOD is also the coordinating agency for RSF Infrastructure Systems.

For more information, refer to the NRF on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX E TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF EDUCATION

1. Core Mission

a. The Department of Education was created by the Department of Education Organization Act (Title 20, USC, Section 3411) and is administered under the supervision and direction of the Secretary of Education. The Secretary of Education advises the President on education plans, policies, and programs of the USG and serves as the chief executive officer of the Department of Education, supervising all Department of Education activities, providing support to states and localities, and focusing resources to ensure equal access to educational excellence throughout the nation.

b. The Department of Education is a supporting agency for two missions in the NRF, a primary agency in the health and social services mission and supporting agency for two other missions in the National Disaster Recovery Framework.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Education's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library <http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOUs

(1) Quality of Education.

(2) Transition Assistance Program for Separating Service Members.

b. MOAs

(1) Troops to Teachers.

(2) Native Languages.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

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ANNEX F TO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF ENERGY

1. Core Mission

a. DOE's (<http://www.energy.gov>) mission is to ensure America's security and prosperity by addressing its energy, environmental, and nuclear challenges through transformative science and technology solutions.

b. Pursuant to Section 504, of the Homeland Security Act of 2002, the entities within the DOE that perform nuclear or radiological ESFs, radiological assistance functions, and related functions will constitute part of the nuclear incident response teams. DOE has senior energy advisors at some geographic CCMDs and these individuals support and advise CDRs on energy, defense, DOE capabilities, and radiological/nuclear issues.

c. Under Comprehensive Environmental Response, Compensation, and Liability Act of 1980, Executive Order 12580, and the National Oil and Hazardous Substances Pollution Contingency Plan, DOE is responsible for hazardous substance responses to releases on, or from, DOE facilities or vessels under the jurisdiction, custody, or control of DOE, including transportation-related incidents. For responses under these circumstances, DOE provides a federal on-scene coordinator responsible for taking all Comprehensive Environmental Response, Compensation, and Liability Act response actions, which includes on-site and off-site response actions.

d. As the designated coordinator of ESF #12, Energy, to the NRF, DOE leads the nation's efforts in securing the US energy infrastructure against all hazards, reducing the impact of disruptive events, and responding to and facilitating recovery from energy disruptions, in collaboration with all levels of industry and state, local, and foreign governments.

e. As prescribed in the Nuclear/Radiological Incident Annex to the NRF, DOE is the coordinating agency for the federal response to a nuclear/radiological release at a DOE facility or involving DOE materials (e.g., during the use, storage, and shipment of a variety of radioactive materials; the shipment of spent reactor fuel; the production, assembly, and shipment of nuclear weapons and special nuclear materials; the production and shipment of radioactive sources for space ventures; and the storage and shipment of radioactive and mixed waste). The DOE's National Nuclear Security Administration responds with scientific and technical expertise to radiological and nuclear emergency events and provides such support to the nation's CT, counterproliferation, and nonproliferation capabilities.

(1) For incidents at nuclear/radiological facilities that DOE owns or operates, or incidents involving transportation of DOE nuclear/radiological materials, DOE is responsible for mitigating the consequences of an incident; providing notification and appropriate protective action recommendations to state, tribal, and/or local government officials; and minimizing the radiological hazard to the public.

(2) For radiological incidents involving a nuclear weapon, special nuclear material, and/or classified components that are in DOE custody, DOE may establish a national security area. DOE will coordinate with state and local officials to ensure appropriate public health and safety actions are taken outside the national security area. DOE will lead the overall response to safeguard national security information and/or restricted data, or equipment and material. DOE may also include lands normally not under DOE control as part of the established national security area for the duration of the incident.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Energy's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interactions

a. Routine domestic interactions between DOE and DOD are to:

(1) Create partnerships to provide an effective nuclear deterrent for the nation (<http://nnsa.energy.gov/ourmission/maintainingthestockpile>).

(2) Provide the design, development, and operational support required to provide militarily effective nuclear propulsion plants (<http://nnsa.energy.gov/aboutus/ourprograms/powernavy2/aboutnr>).

(3) Maintain a working relationship with the DOD as defined by the MOU between DOE and DOD concerning cooperation in strategic partnership to enhance energy security (July 22, 2010) covering, but not limited to, efforts in the areas of energy efficiency; renewable energy; water efficiency; fossil fuels; alternative fuels; efficient transportation technologies; and fueling infrastructure, grid security, smart grid, storage, waste-to-energy, basic science research, mobile/deployable power, small modular reactor nuclear energy, and related areas (<http://energy.gov/sites/prod/files/edg/media/Enhance-Energy-Security-MOU.pdf>).

(4) Collaborate with DOD on development of threat information and establish consistent physical security measures.

b. Emergency: DOE coordinates with DOD, DOJ/FBI, and other interagency partners in the event of a nuclear terrorist incident or radiological accident (<http://nnsa.energy.gov/ourmission/emergencyresponse>).

c. Foreign operations that involve coordination efforts with DOE and DOD to prevent the proliferation of WMD include several programs managed by the Office of Defense Nuclear Nonproliferation. Their capabilities include on-site verification; processing, packaging, and removal of nuclear/radiological materials and equipment; and the prevention of the unauthorized spread of weapons-usable materials, technology and expertise (<http://nnsa.energy.gov/aboutus/ourprograms/nonproliferation-0>).

For more information, refer to the NRF on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

d. Within the Office of Counterterrorism and Counterproliferation, the nuclear CT program focuses on nuclear incident policy and cooperation, nuclear threat science, nuclear forensics, and nuclear incident response. Radiological and nuclear expertise includes:

(1) Countering WMD practical tools, technically informed contingency planning, and policy recommendations required to advance domestic and international US nuclear CT and counterproliferation objectives (to include US and international countering WMD training exercises, and military and energy LNOs supporting various CCMDs and DOD agencies).

(2) Understanding and characterizing nuclear threat devices, including improvised nuclear devices, foreign nuclear weapons (with emphasis on the loss of custody and abnormal environments), and their nuclear and energetic material constituents.

(3) Nuclear forensics.

(4) Nuclear and radiological incident response capabilities (crisis response/radiation assistance programs, domestic and international render safe operations, response operations, nuclear/radiological advisor team operations).

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOUs

(1) The National Science Foundation's Polar Programs.

(2) Cooperation in a Strategic Partnership to Enhance Energy Security.

(3) Coordination in Federal Agency Review of Electric Transmission Facilities on Federal Land.

(4) Interagency Coordination and Collaboration for the Protection of Indian Sacred Sites.

b. MOA. Defense Funded Work at Laboratories and Facilities.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

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ANNEX G TO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF HEALTH AND HUMAN SERVICES

1. Core Mission

a. DHHS (<http://www.hhs.gov>) is the USG's principal agency for protecting the health of all Americans and providing essential human services, especially for those who are least able to help themselves, and leads all federal public health and medical response to public health emergencies and incidents covered by the NRF. Various federal laws (e.g., The Public Health Service Act, as amended, and the Federal Food, Drug, and Cosmetic Act), regulations, and policy statements authorize or constrain the provision of DHHS domestic and/or international assistance during a public health or medical emergency. DHHS evaluates RFAs to determine whether there is a legal basis for providing the requested assistance. The application of relevant legal authorities and/or policy guidelines will be determined by relevant DHHS and USG interagency partners in consultation with the DHHS Office of General Counsel.

b. DHHS comprises staff divisions and operating divisions. Staff divisions are subdivisions of the Office of the Secretary of Health and Human Services that provide direct support to the Secretary of Health and Human Services' initiatives. Operating divisions are agencies that perform a wide variety of tasks and services (e.g., research, public health, food and drug safety, and health insurance). Offices include, but are not limited to:

(1) Office of Assistant Secretary for Planning and Evaluation is the principal advisor to the Secretary of Health and Human Services on policy development and is responsible for major activities in policy coordination, legislation development, strategic planning, policy research, evaluation, and economic analysis.

(2) Office of Assistant Secretary for Preparedness and Response (ASPR) (<http://www.hhs.gov/aspr> and <http://www.phe.gov/preparedness/Pages/default.aspx>) establishes policy; assigns responsibilities; and, as needed, directs and coordinates DHHS's efforts to prepare for, respond to, and recover from the public health and medical consequences of a disaster or emergency.

(3) Office of Assistant Secretary for Global Affairs is responsible for overall DHHS policy leadership, development, and coordination with multilateral organizations, as well as responsible for the Secretary of Health and Human Services' interaction bilaterally with foreign governments.

(4) Office of the Assistant Secretary for Health serves as the primary advisor to the DHHS Secretary on matters involving the nation's public health and provides executive leadership and policy guidance for the Commissioned Corps of the United States Public Health Service (USPHS) (the Corps).

(5) Office of Intergovernmental and External Affairs serves as DHHS's liaison to state, local, and tribal governments and NGOs. The Office of Intergovernmental and

External Affairs facilitates communication between DHHS and these stakeholders regarding DHHS initiatives and policies. An Office of Intergovernmental and External Affairs regional office is located in each DHHS region.

(6) CDC (<http://www.cdc.gov>) is responsible for conducting disease surveillance activities, detecting and investigating disease outbreaks and other health conditions, and developing strategies for dealing with the public health aspects of domestic and international emergencies.

(7) Administration for Community Living.

(8) Agency for Toxic Substances and Disease Registry is charged with the prevention of exposure to toxic substances and the prevention of the adverse health effects and diminished quality of life associated with exposure to hazardous substances from waste sites, unplanned releases, and other sources of pollution present in the environment.

(9) Centers for Medicare and Medicaid Services.

(10) Food and Drug Administration (FDA)

(a) FDA is responsible for protecting the public health by assuring the safety, efficacy, and security of human and veterinary drugs, biological products, medical devices, our nation's food supply, cosmetics, and products that emit radiation.

(b) FDA is also responsible for advancing the public health by helping to speed innovations that make medicines more effective, safer, and more affordable and by helping the public get the accurate, science-based information they need to use medicines and foods to maintain and improve their health. FDA also has responsibility for regulating the manufacturing, marketing, and distribution of tobacco products to protect the public health and to reduce tobacco use by minors.

(c) Finally, FDA plays a significant role in the nation's CT capability. FDA fulfills this responsibility by ensuring the security of the food supply and by fostering development of medical products to respond to deliberate and naturally emerging public health threats. It may be called upon, during public health emergencies, to conduct emergency management and coordination, assessment, sampling, surveillance, inspection/investigation, epidemiology, public and environmental health, safety of regulated products, guidance, and subject matter expertise.

(11) Health Resources and Services Administration is the primary federal agency for improving access to health care services for people who are uninsured, isolated, or medically vulnerable. It supports DHHS's emergency response through its National Health Service Corps Ready Responder Program.

(12) National Institutes of Health (NIH) plays a key role in public health emergencies through their research and development of medical countermeasures against potential CBRN agents of terrorism.

- (13) Indian Health Service.
- (14) Administration for Children and Families.
- (15) Substance Abuse and Mental Health Services Administration.
- (16) Agency for Healthcare Research and Quality.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Health and Human Services' Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interactions

a. Routine domestic interactions between DHHS and DOD primarily focus on preparedness efforts for emergency response, coordination of resources, laboratory capacity, and policy issues. ASPR provides liaisons to many of the CCMDs for support to national and international response planning and coordination. Additional interorganizational cooperation efforts include regional emergency coordinator and joint medical readiness preparedness officer coordination in the US regions, the Senior Leaders Council on Patient Movement, the NDMS, and NIH on biomedical research components that focus on infectious disease and immunology research. The most recent routine interaction that will continue into the future will center on establishing an executive charter for fatality management and on the update of the National Emergency Repatriation Plan. DOD and ASPR have a continuous coordination relationship involving logistics, as ASPR is responsible for coordination of all DHHS response logistics functions and the most active interaction it has with DOD is through the Defense Medical Logistics Supply Chain Council. Additional routine coordination efforts between DHHS and DOD include the periodic *3-D Planning Guide: Diplomacy, Development, Defense* meeting between the Office of Global Affairs, the Office of the Assistant Secretary of Defense for Health Affairs, the DOS Bureau of Oceans and International Environmental and Scientific Affairs, and USAID. These high-level meetings are a forum for overall policy discussion and periodic updating on the international health activities of the respective agencies, and a mechanism to support agencies in the field (including US embassies, geographic combatant commands, and international programs) with a consistent USG voice in international health. In addition, DOD participates in periodic discussions with the World Health Organization (WHO) under the *Memorandum of Understanding Between the United States of America and the World Health Organization Regarding Cooperation on Global Health Security*, in which DHHS plays an overall coordinating role.

(1) DHHS has the lead responsibility within the USG to protect the civilian population against the adverse health effects of CBRN, pandemic influenza, and emerging infectious disease threats by providing leadership in research, development, acquisition, and deployment of effective medical countermeasures. For early disease detection and containment, CDC is developing a network of global disease detection

centers in partnership with ministries of health, WHO, DOS, DOD, USAID, and academic institutions. Existing centers are located in China, Egypt, Guatemala, India, Kazakhstan, Kenya, and Thailand. DHHS is the technical lead for international pandemic influenza assessment and containment response support to DOS. DHHS appoints representatives to the USG foreign emergency support team that is led by the DOS Foreign Consequence Management Program. DHHS supports USAID/OFDA by providing technical assistance and support on public health issues (e.g., large disease outbreaks). DOD may request DHHS support during FHA and other operations. USPHS officers work side by side with DOD (e.g., as health attachés, consultants on civil-military teams, or as LNOs within a geographic CCMD). Collectively, DHHS has personnel (from its component staff and operating divisions) permanently assigned, or deployed, to each geographic CCMD.

(2) DHHS participants in interagency working groups that support HA and disaster response operations, and CMO planning and exercises. DHHS supports whole-of-government efforts through the Civilian Reserve Corps Program.

(3) DHHS operating divisions and staff divisions support and interrelate with DOD by providing subject matter expertise during DOD-led disaster preparedness and response training and exercises. DHHS Office of Force Readiness and Deployment, Readiness and Deployment Operations Group, coordinates with DOD and its components (e.g., USSOUTHCOM, USPACOM, USAFRICOM, US Army South, USAF South, and USN 7th Fleet) during exercises, operations, and planning. The US Army Office of the Surgeon General assigns an LNO to ASPR to help facilitate DHHS-DOD coordination and joint planning. The CDC also has DOD liaisons for this same purpose.

(4) NIH plays a key role in public health emergencies through their research and development of medical countermeasures against potential CBRN agents of terrorism. They serve as a source of skilled health care professionals who can augment DHHS response teams, and can serve as a resource to DOD as advisors for how to support tribal communities and cultures, while honoring and protecting the inherent sovereign rights of tribes.

(5) The ASPR Biomedical Advanced Research and Development Authority provides an integrated, systematic approach to the development and purchase of the necessary vaccines, drugs, therapies, and diagnostic tools for public health medical emergencies. It manages Project BioShield, which includes the procurement and advanced development of medical countermeasures for CBRN agents, as well as the advanced development and procurement of medical countermeasures for pandemic influenza and other emerging infectious diseases that fall outside the auspices of Project BioShield. In addition, ASPR manages the Public Health Emergency Medical Countermeasures Enterprise. The enterprise is responsible for defining and prioritizing requirements for public health emergency medical countermeasures; focusing research, development, and procurement activities on identified requirements; and establishing deployment and use strategies for medical countermeasures in the Strategic National Stockpile. Lastly, the Biomedical Advanced Research and Development Authority

conducts modeling in partnership with other USG departments and agencies to support preparing for, responding to, and recovering from disasters.

(6) The FDA plays a vital role in protecting our nation from CBRN threats and emerging infectious disease threats like pandemic influenza. FDA ensures medical products, including medical countermeasures, are safe, effective, and secure. FDA also works closely with federal partners and state and local responders to build and sustain medical countermeasure programs that can meet the needs of US citizens during a public health emergency. One of these ways is through the Medical Countermeasures Initiative, which is an FDA program to coordinate medical countermeasure development, preparedness, and response which is led by the Office of Counterterrorism and Emerging Threats. The Office of Counterterrorism and Emerging Threats also works closely with DOD programs in the development of DOD medical product priorities for the joint force.

(7) To mitigate the risk of importation and spread of communicable diseases to, or within, the US, CDC quarantine stations are located at 20 US ports of entry. Central to the quarantine stations' mission to protect the US from communicable disease introduction and spread at ports of entry is the development of strong partnerships with state and local health departments and law enforcement to create a public health safety network addressing border health issues. The quarantine program works closely with DHS, particularly CBP, Transportation Security Administration, US Immigration and Customs Enforcement (ICE), and USCG, and partners with the travel industry to plan, prepare, and respond to traveler illnesses.

b. Emergency

(1) DHHS leads all federal public health and medical responses to public health and medical emergencies and incidents covered by the NRF. Under the NRF, DHHS leads ESF #8, Public Health and Medical Services, the mechanism for coordinated federal assistance to supplement state, tribal, and local resources in response to a public health and medical disaster, potential or actual incidents requiring a coordinated federal response, and/or during a developing potential health and medical emergency. USPHS officers are assigned to DHHS and other USG departments and agencies, to include DOD. During emergencies, USPHS officers are deployed domestically to provide applied public health, mental health, and direct medical support to affected regions, states, and localities. DHHS works alongside DOD during domestic CMO. USPHS officers are involved when there is a Stafford Act declaration with domestic public health DSCA operations. ASPR is the principal advisor to the Secretary of Health and Human Services on all matters related to federal public health and medical preparedness, and responses to public health emergencies or biological incidents, whether natural or deliberate. In addition, it has strategic, operational, and tactical responsibilities that include, but are not limited to, serving as the Incident Manager for ESF #8 during activation; coordinating preparedness and response planning with DHHS operating divisions, ESF #8-supporting agencies, state and local governments, and the private sector; managing the NDMS; and coordinating with CDC to direct the deployment, employment, and release of any needed Strategic National Stockpile personnel and materiel. Additionally, ASPR mobilizes public health and medical assets at the direction

of the Secretary of Health and Human Services, in response to a directive from DHS/FEMA IAW the NRF, under a mission assignment issued by FEMA under the Stafford Act, in response to designated NSSEs, or at their own discretion (in the absence of an emergency declaration) when an incident requires coordinated action by two or more DHHS response assets. As the coordinator of ESF #8, domestic interorganizational cooperation between DHHS and DOD is centered on patient movement by transporting seriously ill or injured patients through the NDMS and medical needs populations from casualty collection points in the impacted area to designated reception facilities. Domestic emergency interaction highlights include successful patient movement from the gulf coast during Hurricanes Gustav and Ike.

For more information, refer to the NDMS (<http://www.phe.gov/Preparedness/responders/ndms/Pages/default.aspx>).

(2) In response to an international event, DHHS core public health capabilities that may support the USG response efforts include public health assessment and disease control (emergency environmental health service; disease surveillance, prevention, and control); mass disaster response (direct medical care, patient evacuation support, mass fatality management); protect responder/worker safety and health; CBRN public health and medical consultation, technical assistance, and support; and health/medical equipment and supplies (e.g., medical countermeasures including medical supplies, biologics, pharmaceuticals, blood products, vaccines, and antitoxins).

(3) ASPR is the primary contact for the DHHS Secretary and Deputy Secretary for international preparedness and emergency operations. ASPR uses the most updated information to make key decisions; direct and deploy DHHS resources to support the DOS, USAID, DOD, and the UN; and assist with international and public health and medical emergency responses. ASPR serves as the focal point for international activities related to public health emergency preparedness and response and coordinates international influenza pandemic efforts with the DOS, the USDA, and WHO.

(4) The NIH's National Institute of Allergy and Infectious Diseases works closely with DOD biomedical research components that focus on infectious disease and immunology research. In response to public health emergencies, it may be called upon to provide subject matter experts and/or to redirect its research efforts to address important scientific issues related to the emergency. Such response is accomplished in coordination with DHHS and sister agencies.

(5) The US Repatriation Program is committed to helping eligible repatriates, referred from the DOS, by providing them with effective and efficient temporary assistance necessary for their transition and reestablishment in the US (<http://www.acf.hhs.gov/programs/orr/programs/repatriation>). While DHHS is responsible for the National Emergency Repatriation planning and implementation of the emergency plan, state and local governments have operational responsibility for the reception, temporary care, and onward transportation for the noncombatant evacuee.

(6) CDC's National Institute for Occupational Safety and Health is the USG agency that conducts research and makes recommendations to prevent worker injury and illness, including during emergencies. Under the *Worker Safety and Health Support Annex*, the National Institute for Occupational Safety and Health supports federal, state, tribal, and local response and recovery organizations to assure response and recovery worker safety and health during incidents requiring a coordinated federal response. DHHS and DOD are cooperating agencies with specific functions related to worker protection during an emergency.

For more information, refer to the NRF and the National Disaster Recovery Framework on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

(7) Foreign operations that involve coordination efforts with DHHS and DOD primarily focus on notification or response to foreign country potential health threats as required by International Health Regulations. When requested in response to international disease outbreaks, CDC staff, either through relationships established at the national level and/or through established relationships in the Global Outbreak Alert and Response Network, provide technical assistance to help characterize the outbreak, investigate risk and protective factors, and assist in efforts to control the disease. Under limited, specific conditions and criteria, CDC personnel and supplies, including materiel from the Strategic National Stockpile, may be deployed to assist in an international public health emergency. The CDC has more than 300 permanent staff members assigned to long-term assignments in 50 countries. They also employ approximately 1,400 local staff members (citizens of the HN) to support global programs. The staff is a mix of epidemiologists, clinicians, and health scientists of many types (e.g., laboratory, behavioral, and informatics scientists; operations managers; administrative staff; and others). CDC offices with long-term staff members usually become trusted advisors to local public health officials. This familiarity and resulting long-term trusting relationships are critical assets that help to establish access during emergencies. CDC also manages the Laboratory Response Network, a network of more than 160 laboratories affiliated with USG departments and agencies, military installations, international partners, and state/local public health departments. The Laboratory Response Network provides the laboratory infrastructure and capacity to respond to biological and chemical terrorism, and other public health emergencies.

(8) DHHS is an active participant in the interagency working groups supporting HA and disaster response operations, and CMO planning and exercises. DHHS supports whole-of-government efforts through the Civilian Reserve Corps Program. DHHS provides an active component and a standby component with expertise in areas such as health care service delivery and system administration, health education, disease prevention and epidemiology, environmental health and safety, infection control, veterinary health, and non-communicable and communicable diseases. DHHS can provide regional and country-specific perspectives on existing health systems' capabilities and infrastructure. USPHS representatives or DHHS civilians can add valuable perspective in collaboration with the command surgeon and USAID representatives.

3. Lessons

A recent example of successful DOD-DHHS collaboration has been the deployment of 65 USPHS officers to staff the Monrovia Medical Unit, the centerpiece of Operation UNITED ASSISTANCE's medical efforts to support the international Ebola response in Liberia. This unique arrangement has demonstrated the flexibility and expeditionary capability of both DHHS and DOD in working together to create a DOD-organized, DHHS-staffed operational medical capability in support of a whole-of-government unified response. Another, longer-term effort is the productive and extensive collaboration of the CDC and DTRA to create capacity in partner nations around the globe to prevent, detect, and respond to threats of emerging infectious disease.

4. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

MOAs

- a. Reimbursable Detail.
- b. Native Languages.
- c. National Disaster Medical System.

For more information on MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX H TO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF HOMELAND SECURITY

1. Core Mission

a. DHS is the USG department charged with HS to prevent terrorism and enhance security, secure and manage our borders, enforce and administer US immigration laws, protect cyberspace and critical infrastructure, and strengthen national preparedness and resilience to disasters. The Secretary of Homeland Security coordinates the domestic all-hazards preparedness efforts of all USG departments and agencies, in consultation with state, local, tribal, and territorial governments, NGOs, the private sector, and the general public. Preparedness efforts are those actions taken to plan, organize, equip, train, and exercise to build and sustain the capabilities necessary to prevent, protect against, mitigate the effects of, respond to, and recover from those threats and hazards that pose the greatest risk to the security and resilience of the nation.

b. FEMA (<http://www.fema.gov/>). FEMA's mission is to support our citizens and first responders to ensure that as a nation we work together to build, sustain, and improve our capability to prepare for, protect against, respond to, recover from, and mitigate all hazards. Throughout its preparedness, response, recovery, and mitigation activities, FEMA prepares for the specific types of incidents that pose the greatest risk to the security of the nation and emphasizes the actions aimed at achieving an integrated, layered, and all-of-nation preparedness approach that optimizes the use of available resources.

c. The United States Secret Service (<http://www.secretservice.gov>) safeguards the nation's financial infrastructure and payment systems to preserve the integrity of the economy and protects national leaders, visiting heads of state and government, designated sites, and NSSEs.

d. USCG (<http://www.uscg.mil>). The USCG is the nation's primary maritime operating agency with resources organized, trained, and equipped to be multi-mission capable. The USCG is unique as it is a branch of the Armed Forces at all times and an agency within DHS. As such, they play an active role in HD and HS missions. The USCG may also operate under the Department of the Navy during time of war or when directed by the President. The USCG protects the public, the environment, natural resources, and US economic interests—in the nation's ports and waterways, along the coast, on international waters, or in any maritime region as required to support national security. They perform 11 missions (<http://www.gocoastguard.com/about-the-coast-guard/discover-our-roles-missions>), some of which are HS missions (i.e., ports, waterways, and coastal security; drug interdiction; migrant interdiction; defense readiness; and other law enforcement) and others are non-HS missions (e.g., marine safety, SAR, aids to navigation, living marine resources, marine environmental protection, and ice operations).

e. CBP's (<http://www.cbp.gov>) mission is to safeguard the US borders, thereby protecting the public from dangerous people and materials while enhancing the nation's

global economic competitiveness by enabling legitimate trade and travel. CBP secures the US borders at and between ports of entry by stopping inadmissible people and illicit goods. CBP's offices of Field Operations, Border Patrol, and Air and Marine Operations represent the largest federal LEA. CBP works to secure and facilitate imports arriving in the US, accommodating the increasing volume and complexities of international trade. CBP protects US agricultural resources through active inspections at ports of entry. With the Container Security Initiative, Customs-Trade Partnership Against Terrorism, and the Automated Commercial Environment, CBP has a sturdy base of partnerships and technology to safeguard the American public and promote legitimate international commerce. Fostering safe and speedy international travel is a key goal of CBP, which has been increasing passenger security through effective risk assessment, growing trusted traveler programs and better use of technology.

f. ICE (<http://www.ice.gov>) is the principal criminal investigative arm of the DHS and one of the three department components charged with the civil enforcement of the nation's immigration laws.

g. The Transportation Security Administration (<http://www.tsa.gov>) protects the nation's transportation systems to ensure freedom of movement for people and commerce.

h. US Citizenship and Immigration Services (<http://www.uscis.gov>) oversees lawful immigration to the US, including asylum and refugee status.

i. The National Protection and Programs Directorate works to advance DHS's risk-reduction mission. Reducing risk requires an integrated approach that encompasses both physical and virtual threats and their associated human elements. Within the directorate, three divisions impact DOD.

(1) The Office of Cybersecurity and Communications has the mission of assuring the security, resiliency, and reliability of the nation's cyberspace and communications infrastructure.

(2) The Office of Infrastructure Protection leads the coordinated national effort to address all-hazard threats risk to US critical infrastructures and key resources posed by acts of terrorism.

(3) The Federal Protective Service (FPS) is a federal LEA that provides integrated security and law enforcement services to federally owned and leased buildings, facilities, properties, and other assets. The FPS leads the provision of enduring identity services to DHS and its mission partners that advance informed decision making by producing accurate, timely, and high-assurance biometric and biographic identity information and analysis.

j. The Office of Health Affairs provides medical and health expertise supporting the DHS mission to prepare for, respond to, and recover from all incidents, recognizing that essentially every incident impacting HS will have health consequences. The Office of Health Affairs serves as DHS's primary POC for state, local, territorial, and tribal

governments on medical and health security issues. Their responsibilities include serving as the principal advisor to the Secretary of Homeland Security and FEMA Administrator, and advising other DHS officials and components on medical and health issues, both conventional and those involving CBRN incidents.

k. The Office of Intelligence and Analysis is a member of the IC. They ensure information related to HS threats is collected, analyzed, and disseminated to HS customers in DHS; at state, local, and tribal levels; in the private sector; and in the IC.

l. The Office of Operations Coordination provides operations coordination, information sharing, situational awareness, the COP, and DHS continuity, enabling execution of the Secretary of Homeland Defense's responsibilities across the HS enterprise.

m. The Domestic Nuclear Detection Office works to reduce the risk of nuclear terrorism against the US by continuously improving capabilities to deter, detect, respond to, and attribute attacks, in coordination with domestic and international partners. The Domestic Nuclear Detection Office is the primary USG entity for implementing domestic nuclear detection efforts to prevent radiological and nuclear terrorism, as well as integration of federal nuclear forensics programs. The Domestic Nuclear Detection Office is also charged with coordinating the development of the global nuclear detection and reporting architecture, with partners from federal, state, territorial, tribal, local, international governments and the private sector.

n. The Office of Intergovernmental Affairs has the mission of promoting an integrated national approach to HS by ensuring, coordinating, and advancing federal interaction with state, local, tribal, and territorial governments.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Homeland Security's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interactions

a. Routine

(1) DHS has the lead for domestic interagency coordination on HS matters, including, but not limited to, border and maritime security and disaster response at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels. Through an agreement between DOD and DHS, the USCG's unique defense capabilities in support of the National Military Strategy include maritime interception operations; deployed port operations, security, and defense; military environmental response operations; rotary-wing air interdiction in the National Capital Region; and peacetime military operations. Commander, USCG Atlantic Area (Portsmouth, Virginia), and Commander, USCG Pacific Area (Alameda, California), are the senior USCG operational commanders to coordinate with the GCCs. The USCG's maritime CT units, maritime security response teams, are located in Chesapeake, Virginia, and San Diego, California. Additionally, the USCG manages the

National Strike Force Coordination Center in Elizabeth City, North Carolina, and the USCG Incident Management Assistance Team in Norfolk, Virginia.

(2) DHS works closely with other federal agencies, in particular DOD and its subordinate organizations. DOD organizations and agencies provide numerous LNOs to DHS and DHS components. DOD LNOs may represent organizations and specialties such as CCMDs, intelligence organizations, or engineers.

(3) NG CIP teams assess industrial sites and critical USG infrastructure for vulnerabilities to attack. These teams support DOD and DHS by conducting vulnerability assessments of prioritized defense industrial base and DHS sites. The NG has three CIP teams located in the states of Colorado, New York, and West Virginia; additionally, DHS has 18 CIP assessment teams.

(4) Protecting the homeland often entails discovering individuals who enter the US homeland to conduct illicit and harmful activities. DHS works closely with DOJ, on a day-to-day basis, to conduct operations that identify these individuals, their activities, locations, networks, and materials. The DHS Office of Biometric Identity Management (OBIM) operates and maintains the Automated Biometric Identification System (IDENT) and provides identity services expertise, as a service provider for customers across DHS, at other USG departments and agencies, in state and local law enforcement, and overseas. IDENT is the central DHS-wide system for storage and processing of biometric and associated biographic information for national security; law enforcement; immigration and border management; intelligence; background investigations for national security positions and certain positions of public trust; and associated testing, training, management reporting, planning and analysis, or other administrative uses. OBIM is also focused on improving biometric sharing in support of national security and public safety. By matching, storing, sharing, and analyzing biometric data, OBIM provides partners on the front lines of HS with rapid, accurate, and secure identification.

b. Emergency

(1) FEMA works in partnership with other organizations that are part of the nation's emergency management system. These partners include state and local emergency management agencies, other USG departments and agencies, and the ARC. FEMA's functions include:

- (a) Service to disaster survivors.
- (b) Integrated preparedness.
- (c) Operational planning and preparedness.
- (d) Incident management.
- (e) Incident support.
- (f) Disaster logistics.

- (g) Hazard mitigation.
- (h) Emergency communications.
- (i) Public disaster communications.
- (j) Continuity programs.

(2) GCCs can expect to be designated as the supported commander for support to DHS in mass migration operations. CDRUSNORTHCOM is normally designated the supported commander for limited support to DHS collection relocation processing centers on DOD installations in the continental US. USSOUTHCOM is normally designated as the supported command for temporary mass migration operations at Guantanamo Bay, Cuba.

(3) DHS-led/FEMA-executed NPFs with assigned executive branch agencies include the NRF and the *National Disaster Recovery Framework*. Other frameworks include the *National Prevention Framework*, the *National Protection Framework*, and the *National Mitigation Framework* (see Figure A-H-1).

For more information, refer to the NRF on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

(4) Overseas DHS contributes to a secure and resilient nation with the capabilities required to prevent, protect against, mitigate, respond to, and recover from the threats and hazards that pose the greatest risk. With personnel in more than 75 countries, DHS has the third-largest civilian footprint abroad. As in other departments, there are some core functions the execution of which requires assignment or temporary duty abroad, supported by direct appropriations. Other activities (e.g., those

General Petraeus liked the capabilities of US Customs and Border Protection (CBP) and Immigration and Customs Enforcement, and the Department of Homeland Security (DHS) personnel in Afghanistan increased from 2 to 75 in 2010-11. When CBP establishes a border management task, it does so using annuitants and contractors who possess appropriate agency backgrounds. The Federal Law Enforcement Training Center (a DHS entity formerly under the Department of the Treasury) also uses post-retirement recalls for temporary assignments. DHS prefers not to post personnel to Afghanistan for longer than 18 months. The normal tour is one year. Of a contingent of almost 100 in Iraq, 70 were contractors, 20 were government employees. In Afghanistan, the contingent numbered 70-85. Contractors may work for the Department of the Defense (DOD) rather than deploy on chief of mission authority. Funding may be blended (i.e., derived) from multiple sources. In Afghanistan, for example, much of the equipment was funded by DOD, and personnel costs were funded by the Department of State.

Various Sources

Domestic Coordination—Emergency Support Functions

Agency	#1 - Transportation	#2 - Communications	#3 - Public Works and Engineering	#4 - Firefighting	#5 - Emergency Management	#6 - Mass Care, Emergency Assistance, Housing, and Human Services	#7 - Logistics Management and Resource Support	#8 - Public Health and Medical Services	#9 - Search and Rescue	#10 - Oil and Hazardous Materials Response	#11 - Agriculture and Natural Resources	#12 - Energy	#13 - Public Safety and Security	#14 - Long-Term Community Recovery	#15 - External Affairs
USDA			S		S	S	S	S			C	S		P	S
USDA/FS	S	S	S	C		S	S	S	S	S			S		
DOC	S	S	S	S	S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S
DOD	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	P	S	S	S	S	S	S
DOD/USACE	S		C	S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	
ED					S										S
DOE	S		S		S		S	S	S	S	S	C		S	S
DHHS			S		S	S	S	C	S	S	S			S	S
DHS	S	S	S		S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	P	C
DHS/FEMA	S	P	P	S	C	C	C	S	C	S	S			C	P
DHS/NCS		C					S						S		
DHS/USCG	S		S	S				S	P	P			S		
HUD					S	S								P	S
DOI	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	P	S	P	S	S	S	S
DOJ	S				S	S		S	S	S	S		C		S
DOL			S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S		S	S
DOS	S		S	S	S			S		S	S	S			S
DOS/USAID					S	S									S
DOT	C		S		S	S	S	S		S	S	S		S	S
Treasury					S	S							S	S	S
VA			S		S	S	S	S					S		S
EPA			S	S	S			S		C	S	S	S	S	S
GSA	S	S	S		S	S	C	S		S	S				S

Legend

C	ESF coordinator	FEMA	Federal Emergency Management Agency
DHHS	Department of Health and Human Services	FS	Forest Service
DHS	Department of Homeland Security	GSA	General Services Administration
DOC	Department of Commerce	HUD	Department of Housing and Urban Development
DOD	Department of Defense	NCS	National Communications System
DOE	Department of Energy	P	primary agency
DOI	Department of the Interior	S	support agency
DOJ	Department of Justice	USACE	United States Army Corps of Engineers
DOL	Department of Labor	USAID	United States Agency for International Development
DOS	Department of State	USCG	United States Coast Guard
DOT	Department of Transportation	USDA	United States Department of Agriculture
ED	Department of Education	VA	US Department of Veterans Affairs
EPA	Environmental Protection Agency		
ESF	emergency support function		

Figure A-H-1. Domestic Coordination—Emergency Support Functions

recommended by DOD or DOS), require external funding. A common security-support task is to set up customs academies, which DHS has done several times.

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOUs

(1) Non-Reimbursable Exchange of Liaisons within the National Capitol Region.

(2) Terrorist Watchlist Redress Procedures.

(3) Transition Assistance Program and Disable Transition Assistance Program.

b. MOAs

(1) Military Members of FEMA National IMATS.

(2) Cybersecurity.

(3) Establishment of US Immigration and Customs Enforcement Detail to USSOUTHCOM.

(4) United States Satellite-Aided Search and Rescue System.

(5) National Disaster Medical System.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

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ANNEX I TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF HOUSING AND URBAN DEVELOPMENT

1. Core Mission

a. The US Department of Housing and Urban Development (HUD) creates strong, sustainable, inclusive communities and quality, affordable homes for all. HUD is working to strengthen the housing market to bolster the economy and protect consumers, meet the need for quality affordable rental homes, utilize housing as a platform for improving quality of life, build inclusive and sustainable communities free from discrimination, and transform the way HUD does business.

b. As the designated coordinator of the RSF for housing to the *National Disaster Recovery Framework*, HUD leads the nation's efforts to address pre- and post-disaster housing issues and coordinate the delivery of federal resources and activities to assist local, state, tribal, territorial, and insular area governments as they rehabilitate and reconstruct destroyed and damaged housing, when feasible, and develop new accessible, permanent housing options.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Housing and Urban Development's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interaction

a. Routine: Domestic interactions between HUD and DOD primarily focus on reuse and redevelopment of former military installations.

b. Base Closure Community Redevelopment and Homeless Assistance Act of 1994 (the Redevelopment Act). The Redevelopment Act was designed to accommodate the impacted communities' multiple interests in base reuse and to meet the national priority to assist homeless individuals and families. The law exempted the Base Realignment and Closure Commission installations from the provisions of Title V of the McKinney Act and substituted a community-based process wherein representatives of the homeless and other community groups participate in local reuse planning. The Redevelopment Act places responsibility for base reuse planning in the hands of a local redevelopment authority, which represents all the jurisdictions affected by a closing or realigning installation. The local redevelopment authority is responsible for developing a reuse plan that appropriately balances the needs of the various communities for economic redevelopment, other development, and homeless assistance. HUD then reviews the plan to determine its compliance with the statute. HUD's Office of Community Planning and Development and DOD's Office of the Assistant Secretary for Economic Security jointly developed and published regulations that implement the Redevelopment Act. The regulations, although identical, are found in two locations. HUD's regulations are codified in Title 24, CFR, Section 586, and DOD's version is found at Title 32, CFR, Part 176.

c. Emergency: As the national coordinator of the RSF for housing, the Office of Disaster Coordination is responsible for policy development, direction, coordination, evaluation, and support of departmental programs concerning disaster preparedness, planning, response and recovery, continuity of operations, coordination of interagency emergency response activities, and operation of the HUD Emergency Operations Center. Implementation of response and recovery activities is done by HUD's Office of Field Policy and Management.

For more information, refer to the NRF and the National Disaster Recovery Framework on the Joint Electronic Library ([http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm](http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm)).

d. Foreign: HUD does not typically coordinate with DOD on foreign operations. Within HUD, the Office for International and Philanthropic Innovation coordinates the Department's international exchanges, including diverse bilateral (e.g., Canada and Mexico) and multilateral (e.g., UN and the Organisation for Economic Co-operation and Development) programs concerning issues in housing policy, housing finance, urban development, and the environment. Many current bilateral projects concern resilient design and development for natural disasters.

3. Lessons

Military base reuse and redevelopment: HUD Guidebook on Military Base Reuse and Homeless Assistance (includes case studies and successful outcomes) (http://portal.hud.gov/hudportal/documents/huddoc?id=DOC_17253.pdf).

ANNEX J TO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF JUSTICE

1. Core Mission

a. The mission of DOJ (<http://www.justice.gov>) is to enforce the law and defend the interests of the US according to the law, ensure public safety against threats foreign and domestic, provide federal leadership in preventing and controlling crime, seek just punishment for those guilty of unlawful behavior, and ensure fair and impartial administration of justice for all Americans.

b. DOJ was established by statute in June 1870, with the Attorney General as its head. The Attorney General, as the chief law enforcement officer of the USG, generally represents the US in legal matters and gives advice and opinions to the President and to the heads of the executive departments of the USG, when requested.

c. DOJ is made up of 42 separate components located in the US and abroad. The components with functions and responsibilities most relevant to the DOD mission are Criminal Division; Civil Division; United States Attorney's Offices; National Security Division (NSD); DEA; FBI; Bureau of Alcohol, Tobacco, Firearms, and Explosives; International Criminal Police Organization (INTERPOL); United States National Central Bureau; and the United States Marshals Service.

d. DOJ is the designated coordinator and primary agency for ESF #13, Public Safety and Security. DOJ is also a supporting agency for eight other NRF mission areas as well as a primary or supporting agency for three RSFs in the *National Disaster Recovery Framework*.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Justice's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library ([http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm](http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm)).

2. Interactions

a. **Routine.** DOJ assists DOS in a variety of efforts to promote freedom and security through the rule of law and strategic law enforcement priorities in countries around the world. DOJ officials work with HN counterparts on a variety of tasks, including the establishment a robust judicial infrastructure, providing guidance in the investigation and prosecution of major crimes and acts of terrorism, providing technical assistance to enforcement entities, and training justice personnel on issues ranging from corrections procedures to international human rights laws. This relationship allows DOJ components the ability to establish and maintain liaison with principal law enforcement entities, security services, and foreign governments in their designated foreign country and AOR. DOJ's International Criminal Investigative Training Assistance Program works in close partnership with the DOS, the USAID, and with foreign governments to develop professional and transparent law enforcement institutions that protect human

rights, combat corruption, and reduce the threat of transnational crime and terrorism. Lastly, the Office of Overseas Prosecutorial Development, Assistance, and Training's mission is to assist prosecutors and judicial personnel in other countries develop and sustain effective criminal justice institutions.

(1) Under PPD-1, *Organization of the National Security Council System*, the Attorney General serves as one of the members of the NSC. Additionally, DOJ components participate in classified IPCs and other senior-level planning meetings involving terrorism and other national security issues, advise and assist on development of US policies in bilateral and multilateral discussions with foreign governments and international institutions, advise on foreign legal reforms and work to build the CT capacities of foreign governments, and work to enhance international cooperation on national security and CT issues.

(2) The NSD mission is to carry out, in conjunction with other components, DOJ's highest priority: combatting terrorism and other threats to national security. NSD was established to ensure greater coordination and unity of purpose between prosecutors and LEAs on the one hand, and intelligence attorneys and the IC on the other, thus strengthening the effectiveness of the USG's national security efforts. NSD supports and supervises investigations and prosecutions of cases involving national security, foreign relations, and the export of military and strategic commodities and technology. In carrying out these responsibilities, NSD conducts in coordinated efforts and close collaboration with DOJ leadership, the FBI, the IC, and the US Attorneys' Offices. NSD also coordinates national security-related policy and legislation, and represents DOJ on national security-related IPCs, including the Domestic Resilience Group, the Counterterrorism Security Group, and other IPCs that concern WMD.

(3) The FBI (<http://www.fbi.gov>) is charged with preventing the domestic acquisition of WMD and related technologies and its use against the US or its interests abroad. It has primary responsibility for searching for, finding, and neutralizing WMD within the US and its territories. The FBI also leads and coordinates the domestic operational law enforcement response, on-scene law enforcement, and investigative and intelligence activities related to imminent terrorist threats and/or incidents involving WMD. In addition, the FBI has lead responsibility for the investigation of terrorist acts or terrorist threats, to include those involving WMD, directed at US citizens, interests, or institutions abroad, where such acts are within the federal criminal jurisdiction of the US. The FBI maintains the national fingerprint and criminal history repository and is in the forefront in the identification of known or suspected terrorists, criminals, and other threat personnel or persons of interest. The DOJ increased its multi-agency efforts to counter the ever-growing threat posed by the illegal foreign acquisition of controlled US military and strategic technologies. A significant percentage of export control and embargo-related criminal prosecutions involve the transfer of controlled US technology to Iran or China. DOJ combats drug trafficking by those who use the profits to fund terrorist activities, with a particular focus in Afghanistan and Pakistan. The FBI created the CBRNE [Chemical, Biological, Radiological, Nuclear, and High-Yield Explosives] Sub-Directorate within INTERPOL, Lyon, France, providing global law enforcement capability building to detect and neutralize WMD threats by offering access to WMD

subject matter expertise, WMD threat and trend information, operational guidance, and training involving tripwire development to detect WMD threats and the response for their disruption and resolution.

(4) The DEA's (<http://www.justice.gov/dea/index.html>) mission is to enforce the controlled substances laws and regulations of the US and bring to the criminal and civil justice system of the US, or any other competent jurisdiction, those organizations and principal members of organizations involved in the growth, manufacture, or distribution of controlled substances appearing in, or destined for, illicit traffic in the US. The mission features coordination and cooperation with federal, state, and local law enforcement officials on mutual drug enforcement efforts, and enhancement of such efforts through exploitation of potential interstate and international investigations beyond local or limited federal jurisdictions and resources.

(5) The Office of Legal Counsel reviews for form and legality all proposed executive orders, certain presidential proclamations, and regulations requiring approval and execution by the President. In times of national emergency or crises, the President may use these mechanisms to provide for necessary or appropriate actions to address the emergency, such as augmenting active Armed Forces by calling up members of the Reserve Component. Through its review, the Office of Legal Counsel ensures the legal intricacies and implications of the proposed actions are understood and legal requirements are followed.

(6) As the designated coordinator and primary agency for ESF #13, domestic interorganizational cooperation between the DOJ and DOD is centered on the integration of public safety and security capabilities and resources to support the full range of incident management activities. This responsibility has been delegated to the Bureau of Alcohol, Tobacco, Firearms, and Explosives.

For more information, refer to the NRF and the National Disaster Recovery Framework on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

b. **Contingency.** During the operations in Iraq and Afghanistan, DOJ expanded its capabilities to deploy personnel in unprecedented numbers, making it the third largest civilian contributor behind USAID and DOS. DOJ was on the ground from the beginning in both theaters with FBI agents deploying to Afghanistan in 2001 to support the CT mission and a rule of law assessment team of 32 personnel joining US military forces in Iraq in May 2003. DOJ eventually took overall responsibility for rule of law efforts in Iraq in 2007 and at the height of its operations there maintained more than 200 DOJ employees and contract personnel. To oversee operations at the departmental level, the position of Counsel to the Deputy Attorney General for Rule of Law, Iraq was established in 2007 and broadened in 2009 to include oversight of DOJ activities in Afghanistan. DOJ's efforts in Afghanistan peaked in 2011 at over 200 personnel.

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

- a. MOU. Terrorist Watchlist Redress Procedures.
- b. MOA. Assignment of Personnel.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX K TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF THE INTERIOR

1. Core Mission

a. The DOI protects and manages the nation's natural resources and cultural heritage; provides scientific and other information about those resources; and honors the nation's trust responsibilities or special commitments to American Indians, Alaska Natives, and affiliated island communities.

b. The DOI is the steward of 20 percent of the nation's lands, including national parks, national wildlife refuges, and other public lands; manages resources that supply 23 percent of the nation's energy; supplies and manages water in the 17 Western states; supplies 17 percent of the nation's hydropower energy; and upholds federal trust responsibilities to 566 federally recognized Indian tribes and Alaska Natives.

c. The DOI is responsible for migratory bird and wildlife conservation; historic preservation; endangered species conservation; surface-mine lands protection and restoration; mapping, geological, hydrological, and biological science for the nation; and financial and technical assistance for the insular areas.

d. As the primary agency for protection of NCH, one of the five mission areas under ESF #11, Agriculture and Natural Resources, to the NRF, DOI leads the nation's efforts to protect NCH through appropriate response actions. This includes providing post event assessments of damages and providing technical assistance and resources for assessing impacts of response activities on NCH resources.

e. Office of International Affairs: In 1995, USAID and DOI established the DOI International Technical Assistance Program to provide capacity building in other countries using the diverse expertise of DOI bureaus. DOI expertise is tapped from a wide range of subject areas (http://www.doi.gov/intl/itap/upload/ITAP_General.pdf).

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Interior's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interaction

a. Routine: Domestic interactions between DOI and DOD primarily focus on land acquisition, land disposal, real property, and other land transactions (e.g., Bureau of Land Management withdrawn lands for military use); cleanup of contamination on military legacy sites including but not limited to formerly used defense sites and former battlefields; and coordination of environmental documentation. Current projects with DOD are primarily related to the impending military build-up in Guam and the CNMI along with other projects affecting the environment and invasive species. The Office of Insular Affairs (OIA) provides administrative and oversight responsibilities for seven US-

affiliated territories and freely associated states (i.e. American Samoa, Guam, the US Virgin Islands, the CNMI, the Federated States of Micronesia, the Republic of the Marshall Islands, and the Republic of Palau, hereafter referred to as insular areas). Additionally, OIA coordinates closely with other federal agencies that provide grant funding and services to the insular areas, particularly for critical services such as health, education, public safety, emergency management, and economic development. Coordination with DOD includes:

(1) Planning and USPACOM exercises, as well as US Pacific Fleet-led planning for Pacific Partnership 2013 relative to activities in the Republic of the Marshall Islands and Pacific Partnership 2014, given planned activities in the Federated States of Micronesia.

(2) Coordinate regularly with the Joint Guam Program Office and Marine Forces Pacific, Defense Policy Review Initiative since 2013, for the respective Guam Military Realignment Supplemental Environmental Impact Statement and the CNMI Joint Military Training Environmental Impact Statement.

(3) Participate as a cooperating agency in preparation of its CNMI's Joint Military Training Environmental Impact Statement, which will develop and analyze range and training area alternatives to satisfy USPACOM Service components' unfilled unit-level and combined-level military training requirements in the CNMI.

(4) DOD's Joint Committee Meeting: OIA has discussions with the DOD Joint Committee Meeting regarding its annual meetings with the Federated States of Micronesia and the Republic of the Marshall Islands.

(5) Cultural Repository for Guam: DOD's Office of Economic Adjustment is responsible for the Guam Cultural Repository initiative and other similar Guam investments. One scope of work is Cultural Repository Planning and Programming which, in part, requires the performance-based contract consultant to coordinate meetings with OIA, National Park Service, and design service centers (Denver, Colorado, and Harpers Ferry, West Virginia) to seek or solicit their subject area expertise (curation of artifacts and remains).

(6) Regional Biosecurity Plan for Micronesia and Hawaii (Invasive): The University of Guam and the Secretariat of the Pacific Community are facilitating the Regional Biosecurity Plan for Micronesia and Hawaii. The Regional Biosecurity Plan was developed to evaluate invasive species risks to marine, terrestrial, and freshwater ecosystems in Micronesia and Hawaii (in regard to its linkages with Micronesia) and to make recommendations to remove or minimize and manage these risks.

(7) Brown Treesnake Program. The Brown Treesnake Program is a multi-agency program to prevent the spread of the Brown Treesnake, which infests Guam. OIA funds the interdiction on the commercial ports as well as research, and DOD funds the interdiction on US military bases. Participating USG departments and agencies include the US Geological Survey and USDA.

(8) Interagency Agreement for the Provision of Temporary Support During Wildland Firefighting Operations among the United States Department of the Interior, the United States Department of Agriculture, and the United States Department of Defense (<http://www.nifc.gov/nicc/mobguide/CHAPTER40.pdf> on page 75). The *National Interagency Fire Center Military Use Handbook* may be useful for military support to firefighting (http://www.nifc.gov/nicc/predictive/intelligence/military/Military_Use_Handbook_2006_2.pdf).

b. Emergency: The Office of Emergency Management establishes and disseminates policy, and coordinates the development of bureau and office programs for an integrated and comprehensive program that spans the continuum of prevention, planning, response, and recovery. The program encompasses all types of hazards and emergencies that impact federal lands, facilities, infrastructure, and resources; tribal lands and insular areas; the ability of the DOI to execute essential functions; and for which assistance is provided to other units of government under federal laws, executive orders, interagency emergency response plans (e.g., the NRF), and other agreements. Additionally, the Office of Emergency Management operates the Interior Operations Center. The Interior Operations Center serves as the focal point for reporting significant incidents to the Secretary of the Interior; sharing of emergency information with the National Operations Center, DHS, and other USG departments and agencies; and the dissemination of alerts, warnings, and other emergency information to DOI bureaus and offices.

(1) DOI designated duties under the NRF include primary agent for ESF #9, Urban Search and Rescue, primary agent for ESF #11, Agriculture and Natural Resources. Additionally, DOI has further responsibilities as a designated support agency for all other ESFs.

(2) Under the National Disaster Recovery Framework, DOI is designated as coordinator of the RSF for Natural and Cultural Resources, primary agent under Health and Human Services RSF, and as support to the other four RSFs.

For more information, refer to the National Response Framework and the National Disaster Recovery Framework on the Joint Electronic Library <http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

c. Foreign: The Office of International Affairs of DOI supports and coordinates the international activities of DOI. As the primary natural resource conservation agency and a leading science agency of the US, DOI conducts international activities that advance its mission and strengthen complementary US foreign policy priorities. The Office of International Affairs supports the work of DOI and its bureaus in over 100 countries on conservation and management of wildlife and other natural resources, protection of cultural resources, cooperation on indigenous affairs, and scientific research and monitoring of natural hazards such as volcanoes and earthquakes. International activities include protected area management, cultural resources management, environmental education, endangered species conservation, visitor services, recreation management, fire management, invasive species control, minerals management, reclamation of mined lands, including abandoned mine lands, ecotourism, wildlife law enforcement, resource

interpretation, park infrastructure, concessionaires management, community outreach, multiple-use management, water resources (http://www.doi.gov/intl/itap/upload/ITAP_General.pdf).

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOUs

(1) Promote the Conservation of Migratory Birds.

(2) Interagency Coordination and Collaboration for the Protection of Indian Sacred Sites.

b. MOAs

(1) Acquisition Services.

(2) Native Languages.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX LTO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF LABOR

1. Core Mission

a. DOL (<http://www.dol.gov>) fosters and promotes the welfare of the job seekers, wage earners, and retirees of the US by improving their working conditions; advancing their opportunities for profitable employment; protecting their retirement and health care benefits; helping employers find workers; strengthening free collective bargaining; and tracking changes in employment, prices, and other national economic measurements. In carrying out this mission, DOL administers a variety of federal labor laws, including those that assure safe and healthful working conditions, a minimum hourly wage and overtime pay, freedom from employment discrimination and equal opportunity through affirmative action, unemployment insurance, and other income support. DOL can provide valuable insight through labor statistics, occupational safety and health, and other agencies that will promote recovery from war or other disasters. DOD contractors at overseas locations are required to comply with DOL regulations. Bringing DOL into the interagency process better ensures quality performance of DOD contractors.

b. The DOL's authority arose from the Organic Act of the Department of Labor, Public Law 426-62 (1913), which created DOL and the initial group of divisions within DOL. Over the years, numerous statutes (e.g., the Fair Labor Standards Act [Title 29, USC, Section 201] and the Occupational Safety and Health Act of 1970 [Title 29, USC, Section 651]) have added to DOL's authority.

c. The Office of Federal Contract Compliance Programs has jurisdiction over federal contractors and subcontractors for discrimination and affirmative action issues (but not the Age Discrimination and Employment Act) when these employers hire workers in the US to perform work abroad (Title 41, CFR, Parts 60-1.5,1; 60-1.10). In addition, contractors working outside the country on a US military base or under a contract with the USG for public works or national defense may be covered by the Defense Base Act (Title 42, USC, Section 1651). This law extends the benefits of the Longshore and Harbor Workers' Compensation Act (Title 33, USC, Section 901) to certain categories of civilian workers employed overseas. The Office of Federal Contract Compliance Programs has jurisdiction over federal contractors and subcontractors for the purposes of enforcing nondiscrimination and affirmative action laws. Contractors and subcontractors within Office of Federal Contract Compliance Programs' jurisdiction are prohibited from discriminating in employment based on race, color, religion, sex, sexual orientation, gender identity, national origin, disability, and status as a protected veteran. These employers are also prohibited from discriminating or taking adverse employment actions because an employee or job applicant made certain disclosures or inquiries about his or her pay or the pay of a coworker. Finally, these employers are required to take affirmative action to recruit, hire, pay, train, and promote workers for a diverse workforce. Workers hired in the US to perform work abroad are protected by these nondiscrimination and affirmative action laws (Title 41, CFR, Part 60).

d. The Bureau of International Labor Affairs (ILAB) is one of the few DOL organizations with the authority to operate internationally. ILAB's mission is to use all available international channels to improve working conditions, raise living standards, protect workers' ability to exercise their rights, and address the workplace exploitation of children and other vulnerable populations.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual, (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of Labor's Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/doctrine.htm>).

2. Interaction

a. DOD may likely coordinate with the ILAB, which leads the DOL's efforts to ensure that workers around the world are treated fairly and are able to share in the benefits of the global economy.

b. DOL is a supporting agency to 10 ESFs and two of the six RSFs.

For more information, refer to the NRF and the National Disaster Recovery Framework on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

MOUs

a. Veteran's Employment and Training Service.

b. Transition Assistance Program and Disable Transition Assistance Program.

For more information on MOUs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX M TO APPENDIX A

DEPARTMENT OF STATE

1. Core Missions

a. DOS (<http://www.state.gov/>) is responsible for planning and implementing foreign policy. The Secretary of State, the ranking member of the Cabinet and fourth in line of presidential succession, is the President's principal advisor on foreign policy and the person chiefly responsible for US representation abroad.

b. Under the US Constitution, the President has the authority to make treaties, to receive foreign emissaries, to appoint diplomatic and consular officials, and to exercise other authorities provided by legislation. DOS's mission is to advance freedom by helping to build and sustain a more democratic, secure, and prosperous world composed of well-governed states that respond to the needs of their people, reduce widespread poverty, and act responsibly within the international system.

c. DOS manages America's relationships with foreign governments, international organizations, and the people of other countries. As the lead foreign affairs agency, DOS has the primary role in leading the coordination to develop and implement foreign policy; managing the foreign affairs budget and other foreign affairs resources; leading and coordinating US representation abroad; conveying US foreign policy to foreign governments and international organizations through US embassies and consulates; conducting negotiations and concluding agreements and treaties; and coordinating and supporting international activities of other USG departments and agencies and officials. All foreign affairs activities (e.g., US representation abroad, foreign assistance programs, countering international crime, foreign military training programs, the services DOS provides, and more) are paid for by the foreign affairs budget.

d. The COM coordinates the efforts of the country team to achieve a unified, consistent foreign policy toward the HN. The US has diplomatic relations with most countries and with many international organizations. DOS takes the lead role in maintaining and improving relationships with these countries and organizations. A US mission is the basic unit for the conduct of bilateral diplomacy with foreign governments overseas. They are headed by a COM, normally an ambassador, who is a presidential appointee and the President's personal representative. As such, the COM is the senior US official in the country. By law, COMs coordinate, direct, and supervise all USG activities and representatives posted in the foreign country to which they are accredited. COMs do not, however, exercise control of US personnel attached to, and working for, the head of a US mission to an international organization (e.g., US Ambassador to NATO) or US military personnel operating under the command of a CCDR.

e. A key DOS function is assembling coalitions to provide military forces for US-led multinational operations. In coordination with the NSC and DOD, DOS contacts foreign governments at the highest level to request participation of their forces in planned multinational operations. When forces are offered, DOS formally accepts them from the foreign government and arranges for military-to-military contact.

f. The DOS's HQ provides policy guidance to DOS and USAID. Subordinate to the Secretary of State are two deputy secretaries and six under secretaries, who manage and coordinate the foreign policy process. There is an under secretary for each of the following: political affairs; economic growth, energy, and environment; arms control and international security; civilian security, democracy, and human rights; management; and public diplomacy and public affairs. The Director of US Foreign Assistance Resources is charged with directing the transformation of the USG approach to foreign assistance.

g. DOS is organized into six regional bureaus, each responsible to the Under Secretary for Political Affairs, to formulate and implement regional foreign policy and bilateral policy toward each individual country of the world (African Affairs, East Asian and Pacific Affairs, European and Eurasian Affairs, Near Eastern Affairs, Western Hemisphere Affairs, South and Central Asian Affairs). The other bureau responsible to the Under Secretary for Political Affairs is the Bureau of International Organization Affairs, which formulates and implements multilateral foreign policy toward international organizations, particularly the agencies of the UN. The other bureaus in DOS are functionally oriented; their assistant secretaries are responsible to other Under Secretaries for specific matters. Bureaus are subdivided into offices headed by directors.

h. DOS relies on the Foreign Service, a corps of career foreign affairs experts, to operate its overseas missions, formulate foreign policy, and perform diplomatic exchanges.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of State and USAID Strategic Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Interactions

a. DOS's principal role in its relationship with DOD is to ensure that defense activities support national foreign policy and to facilitate defense activities overseas. In performance of the first role, DOS attends interagency meetings, responds to requests from JS and OSD for foreign policy reviews of DOD proposed activities, and alerts DOD to defense activities of foreign policy concerns that have come to DOS's attention. In its role as facilitator of defense activities overseas, DOS approaches foreign governments through high-level visits, diplomatic representations by US missions overseas, or contact with foreign government representatives in the US to negotiate agreements or obtain authorization for defense activities in the foreign country. In recognition of the impact that DOD activities have on US foreign affairs, DOS has assigned a single bureau, Bureau of Political-Military Affairs (PM), to be its primary interface with DOD. PM manages POLMIL relations throughout the world, including training and assistance for foreign militaries, and works to maintain global access for US military forces. DOS is the coordinator of the process for interagency consideration of proposals to enter into treaties or other formal agreements with foreign governments, known as the Circular 175 process (*US Department of State Foreign Affairs Manual, Volume 11—Political Affairs*, chapter 720). DOS also provides the support structure for the representatives of DOD,

DOC, USDA, DOJ, DHS, the Peace Corps, USAID, and other USG foreign affairs agencies to enable them to conduct US relations with foreign governments and international organizations. Generally, each COM has an agreement with the GCC delineating which DOD personnel fall under the responsibility of each for security. In addition, more than 1,300 US Marines are under OPCON of DOS COMs as Marine security guards.

b. Several bureaus and offices have frequent interaction with DOD. DOS's principal link to DOD is PM. PM provides guidance and coordinates policy formulation on national security issues (e.g., regional stability, security assistance to foreign military partners, military operations and arms transfers, and defense trade). It works closely with regional and functional experts from across DOS, CCMD planners, the JS, and OSD to ensure high-level DOD planning is informed by DOS expertise and remains consonant with US foreign policy as articulated by the Secretary of State. PM is the DOS lead for defense trade controls, defense relations, security assistance and cooperation, military operations and exercises, diplomatic clearance approvals for foreign ships and aircraft entering the US and its territories, conventional weapons destruction including humanitarian demining assistance, man-portable air-defense systems threat reduction, and analyzing broad trends in international security affairs to determine their effect on US policies. It serves as principal liaison with the DOD on policy and planning issues. It is responsible for developing, managing, and implementing military security cooperation programs and providing advice on crisis management, military operations, base access and pre-positioning of US materiel. PM provides overall direction for the fulfillment of DOS's responsibilities for the State-Defense Exchange Program and for POLADs assigned to military commands, the Pentagon, and JIACGs (or equivalent organization) (<http://www.state.gov/t/pm/>).

c. Other bureaus and offices that frequently interact with DOD include:

(1) The Bureau of Intelligence and Research analyzes geographical and international boundary issues; it is a member of the IC. The Humanitarian Information Unit inside the bureau serves as a USG interagency center to identify, collect, analyze, and disseminate all-source information critical to USG decision makers. Its staff is composed of personnel from DOS, USAID, DOD, NGA, and others (<http://www.state.gov/s/inr/>).

(2) The Bureau of Counterterrorism interacts with DOD via the US Counterterrorism Team (<http://www.state.gov/j/ct/index.htm>).

(3) Bureau of International Security and Nonproliferation, (<http://www.state.gov/t/isn/index.htm>).

(4) PRM (<http://www.state.gov/j/prm/>). The bureau is a major source of US HA overseas and manages the admission of refugees to the US. Its mission is to provide protection, ease suffering, and resolve the plight of persecuted and uprooted people around the world on behalf of the American people by providing life-sustaining assistance, working through multilateral systems to build global partnerships, promoting

best practices in humanitarian response, and ensuring humanitarian principles are thoroughly integrated into US foreign and national security policy. The bureau has primary responsibility within the USG for formulating policies on population, refugees, and migration, and administering and evaluating US refugee assistance and admissions programs. PRM leads bilateral and multilateral negotiations to facilitate refugee voluntary repatriation, local integration, and resettlement. PRM's primary international partners are the UNHCR, ICRC, UN Relief and Works Agency for Palestine Refugees in the Near East, and IOM. PRM also funds NGOs to fill critical gaps in multilateral programs. The bureau is an active member in the USIP Civil-Military Working Group. Through this cooperative consortium, PRM works with the other USG departments and agencies (e.g., DOD and USAID), international organizations, and NGOs to raise humanitarian issues. Through PRM's diplomatic engagements, it advocates for military and non-state actor adherence to humanitarian principles of neutrality, impartiality, and independence in order to maximize humanitarian security and access.

(5) Bureau of Diplomatic Security (<http://www.state.gov/m/ds/>).

(6) Bureau of International Narcotics and Law Enforcement Affairs (<http://www.state.gov/j/inl/>).

(7) CSO (<http://www.state.gov/j/cso/>).

(8) The DOD State Partnership Program.

(9) Threat Finance Cell. IAW DODD 5205.14, *DOD Counter Threat Finance (CTF) Policy*, the DOD works with other USG departments and agencies and with partner nations to deny, disrupt, or defeat and degrade adversaries' ability to use global financial networks to negatively affect US interests.

d. Domestic: A domestic incident may have international and diplomatic implications that call for coordination and consultation with foreign governments and international organizations. The Secretary of State is responsible for all communication and coordination between the USG and other nations regarding the response to a domestic crisis. DOS also coordinates international offers of assistance and formally accepts or declines these offers on behalf of the USG based on needs conveyed by USG departments and agencies as stated in the International Coordination Support Annex.

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOU. Terrorist Watchlist Redress Procedures.

b. MOA. Protection and Evacuation of US Citizens and Nationals and Designated Other Persons from Threatened Areas Overseas.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX N TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF THE TREASURY

1. Core Mission

a. The Department of the Treasury (<http://www.treasury.gov>) serves the American people and strengthens national security by managing the USG's finances effectively; promoting economic growth and stability; and ensuring the safety, soundness, and security of the US financial system.

b. The Department of the Treasury is the executive agency responsible for promoting economic prosperity and ensuring the financial security of the US. They are responsible for a wide range of activities such as advising the President on economic and financial issues, encouraging sustainable economic growth, and fostering improved governance in financial institutions. The Department of the Treasury operates and maintains systems that are critical to the nation's financial infrastructure (e.g., production of coin and currency, disbursement of payments to the American public, revenue collection, and borrowing of funds necessary to run the USG). The Department of the Treasury works with other USG departments and agencies, foreign governments, and international financial institutions to encourage global economic growth, raise standards of living, and, to the extent possible, predict and prevent economic and financial crises. They also perform a critical and far-reaching role in enhancing national security by implementing economic sanctions against foreign threats to the US, identifying and targeting the financial support networks of national security threats, and improving the safeguards of our financial systems.

c. The Department of the Treasury is organized into two major components: the departmental offices and the operating bureaus. Departmental offices are primarily responsible for the formulation of policy and management for the Department of the Treasury as a whole, while the operating bureaus carry out the specific operations assigned to the Department of the Treasury.

d. The Department of the Treasury's Office of Terrorism and Financial Intelligence is the department's main interlocutor with other USG departments and agencies focused on national security. Its mission is to marshal the department's intelligence and enforcement functions with the twin aims of safeguarding the financial system against illicit use and combating rogue nations, terrorist facilitators, WMD proliferators, money launderers, drug kingpins, and other national security threats. Financial networks underlie all of these threats, and are sources of valuable intelligence and present vulnerabilities that can be exploited. Other components within the Office of Terrorism and Financial Intelligence include the Office of Terrorist Financing and Financial Crimes, the Office of Foreign Assets Control, the Office of Intelligence and Analysis, the Financial Crimes Enforcement Network, and the Department of the Treasury Executive Office for Asset Forfeiture.

For more information, refer to the United States Government Manual (<http://www.usgovernmentmanual.gov>) and the Department of the Treasury's Strategic

Plan on the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

2. Coordination and the Joint Force Commander

a. **Overseas.** Economic warfare has always been part of US history and national security. As such, the Department of the Treasury has an inherent international mission beyond its more traditional domestic financial focus. Specifically, the Department of the Treasury's role in developing and monitoring the nation's sanction programs and other financial tools has been the purview of the department since the Civil War, and the department has supported national security strategies during both World Wars, the Cold War, and today's contingencies. In short, the Department of the Treasury's powers and functions are an ensconced part of the USG's approach to national security. As the nature of conflict and international relations has changed, the use of these tools and the development of new techniques and capacities have evolved.

(1) Arrangements with bodies like the Group of 20, the Egmont Group, multilateral development banks, the Financial Stability Board, and international financial institutions provide the Department of the Treasury with flexible vehicles to address emerging global challenges and assist strategically important countries. For example, the Office of Terrorist Financing and Financial Crimes leads the USG delegation to the Financial Action Task Force, an intergovernmental body that has developed leading global standards for combating money laundering and terrorist financing. At the bilateral level, the Department of the Treasury has attachés in US embassies throughout the world to collaborate with foreign counterpart agencies to advance US policies in the economic and illicit finance arenas. The Department of the Treasury also conducts targeted outreach with the international financial sector to foreign financial institutions and bankers' associations to better understand the illicit finance risks in the international financial system.

(2) **Office of Technical Assistance (OTA).** OTA came into existence based on the perceived national security interest of the US in supporting the development of the newly independent Eastern European states. Founded in the post-Cold war era, OTA was charged with supporting the development of strong financial sectors and sound public financial management in countries where assistance is needed and there is a strong commitment to reform.

(a) **OTA in Iraq and Afghanistan.** Iraq and Afghanistan were unique missions for OTA. Both were extraordinary situations involving post-intervention stabilization and state building, rather than the more conventional long-term institution strengthening that OTA advisors support. In 2003, OTA established the Iraq Financial Reconstruction Task Force made up of DOS and OTA officials. In 2008, this became the Iraq and Afghanistan Financial Reconstruction Task Force. Early on, DOD funds were transferred to DOS that were, in turn, transferred to OTA to fund its efforts and personnel. Later in the operations, OTA got its funding directly from DOS and USAID.

(b) Unlike the retrenchment seen in other primarily domestic focused agencies, OTA continues to provide expeditionary capabilities. The Department of the Treasury's International Affairs Technical Assistance program essentially ensconced the Department of the Treasury's OTA mission into the overall US national security policy. There is a strong enduring appetite for what OTA's cadre of advisors brings to developing countries and they are viewed as extremely effective in achieving their goals. Despite the US drawdown in Iraq and Afghanistan, OTA continues its mission working across five continents in 33 countries.

b. **Domestic Support.** The Department of the Treasury regularly interacts with the US financial sector, including through the Bank Secrecy Act Advisory Group. This entity consists of representatives from regulatory agencies and LEAs, financial institutions, and trade associations who advise the Department of the Treasury on anti-money laundering and counterterrorist financing policy. Further, Financial Crimes Enforcement Network administers Section 314 of the USA PATRIOT [Uniting and Strengthening America by Providing Appropriate Tools Required to Intercept and Obstruct Terrorism] Act, which provides for enhanced information sharing among government, law enforcement, and the financial sector. Within the USG, the Department of the Treasury is also a member of national security-focused interagency working groups like the threat mitigation working group, has representatives posted with law enforcement task forces, and deploys personnel to organizations such as the CIA, FBI, ODNI, United States Central Command (USCENTCOM), USEUCOM, USPACOM, and USSOUTHCOM. These liaisons serve as valuable POCs and provide guidance, advice, and expertise to these organizations regarding the Department of the Treasury-related matters.

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

- a. MOU. Detail Personnel.
- b. MOA. Information Sharing, Coordination, Planning and Joint Actions.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

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ANNEX O TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF TRANSPORTATION

1. Core Mission

a. DOT (<http://www.dot.gov>) serves the US by ensuring a fast, safe, efficient, accessible, and convenient transportation system that meets our vital national interests and enhances the quality of life of the American people, today and into the future. The national objectives of general welfare, economic growth and stability, and security of the US require the development of transportation policies and programs that contribute to providing fast, safe, efficient, and convenient transportation at the lowest cost consistent with those and other national objectives, including the efficient use and conservation of the resources of the US.

b. DOT consists of the Office of the Secretary of Transportation, the Surface Transportation Board, and 10 operating administrations that are organized generally by mode of travel (e.g., air, rail, and other methods): Federal Aviation Administration (FAA), Federal Highway Administration, Federal Motor Carrier Safety Administration, Federal Railroad Administration, Federal Transit Administration, MARAD, National Highway Traffic Safety Administration, Saint Lawrence Seaway Development Corporation, Pipeline and Hazardous Materials Safety Administration, and Research and Innovative Technology Administration.

c. The Office of the Secretary of Transportation oversees the formulation of national transportation policy and promotes intermodal transportation. Other responsibilities include negotiating and implementing international transportation agreements, ensuring the fitness of US airlines, enforcing airline consumer-protection regulations, issuing regulations to prevent alcohol and illegal drug misuse in transportation systems, and preparing transportation legislation.

(1) **NATO Civil Emergency Planning/Transport Group.** The Office of the Secretary of Transportation is the US representative to the NATO Civil Emergency Planning/Transport Group. The NATO Civil Emergency Planning/Transport Group and the related sub-groups, comprised of representatives and civil transportation experts from NATO member and partner nations, are responsible for the civil emergency planning process to acquire and deploy transportation resources to support NATO operations. This emergency planning process is accomplished in coordination with other USG departments and agencies, NATO member and partner nations, and NATO military authorities. The planning process includes relevant crisis management arrangements, training, and exercises for the planners and civil experts. The Office of Intelligence, Security, and Emergency Response (within the Office of the Secretary of Transportation) serves as the US direct representative in the NATO Transport Group for Civil Aviation. It coordinates US participation in the other transport subgroups to promote the national interest and provide leadership to resolve relevant issues in the acquisition and deployment of resources and services.

(2) **Civil Reserve Air Fleet.** The Civil Reserve Air Fleet is a cooperative, voluntary program involving DOT, DOD, and the US civil air carrier industry in a partnership to augment DOD airlift capability during a national defense-related crisis. Air carriers volunteer their aircraft to the program through contractual agreements with DOD's Air Mobility Command and, in return, the participating carriers are given preference in carrying commercial peacetime cargo and passenger traffic for DOD. The Office of Intelligence, Security, and Emergency Response administers the allocation of specifically requested civil aircraft to the Civil Reserve Air Fleet program pursuant to the delegated authority under Section 101 of the Defense Production Act (Title 50, USC, Section 4511). Upon SecDef approval, Commander, USTRANSCOM, is the activation authority for Civil Reserve Air Fleet during national emergencies and defense-oriented situations when expanded civil augmentation of military aircraft is required. Title 10, USC, Section 9511a, gives SecDef authority to establish Civil Reserve Air Fleet rate determination.

d. **FAA.** The mission of the FAA is to provide the safest, most efficient aerospace system in the world. The FAA is the lead agency for aviation safety regulation and oversight and is responsible for the operation and maintenance (to include personnel, physical assets, and cyberspace) of the Air Traffic Control System (Title 49, USC, Subtitle VII, Aviation Programs). Title 49, USC, provides FAA with full authority to operate and maintain air navigation facilities and to provide the facilities and personnel needed to regulate and protect air traffic. The FAA supports national security, law enforcement, and aviation security through provision of air traffic management security services. This includes operation of the United States Domestic Events Network that enables more than 200 interagency partners to immediately react to security threats in the air domain. The FAA also protects US aircraft operations outside the US through advisories and Special Federal Aviation Regulations that simply advise operators of threats or prohibit flight operations in certain high-threat areas. FAA has primary responsibility for its own internal security, including the security of its facilities. Any movement in the navigable airspace of the US can be stopped, redirected, or excluded by the FAA, regardless of the commodity involved (Title 49, USC, Section 40103). Additionally, the FAA can order US-flag air carriers not to enter designated airspace of a foreign country (e.g., to keep airspace clear for rescue operations). If FAA determines that an emergency exists related to safety in air commerce that requires immediate action, FAA may prescribe regulations and issue orders immediately to meet that emergency (Title 49, USC, Section 46105[c]). FAA can also enforce a grant assurance made by all airports receiving FAA airport grant funds (approximately 3,300 airports including all major US airports) that the airport sponsor will not temporarily close the airport for a non-aeronautical purpose without prior DOT approval (Title 49, USC, Section 47107[a][8]).

(1) The safety mission of the FAA is first and foremost and includes the issuance and enforcement of regulations and standards related to the manufacture, operation, certification, and maintenance of aircraft. The agency is responsible for the rating and certification of airmen and for certification of airports serving air carriers. It also regulates a program to protect the security of civil aviation, and enforces regulations under the Hazardous Materials Transportation Act for shipments by air. The FAA, which

operates a network of airport towers, air route traffic control centers, and flight service stations, develops air traffic rules, allocates the use of airspace, and provides for the emergency security control of air traffic to meet national defense requirements. Other responsibilities include the construction or installation of visual and electronic aids to air navigation and promotion of aviation safety internationally. The FAA, which regulates and encourages the US commercial space transportation industry, also licenses commercial space launch facilities and private sector launches.

(2) The FAA is responsible for all DOD flight inspection requirements. Through a MOA, the USAF maintains a staff of active and reserve aircrews to perform flight inspection missions worldwide, including missions in support of combat and contingency operations. The DOD Flight Inspection office coordinates flight inspection requirements and develops national policy for the conduct of flight inspection of all navigation aids and air traffic control facilities owned or controlled by the DOD throughout the world.

(3) The FAA leads and supports the development of civil aviation systems worldwide (e.g., Afghanistan). Civil air traffic control systems have numerous military applications and provide significant economic advantages to a partner nation.

e. **MARAD.** MARAD (<http://www.marad.dot.gov/>) promotes development and maintenance of an adequate, well-balanced, US merchant marine, including vessels and well-trained US citizen mariners, sufficient to carry the nation's domestic waterborne commerce and a substantial portion of its waterborne foreign commerce, and capable of serving as a naval and military auxiliary in time of war or national emergency. MARAD also seeks to ensure the US enjoys adequate shipbuilding and repair service, efficient ports, effective intermodal water and land transportation systems, and reserve shipping capacity in time of national emergency.

(1) **Military Cargoes.** MARAD initiates and recommends regulations and procedures for the DOD to follow in administering cargo preference requirements. Program efforts concentrate on meetings and discussions with DOD component commands, contractors, suppliers, freight forwarders, and shipping companies to focus attention on meeting the needs of all constituents within the context of US-flag carriage requirements. Cargo shipping for DOD is subject to the Military Cargo Preference Act of 1904. This law requires that items procured for, intended for use by, or owned by military departments or defense agencies must be carried exclusively on US-flag vessels, if available, at reasonable rates. Most DOD containerized cargo is booked on US-flag vessels by the Military Surface Deployment and Distribution Command for the various DOD shipper services as part of the Defense Transportation System. Shipping via the Defense Transportation System allows DOD shippers access to pre-negotiated ocean shipping contracts providing cost and convenience benefits. By formal agreement, MARAD acts as the determiner of US-flag vessel availability for military cargoes shipping outside the Defense Transportation System.

(2) **NATO Transport Group (Ocean Shipping).** MARAD is the US representative to NATO's Transport Group (Ocean Shipping). Additionally, MARAD's

Office of Operations and Emergency Response provides the Secretariat for Transport Group (Ocean Shipping), and the Associate Administrator for Strategic Sealift serves as the Chairman. Transport Group (Ocean Shipping) provides technical guidance and advice to Supreme Headquarters Allied Powers, Europe and NATO HQ on maritime security, the commercial maritime industry, war risk insurance and the market for militarily useful vessels. All other sealift activities in peacetime are solely a national responsibility.

(3) **Maritime Security Program (MSP).** The MSP is a fleet of active, commercially viable, militarily useful, privately owned vessels to meet national defense and other security requirements. Participating operators are required to make their ships and commercial transportation resources available, upon request by SecDef, during times of war or national emergency. Commander, USTRANSCOM, has been designated as the DOD representative for administration of the MSP and Title IX (of the 1936 Merchant Marine Act) Ship Loan Guarantee Program. The program maintains a modern US-flag fleet providing military access to vessels and vessel capacity, as well as a total global, intermodal transportation network. This network includes not only vessels, but also logistics management services, infrastructure, terminals facilities, and US citizen merchant mariners to crew the commercial fleets. All MSP vessels are required to enroll in the Voluntary Intermodal Sealift Agreement (VISA).

(4) **VISA.** The VISA program is a partnership between the USG and the maritime industry. This program provides the DOD with “assured access” to commercial sealift and intermodal capacity to support the emergency deployment and sustainment of US military forces. Intermodal capacity includes dry cargo ships and crews, equipment, terminal facilities, and intermodal management services. The VISA program provides for a time-phased activation of state-of-the-art commercial intermodal equipment to coincide with DOD requirements, while minimizing disruption to US commercial operations. The VISA program includes MSP vessels as well as other US flag dry cargo vessels operating in international and domestic trades. The program can be activated in three stages, as determined by DOD, with each stage representing a higher level of capacity commitment. SecDef delegated to Commander, USTRANSCOM, authority to administer and implement DOD’s participation in VISA. All non-MSP vessels participating in Stage III must commit at least 50 percent of their capacity. MSP dry cargo vessels must commit all of their capacity during Stage III.

(5) **Office of Ship Operations.** The Office of Ship Operations formulates national policies and programs for the operation, maintenance, and repair of government-owned or acquired merchant ships, especially the maintenance and readiness of the National Defense Reserve Fleet (NDRF). It develops and administers programs, policies, and activities for the maintenance and readiness of MARAD RRF ships to ensure these ships can be activated within 5 or 10 days of notification; preservation work plans for each reserve fleet site; and the acquisition, allocation, and operation of merchant ships in time of national emergency. It administers ship preservation programs for the NDRF and conducts fleet service activities and engineering studies for improved methods, techniques, equipment, and materials.

(a) The NDRF serves as a reserve of ships for national defense and national emergency purposes. NDRF vessels are located at the James River, Virginia; Beaumont, Texas; and Suisun Bay, California (near San Francisco) anchorages. The program primarily consists of dry cargo ships with some tankers and military auxiliaries. In addition to maintaining ships for USTRANSCOM logistics, the Missile Defense Agency sponsors two ships for missile tracking. There are eight additional ships dedicated for training merchant marine officers to support commercial, military, and HS needs. MARAD provides training ships to the nation's merchant marine academies. The training ships are also in the NDRF program and are loaned to the US Merchant Marine Academy and the six US state maritime academies. They are used throughout the year as training platforms for the schools' cadets. Cadets practice seamanship skills on the ships moored at the campuses and take them to sea for training cruises. Because of their large personnel support capacity, these ships are often considered when help is needed for DR. There are 34 vessels in retention status, which are preserved in a way that keeps them in the same condition as when they entered the fleet. In response to hurricane Katrina and Rita landfalls in 2005, FEMA used the MARAD's vessels to support relief efforts. Nine ships supported the recovery, mostly with messing and berthing for refinery workers, oil spill response teams, and longshoremen. In response to Super Storm Sandy in 2012, FEMA used three ships from the MARAD fleet to house first responders at the location of the worst damage caused by the storm.

(b) The MARAD RRF program, a subset of the MARAD's NDRF, supports the rapid worldwide deployment of US military forces. As a key element of DOD strategic sealift, the MARAD RRF primarily supports transport of US Army and USMC unit equipment, combat support equipment, and initial resupply during the critical surge period before commercial ships can be marshaled. The MARAD RRF provides nearly one-half of the government-owned surge sealift capability. Management of the MARAD RRF program is defined by a MOA between DOD and DOT. Generally, activation of MARAD RRF vessels has been delegated to Commander, USTRANSCOM.

1. The MARAD RRF consists of ships that include roll-on/roll off vessels, fast sealift ships, heavy lift or barge carrying ships, auxiliary craneships, tankers, aviation repair vessels, and special mission ships. Most MARAD RRF ships are berthed at various US ports. These outported locations are coordinated with military planners and chosen to minimize sailing time to strategic loadout ports. Outported MARAD RRF ships are also used as training platforms for cargo handling by USN, USMC, and US Army units and for HS training by various LEAs.

2. MARAD RRF ships are expected to be fully operational within their assigned 5- and 10-day readiness status and sail to designated loading berths. Commercial US ship managers provide systems maintenance, equipment repairs, logistics support, activation, manning, and operations management by contract. Ships in priority readiness have reduced operating status maintenance crews of about 10 commercial merchant mariners that are supplemented by additional mariners during activations. Readiness of the MARAD RRF is periodically tested by DOD directed activations of ships for military cargo operations and exercises.

For more information on these programs, refer to JP 4-01, The Defense Transportation System. See also, <http://www.marad.dot.gov/ships-and-shipping/strategic-sealift/office-of-ship-operations/national-defense-reserve-fleet-ndrf/>.

2. Interorganizational Relationships

- a. DOT maintains relationships with many DOD components.
- b. DOT has considerable expertise involving the civilian and military use of the nation's transportation system. For this reason, DOT can redirect the nation's transportation assets and change priorities, usually through a presidential executive order or emergency decrees.
- c. The FAA and DOD have significant mutual interests with regard to military aviation, aeronautical charts and publications, notices to airmen, military airport operations and certification, airspace management during national crises, and airspace control and certification of expeditionary aviation facilities overseas during military contingency operations. FAA missions in Afghanistan have been funded by DOS. DOS also funded air traffic control in Iraq. DOT's capabilities for overseas contingencies typically depend on external funding (DOS or USAID; in Iraq it was Iraq Transitional Assistance Office, in the US Embassy Baghdad; its tasks were mostly capacity building, with funding for infrastructure repair and reconstruction).
- d. DOT tends to deploy senior personnel because their interlocutors are senior.
- e. DOT deployed its personnel under COM authority following National Security Decision Directive-38, *Staffing at Diplomatic Missions and Their Overseas Constituent Posts*, the process for deploying interagency personnel under COM authority, providing country clearance, etc. DOT conducted its own pre-deployment training in addition to sending personnel to the Foreign Service Institute for the Afghan Familiarization and Foreign Affairs Counter-Threat courses.

3. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

MOAs

- a. Establishment of Federal Aviation Administration Senior Representative Position and USSOUTHCOM.
- b. Federal Interaction with Launch Site Operations.
- c. Interagency Operations of the Weather Surveillance Radar.

For more information on MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX P TO APPENDIX A DEPARTMENT OF VETERANS AFFAIRS

1. Core Mission

a. The US Department of Veterans Affairs (VA) is the second largest department in the USG. VA has over 300,000 employees in more than 1,400 locations nationwide, with additional facilities in Puerto Rico, Guam, and the Philippines. VA is well postured to provide support during an emergency or disaster. The VA's first priority when an emergency or disaster impacts the VA or the nation is to provide assistance to veterans and their families and restore VA operations as soon as possible. The NRF, with a Stafford Act declaration, provides the vehicles that assist VA in providing support to the nation through the following ESF:

(1) ESF#3, Public Works and Engineering—VA maintains a deployable damage assessment team that primarily focuses on hospital and medical facility damage assessment.

(2) ESF #5, Emergency Management—VA maintains a 24/7 Integrated Operations Center that integrates and analyzes all issues that impact the VA. VA has a liaison that is assigned to the DHS National Operation Center during normal duty hours. Additionally, VA has liaisons that work with DHS, FEMA, DHHS, HUD, and other USG departments and agencies.

(3) ESF #6, Mass Care, Housing, and Human Services—VA can provide housing for disaster victims.

(4) ESF #7, Resources Support—VA can procure medical and pharmaceutical equipment and other supplies through VA's National Acquisition Center.

(5) ESF #8, Public Health and Medical Services (through the NDMS)—VA supports the NDMS by:

(a) Providing personnel to support federal medical stations.

(b) Operating federal coordinating centers.

(c) Providing deployable medical and public health personnel.

(6) ESF #13, Public Safety and Security—VA can provide law enforcement officers to provide safety and security during response operations.

(7) ESF #15, External Affairs—VA supports the joint information center when activated.

b. Medical Emergency Radiological Response Team. The VA maintains a medical emergency radiological response team that can provide technical expertise on radiological response.

c. **VA/DOD.** VA can support DOD by providing medical care to members of the military during a war or national emergency that overwhelms the DOD hospital system.

2. Interaction

a. In 1982, the VA-DOD MOU Regarding the Furnishing of Health Care Services to Members of the Armed Forces During a War or National Emergency (and its associated VA-DOD Contingency Plan) was mandated by Title 38, USC, Section 8111A and was designed to support DOD during the Cold War and associated military war plans.

(1) The VA/DOD Health Resources Sharing Act, Public Law 97-174

(a) In summary, Public Law 97-174 authorizes VA to provide inpatient medical care to active duty members of the Armed Services during or immediately following their involvement in armed conflicts during wartime and national emergencies. A VA mission, consistent with Section 2(b) of Public Law 97-174, is to serve as a principal health care backup to the DOD in the event of an armed conflict or national emergency as declared by the President or Congress involving the use of US Armed Forces.

(b) To implement this law, this contingency plan makes full use of available VA health care resources. This includes the use of VA medical centers, outpatient clinics, domiciliary facilities, nursing homes, supply services, communications systems, education, and other medical resources. This will also take into consideration existing national agreements that include VA treatment of spinal cord injuries, traumatic brain injuries, and visually impaired patient rehabilitation, etc. In addition to the contingency mission, this public law amended Title 38, USC, to promote greater peacetime sharing of health care resources between VA and DOD.

(2) To link VA and DOD medical systems, the two departments designate these centers:

(a) Primary receiving centers (PRCs) for coordinating and/or providing treatment to sick and wounded military personnel needing immediate care.

(b) Secondary support centers for accepting transfers from and/or sharing resources with the PRCs so as to maximize health care services support to the DOD.

(c) VA installation support centers to provide health care resources support for military personnel at military bases in proximity to VA medical facilities.

(3) These centers represent the foundation for a contingency health care system that will integrate with the NDMS.

(a) NDMS was conceived in 1981 as an evolution of the Civilian–Military Contingency Hospital System developed by DOD and VA to care for casualties exceeding the capacity of DOD and VA medical centers.

(b) NDMS is an interagency cooperative effort among DHHS, DOD, VA, and DHS. Through the partnership of these USG departments, in conjunction with states, private sector institutions and medical professionals appointed to federal service, NDMS developed the capabilities for medical response, patient evacuation, and hospitalization in times of disasters. DOD maintains medical operations plans that would coordinate the receipt, distribution, and treatment of returning military casualties.

(4) The VA/DOD Contingency Hospital System Plan describes how VA hospital beds would be made available to treat returning military casualties. VA includes in local contingency plans provisions for entering into contracts with private facilities for the furnishing of health care to those eligible veterans displaced from a VA medical care facility or subject to delayed treatment because of the furnishing of care and services to members of the armed forces.

3. System Composition and Description

a. **PRCs.** Designated areas of the US have been identified as patient reception areas for the treatment of sick and wounded military personnel returning from armed conflict or national emergency. A patient reception area is a geographic region of the US containing a concentration of definitive medical capability (generally this refers to accredited, acute care institutions) and access to ground transportation, airfields and/or seaports. Military or VA medical facilities are designated as PRCs in these areas. PRCs develop plans, train, exercise, and maintain the capability to receive patients from other regions by land, air or sea, distribute them within the patient reception area, and coordinate and/or provide health care services. Further, PRCs may be designated as federal coordinating centers of the NDMS.

b. **Secondary Support Centers.** Medical facilities not designated as PRCs may be designated as secondary support centers. Secondary support centers accept transfers of patients from PRCs and provide other resource support to the PRCs. This support will be detailed in a local plan developed between the PRC and secondary support center.

4. Formal Arrangement Examples with the Department of Defense

a. MOUs

(1) Meaningful Information to Service Members, Veterans, and their Family Members about Cost and Performance Outcomes for Educational Institutions.

(2) Transition Assistance Program and Disable Transition Assistance Program.

(3) Transition Assistance Program for Separating Service Members.

b. MOAs

- (1) Federal Health Information Exchange Governance and Management.
- (2) Health Care Resource Sharing Reimbursement Methodology.
- (3) National Disaster Medical System.

For more information on MOUs/MOAs, refer to the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

ANNEX Q TO APPENDIX A

UNITED STATES AGENCY FOR INTERNATIONAL DEVELOPMENT

1. Core Mission

a. USAID (<http://www.usaid.gov>) is an independent federal agency that receives overall foreign policy guidance from the Secretary of State. Through its assistance programs, USAID plays an active and vital role in promoting US national security and foreign policy interests. The investment made in developing countries has long-term benefits for America and the American people. Development now takes its place alongside defense and diplomacy as the three essential components of American foreign policy. USAID is the principal USG provider of global development and HA.

b. USAID provides assistance in Africa, Asia, Europe and Eurasia, Latin America and the Caribbean, and the Middle East. USAID's strength is its country missions and offices around the world. USAID works in close partnership with several groups, including NGOs, American businesses, fellow USG agencies, universities, and other governments. USAID has working relationships, through cooperative agreements, contracts, and grant agreements, with more than 3,500 companies and over 300 US-based NGOs.

Refer to other relevant documents at the Joint Electronic Library (<http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine/doctrine/interorganizationaldocuments.htm>).

c. USAID is the principal US agency charged with coordinating the USG response to declared disasters and emergencies worldwide. Through OFDA, USAID administers the President's authority to provide emergency relief and long-term HA in response to disasters declared by the ambassador within the affected country or higher DOS authority. When a disaster declaration has been made by the ambassador, USAID coordinates the USG response. USAID's Director of OFDA has primary responsibility for initiating this response. OFDA is organized under USAID's Bureau for Democracy, Conflict, and Humanitarian Assistance (DCHA). OFDA responsibilities include:

- (1) Organize and coordinate the total USG DR response.
- (2) Respond to embassy and/or mission requests for disaster assistance.
- (3) Initiate necessary procurement of supplies, services, and transportation.
- (4) Coordinate assistance efforts with operational-level NGOs.

d. **USAID Humanitarian Sectors.** Each year, USAID/OFDA responds to international disasters by providing emergency and early recovery assistance across 11 sectors (see Figure A-Q-1): agriculture and food security; economic recovery and market systems; health; humanitarian coordination and information management; humanitarian studies, analysis, or applications; logistics and relief commodities; nutrition; protection, risk reduction; shelter and settlements; and water, sanitation, and hygiene. These sectors

United States Agency for International Development Humanitarian Sectors

	Agriculture and Food Security
	Economic Recovery and Market Systems
	Health
	Humanitarian Coordination and Information Management
	Humanitarian Studies, Analysis, or Applications
	Logistics and Relief Commodities
	Nutrition
	Protection
	Natural and Technological Risks
	Shelter and Settlements
	Water, Sanitation, and Hygiene

Figure A-Q-1. United States Agency for International Development Humanitarian Sectors

closely mirror the UN cluster system. However, these sectors operate whether or not UN clusters are providing assistance to the HN ministries.

e. **Operational Principles.** USAID applies a set of operational principles designed to help development practitioners focus on achieving and measuring results. These principles are fully consistent with those articulated in PPD-6, *Global Development*; the *Quadrennial Diplomacy and Development Review*; and the USG's *Strategy for Meeting the Millennium Development Goals*. These principles are promote gender equality and female empowerment; apply science, technology, and innovation strategically; apply selectivity and focus; measure and evaluate impact; build in sustainability from the start; apply integrated approaches to development; and leverage “solution holders” and partner strategically.

For more information, refer to USAID Policy Framework (<http://www.usaid.gov/sites/default/files/documents/1870/USAID%20Policy%20Framework%202011-2015.PDF>).

2. Interaction, Coordination and the Joint Force Commander

USAID has established relationships with USG departments and agencies, NGOs, international organizations, and private voluntary organizations. In carrying out its responsibilities, USAID draws on these organizations, as required, to coordinate the USG's response to foreign disasters. Similarly, these organizations look to USAID for advice and assistance, as appropriate, in handling their assigned responsibilities. Involvement of military forces in civil activity abroad is matched by an increase in situations in which civil agencies face emerging military threats. As such, the JFC facilitates the coordination of all US military forces' support to USAID. In addition, a JTF may encounter scores of NGOs and international organizations in a JOA. Hundreds of such agencies are registered with USAID.

For more information on FHA, refer to JP 3-29, Foreign Humanitarian Assistance.

a. Routine

(1) Office of Civilian-Military Cooperation (CMC) (<http://www.usaid.gov/work-usaid/partnership-opportunities/us-military/office-civilian-military-cooperation>).

(a) Housed within DCHA, CMC works to align defense and development policies, plans, and programs to achieve US foreign policy goals and development goals, leveraging the unique capabilities of DOD and USAID. CMC accomplishes this goal by addressing areas of common interests between defense and development through personnel exchange and communication and information exchange at various levels.

(b) CMC manages and facilitates USAID's day-to-day interface with DOD; interprets and implements USG civilian-military policies; and coordinates joint planning, training, conferences, exercises, and communications.

(c) A key feature of CMC's staffing is the exchange of senior military and development personnel:

1. USAID's SDAs and deputy development advisors (DDAs) at USAFRICOM, USCENTCOM, USEUCOM, USPACOM, USSOCOM, USSOUTHCOM, and JS ensure collaboration with USAID's bureaus and offices.

2. Complementing SDAs and DDAs are CCMD LNOs assigned to CMC who ensure access at each level of their commands. In addition, USAID hosts LNOs from the USN, USMC, and US Army Corps of Engineers.

(d) Headed by a Director and Deputy Director, CMC has a Planning and Policy Division and an Operations, Learning, and Outreach Division supported by an administrative support staff.

For more information on interaction between USAID and DOD, refer to USAID Civilian-Military Cooperation Policy (http://pdf.usaid.gov/pdf_docs/PDACL777.pdf).

(2) In countries with a US embassy, formal and routine coordination between USAID and DOD occurs at country team meetings or sub-groups created by the country team. Other coordination mechanisms include:

(a) Some embassies have established formal civilian-military cooperation committees to improve coordination between USAID and DOD. In the event that such a committee does not exist, the optimal place for DOD at a country level to begin coordination with USAID is through USAID's program office, usually headed by a program officer.

(b) Many times, embassies with a large DOD presence assign LNOs to USAID offices, thereby improving coordination between the two.

(c) Many embassies have found it useful to formalize USAID-DOD cooperation through a MOU.

b. Contingencies

(1) OFDA coordinates and ensures that the needs of disaster victims are met by providing all forms of relief and rehabilitation. OFDA provides technical support to the Administrator, who serves as the President's Special Coordinator for International Disaster Assistance. OFDA formulates US foreign disaster assistance policy in coordination with other USG departments and agencies. OFDA works with national and international foreign affairs agencies, DOD, DOS, UN agencies, international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector in disaster prevention, mitigation, preparedness, response, and rehabilitation. OFDA funds and procures relief supplies and administrative support for short- and long-term disaster situations and provides humanitarian relief, rehabilitation, and reconstruction assistance to foreign disaster victims. OFDA forms DARTs to provide a variety of trained specialists to assist US embassies and USAID missions in managing the USG response to foreign disasters. For disaster-related emergencies, US embassies have an emergency action committee. DOD is on the emergency action committee, as well as the embassy's mission DR officer, usually a USAID employee.

(2) Office of Transition Initiatives (<http://www.usaid.gov/who-we-are/organization/bureaus/bureau-democracy-conflict-and-humanitarian-assistance/office-1>) supports local partners in advancing peace and democracy in priority conflict-prone countries. At the request of and in coordination with Congress, DOS, and the appropriate in-country US ambassadors and USAID field missions, they provide on-the-ground, fast, flexible, catalytic short-term assistance that promotes movement toward political and social stability and democracy. Office of Transition Initiatives programs normally continue until reasonable stability is established and an effective hand-off is completed to longer-term institutional development efforts. Coordination with DOD may occur via the

USAID representative in the country team, but can also take place via the Office of Transition Initiatives field officers.

(3) Office of Conflict Management and Mitigation works with USAID missions and partners to address the causes and consequences of violence through strategic and focused development programs in areas such as health, education, economic growth, natural resource management, and democracy and governance. They lead USAID's efforts to identify and analyze sources of conflict and fragility; support early responses to address the causes and consequences of instability and violent conflict; and seek to integrate conflict mitigation and management into USAID's analysis, strategies, and programs (<http://www.usaid.gov/who-we-are/organization/bureaus/bureau-democracy-conflict-and-humanitarian-assistance/office>).

(4) Center of Excellence on Democracy, Human Rights, and Governance (<http://www.usaid.gov/who-we-are/organization/bureaus/bureau-democracy-conflict-and-humanitarian-assistance/center>) advances democracy, human rights, and governance in support of political freedom overseas. The center also leads USAID efforts to implement USG policies on security sector assistance.

For more information on these and other DCHA organizational units, refer to USAID's Automated Directives System, chapter 101, Agency Programs and Function (<http://www.usaid.gov/who-we-are/agency-policy/series-100>).

(5) Ad hoc arrangements (e.g., various CMOCs or PRTs [for Afghanistan and Iraq]) have seen USAID and DOD officers and contracted subject matter experts share physical space and attend most of the same meetings (e.g., agriculture working group).

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ANNEX R TO APPENDIX A CENTRAL INTELLIGENCE AGENCY

1. Overview

a. The CIA (<https://www.cia.gov>) is an independent agency that provides intelligence relevant to national security and strategic policy interests of the US to senior US policymakers. The CIA's primary mission is to collect, analyze, and produce timely analysis of foreign intelligence to assist the President and senior USG policymakers in making decisions in support of national interests and goals. The CIA does not make policy; it is an independent source of intelligence information for those who do. The CIA may also conduct covert action at the direction of the President to preempt threats or achieve US policy objectives.

b. As a separate agency, CIA serves as an independent source of analysis on topics of concern, and also works closely with other IC organizations and Allied organizations to ensure that the intelligence consumer—whether Washington policymaker or battlefield commander—receives the best intelligence possible.

c. The CIA was established by the National Security Act of 1947. The Intelligence Reform and Terrorism Prevention Act of 2004 restructured the IC by abolishing the positions of Director and Deputy Director of Central Intelligence and creating the positions of Director and Deputy Director of the CIA. The act also created the position of Director of National Intelligence (DNI), which oversees the IC.

d. **Director, Central Intelligence Agency (D/CIA).** The D/CIA serves as the head of the CIA and reports to the DNI. The D/CIA is nominated by the President and confirmed by the Senate. The D/CIA manages the operations, personnel, and budget of the CIA and acts as the National Human Source Intelligence Manager.

e. **CIA Responsibilities.** The CIA, under the direction of the President or the NSC:

(1) Collects intelligence through human sources and by other appropriate means, except that it shall have no police, subpoena, or law enforcement powers or internal security functions.

(2) Correlates and evaluates intelligence related to the national security and providing appropriate dissemination of such intelligence.

(3) Provides overall direction for, and coordination of, the collection of foreign intelligence, through human sources, by elements of the IC authorized to undertake such collection and, in coordination with other USG departments and agencies authorized to undertake such collection, ensuring the most effective use is made of resources and that appropriate account is taken of the risks to the US and those involved in such collection.

(4) Performs such other functions and duties related to intelligence affecting the national security as the President or the DNI may direct.

f. The CIA is separated into four basic components: the National Clandestine Service, the Directorate of Intelligence, the Directorate of Science and Technology, and the Directorate of Support. They carry out the process of collecting, analyzing, and disseminating intelligence to top USG officials.

2. Collaboration and the Joint Force Commander

a. The CIA is involved with other USG departments and agencies on a regular basis. The National Intelligence Council, managed by a Chairman and Vice Chairman for Evaluations and a Vice Chairman for Estimates, is comprised of national intelligence officers—senior experts drawn from all elements of the IC and from outside the USG. The national intelligence officers concentrate on the substantive problems of particular geographic regions of the world and of particular functional areas, such as economics and weapons proliferation. They produce national intelligence estimates.

For more information, refer to JP 2-01, Joint and National Intelligence Support to Military Operations.

b. The CIA's reconnaissance and intelligence assessment capabilities are essential ingredients to interagency strategic and operational planning. They provide real-time response in the quest for essential information to form the basis for interagency action.

c. The Associate Director for Military Affairs coordinates, plans, executes, and sustains worldwide activities that support CIA and DOD interaction based on priorities established by the D/CIA to achieve national security objectives. It serves as the bridge for the CIA's intelligence and operational capabilities to support deployed US forces. The Associate Director for Military Affairs is composed of CIA personnel from all directorates and of military detailees from all the uniformed Services. It is the only CIA component with the exclusive mission of supporting military plans and operations and has the mandate to coordinate CIA support, to include IC capabilities as applicable and military customers. The Command and Coordination Group provides support to CCMDs and other major command HQ.

ANNEX S TO APPENDIX A ENVIRONMENTAL PROTECTION AGENCY

1. Core Mission

a. EPA's mission is to protect human health and the environment. EPA leads the nation's environmental science, research, education, and assessment efforts. EPA works closely with other USG departments and agencies, state and local governments, and Indian tribes to develop and enforce regulations under existing environmental laws. EPA researches and sets national standards for a variety of environmental programs and delegates to states and tribes responsibility for issuing permits and monitoring and enforcing compliance. Where national standards are not met, EPA can issue sanctions and take other steps to assist the states and tribes in reaching the desired levels of environmental quality.

b. EPA has 13 main offices at its HQ in Washington, DC; 10 regional offices across the country, each of which is responsible for several states and in some cases, territories or special environmental programs; and labs and research centers around the nation (<http://www.epa.gov>).

c. EPA, along with the USCG, also has significant responsibilities under the NRF for ESF #10, Oil and Hazardous Materials Response, and under the National Oil and Hazardous Substances Pollution Contingency Plan, Title 40, CFR, Part 300. EPA, depending upon the location of the incident, is generally the lead for directing the USG's response to assessing and cleaning up CBRN material, industrial material, and numerous other source contaminate responses.

2. Interactions

a. Routine

(1) Domestic installations contact their respective federal facilities program managers in EPA's regional offices for installation-specific interactions regarding environmental programs/statutes implemented by EPA.

(2) EPA's Office of Homeland Security provides EPA-wide leadership and coordination for HS policy, including EPA's planning, prevention, preparedness, and response for HS-related incidents. This coordinates with numerous members of the USG, including DOD in developing numerous policies related to HS.

(3) EPA's Office of Research and Development (ORD) is the scientific research arm of EPA, whose leading-edge, applied research helps provide the solid underpinning of science and technology for EPA. ORD carries out research on air pollution, climate change, watersheds and water infrastructure, site cleanup, sustainability, risk assessment, and HS. ORD has a number of collaborative research projects with DOD in HS (e.g., DTRA, US Army Edgewood Chemical Biological Center) and in partnership with the Army's Net Zero program (Ft. Riley).

(4) EPA's Office of Land and Emergency Management (OLEM) provides policy, guidance, and direction for the EPA's emergency response and waste programs. It develops regulatory standards for clean-up of contamination, to include underground storage tanks, and the treatment, storage, and disposal of hazardous waste. OLEM implements EPA's planning, prevention, preparedness, and response activities and provides technical assistance to all levels of government through its Office of Emergency Management.

(5) EPA's Office of Emergency Management has an LNO to coordinate with USNORTHCOM. EPA's Region 8 Office in Denver, Colorado, has an alternate LNO.

b. Emergency

(1) During significant disaster and routine responses, EPA often activates the regional response team, an interagency support team, to support the federal on-scene coordinator. The National Response Team may also be activated. Information on the teams can be found in Title 40, CFR, Part 300 and at <http://www.nrt.org>. Navy's Supervisor of Salvage is the DOD's representative to the National Response Team. The federal on-scene coordinator utilizes the ICS to manage the response. Often, the federal on-scene coordinator establishes a unified command structure under ICS to bring in other parties with a significant interest in the response.

(2) Other USG departments and agencies may be in the command post in planning positions, as liaisons, or in other capacities. In addition, the federal on-scene coordinator may establish a command post where tactical planning takes place. The command post is most often located much closer to the incident than the JFO.

ANNEX T TO APPENDIX A GENERAL SERVICES ADMINISTRATION

1. Core Mission

a. The General Services Administration (GSA) (<http://www.gsa.gov>) leverages the buying power of the USG to acquire the best value for taxpayers and federal customers. GSA exercises responsible asset management; delivers superior workplaces, quality acquisition services, and expert business solutions; and develops innovative and effective management policies. GSA oversees the business of the USG. GSA's acquisition solutions supply federal purchasers with cost-effective, high-quality products and services from commercial vendors. GSA provides workplaces for federal employees and oversees the preservation of historic federal properties. Its policies covering travel, property, and management practices promote efficient government operations. GSA helps keep the nation safe by providing resources, equipment and non-tactical vehicles to the US military, domestically and overseas. GSA also serves as a source of supply to state and local governments for law enforcement equipment, and disaster recovery products and services. GSA provides direct access to a wide range of government services, as well as consumer protection information, through the official web portal of the USG (<http://www.usa.gov>).

b. GSA is organized into services and staff offices that support the programs defined in the Federal Program Inventory (http://www.performance.gov/sites/default/files/files/Federal_Program_Inventory_Fact_Sheet_.pdf).

(1) **Federal Acquisition Service.** The Federal Acquisition Service provides USG departments and agencies over 25 million different products and services, and annually delivers over \$54 billion in information technology solutions and telecommunications services, assisted acquisition services, travel and transportation management solutions, motor vehicles and fleet services, and charge cards. The Federal Acquisition Service manages over 205,000 leased vehicles, more than 3.5 million charge cards, and provides personal property disposal services facilitating the reuse of \$1 billion in excess/surplus property annually. It leverages the buying power of the USG by negotiating prices on many products and services required by federal agencies for daily operations. By arranging a network of service providers, the Federal Acquisition Service is able to meet the operating and mission requirements of a vast array of USG departments and agencies, and state, local, and tribal governments. Federal Acquisition Service business operations are organized into four portfolios based on the product or service provided to the customer: Integrated Technology Services; Assisted Acquisition Services; General Supplies and Services; and Travel, Motor Vehicles, and Card Services.

(2) **Public Buildings Service.** Public Buildings Service activities fall into two broad areas: workspace acquisition and property management. It acquires space on behalf of the USG through new construction and leasing, and acts as a caretaker for federal properties across the country. The Public Buildings Service is the largest public real estate organization in the US. It provides high-quality facility and workspace solutions to more than 60 federal agencies, disposes of excess or unneeded federal

properties, and promotes the adoption of innovative workplace solutions and technologies. Through lease and purchase transactions, the Public Buildings Service delivers the workspace necessary to meet the respective missions of its customers. It works with its USG customers to design the workplace of the 21st century, seeking to reduce overall workspace needs and associated costs. These services are also coordinated to obtain the best available pricing.

(3) **Office of Citizen Services and Innovative Technologies.** The Office of Citizen Services and Innovative Technologies makes USG information and services more readily available to the public, and makes it easier for the public to conduct transactions with the USG. It identifies tests and deploys innovative technologies for the government to provide shared, transparent, and cost effective means to disseminate information and conduct business. The Office of Citizen Services and Innovative Technologies provides access to a wide range of government services as well as consumer protection information through the official web portal of the USG (<http://www.usa.gov>). They work closely with other government agencies—federal, state, local, and international—to collect and consolidate information and make it available to the public, sharing experiences that lead to better solutions.

(4) **Office of Government-Wide Policy.** The Office of Government-Wide Policy uses information and ideas to drive efficiency and savings in USG departments and agencies across key administrative areas (e.g., travel and transportation, acquisition, information technology, and green buildings). They help drive agency behavior in these administrative areas through the development of government-wide performance standards, analysis and benchmarking of data, and regular reporting to the USG departments and agencies and key stakeholders.

(5) **Staff Offices.** GSA staff offices ensure GSA is prepared to meet the needs of customers on a day-to-day basis and in crisis situations. GSA has two independent staff offices (the Office of the Inspector General and the Civilian Board of Contract Appeals), as well as the Office of the Chief Administrative Services Officer, Office of Congressional and Intergovernmental Affairs, Office of the Chief Financial Officer, Office of the Chief Information Officer, Office of Human Resources Management, Office of General Counsel, Office of Mission Assurance, Office of Communications and Marketing, Office of Civil Rights, and Office of Small Business Utilization.

2. Interaction

GSA's key relevant capabilities and core competencies include:

a. **Sources of Supply.** DOD is authorized to use GSA sources of supply, including products and services available through the Federal Acquisition Service, such as GSA's Global Supply. Also, as provided at Title 41, CFR, Part 101-26.000, military commissaries and non-appropriated fund activities may use GSA sources of supply and services for their own use.

For more information, refer to the Eligibility to Use GSA Sources of Supply and Services GSA order (<http://www.gsa.gov/portal/content/104212>).

b. **Emergency Management and Response.** The Office of Mission Assurance is responsible for ensuring GSA maintains a constant state of readiness to perform essential functions in response to natural or man-made disasters or catastrophic emergencies in support of national continuity responsibilities, and to quickly resume normal operations. The Office of Mission Assurance coordinates GSA participation in international, state, and local disaster exercise programs. Office of Mission Assurance responsibilities include:

(1) Conducting continuity of operations planning IAW the National Continuity Policy and Federal Continuity Directive 1 and 2.

(2) Serving as co-primary agency lead for NRF ESF #7, Resources Support, and support agency to nine other ESFs. This responsibility also includes working with interagency partners on planning, training, and exercise and response activities; having staff assigned in each of the 10 FEMA regions to facilitate acquisitions, transportation, and emergency leasing support; and facilitating the Basic Interagency Logistics Course (EMI S0674) four times per year with FEMA Logistics.

(3) Serving as co-lead agency for the Public and Private Services and Resources core capability under PPD-8, *National Preparedness*.

(4) Serving as co-lead, with the FPS, for Government Facilities Sector under the National Infrastructure Protection Plan. The Office of Mission Assurance coordinates with FPS to ensure safety and security of GSA-owned and leased buildings and building occupants.

(5) Serving as a member of National Response Team under the National Contingency Plan.

(6) Providing situation awareness to GSA staff and leadership through the GSA Emergency Operations Center.

c. To ensure the safety of GSA customers, the security of the GSA portfolio and the business of supplying acquisitions domestically, GSA participates in government-wide disaster preparedness and assistance through the NRF. In emergencies, as in everyday operations, GSA provides support to other USG departments and agencies to complete their missions. GSA goes to the site of the disaster and finds suitable space for FEMA to set up operations by furnishing space, telecommunications, services and supplies, and acquisition assistance.

d. Inside and outside the US, the GSA Global Supply program offers and ships a broad array of items (e.g., office products, housewares, tools, and industrial supplies) to destinations worldwide. GSA Global Supply guarantees compliance with government acquisition policies, simple billing, and global delivery from a reliable government

source. GSA also provides full accountability from order placement through delivery and billing.

e. GSA provides immediate information and assistance to federal employees, vendors, and the public (www.gsa.gov). Emergency response information such as status on closed government facilities, emergency acquisition processes, GSA vendor relief efforts, emergency information for government personnel, damaged GSA fleet vehicles, government charge card authorities, per diem rates, GSA hot lines, and more can be found in various GSA issuances (http://www.gsa.gov/portal/content/105086?utm_source=OCM&utm_medium=print-radio&utm_term=emergency&utm_campaign=shortcuts).

f. GSA has customer service directors located throughout the US, in Europe, and around the Pacific Rim to provide an accessible acquisition expert for its customers. In addition, GSA Global Supply (<http://www.gsa.gov/portal/content/104618>) has LNOs in Afghanistan and Kuwait to assist the Defense Logistics Agency and other DOD partners, and coordinate logistics support for troops overseas. For all urgent questions, needs, or requirements during joint operations, contact GSA Emergency Operations Center at (202) 219-0338.

ANNEX U TO APPENDIX A

OFFICE OF THE DIRECTOR OF NATIONAL INTELLIGENCE

1. Core Mission

a. The mission of the ODNI (<http://www.odni.gov/index.php/>) is to lead intelligence integration and forge an IC that delivers the most insightful intelligence possible. It integrates foreign, military, and domestic intelligence capabilities through policy, personnel, and technology actions to provide decision advantage to policymakers, warfighters, HS officials, and law enforcement personnel.

b. As the head of the IC, DNI oversees and directs the implementation of the National Intelligence Program the NSC, and the Homeland Security Council (HSC) for intelligence matters related to national security. ODNI's goal is to effectively integrate foreign, military, and domestic intelligence in defense of the homeland and of US interests abroad. The Under Secretary of Defense for Intelligence serves as the principal advisor to the DNI regarding defense intelligence matters and is dual-hatted as the Director for Defense Intelligence within the ODNI.

c. Congress provided the DNI with a number of authorities and duties, as outlined in the Intelligence Reform and Terrorist Prevention Act of 2004. These charge the DNI to:

(1) Ensure timely and objective national intelligence is provided to the President, the heads of departments and agencies, CJCS and senior military commanders, and Congress.

(2) Establish objectives and priorities for collection, analysis, production, and dissemination of national intelligence.

(3) Ensure maximum availability of, and access to, intelligence information within the IC.

(4) Develop and ensure the execution of an annual budget for the National Intelligence Program based on budget proposals provided by IC component organizations.

(5) Oversee coordination of relationships with the intelligence or security services of foreign governments and international organizations.

(6) Ensure the most accurate analysis of intelligence is derived from all sources to support national security needs.

(7) Develop personnel policies and programs to enhance the capacity for joint operations and to facilitate staffing of community management functions.

(8) Oversee the development and implementation of a program management plan for acquisition of major systems, doing so jointly with SecDef for DOD programs, that includes cost, schedule, and performance goals and program milestone criteria.

d. Under the Intelligence Reform and Terrorism Prevention Act of 2004, the DNI reports directly to the President. The DNI, through the efforts of the Principal Deputy Director, the Director of the Intelligence Staff, and four deputy directors (i.e., Analysis; Collection; Policy, Plans, and Requirements; and Acquisitions and Technology), and assisted by several country-specific, mission-management teams and a number of support activities and centers, coordinates the activities of the 16 US intelligence agencies to achieve critical national objectives.

2. Capabilities and Core Competencies

a. The National Intelligence Emergency Management Activity's mission is to plan and manage the ODNI's Emergency Management and Continuity programs and build an enduring, collaborative, strategic system to ensure the ODNI can perform its primary mission essential functions and the DNI can reduce the loss of ODNI lives and resources and maintain situational awareness of ODNI and IC personnel, resources, and capabilities.

b. The National Intelligence Council is the IC's center for mid-term (e.g., 3-5 years) and long-term (e.g., 6-20 years) strategic analysis. Its primary functions are to:

- (1) Support the DNI in the role as head of the IC.
- (2) Provide a focal point for policymakers to task the IC to answer their questions.
- (3) Reach out to nongovernment experts in academia and the private sector to broaden the IC's perspective.
- (4) Contribute to the IC's effort to allocate its resources in response to policymakers' changing needs.
- (5) Lead the IC's effort to produce national intelligence estimates and other National Intelligence Council products.

c. The Office of the National Counterintelligence Executive is staffed by senior counterintelligence (CI) and other specialists from across the national intelligence and security communities. The office develops, coordinates, and produces:

- (1) Annual foreign intelligence threat assessments and other analytic CI products.
- (2) Annual national CI strategy for the USG.
- (3) Priorities for CI collection, investigations, and operations.
- (4) CI program budgets and evaluations that reflect strategic priorities.
- (5) In-depth espionage damage assessments.

(6) CI awareness, outreach, and training standards policies.

d. The NCTC (<http://www.nctc.gov/>) leads our nation's effort to combat terrorism at home and abroad by analyzing the threat, sharing that information with our partners, and integrating all instruments of national power to ensure unity of effort.

For more information, refer to Appendix E, "Joint Interagency Task Force."

e. The ISE is an approach that facilitates the sharing of terrorism information. It is a trusted partnership among all levels of government in the US, the private sector, and our foreign partners, to detect, prevent, disrupt, preempt, and mitigate the effects of terrorism against the territory, people, and interests of the US by the effective and efficient sharing of terrorism and HS information. The ISE aligns and leverages existing information sharing policies, business processes, technologies, and systems and promotes a culture of information sharing through increased collaboration.

f. **Special Security Center (SSC).** The SSC assists the DNI in the dual role as head of the IC and as the Security Executive Agent for USG security clearance programs (pursuant to Executive Order 13467). The SSC assists in the execution of DNI's responsibility to share and protect national intelligence information throughout the IC, the USG, US contractors, state and local officials, and our foreign partners.

(1) The SSC's objectives include:

(a) Fostering IC security uniformity and reciprocity.

(b) Performing policy review, coordination, and formulation.

(c) Promoting uniform application of security policy.

(d) Assessing, advising, and reporting to the DNI on the implementation of security policies.

(e) Enabling IC-wide exchange of critical security data.

(f) Providing services of common concern in the areas of security research, training, and database management.

(2) The SSC also executes DNI's responsibilities as Security Executive Agent for USG security clearance programs to drive efforts to achieve government-wide improvements to clearance process timeliness and effectiveness, reciprocal recognition of security clearances and access approvals, and to modernize security business practices in the USG. The SSC hosts a joint program management activity (joint team) to develop and implement reforms across the executive branch, to include the IC. Joint team reform efforts are responsive to the direction of the Suitability and Security Clearance Performance Accountability Council.

g. The National Counterproliferation Center was founded to help counter the threats caused by proliferation of CBRN weapons. It works with the IC to identify critical holes in our WMD knowledge—resulting from shortfalls in collection, analysis, or exploitation—and then develop solutions to reduce or close these gaps. In conjunction with the policy community, the National Counterproliferation Center helps to identify long-term proliferation threats and requirements and develops strategies to ensure that the IC is positioned to address these threats.

h. The Office of Partner Engagement drafts and coordinates national intelligence sharing guidance IAW NSC and DNI policy direction, IC mission needs, and other USG requirements. Partner Engagement serves as the DNI’s focal point for intelligence sharing matters, overseeing and ensuring the integration of IC intelligence sharing efforts. Partner Engagement also manages and oversees the DNI Representative program in key nodes throughout the IC. DNI has representatives at CCMDs to integrate IC efforts, thereby ensuring the CDR and staff are able to leverage the full capabilities of the US IC in support of the command’s mission.

3. Interaction

The IC is subject to external oversight from the executive and legislative branches. Within the executive branch, the IC works closely with the NSC. The President’s Intelligence Advisory Board is also involved in oversight. The board is an entity within the Executive Office of the President formed “to assess the quality, quantity, and adequacy” of intelligence collection, analysis, CI, and other activities of the IC. It reports directly to the President, and provides recommendations for actions to improve and enhance the performance of intelligence efforts. It also examines issues raised by the President or the DNI and can make recommendations directly to the DNI.

ANNEX V TO APPENDIX A

PEACE CORPS

1. Overview

a. The Peace Corps' (<http://www.peacecorps.gov>) mission promotes world peace and friendship by fulfilling three goals: to help the people of interested countries in meeting their need for trained men and women, to help promote a better understanding of Americans on the part of the peoples served, and to help promote a better understanding of other peoples on the part of Americans.

b. The Peace Corps is an independent federal agency committed to meeting the basic needs of those living in the countries where it operates. President John F. Kennedy created the Peace Corps by executive order in 1961. The Peace Corps is headquartered in Washington, DC. Approximately 7,000 Peace Corps volunteers and trainees serve in over 65 countries in Asia, Africa, the Middle East, Central and South America, the Caribbean, and Europe.

2. Collaboration and the Joint Force Commander

a. The POC for Peace Corps in each country is the Peace Corps country director. The country director oversees Peace Corps volunteers, staff, and operations at each post. Peace Corps volunteers, by nature of their commitment and responsibilities, traditionally work as members of a team. Through collaborative agreements with USG departments and agencies, ongoing cooperation and coordination with NGOs, and with self-help grants to indigenous groups, the Peace Corps strengthens and increases its impact.

b. Although working in a broad sense to further USG foreign policy and development goals, the Peace Corps is an independent federal agency. As such, although its projects are coordinated with the relevant HN organizations and the appropriate elements of the embassy, it works independently with little day-to-day contact with the US mission or other USG organizations. In many countries, the Peace Corps coordinates its efforts with local NGOs.

c. To fulfill its responsibilities successfully and to retain its unique people-to-people character, the Peace Corps must remain substantially separate from the day-to-day conduct and concerns of foreign policy. The Peace Corps' role and its need for separation from the day-to-day activities of the US mission are not comparable to those of other USG departments and agencies. Peace Corps activities must be completely and absolutely separated from intelligence activities. There should be no contact whatsoever between anyone in the IC and any Peace Corps volunteer or trainee. Peace Corps staff should not be included in meetings where defense or intelligence issues (e.g., noncombatant evacuation operation) are discussed, unless volunteer safety is at issue.

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APPENDIX B

INTERNATIONAL ORGANIZATIONS

This appendix includes the descriptions of key international organizations.

- Annex A North Atlantic Treaty Organization
- B United Nations
- C European Union
- D Organization of American States
- E United States Institute of Peace

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ANNEX A TO APPENDIX B NORTH ATLANTIC TREATY ORGANIZATION

1. Background and Objectives

a. NATO (<http://www.nato.int>) is an alliance of 28 countries from North America and Europe committed to fulfilling the goals of the North Atlantic Treaty. NATO's essential purpose is to safeguard the freedom and security of its members through political and military means.

(1) **Political.** NATO promotes democratic values and encourages consultation and cooperation on defense and security issues to build trust and, in the long run, prevent conflict.

(2) **Military.** NATO is committed to the peaceful resolution of disputes. If diplomatic efforts fail, Allies have the military capacity needed to undertake collective defense and crisis-management operations under Article 5 of the Washington Treaty, NATO's founding treaty, or under a UN mandate, alone or in cooperation with other countries and international organizations.

b. NATO Core Tasks and Principles

(1) NATO's fundamental and enduring purpose is to safeguard the freedom and security of all its members by political and military means. Today, the Alliance remains an essential source of stability in an unpredictable world.

(2) NATO member states form a unique community of values, committed to the principles of individual liberty, democracy, human rights, and the rule of law. The Alliance is firmly committed to the purposes and principles of the Charter of the United Nations, and to the Washington Treaty, which affirms the primary responsibility of the Security Council for the maintenance of international peace and security.

(3) The political and military bonds between Europe and North America have been forged in NATO since the Alliance was founded in 1949; the transatlantic link remains as strong, and as important to the preservation of Euro-Atlantic peace and security, as ever. The security of NATO members on both sides of the Atlantic is indivisible. All members will continue to defend it together, on the basis of solidarity, shared purpose, and fair burden sharing.

(4) The modern world contains a broad and evolving set of challenges to the security of NATO's territory and populations. In order to assure their security, the Alliance must and will continue effectively fulfilling three essential core tasks, all of which contribute to safeguarding Alliance members and always IAW international law:

(a) **Collective Defense.** NATO members will always assist each other against attack, IAW Article 5 of the Washington Treaty. That commitment remains firm and binding. NATO will deter and defend against any threat of aggression and against

emerging security challenges where they threaten the fundamental security of individual Allies or the Alliance as a whole.

(b) **Crisis Management.** NATO has a unique and robust set of political and military capabilities to address the full spectrum of crises, before, during, and after conflicts. NATO will actively employ an appropriate mix of those political and military tools to help manage developing crises that have the potential to affect Alliance security, before they escalate into conflicts; to stop ongoing conflicts where they affect Alliance security; and to help consolidate stability in post-conflict situations where that contributes to Euro-Atlantic security.

(c) **Cooperative Security.** The Alliance is affected by, and can affect, political and security developments beyond its borders. The Alliance engages actively to enhance international security, through partnership with relevant countries and other international organizations; by actively contributing to arms control, nonproliferation, and disarmament; and by keeping the door to membership in the Alliance open to all European democracies that meet NATO's standards.

(5) NATO remains the unique and essential transatlantic forum for consultations on all matters that affect the territorial integrity, political independence, and security of its members, as set out in Article 4 of the Washington Treaty. Any security issue of interest to any ally can be brought to the NATO table, to share information, exchange views and, where appropriate, forge common approaches.

(6) In order to carry out the full range of NATO missions as effectively and efficiently as possible, Allies engage in a continuous process of reform, modernization and transformation.

c. To fulfill these tasks, member nations:

(1) Provide continuous consultation and cooperation in political, economic, and other nonmilitary fields.

(2) Formulate joint plans for the common defense.

(3) Establish the infrastructure needed to enable military forces to operate.

(4) Arrange joint training programs and exercises.

(5) Coordinate communications needed to facilitate political consultation, C2 of military forces, and their logistic support.

(6) Participate in the NATO Defense Planning Process, which provides a framework for harmonizing national and Alliance defense planning and facilitates the timely identification, development, and delivery of the required forces and capabilities to undertake the Alliance's full range of missions.

2. North Atlantic Treaty Organization Organizational Structure

a. **NATO HQ.** NATO’s HQ in Brussels, Belgium, is the home of the NAC. It houses permanent representatives (PERMREPs) and national delegations, the Secretary General and the International Staff, national military representatives, the Chairman of the Military Committee (MC) and the International Military Staff, and a number of NATO agencies. NATO’s civil and military organizational structure is shown in Figure B-A-1.

For an explanation of NATO command relationships, refer to AJP-01, Allied Joint Doctrine, and AJP-3, Allied Joint Doctrine for the Conduct of Operations.

b. **NAC.** The principal political decision-making body in NATO is the NAC, which consists of PERMREPs of the 28 member countries who meet together at least once a week. The NAC also meets at higher levels involving defense ministers, foreign ministers or heads of state and government. It has the same authority and powers of decision making, and its decisions have the same status and validity, at whatever level it meets. The Chairman of the NAC, at the heads of state and government, the ministerial

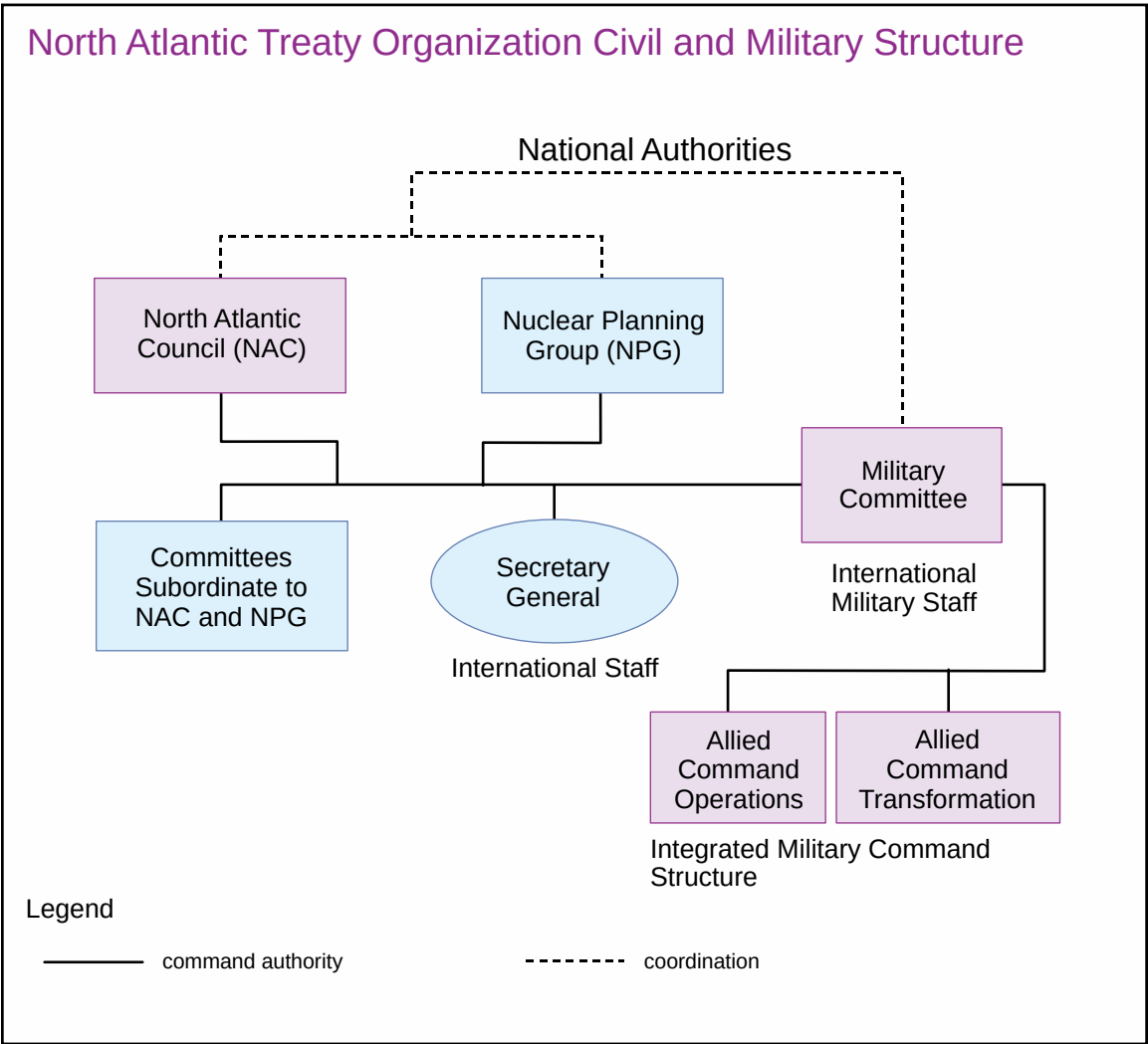


Figure B-A-1. North Atlantic Treaty Organization Civil and Military Structure

and the PERMREP levels, is the Secretary General. The NAC has an important public profile. It issues declarations and communiques explaining its policies and decisions to the general public and to governments of countries that are not members of the Alliance.

c. **PERMREPs.** Each member nation is represented on the NAC by an ambassador or PERMREP with ambassadorial rank. Each PERMREP is supported by a national delegation composed of advisors and officials who represent their country on different NATO committees. Delegations are similar, in many respects, to small embassies. Their colocation within the same HQ building enables them to maintain formal and informal contacts with each other, as well as with NATO's international staff.

d. **Nuclear Planning Group.** The Nuclear Planning Group meets at the same level and with the same status as the NAC. It is the principal forum for consultation on all matters relating to the role of nuclear forces in NATO's security policy. The Nuclear Planning Group follows a similar pattern of meeting at the ambassadorial level and at the level of ministers of defense and has the same functions and authority for decisions on nuclear matters as the NAC has in its own sphere. All member countries, except France, participate. Iceland participates only as an observer.

e. **Secretary General**

(1) The Secretary General is a senior international statesman nominated by the member nations both as Chairman of the NAC, the Nuclear Planning Group, and of other senior committees and as Secretary General of NATO. The Secretary General also acts as the principal spokesman for NATO, both in its external relations and in communications and contacts between member governments. As such, the Secretary General is responsible for promoting and directing the process of consultation and decision making throughout the Alliance.

(2) The Secretary General has direct control of a Private Office and the Office of the Secretary General. The Private Office supports the Secretary General and Deputy Secretary General in all aspects of their work. Its staff includes policy and legal advisors.

f. **International Staff.** The work of the NAC and its many committees and working groups is supported by an international staff. This staff comprises the Private Office of the Secretary General, seven operational divisions, the NATO Office of Resources, the NATO Office of Security, and the Office of the Financial Control. Each division is headed by an Assistant Secretary General, who is normally the chairman of the main committee dealing with subjects in the field of responsibility.

g. **National Military Representatives.** The members of MC are senior military officers from each nation permanently assigned as military representatives, each supported by a national staff varying in size. The military representatives constitute the MC in permanent session.

h. **MC**

(1) The MC is the highest military authority in the Alliance and is responsible to the NAC and the Nuclear Planning Group for the overall conduct of the military affairs of the Alliance. It provides for the maximum consultation and cooperation between member nations on military matters relating to the treaty and is the primary source of military advice to the Secretary General, the NAC, and the Nuclear Planning Group.

(2) Similar to the NAC, the MC periodically meets at the level of the Chief of Staff, CJCS, or Chief of Defense Staff of each member country. Iceland has no military forces, but may be represented by a civilian. The Chiefs of Staff meet at least three times a year.

(3) The Chairman of the MC chairs both the Chiefs of Staff and permanent sessions and is elected by the Chiefs of Staff, normally for a three-year term. The Chairman is the spokesperson and representative of the Committee, directs its day-to-day activities, and represents the MC at meetings of the NAC and the Nuclear Planning Group, providing advice on military matters. The Chairman is assisted by the Deputy Chairman and by the Director of the International Military Staff.

i. International Military Staff

(1) The MC is supported by an integrated international military staff made up of military personnel seconded from national military establishments and supporting civilian personnel. Members of the international military staff have a similar status within NATO as the international staff, but come under the administrative authority of the Director of the International Military Staff or the head of the independent NATO agency within which they are employed. The national military status of personnel transferred from national armed forces is not affected by their temporary assignment to NATO.

(2) The international military staff is headed by a director of three-star rank who is nominated by the member nations and is selected by the MC.

(3) As the executive agent of the MC, the international military staff is tasked with ensuring the policies and decisions of the MC are implemented as directed. In addition, the international military staff prepares plans, initiates studies, and recommends policy on matters of a military nature referred to NATO or to the MC by national or NATO authorities, commanders, or agencies.

3. North Atlantic Treaty Organization Command Structure

a. Strategic Level

(1) Allied Command Operations, with its HQ, Supreme Headquarters Allied Powers Europe, near Mons, Belgium, is commanded by the Supreme Allied Commander, Europe and is responsible for all Alliance operations. The operational level consists of two standing joint force commands—one in Brunssum, the Netherlands, and one in Naples, Italy—which can conduct operations from their static locations or provide a land-based combined JTF HQ. Additionally, the Supreme Allied Commander, Europe is dual-

hatted as Commander, USEUCOM. The organizational structure of Allied Command Operations is depicted in Figure B-A-2.

(2) Allied Command Transformation, commanded by Supreme Allied Commander Transformation, is responsible for promoting and overseeing the continuing transformation of Alliance forces and capabilities. From its HQ in Norfolk, Virginia, Allied Command Transformation oversees the transformation of NATO's military

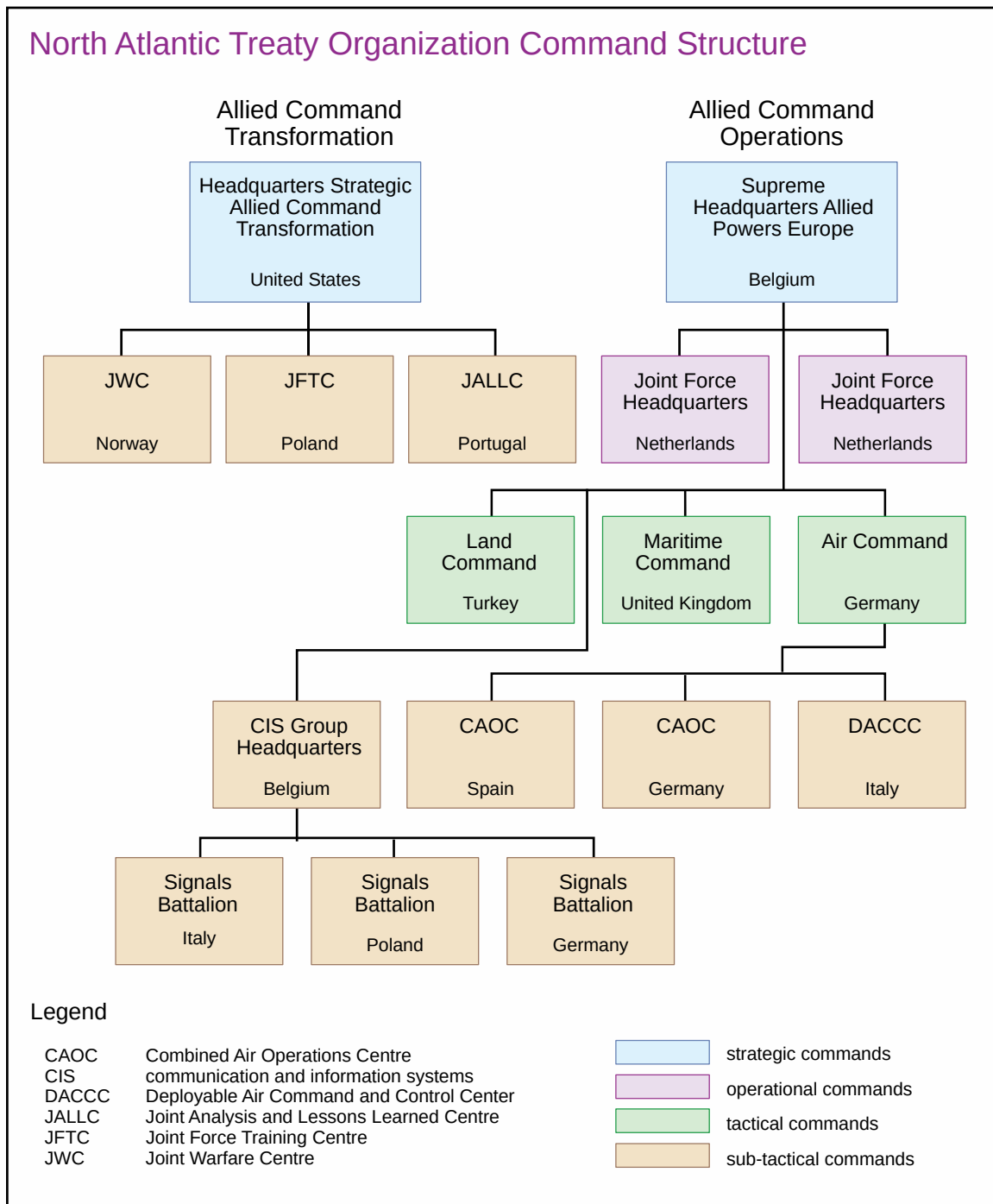


Figure B-A-2. North Atlantic Treaty Organization Command Structure

capabilities. In doing so, it enhances training, improves capabilities, tests and develops doctrine, and conducts experiments to assess new concepts. It also facilitates the dissemination and introduction of new concepts and promotes interoperability. Allied Command Transformation includes the Joint Warfare Centre in Norway, the Joint Force Training Centre in Poland, and the Joint Analysis and Lessons Learned Center in Lisbon, Portugal. In addition, Allied Command Transformation coordinates with Alliance schools, NATO agencies, and a number of nationally or multinationally sponsored centers of excellence focused on transformation in specific military fields. The organizational structure of Allied Command Transformation is depicted in Figure B-A-2.

b. Component/Tactical Level

(1) The component or tactical level consists of three component commands that provide Service-specific expertise to the operational level: a Land Command in Izmir, Turkey, that can provide a deployable core C2 capability for a major joint operation; a Maritime Command in Northwood, United Kingdom, that can command a maritime-heavy smaller joint operation from its static location; and an Air Command in Ramstein, Germany, that can command an air-heavy smaller joint operation from its static location.

(2) In addition to the three component commands, there are two static combined air operations centers—in Uedem, Germany, and Torrejon, Spain—and a deployable air C2 center—in Poggio Renatico, Italy.

4. Combined Joint Task Force Concept

a. Should a crisis occur, the NAC might consider the formation of a combined JTF composed of forces drawn from member states. A combined JTF is a multinational JTF, task-organized and formed for the full range of the Alliance’s military missions, which the commander, combined JTF, commands from a multinational and joint HQ. The JTF may include elements from non-NATO troop contributing nations.

b. The purpose of creating a combined JTF is to provide the Alliance with flexible and efficient means to generate, at short notice, rapidly deployable combined JTFs with dedicated C2 capability; facilitate operations in concert with partners and other non-NATO nations in situations not related to collective defense; and enable the Alliance, based on the tenet of “separable but not separate capabilities,” to support the development of European Security and Defense Identity within the Alliance for operations under the political control and strategic direction of the EU, or as otherwise agreed.

For more information on NATO’s combined JTF concept, refer to AJP-01, Allied Joint Doctrine.

5. Non-Article 5 Operations

a. NATO activities falling outside the scope of Article 5 are referred to collectively as non-Article 5 crisis response operations (NA5CROs). One principal difference between Article 5 operations and NA5CROs is that there is no formal obligation for NATO nations to take part in a NA5CRO. NATO nations are formally committed to take

the actions they deem necessary to restore and maintain the security of the North Atlantic area during an Article 5 operation.

b. NA5CROs range from support operations primarily associated with civil agencies in support of peace to Alliance combat operations. In the framework of a NATO-led operation, Alliance forces could conduct extraction operations, in addition to tasks in support of DR and humanitarian operations, SAR, or noncombatant evacuation operations. Operations that involve the use of military force, or the threat of force, range from freedom of navigation and overflight enforcement, sanction and embargo enforcement, support to stabilization and reconstruction activities, and counter irregular threat operations. MC 327/2, *NATO Military Policy for Non-Article 5 Crisis Response Operations*, establishes guidance for conducting NA5CROs within the Alliance.

6. North Atlantic Treaty Organization Response Force

a. The NATO Response Force is a joint, trained, and certified force package held at high readiness and tailored for an assigned mission. The NATO Response Force is capable of performing certain missions on its own, participating in an operation as part of a larger force, or serving as an initial-entry force that prepares the JOA for follow-on forces. However, since the NATO Response Force is limited in size, composition, and capabilities, it is not always the solution to emerging crises.

b. To be responsive to rapidly developing crises, the NATO Response Force relies on NATO and national procedures for the political decision-making process and for the preparations for employment. The NATO Response Force, when alerted by the NAC, can start deploying on five-days' notice and operate as a stand-alone force for up to 30 days using embedded logistic capabilities, or longer if resupplied.

ANNEX B TO APPENDIX B

UNITED NATIONS

1. Introduction

a. The UN is an international organization founded in 1945 and comprised of nearly all of the world's nation-states. The main organizations of the UN are the General Assembly, the Security Council, the ECOSOC, the Trusteeship Council, the International Court of Justice (ICJ), and the UN Secretariat. All were established when the UN was founded. Member states are bound together by the principles of the UN Charter, an international treaty that spells out their rights and duties. The purposes of the UN, as set forth by the UN Charter, include:

(1) To maintain international peace and security; to develop friendly relations among nations based on respect for the principle of equal rights and self-determination of peoples.

(2) To cooperate in solving international economic, social, cultural, and humanitarian problems and in promoting respect for human rights and fundamental freedoms.

(3) To be a center for harmonizing the actions of nations in attaining these ends.

b. The UN has a complex structure with numerous organizations that reflect different communities and perspectives including political, security, humanitarian, human rights, and development. The UN system, also known unofficially as the “UN family,” is made up of the UN itself and many affiliated programs, funds, and specialized agencies, all with their own membership, leadership, and budget. The programs and funds are financed through voluntary rather than assessed contributions. The specialized agencies are independent international organizations funded by both voluntary and assessed contributions. The UN is not a world government, and it does not make laws. It does, however, provide the means to help resolve international conflicts and formulate policies on matters affecting member states. All member states are involved in the following dimensions of the UN.

(1) The UN serves as an interstate forum where states come together to debate issues and call for action. As a founder and permanent member of the Security Council, the US seeks to shape comprehensive international action through UN efforts.

(2) The UN is an international civil service which runs the Secretariat's departments and offices for the benefit of the international community. The US and other nations must consider how best to work with and through the UN system and its organizational culture.

(3) The UN is a collection of agencies which perform various humanitarian and development tasks. In conflict zones, UN agencies play a major role in addressing

human suffering and disaster response, and the US must often work alongside or with these organizations.

2. Relevance of the United Nations to United States Strategy and Joint Operations

a. The US pursues many of its strategic objectives through the UN. The UN's Security Council is the only internationally recognized entity that can legitimize military action throughout the world. Along with the United Kingdom, France, Russia, and China, the US is a permanent member of the UN Security Council and, as such, holds veto power over UN Security Council resolutions, except those that are procedural in nature. As a key member of the Security Council and the largest monetary contributor to the UN, the US is frequently instrumental in shaping and implementing many UN efforts. The US Mission to the UN is the primary USG organization that coordinates with the UN and the point of entry for all other USG departments and agencies.

b. **US Contributions to the UN.** The US participates in and influences UN peace efforts and other operations in numerous ways.

(1) **Budget.** The US is by far the largest financial contributor to the UN, providing 22 percent of the overall operating budget. It also provides approximately 28 percent of the UN's assessed peacekeeping budget.

(2) **Military Observers and Staff Officers.** Along with other nations, the US provides individual officers as staff officers to selected UN missions or as "UN military experts on mission," which include military observers, LNOs, or staff officers. These individuals significantly enhance the effectiveness of UN missions and are assigned to the US Military Observer Group-Washington during their period of duty with the UN. Additionally, the US provides military and civilian personnel who serve in UN HQ in New York.

(3) **Global Peace Operations Initiative (GPOI).** GPOI is a USG-funded security assistance program intended to build the capacity of partner countries to effectively participate in UN and regional peace support operations. Through training and capacity building projects, GPOI's role is to wean the partner off GPOI support and eventually train and deploy peacekeepers on its own. GPOI is managed by DOS and implemented by OSD, the geographic CCMDs, and through contractual arrangements. A large portion of GPOI funding is allocated to the DOS's African Contingency Training and Assistance program. This is implemented by DOS contractors.

(4) **US Support to UN Missions and UN Humanitarian Response.** In addition to monetary support, the US may provide logistical support or technical expertise to UN missions and humanitarian responses. Joint forces may be directed to participate in these efforts.

(5) **Troop Contingent Contributions.** The US has in the past provided military units to UN missions and may do so again in the future. As during any multinational operation in which US forces are placed under the OPCON or TACON of a non-US commander, the President will retain command of any contributed US forces.

(6) **Other US Contributions to PO.** Additionally, the US has supported or participated in PO outside of the UN, such as the Multinational Force and Observers mission in the Sinai. Such missions may be authorized by the UN, even if it does not control the operation, as with the AU mission in Somalia today.

c. Relevance of the UN to JFCs

(1) The UN and its activities are often significant for JFCs. UN Security Council resolutions provide legitimacy for military operations and other efforts, and many potential multinational partners view a UN Security Council resolution as a prerequisite before contributing.

(2) UN peacekeeping and political missions, as well as its humanitarian, human rights, and development organizations, are often present in operational environments and are potential partners for joint forces. In addition to orchestrating its own stabilization efforts, the UN often coordinates the efforts of NGOs as well. Some joint operations may conclude with an operation, transitions of stabilization, or enabling civil authority phase responsibilities to the UN. Additionally, UN peacekeeping missions that are conducted over a longer term than US contingency operations are often a potential option for transitioning US joint operations into sustainable multinational efforts that enable sustained burden sharing for peace building and development, as well as the redeployment of US forces at mission handover.

(3) UN peacekeeping and political missions are important activities in AORs. The challenges faced by these missions and their effectiveness, or lack thereof, affect the stability in countries of interest and often the surrounding region.

(4) Many nations and their militaries place great emphasis on their participation in UN or other peacekeeping missions as their form of expeditionary operations that contribute to international security. They may be particularly receptive to US theater security cooperation activities that focus on increasing the effectiveness of their ability to participate in PO, and joint forces must understand and appreciate the peacekeeping context to have successful engagements with partnered militaries.

3. Overview of the United Nations

a. **Evolution of the UN Role in International Security.** The UN has evolved since its establishment in 1945. Originally consisting of 51 countries, it now includes nearly 200 member states. The UN's role has progressively expanded, particularly with respect to international peace and security. Peacekeeping became a prominent function for the UN, and such missions have tended to move beyond traditional peacekeeping that simply monitored a ceasefire or peace agreement. Many use the term robust peacekeeping to describe mission activities appropriate for complex settings with significant levels of violence.

b. **UN Charter.** The UN Charter is an international treaty that articulates the purposes of the UN, as well as its organization and obliges adherence by all UN member states. Three chapters of the UN Charter are particularly relevant for PO that are of

interest to joint forces. UN Security Council resolutions that authorize peacekeeping missions are not obliged to cite a chapter, although in recent years it has become common practice to refer to Chapter VII when the use of force beyond self-defense is envisaged.

(1) **Chapter VI, “Pacific Settlement of Disputes.”** This chapter is typically associated with “traditional peacekeeping” missions that monitor a ceasefire or peace agreement.

(2) **Chapter VII, “Action with Respect to Threats to the Peace, Breaches of the Peace, and Acts of Aggression.”** In addition to situations in which one country invades another, this chapter applies to robust peacekeeping and peace enforcement missions in which armed actors are likely to obstruct the mission from achieving its objectives. Because intra-national conflicts affect other countries, the UN often addresses them under Chapter VII. The UN Security Council must refer to Chapter VII if it wants to use force for any purpose beyond self-defense. This is sometimes accomplished by authorizing the use of all necessary measures.

(3) **Chapter VIII, “Regional Arrangements.”** This chapter addresses the role of regional organizations such as the EU or AU in regional peace and security. Regional arrangements may deploy peacekeeping operations on their own initiative but require a UN Security Council resolution to conduct peace enforcement activities and to garner international legitimacy.

For more information, refer to the UN Charter (<http://www.un.org/en/documents/charter/index.shtml>).

c. **UN Organization.** As an international organization, the UN has a different organization from the USG, and it is important to understand how the UN develops and conducts guidance, programs, and operations in order to advance US efforts and objectives. The UN system consists of five active principal organizations (a sixth, the Trusteeship Council, has been inactive since 1994), along with numerous programs and specialized agencies, as depicted in Figure B-B-1.

(1) **Principal Organizations**

(a) **General Assembly.** The General Assembly includes all member states and is the UN’s main deliberative body. It can provide nonbinding recommendations to member states or to the Security Council.

(b) **Security Council.** This body consists of five permanent (China, France, Russia, the United Kingdom, and the US) and 10 non-permanent member states that are elected by the General Assembly for two-year terms. It is focused on international peace and security and may promulgate compulsory resolutions.

(c) **Secretariat.** The Secretariat is chaired by the UN Secretary-General, administratively supports the rest of the UN, implements tasks directed by the other organizations of the UN, and provides studies and reports. The Secretariat includes the Department of Political Affairs, the UNDPKO, the Department of Field Support, the

The United Nations System

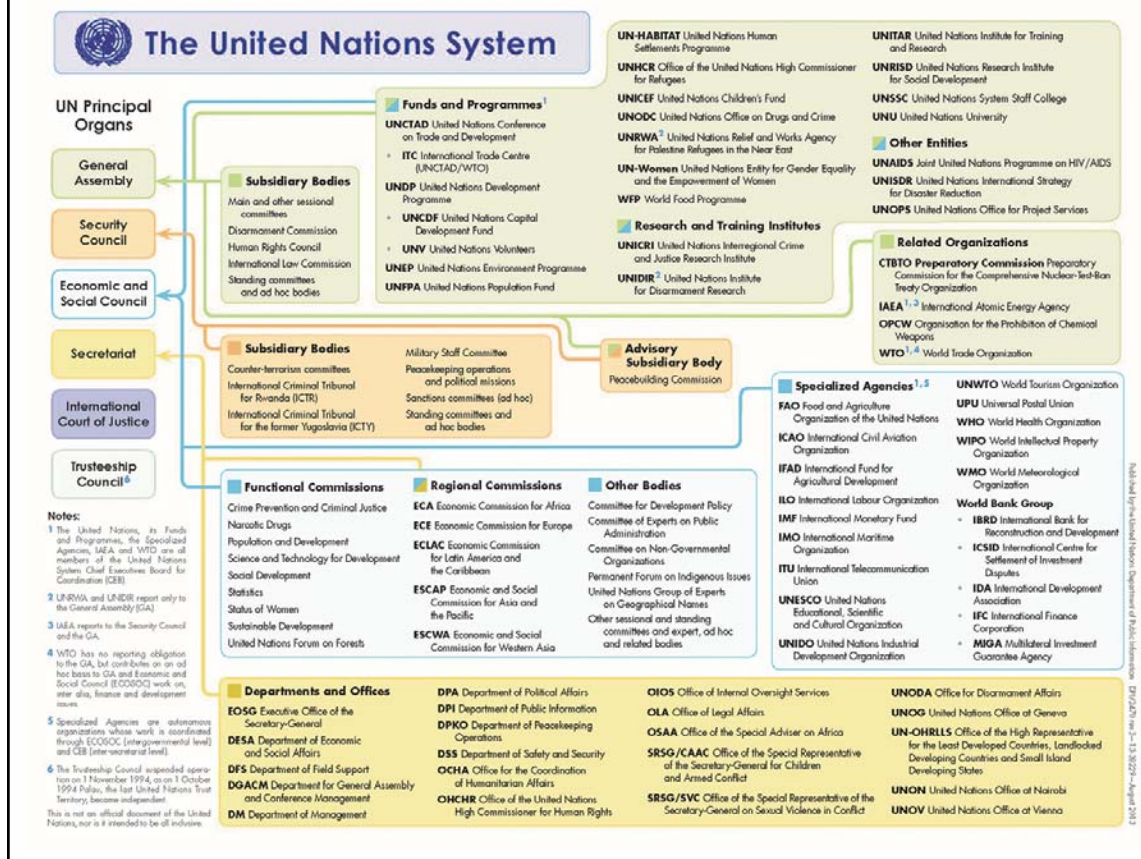


Figure B-B-1. The United Nations System

UNOCHA, the Department of Safety and Security, the Office of the High Commissioner for Human Rights, several special advisors, and other agencies.

(d) **ECOSOC.** Composed of 54 member states that are elected by the General Assembly for staggered three-year terms, this body is responsible for coordinating activities of many of the UN's most important specialized agencies.

(e) **ICJ.** Also known as the World Court, the ICJ is intended to adjudicate legal disputes submitted by member states and to provide legal opinions for other UN organizations. The ICJ is distinct from the International Criminal Court (ICC), an international organization with jurisdiction over genocide, crimes against humanity, and war crimes. The ICC is not part of the UN; however, the UN Security Council occasionally refers cases to the ICC for investigation.

(2) **Other UN Agencies, Funds, and Programs.** The UN includes many subordinate entities. Some of the more prominent are the UNDP, the Office of the UNHCR, the UN Children's Fund, the World Food Programme (WFP), the International Monetary Fund, the WHO, and the World Bank.

For more information on the UN and its subordinate organizations, refer to the UN website (www.un.org).

d. UN Assessment, Planning, and Mission Development Processes

(1) **Standing up a Mission.** Mission planning begins in anticipation of, or in response, to a UN Security Council resolution that includes a mandate which authorizes the mission and provides strategic guidance. The process includes consultations and a technical assessment mission to determine requirements. After a mission is authorized, its senior officials are appointed and other mission planning and resourcing commences. Key documents for the mission include a mandate implementation plan, integrated strategic framework, military and police CONOPS, ROE for the military component, directive on the use of force for the police component, statements of unit requirements for different types of units, status-of-forces agreement and status of mission agreement, MOUs with troop contributing countries (TCCs) and police contributing countries (PCCs), and mission-related budgets. TCCs and PCCs deploy their contingents by a variety of means, and the mission will recruit its civilian staff members.

(2) **UN Assessment and Planning Processes.** In the UN, integrated assessments and planning are conducted at the strategic level (i.e., within the UN HQ in New York) and at the operational level (within the HQ of UN missions). The integrated assessment and planning (IAP) assists UN senior leadership in proposing and implementing UN Security Council resolutions which form the mandate for UN missions. Additionally, the IAP process provides mission direction and planning for UN field missions.

For more information, refer to the UN Integrated Assessment and Planning Handbook (<http://www.un.org/en/peacekeeping/publications/2014-IAP-HandBook.pdf>) and the UN Planning Toolkit (http://www.un.org/en/peacekeeping/publications/Planning%20Toolkit_Web%20Version.pdf).

For more information, refer to Module 6: Introduction to Military Component Planning Process (http://www.peacekeepingbestpractices.unlb.org/PBPS/Library/STM_Staff%20Officer%20Module%201-7.pdf).

(3) **Doctrine.** While military doctrine is largely viewed as a national function, UNDPKO has developed capability standards (manuals) on the following topics: infantry battalion, medical, staff officer, aviation, engineers, force HQ support, logistics, maritime, military police, reconnaissance, riverine, signals, special forces, and transport. The UN also produces policy instructions, guidelines, principles, concept notes, and training materials that frequently serve doctrinal purposes.

For more information, refer to the UN website (<http://www.un.org>).

(4) **Training.** To support the preparation of national forces that can deploy and conduct UN peacekeeping missions successfully, the UN has three phases of training:

- (a) Predeployment training.

(b) Induction training.

(c) Ongoing training while in the mission area. Predeployment training and certification is primarily the responsibility of the contributing member states, but the UN provides core and specialized training materials to support these efforts. Core predeployment training materials provide an overview of UN peacekeeping and address the establishment and functioning of UN peacekeeping operations, effective mandate implementation, and standards, values, and safety. Specialized training materials are tailored for military, police, or civilian components and address a variety of topics such as the protection of civilians, human rights, and civil-military coordination.

For more information, refer to the UN's core pre-deployment training modules (http://www.peacekeepingbestpractices.unlb.org/PBPS/Pages/Public/library.aspx?ot=2&scat=393&menukey=_4_5_2) and the UN's specialized training modules (http://www.peacekeepingbestpractices.unlb.org/PBPS/Pages/Public/library.aspx?ot=2&scat=394&menukey=_4_5_4).

(5) Global Field Support Strategy. The UN's Department of Field Support is responsible for ensuring field missions and deployed personnel are administratively and logistically supported. The global field support strategy focuses on finance, human resources, supply chains, and global and regional service centers. Most of the UN's actual logistical support is provided via contractual arrangements.

For more information, refer to the UN's Field Support website (<http://www.un.org/en/peacekeeping/issues/fieldsupport.shtml>).

(6) UN Field Operations. The UN performs most of its work through United Nations country teams (UNCTs) or field missions. UNCTs are comprised of the heads of the UN agencies that are operational in the country. The UNCT is coordinated by the RC accredited to the country. In some countries there may be both a country team and a mission; these are separate organizations although they are often “integrated” by dual-hatting the head of the country team RC as the Deputy Special Representative of the Secretary-General (DSRSG) who serves as one of the two deputies in deputy head of the UN mission.

(a) **UNCTs.** UNCTs exist in well over a hundred countries and include all the entities of the UN system that carry out operational activities for development, emergency, recovery, and transition. The UNCT ensures interagency coordination and decision making at the country level. The main purpose of the UNCT is for individual agencies to plan and work together to ensure the delivery of tangible results in support of the development agenda of the government.

1. The UNCT is led by the RC, who is the designated representative of the UN Secretary-General. All UNCT members, who are international civil servants, have direct-line accountability to their own organizations (such as WHO, WFP, UNOCHA, UNDP, and up to 30 others), as well as collegial accountability to the RC and the rest of the UNCT. The UNCT will assign various leadership roles to its members on

programmatic and management issues. Country team activities are funded through donor contributions.

2. UNCTs will normally have an HC to guide the efforts of humanitarian organizations. The RC and HC will often be the same individual (RC/HC) and, as previously mentioned, may also serve as a DSRSG in an integrated peacekeeping mission. This is referred to as the triple-hatted RC/HC/DSRSG.

(b) **UN Field Missions.** These include peacekeeping missions, special political missions, and regional missions whose mandates span more than one country. There are currently 16 peacekeeping missions managed by UNDPKO, and their sizes typically range from 5,000 to over 20,000 personnel. Most of these missions include military, police, and civilian components whose personnel are distinct from the UNCT and address issues such as human rights, the protection of civilians, child protection, gender issues, elections, disarmament, and other issues. Special Political Missions are usually managed by the UN Department of Political Affairs and focus on conflict resolution, peace building, and other political objectives. They may include special envoys and expert panels and normally have very few uniformed personnel, if any.

4. United Nations Peace Operations

a. **Types of PO.** The UN categorization of PO, as depicted in Figure B-B-2, is similar to that in US joint doctrine. The conceptual diagram is not always reflective of reality, as some peacekeeping missions operate in the absence of ceasefires in zones of violent conflict. Most UN military forces are involved in peacekeeping, though in this context they are often engaged in peace building and other activities.

For more information, refer to JP 3-07.3, Peace Operations.

b. **Principles of UN Peacekeeping.** UN peacekeepers abide by three basic principles:

(1) Consent of the parties to the conflict.

(2) Impartiality.

(3) Non-use of force except in self-defense and defense of the mandate. UN peacekeeping missions will generally avoid alienating the major parties, but a diligent execution of the mandate may make this unavoidable. In many contemporary settings, complete consent to a UN presence may be lacking and peacekeepers may be targeted by spoilers. While a mandate to protect civilians might permit a UN force to use force in situations other than self-defense, many UN peacekeeping units are reluctant to engage in such robust peacekeeping.

c. **Types of Peacekeeping Operations.** The UN formally recognizes three types of peacekeeping operations, although robust peacekeeping is also discussed.

Spectrum of Peace and Security Activities

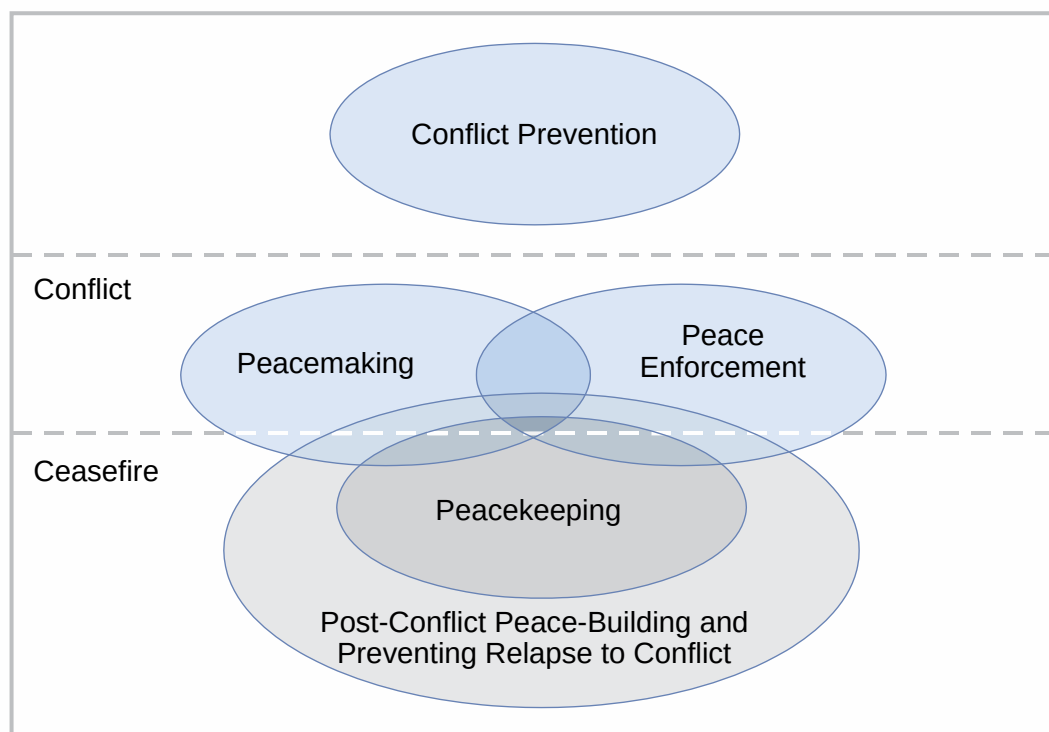


Figure B-B-2. Spectrum of Peace and Security Activities

(1) **Traditional Peacekeeping.** In these missions, UN forces observe, monitor, and report compliance with a ceasefire agreement. They may supervise ceasefire activities, such as troop withdrawals, or support any verification mechanisms and confidence-building measures. They may conduct interposition operations, which essentially establishes a buffer zone between potential belligerents. While this role is frequently associated with Chapter VI mandates, a UN Security Council resolution is not obliged to cite a particular chapter.

(2) **Multidimensional Peacekeeping.** Most contemporary peacekeeping missions are of this type and are deployed during or in the aftermath of internal conflicts. A multidimensional mission has military, police, and civilian components and is frequently mandated to provide civil security, civil control, support to governance and the rule of law to increase population perception of legitimacy.

(3) **Transitional Authority.** This type of mission, which is rarely used, temporarily assumes the legislative and administrative functions of the state. It may be appropriate when there are unresolved sovereignty issues or when state institutions have not existed previously.

d. **Peacekeeping Levels.** The UN recognizes overlapping strategic, operational, and tactical levels of peacekeeping as shown in Figure B-B-3. These differentiations are often reflected in UN policy, training, doctrine, and other documents. “Strategic” is inferred to include the national government of the nation in which the mission is deployed. For example, a mission may have strategic consent to its presence (that is, the consent of the host government), but may lack consent at the local or tactical level.

e. **Example Peacekeeping Mission.** While each UN peacekeeping mission is unique, this section will describe some of the characteristics of recently authorized

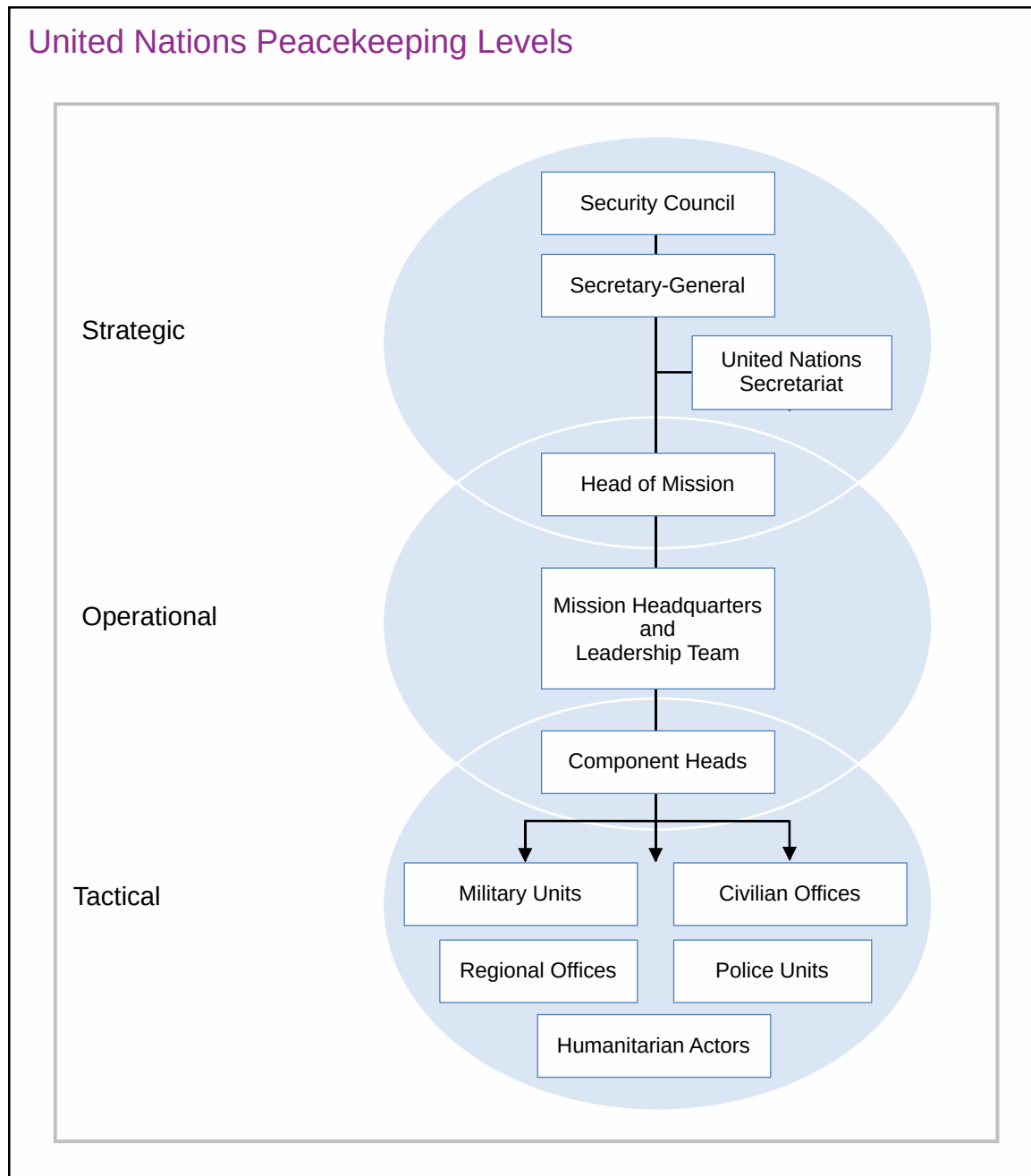


Figure B-B-3. United Nations Peacekeeping Levels

multidimensional missions. Each UN mission has a website with relevant information such as composition, deployment maps, and relevant Security Council resolutions.

For more information on specific UN peacekeeping missions, refer to the website (<http://www.un.org/en/peacekeeping/operations/current.shtml>).

(1) **Mandate.** A mission's mandate is derived from at least one UN Security Council resolution. It may address the protection of civilians, conflict prevention, peace consolidation, state capacity building and the extension of host state authority, support and security for HA, and resettlement of dislocated civilians. In rare cases, all or part of the military component may be authorized to take offensive action against armed groups that target civilians. Mandates usually last for one year, after which they are often renewed and modified to account for changing circumstances.

(2) **Organization.** Figure B-B-4 depicts a representative organizational structure for a multidimensional integrated peacekeeping mission, although there are likely to be variations.

(a) The operation is led by a HOM, normally a SRSG. The SRSG is assisted by a chief of staff, a DSRSG for political affairs who coordinates the mission's civilian component, and an RC/HC/DSRSG who also leads the UNCT. The mission also has a joint operations center to support C2 and a joint mission analysis center that provides situational understanding.

(b) The force commander and police commissioner lead the military and police components, respectively. A civilian-led mission support directorate controls the administrative and logistical assets in the mission, including military logistics units, and maintains the JLOC. Frequently, a mission will have state or province coordinators who also report to the SRSG.

(3) **ROE and Use of Force.** A mission's ROE are drafted in advance by the UNDPKO's Office of Military Affairs at the UN HQ in New York and are approved by the Office of Legal Affairs. ROE will emphasize minimum force, control, and proportionality and prescribe advance preparatory measures that should be taken, when possible, before deadly force is used. The UN addresses force employment in the context of a four-stage framework: prevention, preemption, response, and consolidation. This framework is also frequently used in UN strategies, operational concepts, and training scenarios.

(4) **Integrated Peacekeeping Missions.** An integrated peacekeeping mission encourages cooperation among the mission, the UNCT, and NGOs that support UN objectives. In part, this is facilitated by the RC/HCs' appointment as a DSRSG. It is also supported by the cluster system developed by the Inter-Agency Standing Committee, a forum that coordinates UN and non-UN humanitarian partners.

(a) The cluster system organizes donors, coordinates humanitarian organizations by function, and is used in most countries where there is a UN peacekeeping mission, as well as other situations such as international disaster response.

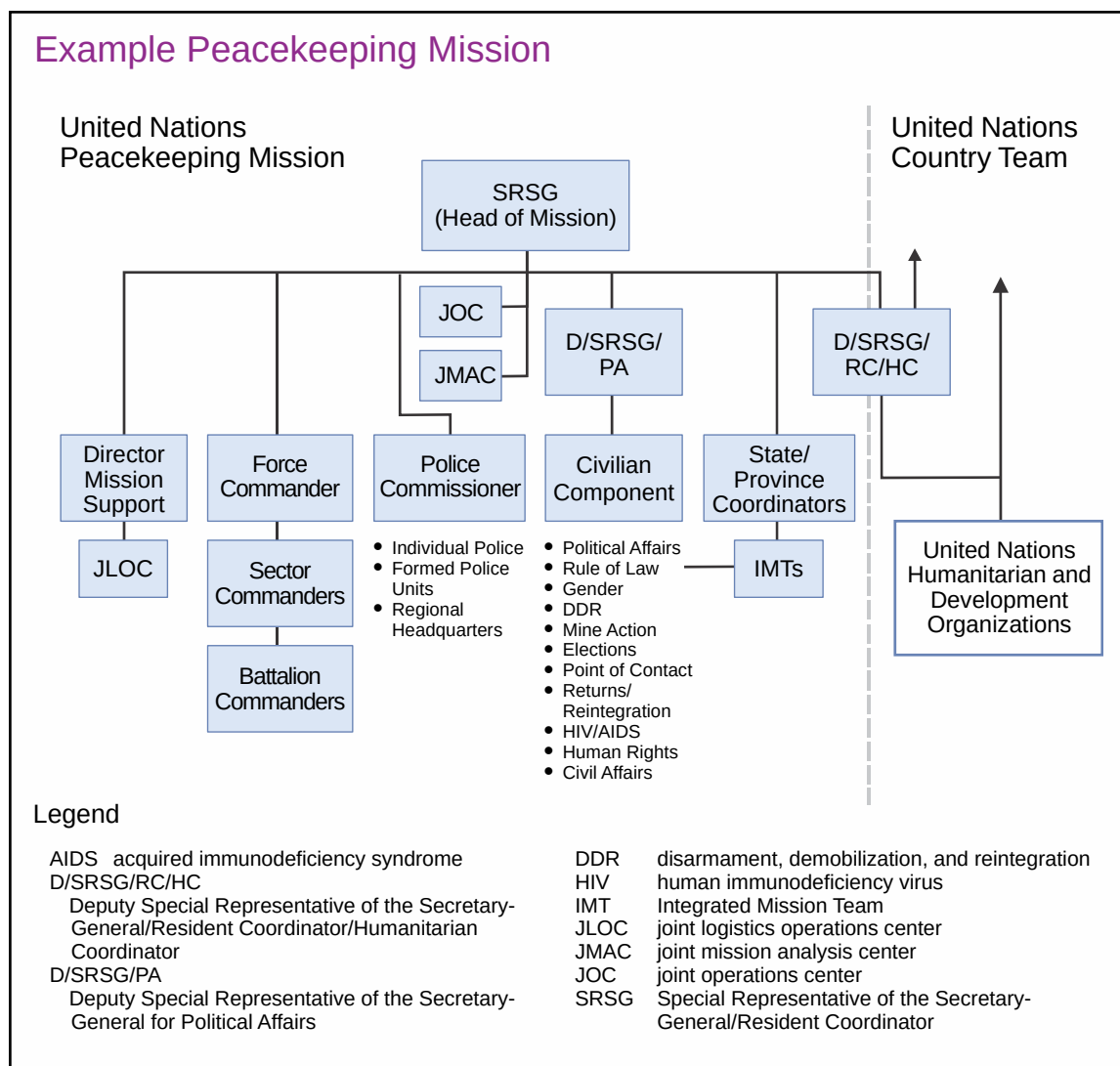


Figure B-B-4. Example Peacekeeping Mission

Cluster participation is voluntary, but supports the efficient delivery of HA. The cluster system's core functions are to support service delivery, inform decision making, develop plans and strategies, advocate, monitor and report, conduct planning and preparation, and build capacity.

(b) Figure B-B-5 depicts standard clusters and their lead organizations. In some circumstances, other clusters (such as gender, environment, HIV [human immunodeficiency virus]/AIDS [acquired immunodeficiency syndrome], or non-food items) may be formed to address critical requirements.

For more information on the cluster system, the Inter-Agency Standing Committee, and humanitarian operations, refer to the websites (<http://www.unocha.org/what-we-do/coordination-tools/cluster-coordination>), (<http://humanitarianinfo.org/iasc/pageloader.aspx?page=content-about-default>), and (<http://reliefweb.int/>).

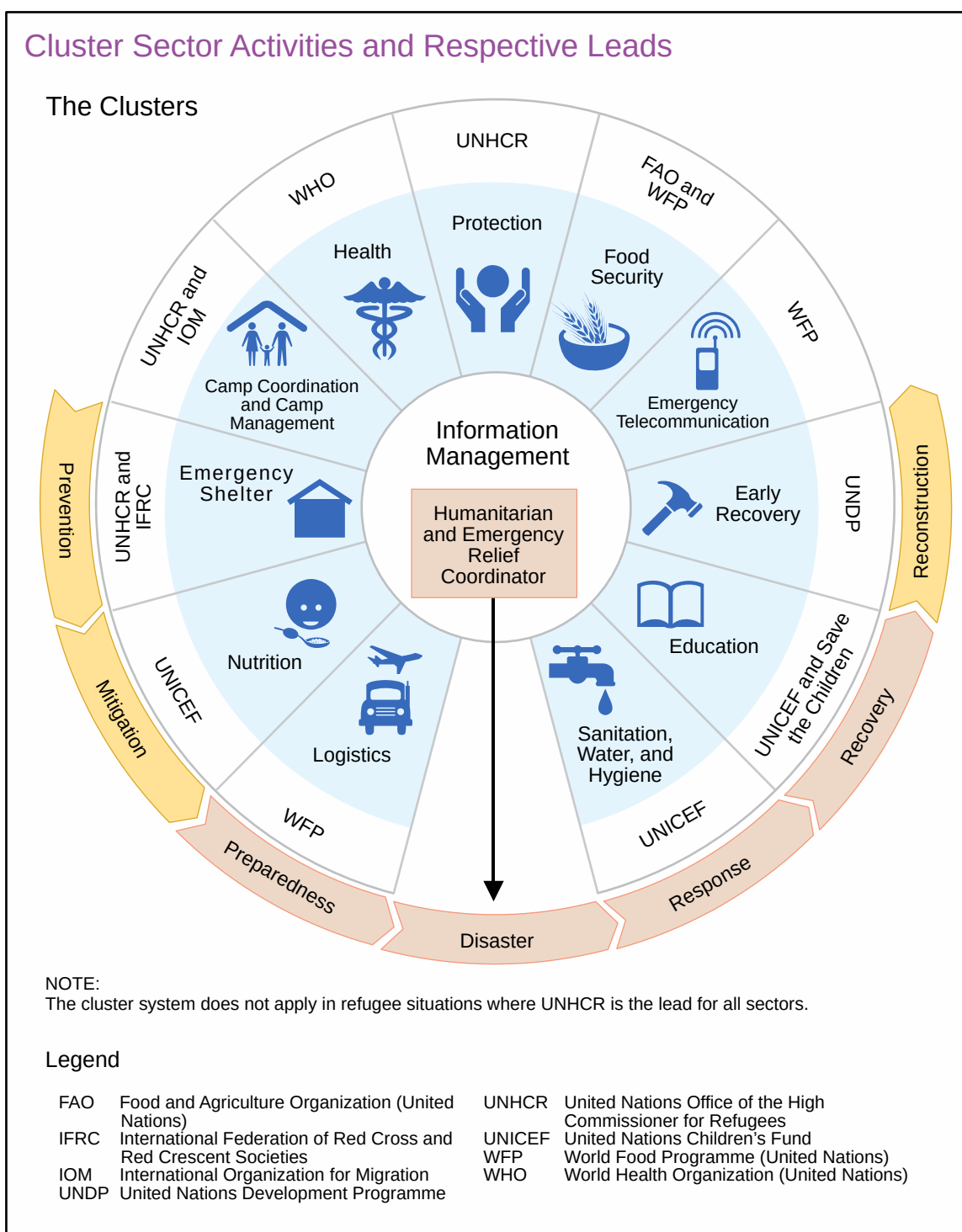


Figure B-B-5. Cluster Sector Activities and Respective Leads

For more information on UN and other humanitarian and development organizations, see the website (<http://reliefweb.int/organizations>).

f. Peacekeeping Challenges. UN peacekeeping missions are deployed in increasingly complex environments and tasked to achieve ambitious results with

extremely limited resources. While the UN has significantly transformed its peacekeeping missions in recent years, it continues to face many challenges. Joint forces that are involved in theater security cooperation activities with partnered militaries should be aware of these challenges and help mitigate them when possible. They should also be aware of them when a UN mission is a partner during joint operations, particularly when a phase IV or phase V transition includes a UN mission.

(1) The UN has no standing forces, and peacekeeping missions are formed from voluntary national contributions after a specific mandate has been passed. This process is necessarily time-consuming. Consequently, UN forces are slow to deploy and their deployment often follows earlier action by a regional force or coalition in response to a crisis. Moreover, the UN does not have readily available reserve forces to deploy to a mission if it is urgently needed.

(2) Many multidimensional mandates include requirements (such as supporting the extension of state authority, security sector reform, or the protection of civilians) that in effect place a mission in opposition to a belligerent and thus jeopardize its impartiality. Peacekeeping missions are often challenged by the practical implementation of these mandated tasks that extend beyond traditional peacekeeping roles. In complex environments, peacekeepers and other UN workers are often targeted by spoilers who use ambushes, indirect fires, improvised explosive devices, and other means. Missions sometimes have difficult relations with their HN which may be both a necessary partner and the biggest obstacle to an effective peaceful settlement with sufficient respect for human rights.

(3) Missions often lack critical enablers such as helicopters, adequate engineering or medical support, and communications. Females are often vital for engaging with local populations and otherwise supporting the mandate, but are usually scarce in UN units. Intelligence is vital for effective operations, but it is a difficult capability for an impartial actor such as the UN to pursue. UN missions have limited planning capacity at all levels, and their planning is constrained because some potential scenarios are too politically sensitive for realistic planning.

(4) Interoperability is difficult because of different languages, equipment, procedures, and capabilities within peacekeeping missions. Units come to UN missions with differing levels of training, discipline, and maturity of their unit administrative and logistical systems. TCCs and PCCs have varying levels of commitment to a mission's success, and some have "national caveats" that restrict the effective employment of their contingents. The UN often is not aware of these national caveats when a country deploys its units.

ANNEX C TO APPENDIX B EUROPEAN UNION

1. Overview

The EU (http://europa.eu/index_en.htm) is a regional international organization currently comprised of 28 European countries. Originally established as an economic union following World War II, it developed into the European Economic Community or “common market” in 1958. In 1993, the Maastricht Treaty formed the foundation for a political and economic union that has become the EU.

2. Authority and Responsibilities

a. One of the many facets of the EU is a Common Foreign and Security Policy, which was established by the 1993 Maastricht Treaty. The Maastricht Treaty gives the Common Foreign and Security Policy the aims of promoting both the EU’s own interests and those of the international community as a whole. This includes promoting international cooperation, respect for human rights, democracy, and the rule of law.

b. The 1997 Amsterdam Treaty created the office of the High Representative for the Common Foreign and Security Policy to coordinate the EU’s foreign policy. The High Representative, in conjunction with the current Presidency, which rotates between member states every six months, speaks on behalf of the EU in foreign policy matters. The Common Foreign and Security Policy requires unanimity among the member states on the appropriate policy to follow on any particular issue. The unanimity and difficult issues treated under the Common Foreign and Security Policy makes disagreements, such as those that occurred over the war in Iraq, not uncommon.

c. Member states are responsible for their own territorial defense. Many EU members are also members of NATO, although some follow policies of neutrality. The Western European Union is a European security organization related to the EU.

d. To enable the EU to fully assume its responsibilities for crisis management, the European Council (Nice, France, December 2000) decided to establish permanent political and military structures:

(1) The Political and Security Committee meets at the ambassadorial level as a preparatory body for the council of the EU. Its main functions are keeping track of the international situation and helping to define policies within the Common Foreign and Security Policy, including the European Security and Defense policy (<http://www.eeas.europa.eu/csdp/>). It prepares a coherent EU response to a crisis and exercises its political control and strategic direction.

(2) The EU Military Committee is the highest military body set up within the Council of the EU. It is composed of the chiefs of defense of the member states, who are regularly represented by their permanent military representatives. The EU Military

Committee provides the Political and Security Committee with advice and recommendations on all military matters within the EU.

(3) In parallel with the EU Military Committee, the Political and Security Committee is advised by a Committee for Civilian Aspects of Crisis Management. This committee provides information, drafts recommendations, and gives its opinion to the Political and Security Committee on civilian aspects of crisis management.

(4) The EU Military Staff works under direction of the EU Military Committee and under the authority of the High Representative/Vice President. It is the source of collective (multi-disciplinary) military expertise. It is led by a three-star general officer and assisted by a two-star (general/rear admiral) Deputy Director General and Chief of Staff. The five directorates are concepts and capabilities, intelligence, operations, logistics, and communications and information systems. It provides staffing for the EU cell at Supreme Headquarters Allied Powers Europe to “prepare for EU operations having recourse to NATO common assets and capabilities under Berlin plus arrangements and to support Deputy Supreme Allied Commander Europe’s role as a potential operational commander for an EU-led operation. It contributes to full transparency between NATO and the EU embodying their strategic partnership in crisis management.”

(5) The Civilian Planning and Conduct Capability, which is part of the Council Secretariat, is the permanent structure responsible for an autonomous operational conduct of civilian European Security and Defense Policy operations. Under the political control and strategic direction of the Political and Security Committee and the overall authority of the High Representative, the Civilian Planning and Conduct Capability ensures the effective planning and conduct of civilian European Security and Defense Policy crisis management operations, as well as the proper implementation of all mission-related tasks.

e. After the Kosovo War in 1999, the European Council agreed that “the Union must have the capacity for autonomous action, backed by credible military forces, the means to decide to use them, and the readiness to do so, in order to respond to international crises without prejudice to actions by NATO.” To that end, a number of efforts were made to increase the EU’s military capability. The most concrete result was the EU Battlegroups initiative, each of which is planned to be able to deploy quickly about 1,500 men. EU forces have been deployed on peacekeeping missions from Africa to the former Yugoslavia and the Middle East. The EU is currently conducting a military operation protecting humanitarian aid shipments and countering piracy off the coast of Somalia, a military training mission in Somalia, and a civilian mission to strengthen maritime capabilities in the Horn of Africa. EU military operations are supported by a number of bodies (e.g., the European Defense Agency, satellite center, and the military staff).

f. Members of the EU are increasingly involved in peacekeeping (e.g., in Kosovo) and are playing an important role in the full range of development activities. In post-conflict or peacekeeping missions, the EU activities may be coordinated by an EU special representative, whose office would include the various EU elements contributing to the mission. The various offices of the EU special representative would be the primary participants in any intergovernmental coordination efforts.

ANNEX D TO APPENDIX B ORGANIZATION OF AMERICAN STATES

1. Overview

The OAS (<http://www.oas.org/en/default.asp>) brings together nations of the Western Hemisphere to strengthen cooperation on democratic values, defend common interests, and debate the major issues facing the region and the world. The OAS is the region's principal multilateral forum for strengthening democracy, promoting human rights, and confronting shared problems such as poverty, terrorism, illegal drugs, and corruption. It plays a leading role in carrying out mandates established by the hemisphere's leaders through the Summits of the Americas. All 35 independent countries of the Americas have ratified the OAS Charter and belong to OAS.

2. Authority and Responsibilities

The member countries set major policies and goals through the General Assembly, which gathers the hemisphere's ministers of foreign affairs once a year in regular session. Ongoing actions are guided by the Permanent Council, made up of ambassadors appointed by the member states.

3. Organizational Structure

The OAS General Secretariat carries out the programs and policies set by the political bodies. Specialized secretariats coordinate OAS efforts in several broad areas:

a. **Secretariat for Multidimensional Security.** Coordinates OAS actions against terrorism, illegal drugs, and other threats to public security.

b. **Secretariat for Political Affairs.** Directs efforts to promote democracy, strengthen democratic governance, and prevent democratic crises.

c. **Executive Secretariat for Integral Development.** Promotes social development; sustainable development; trade and tourism; and education, culture, science, and technology. Also handles follow-up actions from the region's ministerial meetings.

d. **Secretariat for Administration and Finance.** Provides support services to the General Secretariat, in areas that include human resources, information and technology, and budgetary affairs.

e. **Department of International Legal Affairs.** Promotes legal cooperation among the member states by helping to develop and implement international treaties.

4. Inter-American Defense Board

a. The Inter-American Defense Board is an international committee of nationally appointed defense officials who develop collaborative approaches on common defense and security issues facing the Americas.

b. The organization is an international forum consisting of civilian and military representatives appointed by the member states. It provides technical, consultative, and educational advisory services in military and hemispheric defense related matters consistent with the mandates of the OAS General Assembly, the Meeting of Consultation of Ministers of Foreign Relations, and the OAS Permanent Council in their respective areas of jurisdiction.

c. The Inter-American Defense Board comprises the following entities: the Council of Delegates; the Secretariat, and the Inter-American Defense College.

d. Current programs include technical consultative support to the Conference of Minister of Defense of the Americas, humanitarian demining in Central America, reporting on confidence and security building measures, and developing educational programs on regional security.

ANNEX E TO APPENDIX B

UNITED STATES INSTITUTE OF PEACE

1. Overview

The USIP was created by Congress in 1984 as an independent, nonpartisan organization charged with preventing, mitigating, and resolving violent conflicts around the world. USIP engages directly in conflict zones and by providing analysis, education, and resources to those working for peace. USIP's programs are funded by an annual congressional appropriation and supplemented by funds from USG departments and agencies. USIP has more than 300 personnel at their District of Columbia HQ and more on the ground in many of the world's most dangerous regions.

2. Authority and Responsibilities

USIP is governed by a 15-person board made up of the Secretary of State and SecDef, or their designees; the President of the National Defense University; and 12 others appointed by the President of the United States and confirmed by the US Senate. No more than eight board members may come from the same political party. USIP's international HQ on the National Mall stands as a symbol of US commitment to peace.

3. Organizational Structure

USIP conducts its work through both regional and functional centers.

a. The **Center for Applied Conflict Transformation** integrates USIP's functional capabilities. The Center for Applied Conflict Transformation trains US and international military, civil society leaders, and practitioners in Washington, in the field and online on effective peacekeeping, community building, conflict management, and humanitarian operations necessary for sustained peace. The center also focuses on USIP's thematic emphases, encompassing economics, gender, rule of law, religion, media, and technology. These programs conduct research, identify best practices, and develop new peacebuilding tools within their areas of expertise. The center collaborates with the other USIP centers to undertake peacebuilding projects in conflict zones around the world.

b. The **Center for South and Central Asia** works to promote peace and stability in this strategically important but conflict-ridden region of the world. With experts based at HQ and working from field offices in Afghanistan and Pakistan, the center conducts and supports policy-relevant research and analysis on conflict dynamics, provides grants to civil society organizations to test innovative conflict-resolution initiatives, and develops the capacity of government and nongovernmental institutions through education and training activities to peacefully resolve conflicts.

c. The **Center for the Middle East and Africa** manages USIP's work in these regions, focusing particularly on countries in transition, the Horn of Africa, Iran, and the Arab-Israeli conflict. With an eye to both internal and cross-border conflict, the center directs and coordinates analysis, field operations, outreach, and grant making across the

Center for the Middle East and Africa region in support of peaceful dispute resolution, conflict prevention, civic engagement, and good governance.

d. The **Global Peacebuilding Center** focuses mainly on students and educators, and seeks to introduce these audiences to key concepts and skills in conflict management and to the challenges and importance of peacebuilding. Through the onsite experience at USIP and through the virtual Global Peacebuilding Center at buildingpeace.org, the Global Peacebuilding Center is engaging the next generation of peacebuilders.

4. Capabilities and Core Competencies

a. USIP accomplishes its mission through its active engagements in the world's conflict zones, teaching and training, research and analysis, and global grant making. USIP's independence gives it unique access, credibility, and convening power among a variety of stakeholders, including governments, civil society, militaries, private businesses, and scholars worldwide. Its small size enables flexibility, agility, and a non-bureaucratic approach to conflict management.

b. USIP operates in the world's most challenging conflict zones and conducts active programs in Afghanistan, Iraq, Pakistan, Sudan, Libya, Burma, and elsewhere. The USIP staff mediates among parties in conflict, builds local conflict management skills in fragile states, supports the development of the rule of law in post-conflict environments, and strengthens civil society.

c. USIP also serves as an important convener. USIP welcomes world leaders to present their vision for peace; brings together bipartisan leaders to address difficult issues like genocide prevention; and fosters dialogue and collaboration among USG departments and agencies, NGOs, and the private sector.

5. Key United States Institute of Peace Resources

a. Guidelines for Relations Between US Armed Forces and Non-Governmental Humanitarian Organizations in Hostile or Potentially Hostile Environments: http://www.usip.org/sites/default/files/guidelines_handout.pdf.

b. Guiding Principles for Stabilization and Reconstruction: http://www.usip.org/sites/default/files/guiding_principles_full.pdf.

c. Online courses and resources: <http://www.usip.org/online-courses>.

d. More information about USIP can be found at www.usip.org.

APPENDIX C

NONGOVERNMENTAL ORGANIZATIONS

1. Overview

a. An NGO is a private, self-governing, not-for-profit organization dedicated to alleviating human suffering; and/or promoting education, health care, economic development, environmental protection, human rights, and conflict resolution; and/or encouraging the establishment of democratic institutions and civil society. It may be local, national, or transnational; employ thousands of individuals or just a handful; and utilize a large management structure or no formal structure at all.

b. DOD uses the term NGO along with USG departments and agencies, and international organizations; however, there is no consistent definition within the USG and among international organizations. As a point of reference, USAID uses the terms private voluntary organization and public international organizations along with NGOs.

c. There are thousands of NGOs that focus on improving local governance conditions in a variety of ways. These organizations develop their goals and action plans to answer their donors and constituents who advocate for change and progress in a particular area; accordingly, NGO leaders and workers may or may not be interested in collaboration or cooperation with military efforts that do not enable or complement their organization's efforts. Lastly, just like USG and other partner governmental efforts, these organizations conduct operations under the consent and guidelines of the HN government, in a shared space with military forces. As independent organizations, NGOs see their efforts as parallel and independent from military operations, and in order to maintain their neutrality, they will most likely wish to avoid direct contact and collaboration. At the very least, JFCs need to be aware of their presence, recognize they are likely a source of resiliency, and aim to deconflict COAs that could harm the NGOs' operations. The JFCs, through their legal counsel, must verify that US persons are not prohibited from dealing with a particular organization by virtue of its inclusion on the list of individuals and entities subject to the various economic sanctions programs administered by the Department of the Treasury's Office of Foreign Assets Control (<http://www.treasury.gov/resource-center/terrorist-illicit-finance/Pages/protecting-index.aspx>). Both USAID and DOS apply the Office of Foreign Assets Control criteria to nongovernmental and private organizations they contract with, so JFCs can be assured a USG-funded NGO will have been vetted.

2. Sources of Information

a. JFCs should be aware of all NGOs within their operational area. NGOs operate both inside the US and in most foreign countries. Overseas, the country team should have good situational awareness of all NGOs that are present. In addition, country desk officers at JS, geographic CCMDs, and IC agencies can be a source of information. The USAID mission, if present, may have programs implemented by NGOs or contractors who may have relationships with local NGOs. The UN, if present, will have a UNOCHA, which will have visibility of NGOs working in that country. The HN

normally has a designated government agency that will register, monitor, and administer the presence and action of NGOs within their country, and it may work with the office of the UN mission's RC in maintaining visibility, providing situational awareness of security, and coordinating the support and development activities. For further information on the objectives and methods of NGOs/international organizations, there are a number of private associations that represent their member organizations' interests with DOD and other government efforts. The following organizations can provide useful information on NGO efforts to support military planning and operations.

b. InterAction (<http://www.interaction.org/>) is the largest alliance of US-based international NGOs. It is focused on the world's most poor and vulnerable populations. Collectively, InterAction's more than 180 members work in every developing country. Members assist in developing opportunities in gender equity, education, health, economic opportunity, democracy and government, and other areas.

c. The ICVA (<http://www.icvanetwork.org>) is a global network that brings together humanitarian and human rights NGOs as an advocacy alliance for humanitarian action. ICVA is a nonprofit global association of NGOs that works as a collective body to promote, and advocate for, human rights and a humanitarian perspective in global debates and responses. The heart of the ICVA mission is to make humanitarian action more principled and effective by working collectively and independently to influence policy and practice. Focusing on humanitarian and refugee policy issues, ICVA draws upon the work of its members at the field level and brings their experiences to international decision-making forums. ICVA provides a means for the collective body of its members to work together to effect change, and also assists members to improve their own work through access to initiatives and tools that help to increase quality and accountability. Through its cooperative and catalytic nature, it gathers and exchanges information and raises awareness on the most vital matters of humanitarian concern before policy-making bodies.

d. The Union of International Associations (<http://www.uia.org/>) is a research institute and documentation center based in Brussels, Belgium. Nonprofit, apolitical, independent, and nongovernmental in nature, the Union of International Associations has been a pioneer in the research, monitoring, and provision of information on international organizations, international associations, and their global challenges. Its Yearbook of International Organizations provides the most extensive coverage of nonprofit organizations and associations worldwide. Directly reflecting a dynamic international arena, it contains entries on over 66,000 international organizations in 300 countries and territories, in every field of human endeavor.

e. The Steering Committee for Humanitarian Response (<http://schr.info/>) is an alliance for voluntary action of several major international humanitarian organizations and networks. The committee's mission is to bring together major international humanitarian actors with common values and shared principles to make this vision reality. Its members pool experience and use their collective weight to carry out effective humanitarian action.

f. The World Association of Non-Governmental Organizations (WANGO) (<http://www.wango.org/>) is a global organization whose mission is to serve its member organizations; strengthen and encourage the nongovernmental sector as a whole; increase public understanding of the nongovernmental community; and provide the mechanism and support needed for NGOs to connect, partner, and multiply their contributions to solve humanity's basic problems. WANGO unites NGOs worldwide in the cause of advancing world peace, as well as well-being at all levels: individual, family, tribal, national, and world. WANGO helps to provide the mechanism and support needed for NGOs to connect, partner, share, inspire, and multiply their contributions to solve humanity's basic problems. WANGO publishes the *NGO Handbook*, which is designed to provide leaders of NGOs an ever-expanding resource. Emphasis in particular is placed on practical information of relevance for the success of NGOs.

g. The Alliance for Peacebuilding (<http://www.allianceforpeacebuilding.org/>) is a global membership association of more than 70 peacebuilding organizations developing processes for change in the most complex, chaotic conflict environments around the world. The Alliance for Peacebuilding amplifies the strengths of its members and works collaboratively on issues that are too large for any one organization to tackle by itself. They are a leader in developing and disseminating innovative approaches to peacebuilding and link related fields including development, relief, human rights, democracy, security sector reform, and others.

h. NVOAD (<http://www.nvoad.org>) is a non-profit, nonpartisan, membership-based organization that serves as the forum where organizations share knowledge and resources throughout the disaster cycle—preparation, response, and recovery—to help disaster survivors and their communities. This is accomplished through the national members, as well as local and state affiliates. Together they eliminate duplication and foster more effective service through cooperation, communication, coordination, and collaboration—by providing convening mechanisms, advocacy, and outreach for all people and organizations involved in disasters. It is recognized nationwide as the nongovernmental leader building community resiliency throughout the disaster cycle. Its vision has been one that seeks to maximize the effectiveness of the voluntary agencies as they work together toward their common goal of bringing help to disaster impacted communities across the country.

3. Building Effective Relations with Nongovernmental Organizations

The following factors may assist in building unity of effort among NGOs and JFCs:

a. Increase awareness and encourage contact between the military and NGOs through symposia, meetings, briefings, and joint planning sessions.

b. Incorporate selected NGO training into Service and joint training and exercise programs; and conversely, incorporate interaction with military units and personnel into NGO training.

c. Review lessons learned as recorded in both joint and Services' lessons learned databases.

d. Clearly articulate the role of the military to the NGOs. It is imperative these organizations understand the military mission, the level of support it can provide, and the process to receive support. Identify what NGOs could receive from DOD forces (e.g., medical care, FP, transportation). Explain who determines what priority NGO personnel and equipment will be moved. NGOs desire transparency. This implies openness, communication, and accountability when dealing with the military. Assets such as the crisis action team, HOC, HACC, CMOC, and LNOs can be used to provide such information.

e. Ensure the joint force understands their support role. While UN and NGO guidelines emphasize that requesting assistance from the military is a last resort, some NGOs assume the military has an inexhaustible resource reservoir and inundate the JFC with requests for various types of support. Members of the joint force must have a clear understanding of the nature and amount of support they are authorized to provide. Normally, requests from NGOs should come to DOD through USAID/OFDA, which collects RFAs from all the relevant partners, then prioritizes and validates the requests, then transmits them to DOD (the JTF) via the MITAM. Importantly, the process does not end there. The JTF must report on the status of the MITAM requests back to OFDA. Sometimes the JTF will reject a MITAM (if it falls outside of their mandate, etc.). If OFDA is not involved in the crisis, and/or if displaced persons or refugees are involved in the complex emergency, the DOS PRM, via the embassy, can facilitate requests to DOD. When the JFC has been delegated authority to fill certain types of requests from these organizations, the granting of that authority, and guidance on its use, should be included in the execute order (or a modification thereto). Keep in mind that equivocal responses, such as "we'll try," can be interpreted as an affirmative response, and establish unrealistic expectations. Failure to meet expectations (real or not) can adversely affect relationships in both current and future operations.

f. Be aware that not all NGOs appreciate military assistance or intervention. Some NGO charters do not allow them to collaborate with armed forces based on political mandate, neutrality, religious, or impartiality concerns. JFCs need to honor this fact, while still striving for unity of effort.

(1) Most NGOs follow humanitarian principles when giving aid; all aid is based on need alone. Military aid does not follow the principles of humanitarian aid (impartiality, independence, humanitarianism, and neutrality), is politically motivated, and conditional. Therefore, NGOs do not see military aid—even aid in the form of HA—as humanitarian aid.

(2) The USG and NGOs may not share common objectives.

(3) Commanders may find it beneficial to use a third party to establish liaison with NGOs reluctant to establish direct contact with military organizations. USAID, which often provides funding for NGOs and therefore has pre-existing relationships with

them, is critical to this effort. If commanders establish good communication with USAID's field officers, for example, they can provide the military with vital linkages to NGOs and other humanitarian entities operating in the operational area.

g. Be cognizant of legal requirements and regulations that apply to relationships between the military and NGOs.

h. Ensure agreements and MOUs fully address funding considerations, delineate authority, and define negotiation channels. Agreements may include air and surface transportation, petroleum products, telecommunications, labor, security, facilities, contracting, engineer support, supplies, services, and medical support.

i. Develop a mutually beneficial relationship with NGOs by developing methods for effective exchange of information, operating procedures, and areas of interest/future efforts to reduce potential for overlapping and duplicating efforts among local populations. As a basis for framing these working relationships, DOD and the humanitarian community produced a set of recommended guidelines (http://www.usip.org/sites/default/files/guidelines_handout.pdf) to facilitate interaction between US military forces and NGOs belonging to InterAction.

j. Exercise due diligence in dealing with NGOs that do not adhere to accepted professional standards. Most NGOs follow the UN Principles of Humanitarian Assistance and the *Code of Conduct for the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement and Non-Governmental Organisations (NGOs) in Disaster Relief* (<http://www.icrc.org/eng/assets/files/publications/icrc-002-1067.pdf>). Disaster-affected communities have a right to expect those who seek to assist them to measure up to these standards. In maintaining these standards, it is important that CMOC officers are not perceived as favoring a particular relief organization, particularly at the expense of other organizations.

k. Seek the assistance of an individual from the NGO community to serve on the US force staff as an LNO to the NGO community. Such an LNO can perform duties such as initial collaboration activities with the humanitarian relief community prior to deployment, representation of the humanitarian relief perspective during planning, and advice to the joint force through membership in the CMOC or other coordinating mechanisms during operations.

l. Post information on the UN's ReliefWeb Internet site (<http://reliefweb.int/>). ReliefWeb is a global hub for time-critical humanitarian information on complex emergencies and natural disasters. ReliefWeb is widely used by NGOs and other participants in HA operations to share and coordinate information. The humanitarian information center, if established, is also a site for information, as are the NGO websites themselves, and bulletin boards at the on-site operations coordination center or humanitarian operations coordination center location.

m. Share information with NGOs to the greatest extent possible, especially regarding security. Using information and communications technology will allow NGOs

to plan their response with up-to-date and accurate information and to integrate into the overall response more efficiently.

n. When working with NGOs in an uncertain or hostile operational environment, guidelines found in the *USIP Guidelines for Relations Between US Armed Forces and Non-Governmental Humanitarian Organizations in Hostile or Potentially Hostile Environments* (<http://www.usip.org/publications/guidelines-relations-between-us-armed-forces-and-nghos-in-hostile-or-potentially>) may help mitigate friction between military and NGO personnel.

o. Identify and collaborate with the first responders to a disaster. While the US military may be the largest single organization on the ground in a disaster area, NGOs need to understand that the US military's authority is limited in domestic disaster responses. The NGOs that normally operate in the disaster region or those that can respond quickly to a disaster will be present prior to the US military arrival on the ground.

4. Consultative Status with the United Nations

a. NGOs take a role in formal UN deliberations through the ECOSOC (<http://csonet.org>). Nearly 3,200 NGOs today have consultative status. The consultative relationship includes: eligibility requirements for consultative status, rights and obligations of NGOs in consultative status, procedures for the withdrawal or suspension of consultative status, the role and functions of the ECOSOC Committee on NGOs, and the responsibilities of the UN Secretariat in supporting the consultative relationship. ECOSOC grants consultative status upon recommendation of the ECOSOC Committee on NGOs, which is comprised of 19 member states.

b. Consultative relationships may be established with international, regional, sub-regional and national nongovernmental, nonprofit public, or voluntary organizations. NGOs affiliated with an international organization already in status may be admitted provided they can demonstrate their program of work is of direct relevance to the aims and purposes of the UN.

c. To be eligible for consultative status, an NGO must have been in existence (officially registered with the appropriate government authorities as an NGO/nonprofit) for at least two years, must have an established HQ, a democratically adopted constitution, authority to speak for its members, a representative structure, appropriate mechanisms of accountability, and democratic and transparent decision-making processes. The basic resources of the organization must be derived in the main part from contributions of the national affiliates or other components or from individual members.

5. Faith-Based Nongovernmental Organizations

The USG supports faith-based organizations, but USG policy strictly states USG HA should be distributed based on need. It is also USG policy that no USG assistance may be provided based on religious affiliation or for the purpose of influencing the religious

beliefs of a population. Reports of USG assistance being distributed in violation of these policies should be reported to the embassy, DOS, and/or USAID.

6. Terrorist and Insurgent Abuse of Charities

a. Protecting charities from terrorist abuse is a critical component of the global fight against terrorism. Charities provide essential services, comfort, and hope to those in need around the world. Unfortunately, terrorists have exploited the charitable sector to raise and move funds, provide logistical support, encourage terrorist recruitment, or otherwise support terrorist organizations and operations. This abuse threatens to undermine donor confidence and jeopardizes the integrity of the charitable sector, whose services are indispensable to the world community. The government and the charitable sector share fundamental interests in promoting and protecting charitable giving. The government and private sector can identify terrorist financing risks, clarify obligations and best practices, facilitate compliance with US law, and help promote charitable giving while reducing the threats of terrorist abuse. Since the terrorist attacks of September 11, 2001, the USG has conducted a comprehensive campaign against terrorists and their support networks, including the sources and conduits of terrorist financing. Investigations carried out during this campaign have revealed consistent terrorist abuse of the charitable sector through the diversion of charitable funds and services to terrorist organizations such as al Qaeda and Hamas. The US has designated several charities worldwide as supporting terrorist activity (<http://www.treasury.gov/resource-center/terrorist-illicit-finance/Pages/protecting-index.aspx>). In addition, the US has designated several organizations that have operated under various names that appear as potential fundraising front organizations for terrorist activity.

b. Terrorist and insurgent abuse of the charitable sector can take many forms, including:

(1) Establishing front organizations or using charities to raise funds in support of terrorist organizations.

(2) Establishing or using charities to transfer funds, other resources, and operatives across geographical boundaries.

(3) Defrauding charities through branch offices or aid workers to divert funds to support terrorist organizations.

(4) Leveraging charitable funds, resources, and services to recruit members and foster support for terrorist organizations and their ideology.

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APPENDIX D

OTHER ORGANIZATIONS

- Annex A International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement
 B International Committee of the Red Cross
 C International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies
 D American Red Cross

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ANNEX A TO APPENDIX D

INTERNATIONAL RED CROSS AND RED CRESCENT MOVEMENT

1. Overview

a. The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement (<http://www.ifrc.org/en/who-we-are/the-movement>) is the world's largest humanitarian network and is made up of three components: the ICRC, the International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies (IFRC), and the 190 National Red Cross or Red Crescent Societies (which are members of the IFRC). The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement currently has more than 17 million volunteers—the world's biggest volunteer force. The ICRC, the IFRC, and the National Societies are independent bodies, with an individual legal status.

b. With the advent of more and more complex humanitarian emergencies, the work of two or more International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement institutions can be required in response to certain crises. When this is the case, the work of both is governed by an agreement known as the Seville Agreement and its Supplementary Measures, which establishes one institution within the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement as the lead agency responsible for spearheading the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement's international operational activities in a specific emergency.

c. The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement's mission is to alleviate human suffering, protect life and health, and uphold human dignity, especially during armed conflicts and other emergencies. All three components of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement are guided by the same seven fundamental principles: humanity, impartiality, neutrality, independence, voluntary service, unity, and universality (<http://www.icrc.org/eng/who-we-are/movement/overview-the-movement.htm>).

For more information on the fundamental principles, refer to paragraph 6, “The Seven Fundamental Principles.”

2. The International Committee of the Red Cross

The ICRC is an independent and neutral organization whose mandate essentially stems from the Geneva Conventions of 1949. Its mission is to protect the lives and dignity of victims of armed conflict and other situations of violence and to provide them with assistance. In situations of armed conflict, it assumes the lead role in the Red Crescent Movement, directing and coordinating response efforts. It also endeavors to prevent suffering by promoting and strengthening international law. Established in 1863, the ICRC is at the origin of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement (<http://www.icrc.org/eng/who-we-are/index.jsp>).

3. The International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies

The IFRC (<http://ifrc.org/en/who-we-are/history/>) is an impartial and neutral organization that was founded in Paris in 1919 just as World War I was ending, and was established and is comprised by its member National Societies. It works on the basis of the fundamental principles of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement to inspire, facilitate, and promote all humanitarian activities carried out by its member National Societies to improve the situation of the most vulnerable people. The IFRC directs and coordinates relief assistance for international emergencies and acts as the official representative of its member societies in the international field. It promotes cooperation between National Societies and works to strengthen their capacity to carry out effective disaster preparedness, health, and social programs.

For more information on the IFRC, refer to <http://ifrc.org/en/who-we-are/vision-and-mission/>.

4. The National Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies

National Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies embody the work and principles of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement. National Societies act as auxiliaries to the public authorities of their own countries in the humanitarian field and provide a range of services including DR, health, and social programs. During wartime, National Societies assist the affected civilian population and support the medical services of armed forces, where appropriate.

5. The Emblems

a. The Red Cross, Red Crescent, and Red Crystal emblems (see Figure D-A-1) are symbols of protection in times of armed conflict and may be used as a protective device only by:

- (1) Medical services and religious personnel of the armed forces.
- (2) National Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies duly recognized and authorized by their governments to lend assistance to the medical services of armed forces; the National Societies may use the emblem for protective purposes only for those personnel and equipment assisting official medical services in armed conflict, provided those personnel and equipment perform the same functions and only those functions and are subject to military laws and regulations.
- (3) Civilian hospitals and other civilian medical facilities and units, and their staffs, recognized as such by the government and expressly authorized to display the emblem for protective purposes (e.g., first-aid posts, ambulances).
- (4) Other voluntary relief agencies are subject to the same conditions as National Societies. They must have government recognition and express authorization, may use the emblem only for personnel and equipment allocated exclusively to medical services, and must be subject to military law and regulations.

The Emblems of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement



Figure D-A-1. The Emblems of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement

b. Each state party to the Geneva Conventions is required to take steps to prevent and punish misuse of the emblem in wartime and peacetime alike, and to enact a law on the protection of the emblem.

c. During peacetime, the use of the emblems for protective purposes is limited to:

(1) Medical services and religious personnel of the armed forces.

(2) National Society medical facilities and means of transport that function as such in the event of armed conflict. Again, they must have government recognition and express authorization.

d. The ICRC and the International Federation are entitled, at all times (in peacetime and armed conflict) to use the emblems.

e. Misuse of the emblem. Any use not expressly authorized constitutes a misuse of the emblem. There are three types of misuse.

(1) Imitation is the use of a sign which, by its shape and/or color, may cause confusion with the emblem.

(2) Usurpation is the use of the emblem by bodies or persons not entitled to do so (e.g., commercial enterprises, pharmacists, private doctors, NGOs, and ordinary individuals). If persons normally authorized to use the emblem use the emblem in a manner inconsistent with the rules in the Geneva Conventions such use would also constitute usurpation.

(3) Acts of perfidy are acts that invite the confidence of enemy persons to lead them to believe they are entitled to, or are obliged to accord, protection under the law of war, with intent to betray that confidence. Perfidy is a violation of the law of war.

f. Misuse of the emblem for protective purposes in time of war jeopardizes the system of protection set up by the Geneva Conventions. Misuse of the emblem in peace time undermines its image in the eyes of the public and consequently reduces its protective power in time of war. The states, party to the Geneva Conventions, have undertaken to introduce penal measures to prevent and repress misuse of the emblem in wartime and peacetime alike.

6. The Seven Fundamental Principles

Proclaimed in Vienna in 1965, the seven fundamental principles bond together the National Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies, the ICRC, and the IFRC. They guarantee the continuity of the Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement and its humanitarian work.

a. **Humanity.** The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement, born of a desire to bring assistance without discrimination to the wounded on the battlefield, endeavors, in its international and national capacity, to prevent and alleviate human suffering wherever it may be found. Its purpose is to protect life and health and to ensure respect for the human being. It promotes mutual understanding, friendship, cooperation, and lasting peace among all peoples.

b. **Impartiality.** It makes no discrimination as to nationality, race, religious beliefs, class, or political opinions. It endeavors to relieve the suffering of individuals, being guided solely by their needs, and to give priority to the most urgent cases of distress.

c. **Neutrality.** In order to continue to enjoy the confidence of all, the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement may not take sides in hostilities or engage at any time in controversies of a political, racial, religious, or ideological nature.

d. **Independence.** The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement is independent. The National Societies, while auxiliaries in the humanitarian services of their governments and subject to the laws of their respective countries, must always maintain their autonomy so that they may be able, at all times, to act IAW the principles of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement.

e. **Voluntary Service.** It is a voluntary relief movement not prompted in any manner by desire for gain.

f. **Unity.** There can be only one Red Cross or one Red Crescent Society in any one country. It must be open to all. It must carry on its humanitarian work throughout its territory.

g. **Universality.** The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement, in which all societies have equal status and share equal responsibilities and duties in helping each other, is worldwide.

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ANNEX B TO APPENDIX D

INTERNATIONAL COMMITTEE OF THE RED CROSS

1. Overview

a. The ICRC (<http://www.icrc.org/eng/>) is an impartial, neutral, and independent organization with an exclusively humanitarian mission to protect the lives and dignity of victims of armed conflict and other situations of violence and to provide them with assistance.

b. The ICRC takes action in response to emergencies and, at the same time, endeavors to prevent suffering by promoting respect for universal humanitarian principles and international law, and its implementation in national law.

c. Established in 1863, the ICRC is at the origin of the Geneva Conventions and the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement. It directs and coordinates the international activities conducted by the Red Crescent Movement in armed conflicts and other situations of violence.

2. Authority and Responsibilities

a. The work of the ICRC is based on the Geneva Conventions of 1949, their Additional Protocols, the statutes of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement, and the resolutions of the quadrennial International Conferences of the Red Cross and Red Crescent. These provide a legal mandate from the international community:

(1) The four Geneva Conventions, which are part of the law of war, confer on the ICRC a specific mandate to act in international armed conflict and a right of initiative to offer its services in non-international armed conflict, visiting prisoners of war and civilian internees, organizing relief operations, reuniting separated families, and performing similar humanitarian activities during armed conflicts.

(2) The statutes of the ICRC and Red Crescent Movement task the ICRC to encourage respect for international law. This may include raising, in a bilateral, confidential manner, allegations of breaches of international law. These encourage it to undertake similar work in situations of internal violence, either non-international armed conflict or situations of violence not amounting to an armed conflict, when the ICRC may offer its services to governments without that offer constituting interference in the internal affairs of the state concerned.

b. The Geneva Conventions are binding instruments of international law which, in times of armed conflict, protect wounded, sick, and shipwrecked members of the armed forces, prisoners of war, and civilians. All states are party to these four conventions, which are consequently universal. ICRC mandate is further reinforced by resolutions adopted at the International Conference of the Red Cross and Red Crescent, which takes

place every four years, and at which states that are party to the Geneva Conventions take part, including the US.

c. The 1949 Geneva Conventions confer on the ICRC the right to take action (e.g., to visit prisoners of war) and to make proposals to states (e.g., to offer its services). Additionally, the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement's statutes recognize the ICRC has a right of humanitarian initiative in situations not covered by the Geneva Conventions. All of these rights constitute the permanent mandate conferred on the ICRC by the international community. This specific mandate distinguishes it from other humanitarian organizations and confers a status distinct from an NGO.

d. The ICRC promotes respect for the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement's seven fundamental principles, in particular neutrality, impartiality and independence, which form a key part to its approach in its activities and operations.

NOTE: The US has signed and ratified the four Geneva Conventions of 1949, but has not ratified the two additional Protocols of 1977. The US follows the law of war, which is based on both customary and treaty law applicable to the conduct of warfare and to relationships between belligerent and neutral states.

3. Organizational Structure

a. The ICRC is the founding institution of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement. These, in addition to the ICRC, comprise the IFRC and the national Red Cross, or Red Crescent societies, whose primary roles are capacity building and DR. The ICRC's HQ are in Geneva, Switzerland.

b. As a private association formed under the Swiss Civil Code, its existence is not in itself mandated by governments. Yet its functions and activities—to provide protection and assistance to victims of conflict—are mandated by the international community of states and are founded on international law, specifically the Geneva Conventions, which are the most widely ratified treaties in the world.

(1) Therefore, the ICRC is recognized as having an international legal personality or status of its own. It enjoys working facilities (privileges and immunities) (e.g., exemption from taxes and customs duties, inviolability of premises and documents, and immunity from judicial process) comparable to those of the UN and its agencies.

(2) The ICRC can only do its job of providing protection and assistance to conflict victims if its working principles of impartiality, independence, and neutrality are respected. It is through recognition of the ICRC's privileges and immunities that states and international organizations acknowledge their respect for those principles. Thus, in line with its international legal mandate, the ICRC's privileges and immunities are widely recognized by governments, the UN, and other organizations. This means the ICRC is not treated as a private entity or an NGO, but as an international organization for the work it does under its international mandate. The ICRC has been granted permanent observer status at the UN General Assembly and enjoys similar status with international organizations.

(3) In the nearly 80 countries in which the ICRC carries out significant operations, its international legal personality, judicial immunity, and testimonial privilege (right not to be called as a witness) is recognized either by treaty or by legislation. In recognition of its status under the Geneva Conventions, the ICRC is the only organization whose employees cannot be called upon to testify before the ICC.

c. The ICRC receives its funding from voluntary contributions from governments, supranational organizations, national Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies, and private sources. The US is the single largest donor to the ICRC and supports the whole range of its activities.

4. Capabilities and Core Competencies

ICRC's tasks include:

a. Ensuring respect for the lives and dignity of prisoners of war and those detained or interned as a result of armed conflict or other situations of violence.

b. Reuniting dispersed families, along with efforts to trace missing persons.

c. Transmitting messages between family members separated by conflict or other situations of violence, including from prisoners of war and detainees.

d. Supporting existing health structures treating war wounded and other medical emergencies where there is insufficient capacity.

e. Providing urgently needed food, water, sanitation, and shelter to civilians without access to these basic necessities.

f. Monitoring compliance with international law, including monitoring the "conduct of hostilities," and raising issues of concern on behalf of those affected.

g. Spreading knowledge of, and contributing to, the development of humanitarian aspects of international law.

5. Interorganizational Relationships

a. The ICRC and the IFRC keep each other informed of their respective activities and consult with each other regularly on the coordination and distribution of their work and on all matters of interest to the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement.

b. The terms neutrality and independence acquire a specific meaning when related to the activities of the ICRC. The ICRC's activities apply almost exclusively to armed conflicts, disturbances, and tensions. It strictly avoids any involvement in controversies of a political, racial, religious, or ideological nature as an imperative to ensure access for humanitarian action. This strict and specific neutrality that fosters and maintains universal trust also requires the ICRC to act openly and in good faith toward all parties to a conflict, including armed non-state actors where relevant. To discharge the mandate

conferred by the Geneva Conventions and to take the humanitarian initiatives fundamental to its role as neutral intermediary, the ICRC must remain independent. Therefore, the ICRC adopts a special structure that allows it to resist political, economic, and other pressures and to maintain its credibility in the eyes of the governments and the public that support its activities.

c. In terms of civil-military relations, ICRC's humanitarian activities aim to protect human dignity and lives. The ICRC's humanitarian activities cannot be subordinated to political or military objectives. The ICRC must maintain its independence of decision making and action while, at the same time, it seeks to consult closely with military forces in the same theater of operations.

ANNEX C TO APPENDIX D

INTERNATIONAL FEDERATION OF RED CROSS AND RED CRESCENT SOCIETIES

1. Overview

a. The IFRC (<http://www.ifrc.org/>) is the world's largest humanitarian organization. Founded in 1919, the IFRC comprises nearly 190 member Red Cross and Red Crescent National Societies, a Secretariat in Geneva, and more than 60 delegations strategically located to support activities around the world. The Red Crescent is used in place of the Red Cross in many Islamic countries.

b. The IFRC improves the lives of vulnerable people by mobilizing the power of humanity. Vulnerable people are those who are at greatest risk from situations that threaten their survival or their capacity to live with an acceptable level of social and economic security and human dignity. Often, these are victims of natural disasters or poverty brought about by socio-economic crises, refugees, and victims of health emergencies.

2. Authority and Responsibilities

a. The IFRC carries out relief operations to assist victims of disasters, and combines this with development work to strengthen the capacities of its member's National Societies.

b. The unique network of National Societies—which covers almost every country in the world—is the IFRC's principal strength. Cooperation between and among National Societies gives the IFRC greater potential to develop capacities and assist those most in need. At a local level, the network enables the IFRC to reach individual communities.

3. Organizational Structure

a. The role of the Secretariat in Geneva is to coordinate and mobilize relief assistance for international emergencies, promote cooperation between National Societies, and represent these National Societies in the international field.

b. The role of the field delegations is to assist and advise National Societies with relief operations and development programs, and encourage regional cooperation.

4. Capabilities and Core Competencies

a. The IFRC's programs focus on four core areas: promoting humanitarian values, disaster response, disaster preparedness, and health and community care.

b. The IFRC promotes individual and community humanitarian values which encourage respect for other human beings and a willingness to work together to find solutions to community problems. Their aim is to influence the behavior of the people they work with.

c. Disaster response continues to represent the largest portion of the IFRC's work. This includes emergency response units and issues relating to humanitarian policies as the IFRC strives to improve the quality of its immediate response and long-term rehabilitation work.

d. The sharp increase in the number of natural disasters worldwide in recent years has prompted the IFRC to devote more attention to disaster preparedness activities. These aim to make National Societies and communities more aware of the risks they face, how to reduce their vulnerability, and how to cope when disaster strikes.

e. Health and community care has become a cornerstone of HA and accounts for a large part of Red Cross and Red Crescent spending. Through these programs, the IFRC aims to enable communities to reduce their vulnerability to disease, and prepare for and respond to public health crises.

5. Interagency Relationships

The IFRC Secretariat is at the heart of a global network that helps National Societies develop and coordinate their work at the international level. It enjoys consultative status with the ECOSOC of the UN. In 1994, the UN General Assembly invited the IFRC to become a permanent observer and participate in the work of the Assembly. Through its many delegations, the IFRC maintains permanent contact, both in Geneva and in the field, with UN agencies, governments, the EU (especially the Humanitarian Aid and Civil Protection Department), and other NGOs. The IFRC has a delegation in New York City to maintain relations with UN agencies and diplomatic missions. In the field, IFRC delegates maintain very close contact with other humanitarian agencies, particularly with the ICRC, that are engaged in operations complementary to those of the IFRC.

6. Code of Conduct

The IFRC is the repository of signatories to The Code of Conduct for the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement and Non-Governmental Organizations (NGOs) in Disaster Relief (<http://www.ifrc.org/en/publications-and-reports/code-of-conduct/>), to which it refers to monitor its own standards of relief delivery and to encourage other agencies to set similar standards. The Code of Conduct is voluntary and can be applied by any humanitarian agency and has more than 600 signatories. It lays down 10 points of principle that all humanitarian actors should adhere to in their disaster response work and describes the relationships that agencies working in disasters should seek with donor governments, host governments, and the UN system.

ANNEX D TO APPENDIX D AMERICAN RED CROSS

1. Overview

a. The National Society in the US is the ARC (<http://www.redcross.org>). Since its founding in 1881 by Clara Barton, the ARC has been the nation's premier emergency response organization. As part of a worldwide movement that offers neutral humanitarian care to the victims of war, the ARC distinguishes itself by also aiding victims of devastating natural disasters. Over the years, the organization has expanded its services, always with the aim of preventing and relieving suffering.

b. In addition to domestic DR, the ARC offers compassionate services in five other areas: community services that help the needy; support and comfort for military members and their families; the collection, processing, and distribution of lifesaving blood and blood products; educational programs that promote health and safety; and international relief (includes disaster risk reduction and preparedness programs) and development programs.

c. The ARC is where people mobilize to help their neighbors—across the street, across the country, and across the world—in emergencies. Each year, in communities large and small, disaster victims turn to neighbors familiar and new—the nearly 400,000 volunteers and almost 28,000 employees of the ARC. Through over 500 locally supported chapters, more than 15 million people gain the skills they need to prepare for, and respond to, emergencies in their homes, communities, and world.

d. Some four million people give blood through the ARC, making it the largest supplier of blood and blood products in the US. The ARC helps thousands of US Service members separated from their families by military duty stay connected. As part of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement, the ARC helps restore hope and dignity to the world's most vulnerable people.

2. Authority and Responsibilities

a. The ARC, a humanitarian organization led by volunteers and guided by its congressional charter and the Fundamental Principles of the International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement, provides relief to victims of disaster and helps people prevent, prepare for, and respond to emergencies.

b. The purposes of the ARC, as stated in its congressional charter, are to:

(1) Provide volunteer aid in time of war to the sick and wounded of the Armed Forces, IAW the spirit and conditions of the conference of Geneva of October 1863; the treaties of the Red Cross; or the treaties of Geneva (August 22, 1864; July 27, 1929; and August 12, 1949) to which the US has given its adhesion; and any other treaty, convention, or protocol similar in purpose to which the US has given or may give its adhesion.

(2) Perform all the duties devolved on a national society by each nation that has acceded to any of those treaties, conventions, or protocols.

(3) Act, in matters of voluntary relief and IAW the military authorities, as a medium of communication between the people of the US and the Armed Forces of the United States and to act in those matters between similar National Societies of governments of other countries through the ICRC and the USG, the people, and the Armed Forces of the United States.

(4) Carry out a system of national and international relief in time of peace; apply that system in mitigating the suffering caused by pestilence, famine, fire, floods, and other great national calamities; and devise and carry out measures for preventing those calamities.

c. The ARC's role as the nation's largest mass care service provider is separate and distinct from its role in the NRF. As the largest mass care service provider, the ARC provides sheltering, feeding, bulk distribution of needed items, basic first aid, welfare information, and casework, among other services, at the local level, as needed. In its role as a service provider, the ARC works closely with state, local, and tribal governments to provide mass care services to victims of every disaster, large and small, in an affected area. In providing these services, the ARC fulfills its humanitarian mission, acting on its own behalf and not on behalf of the USG or any other governmental entity.

APPENDIX E

JOINT INTERAGENCY TASK FORCE

1. Introduction and Overview

a. The JIATF is a force multiplier that uses a unique organizational structure to focus on a single mission. A JIATF, like most task forces, is typically formed for a specific task and purpose. JIATFs are formal organizations usually chartered by the DOD and one or more USG civilian department or agency, and guided by a MOA or other founding legal documents that define the roles, responsibilities, and relationships of the JIATF's members. The JIATF is staffed and led by personnel from multiple agencies under a single commander or director.

b. Forming a national-level JIATF takes a national charter that lays out authorities and mandates membership and resourcing. An executive order, national level directive, or mandate from the NSC/HSC that directs all agencies involved to support the JIATF with actual resources may be required. SecDef may, in cooperation with other Cabinet members, form a JIATF through the establishment of detailed MOAs. JFCs can form JIATFs with one or more USG departments and agencies based on mutual cooperation and agreement.

c. The establishment of functional and enduring JIATFs transcends the internal capabilities and authorities of CCMDs and JTFs. Based upon the analysis and the desire to establish JIATFs, the JIACG (or equivalent organization) or another designated staff entity should document the requirements for formal submission, through command channels, to JS and OSD for approval and pursuit through the NSC or HSC system. Success manifests in interagency consensus, commitment, and MOAs or MOUs that infuse JIATFs with supporting policy, legitimacy, defined purpose, authorities, leadership parameters, functional protocols, and resources.

d. Coordinating authorities, channels, and terms of reference should be carefully established and documented for JIATFs to facilitate their missions and flexibility while not duplicating effort or causing confusion. Such authorities constitute the scope for JIATFs, and they must contribute to unity of effort and common situational awareness.

e. Increasingly, JIATFs are being formed to achieve unity of effort and bring all instruments of national power to bear on asymmetric threats. JIATFs are often created to address problems such as militias, bad neighbors, and foreign fighters, all of which complicate the operational environment. JIATFs may be separate elements under the JFC, or they may be subordinate to a functional component command, a joint special operations task force, or a staff section such as the J-3. JIATF members can coordinate with the country team, their home agencies, JIACGs (or equivalent organization) in the area of interest, and other JIATFs to defeat complex hostile networks. Because they use more than the military instrument of national power, JIATFs are generally not a lethal asset, but rather develop and drive creative solutions and coordinate or propose policy actions to accomplish their mission.

2. Considerations for Establishing a Joint Interagency Task Force

a. Resolve the dual civilian and military chains of command to ensure both fall under the same directive authority, which ensures all departments and agencies work together.

b. The JIATF must be empowered, within the missions specified, to be the USG national authority to direct departments and agencies to collaborate, coordinate, plan, prioritize, and integrate resources provided from the USG and willing multinational and multilateral partners. Key in establishing the JIATF is for contributing leaders and organizations to negotiate and define the tasks and decision-making authorities of those elements being assigned or attached in support of planning and operations. This negotiation and definition will form the basis for the establishing directive and supporting MOUs that form the basis of the JIATF's coordination and directive authorities. Some operational level JIATFs utilize a more collaborative approach, with less clearly defined C2, to great effect.

c. Establish operating procedures and protocols that are simple, general, and open to review and modification to accommodate the authorities that participating agencies bring with them. The authorities establishing the JIATF should clearly define the roles, responsibilities, and authorities of the HN.

d. Although agency requirements can serve as the basis for JIATF procedures and formats, reporting procedures and doctrinal nomenclature must be developed and evolve to support the mission rather than individual agency requirements.

e. JIATF commanders and agency representative equivalents require an appropriate level of control (OPCON, TACON, or another arrangement) to commit dedicated resources to operations and mission outcomes. This may require an executive branch mandate and relief from restrictions on application of resources and Cabinet-level agreement and/or MOAs/MOUs among agencies. Operational-level commanders of JIATFs often do not have the authority to commit resources but use reachback and networking to obtain necessary assets and guidance when needed.

f. A JIATF should be a true interagency staff and leadership body, with cross-trained staff and senior representatives who have the authorities to commit resources. The leadership of the organization should be balanced and have the authority to direct actions within the staff and field elements operating for the organization, regardless of home department or agency (e.g., civilian deputies, watch officers can direct military units, and military officers can direct civilian organizations, in the name of the JIATF-like entity and its authorities).

g. Whatever mission or line(s) of operation are assigned to a JIATF, dedicated resources to be provided from each participating agency and/or nation should be specified in advance, with the authority to employ those resources assigned to the JIATF. When this authority does not reside in a JIATF, reachback and networking can serve this purpose.

h. Establishment and operation of a JIATF should be a separate, additional line item of funding for the establishing authorities. Costs should be allocated on an equitable basis. The JIATF should have its own resource management capability and administrative capability.

3. Joint Interagency Task Force South

a. JIATF South (<http://www.jiatfs.southcom.mil/index.aspx>), located in Key West, Florida, serves as the catalyst for integrated and synchronized interagency illegal trafficking operations and is responsible for the detection and monitoring of suspect air and maritime drug activity in the Caribbean Sea, Gulf of Mexico, and the Eastern Pacific. JIATF South also collects, processes, and disseminates counterdrug information for interagency and partner nation operations. As a designated national task force, JIATF South executes detection and monitoring of illicit trafficking and facilitates international and interagency interdiction to enable the disruption and dismantlement of illicit networks in support of national and hemispheric security. JIATF South is USSOUTHCOM's executive agent for DOD support to counterdrug initiatives in the USSOUTHCOM AOR.

b. The White House Office of National Drug Control Policy produces the National Drug Control Strategy which directs the nation's anti-drug efforts and establishes a program, a budget, and guidelines for cooperation among federal, state, and local entities. The office also evaluates, coordinates, and oversees both the international and domestic anti-drug efforts of executive branch agencies and ensures such efforts sustain and complement state and local anti-drug activities.

c. While traditional joint operations focus on efforts among the Services, JIATF South has evolved past these traditional boundaries, becoming a fully integrated interagency command. Whereas most organizations count on LNOs to represent them, JIATF South takes this concept much further. The top command structure demonstrates total integration, with the Director being a USCG rear admiral and the Vice Director coming from CBP. Integration also exists through the lower levels of the command. While the Directors for Intelligence and Operations are military officers, their Deputies are from the DEA and DHS. Intelligence analysts from CBP, DEA, FBI, and Office of Homeland Security Investigations (HSI) are located in the Joint Interagency Intelligence Operations Center to ensure LEAs are involved in daily operations and that information is not stovepiped.

d. JIATF South incorporates a wide range of governmental and international organizations in addition to those previously mentioned. The CIA; DIA; DOS; NSA; National Reconnaissance Office; NSA; Office of Naval Intelligence; LNOs from Canada, France, Spain, the Netherlands, the United Kingdom; and a host of Latin American countries all play an important role in intelligence, operations, and planning. Canada, France, the Netherlands, and the United Kingdom provide ships and aircraft to the task force, and the Commander of French Forces in the Caribbean and the Flag officer of the Netherlands Forces Caribbean command one task group each in the task force.

e. The focus of the command is a Joint Operations Command Center where intelligence and operations functions are fused in a state of the art command, control, communications, and intelligence facility. JIATF South coordinates the employment of DHS, DOD, and international ships and aircraft, a complete integration of sophisticated multi-agency and MNFs committed to the cause of interdicting the flow of illicit drugs.

4. Joint Interagency Task Force West

JIATF West (<http://www.pacom.mil/JIATFW.aspx>) is USPACOM's executive agent for DOD support to law enforcement for counterdrug and drug-related activities in the USPACOM AOR. JIATF West combats drug-related transnational crime to protect national security interests and promote regional stability. To accomplish this mission, JIATF West provides US and foreign law enforcement with fused interagency information and intelligence analysis, and with counterdrug training and infrastructure development support. The JIATF West staff consists of uniformed and civilian members from each Service, and representatives from the IC and US federal LEAs (e.g., DEA, FBI, and HSI). JIATF West closely aligns with USPACOM's TCP in planning, developing, and implementing DOD's counterdrug programs in Asia and the Pacific.

5. National Counterterrorism Center

a. The NCTC (<http://www.nctc.gov/index.html>) provides a full-time interagency forum and process to plan, integrate, assign lead operational roles and responsibilities, and measure the effectiveness of strategic operational CT activities of the USG, applying all instruments of national power to the CT mission.

b. NCTC was established by Executive Order 13354 and codified by the Intelligence Reform and Terrorism Prevention Act of 2004. NCTC implements a key recommendation of the 9/11 Commission: "Breaking the older mold of national government organizations, this NCTC should be a center for joint operational planning and joint intelligence, staffed by personnel from the various agencies."

c. The Director of NCTC is a Deputy Secretary-equivalent with a unique, dual line of reporting: to the President regarding executive branch-wide CT planning and to the DNI regarding intelligence matters. NCTC follows the policy direction of the President and NSC/HSC.

d. NCTC is staffed by personnel from multiple departments and agencies across the IC. NCTC is organizationally part of the ODNI.

e. NCTC serves as the primary organization in the USG for integrating and analyzing all intelligence pertaining to CT (except for information pertaining exclusively to domestic terrorism).

f. NCTC serves as the USG's central and shared knowledge bank on known and suspected terrorists and international terrorist groups. NCTC provides USG departments and agencies with the terrorism intelligence analysis and other information they need to

fulfill their missions. NCTC houses more than 30 intelligence, military, law enforcement, and HS networks under one roof to facilitate robust information sharing.

g. NCTC conducts strategic operational planning for CT activities across the USG. They integrate all instruments of national power to ensure unity of effort. NCTC ensures effective integration of CT plans, through a single and truly joint planning process, and synchronization of operations across more than 20 USG departments and agencies engaged in a whole-of-government effort against terrorism.

6. National Joint Terrorism Task Force

a. The FBI-led National Joint Terrorism Task Force (NJTTF) was formed to address the complex information sharing, coordination, and logistical issues between the IC and LEAs. The NJTTF's mission is to enhance communication, coordination, and cooperation between federal, state, and local government agencies representing the intelligence, law enforcement, defense, diplomatic, public safety, transportation, and HS communities.

b. The NJTTF provides a point of fusion for sharing intelligence and terrorism threat information among the 44 federal, state, and local agencies colocated within the FBI's Counterterrorism Division. The NJTTF's unique multi-agency collaborative approach positions it to assess known and developing threats and vulnerabilities, and to leverage timely information sharing and collaborative assessments to support the joint terrorism task forces throughout the US.

c. In addition, the NJTTF is designed to provide administrative support to the more than 100 joint terrorism task forces nationwide. The joint terrorism task forces are a fusion of federal, state, and local agencies which act as an integrated investigative force to combat terrorism through cohesive operations.

7. Joint Interagency Homeland Security Task Force

The Secretary of Homeland Security, under Title 6, USC, Section 465, may establish and operate a permanent Joint Interagency Homeland Security Task Force composed of representatives from the military and other USG departments and agencies for the purposes of anticipating terrorist threats against the US and taking appropriate actions to prevent harm to the US.

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APPENDIX F

CIVIL-MILITARY TEAMING

1. Introduction and Overview

Civil-military teams are temporary organizations of civilian and military personnel which are task-oriented to provide an optimal mix of capabilities and expertise to accomplish specific planning or assessment tasks or to conduct synchronized or integrated activities at the strategic, operational, or tactical level. Civil-military teams can either be colocated or come together for designated planning or implementation functions. They provide the JFC with a means to understand the benefits of competencies that are normally external to the military. They help integrate the knowledge, expertise, and unique capabilities of USG departments and agencies with multinational military forces and civilian elements of multinational partners. Civil-military teams help the JFC understand the unique roles, responsibilities, parallel relationships and objectives of other international and nongovernmental actors and organizations that may be present in the operational environment, but over whom neither the JFC nor the COM exercise authority.

2. Command and Organizational Relationships

a. In large footprint operations, the physical colocation of civil-military teams is desirable, but not essential to achieve effective civil-military teaming. Experience suggests that civilian government organizations, from both the US and potential coalition partners, may not be resourced to provide dedicated manning to all counterpart military staffs on a continual basis. In cases where physical colocation is either not feasible or desirable, the JFC will normally consider options for virtual teaming or situational teaming to accomplish specific planning or operational activities. In addition, experience suggests that most NGOs prefer not to enter a military HQ. They will be very cautious about potential perceptions regarding their association with the military. Inherently, an effective civil-military teaming concept requires the JFC develop a reliable and accessible process that will permit communication and information sharing between the joint force and relevant nonmilitary organizations.

b. Importantly, the level of authority for the JFC is limited. Civilian interagency representation to the joint force may be dedicated or part-time. Only an LNO, with no decision-making authority, will represent some organizations. Others may possess full authority to make commitments for their organizations. The JFC should collaborate with the COM to establish a process between the military and civilian interagency partners when there is a disagreement regarding execution of specific operations. Interagency partners are obligated to raise issues up their individual lines of authority (chains of command) when they cannot be resolved at lower levels.

c. Civil-military teaming provides the JFC with a means to achieve horizontal integration across the multiple aspects of planning, execution, and assessment. For example, under the framework suggested by the *US Government Counterinsurgency Guide* (<http://www.state.gov/documents/organization/119629.pdf>), the four functional

components of political, economic, security, and information contribute to the overall objective of enabling the affected government to establish control, consolidate that control, and then transition that control from external intervening forces (e.g., US forces) to HN forces and from military to civilian institutions. The *US Government Counterinsurgency Guide* further emphasizes an “imperative to achieve synergy among political, security, economic, and information activities,” and demands unity of effort between all participants (i.e., the affected government, USG departments and agencies, and multinational partners).

d. **Realistic Division of Labor.** Participants best qualified and able to accomplish nonmilitary tasks are not always available. In those cases, military forces may be required to perform those tasks. Sometimes joint forces have the skills required; other times they learn them during execution.

(1) **Nonmilitary Contribution.** USG interagency partners and international organizations rarely have the resources and capabilities needed to address all tasks. Success requires adaptable leaders who perform required tasks with available resources. These leaders understand that long-term security cannot be imposed by military force alone; it requires an integrated, balanced application of effort by all participants with the goal of supporting the local populace and achieving legitimacy for the HN government. Military forces can perform civilian tasks but often not as well as the civilian agencies with people trained in those skills. Further, military forces performing civilian tasks are not performing military tasks. Diversion from those tasks should be temporary and only taken to address urgent circumstances. The implications of the military role in these areas should be discussed at length with the country team.

(2) **Military Capability and Capacity.** In uncertain or hostile security situations, US and multinational military forces often possess the only readily available capability to meet many of the local populace’s fundamental needs. Human decency, and even the law of war, may require joint forces to assist the populace in their operational areas. Leaders at all levels should prepare to address civilian needs (e.g., identifying people in their units with regional and interagency expertise, civil-military competence, and other critical skills needed to support a local populace and HN government). Even if lack of civilian capacity requires military forces to take on these tasks, military leaders should consult with the country team on the proper COA to follow. Commanders should also seek awareness of NGOs that may be operating in the region and providing for the basic needs of the population. The joint force should strive to support the population and other stakeholders that are supporting the population.

e. **Transitions.** Regardless of the division of labor, an important recurring feature in many operations is transitioning responsibility and participation. Whether the transition is between military units or from a military unit to a civilian agency, all involved must clearly understand the tasks and responsibilities being passed. Maintaining unity of effort is particularly important during transitions, especially between organizations of different capabilities and capacities. Relationships tend to break down during transitions. A strong emphasis should be placed on cultivating relationships with transition stakeholders. Stakeholder capabilities and resources should be understood, and planned

for to ensure effective, efficient transitions. A transition is not a single event where all activity happens at once. It is a rolling process of little handoffs between different actors along several streams of activities. There are usually multiple transitions for any one stream of activity over time. Integration mechanisms discussed in paragraph 4, “United States Civil-Military Integration Mechanisms,” can help create and sustain the links that support effective transitions without compromising unity of effort.

f. **Coordination and Liaison.** External stakeholders may have many interests and agendas that military forces cannot and should not try to control. Their local legitimacy is frequently affected by the degree to which local institutions are perceived as independent and capable without external support. Nevertheless, military leaders should make every effort to ensure their actions are as integrated as possible. Active leadership by civilian and military leaders is imperative to effect coordination, establish formal and informal liaison, and share information. Influencing and persuading groups outside a commander’s authority requires skill and often subtlety. Commanders should recognize they will often be in a supporting role, and they may be on the receiving end of being influenced and persuaded by civilian agencies in charge. As commanders pursue unity of effort, they should be mindful of their prominence and recognize the wisdom of acting indirectly and in ways that allow credit for success to go to others—particularly local individuals and organizations. The joint force should remain in a supporting role to appropriate civilian agencies or groups and follow US policy and the COM’s direction.

For more information, refer to US Government Counterinsurgency Guide; JP 3-16, Multinational Operations; and the American, British, Canadian, Australian, and New Zealand Armies Program, Coalition Operations Handbook, Edition 4.

3. United States Civil-Military Integration Mechanisms

There are several US civil-military integration mechanisms that facilitate unified action. These structures are often employed in missions such as counterinsurgency, peacekeeping, or humanitarian relief. These mechanisms fall into two general areas: those located outside of the theater and those located in theater. It is important to note that these are options. They may not always be present, and their relationships can vary.

a. **Civil-Military Mechanisms in the US.** Key civil-military integration mechanisms located outside of the GCC’s AOR include the NSC, designated interagency working groups established in Washington to provide policy guidance for a theater (e.g., the Iraq Policy and Operations Group, and the Afghanistan Interagency Operations Group), and appointed leaders focused on a particular effort.

b. **Civil-Military Integration Mechanisms in Theater.** GCCs are charged with coordinating US military policy and operations within an assigned AOR. Subordinate JTFs are assigned to conduct joint military operations within a designated operational area. The US country team, advance civilian team (ACT), JFC, executive steering committee, provincial authority, civil-military coordination board, joint CMO task forces, JIATFs, governmental assistance teams (GATs), PRTs, and CMOCs are key civil-military integration mechanisms that are normally located inside the designated

operational area. The more extensive the US participation is in an operation and the more dispersed US forces are throughout a country, the greater the need for additional mechanisms to extend civilian oversight and assistance. Operating with a clear understanding of the guiding political aims, members of the military at all levels must be prepared to exercise judgment and act without the benefit of immediate civilian oversight and control and ultimately to reinforce HN credibility and legitimacy. At each subordinate political level of the HN government, military and civilian leaders should establish the necessary integration mechanisms. These mechanisms should include military and civilian representatives of the HN and other coalition members. Commanders should be aware of the activities of international organizations and NGOs in the theater.

(1) **JIACG.** JIACGs help CCDRs by facilitating unified action in support of plans, operations, contingencies, and initiatives. The primary role of the JIACG is to enhance interagency coordination. The JIACG is a fully integrated participant on the CCDR's staff with a daily focus on joint strategic planning. It provides a capability specifically organized to enhance situational awareness of interagency activities to prevent undesired consequences and uncoordinated activity. JIACGs include representatives from other USG departments and agencies, and state and local authorities, as well as LNOs from other commands and DOD components. It provides the CCDR with the capability to collaborate at the operational level with other USG departments and agencies. Representatives and LNOs are the subject matter experts for their respective agencies and commands. JIACGs provide the bridge between the CCDR and USG interagency partners; however, JIACGs can be called by different names in different CCMDs.

(2) **National-Level GATs.** A national-level GAT supports governance and development at the national level in an uncertain environment. GATs operate by combining civilian and military personnel for development and governance into one cohesive team. A DOS representative is the team leader and a military officer is normally the deputy commander. Personnel from appropriate USG departments and agencies make up the elements focused on governance and development where DOD personnel comprise the civil security focused staffs. However, when civilian agencies lack the capacity, DOD personnel, especially reservists with civilian skills, may be used to mitigate a shortfall. GATs vary in structure, size, and mission to suit their situation. GATs extend the reach, capability, and capacity of governance and facilitate reconstruction. While GATs are primarily concerned with addressing national-level conditions, they also work on building and improving communication and linkages between the central government and regional/local agencies.

(3) **Sub-National GATs.** PRTs, embedded PRTs, and district support teams are examples of sub-national civil-military teams that were formed to address unique aspects of counterinsurgency campaigns in Iraq and/or Afghanistan. These teams were designed to improve stability in a given area by helping build the legitimacy and effectiveness of a HN local or provincial government in providing security to its citizens and delivering essential government services. PRTs vary in structure, size, and mission. PRTs extend the reach, capability, and capacity of governance and facilitate construction.

While PRTs and district support teams are primarily concerned with addressing local conditions, they also work on building and improving communication and linkages between the central government and regional and local agencies.

(4) **ACT.** An ACT may be formed to implement the USG strategic plan for reconstruction and stabilization through development and management of the interagency implementation plan, under the leadership of the COM. The ACT stands up at the USG field HQ, typically the embassy. When established, it is the integrating civilian counterpart of the JTF at the country level. The ACT is comprised of a combination of USG personnel already in-country and other agency personnel deployed to the country from agency HQ or elsewhere.

(5) **ESG.** The COM and a JTF commander can jointly form an ESG. The ESG may be composed of the principals from the JTF, the US embassy, NGOs/international organizations present in the operational area, and other organizations, as appropriate. Lacking another similar forum, the ESG can provide high-level outlet for the exchange of information about operational policies as well as for resolution of difficulties arising among the various organizations. The ESG plays a policy role and is charged with interpreting and coordinating operational area aspects of strategic policy. A commander at any echelon may establish an ESG to serve as a conduit through which to provide information and policy guidance to participating agencies. The ESG may be charged with formulating, coordinating, and promulgating local and theater policies required for the explanation, clarification, and implementation of US policies. The ESG should either be co-chaired by the JFC and COM or assigned outright to either individual, depending on the nature of the US mission and possibly based on the security situation.

(6) **Regional Authority.** Direction and coordination of PRTs is conducted by a national-level interagency steering committee, under the supervision of the COM and JFC (for US-led PRTs) or a multinational executive committee (for coalition-led PRTs). This body will also conduct liaison with the HN national government to support PRT operations. Both embassy and JTF personnel staff the steering committee. Regional authorities may be established with regional commanders overseeing a number of PRTs to ensure coordination between provinces and with national-level objectives. The regional authority coordinates the deployment and operations of all US PRTs in the operational area, including ensuring that PRTs have a long-term vision in synch with the campaign plan. If an ACT has been established at the country level, a decision to deploy field ACTs to sub-national regions or provinces may follow. Field ACTs, which are an element of the ACT and are managed by its HQ, are responsible for implementing plans pertaining to their area of operations and for informing revisions of the overall USG strategic plan and interagency implementation plan. They are also responsible for coordinating planning with any US military entities operating in their area of operations to achieve the objectives in the interagency implementation plan. Field ACTs are primarily local, on-the-ground operational entities, but their role in assessments, plan revisions, and sub-national field level planning is also important.

(7) **Civil-Military Coordination Board.** If established, a civil-military coordination board is the JTF commander's vehicle for coordinating CMO support.

Membership is typically restricted to key representatives from the JTF staff sections. A senior member of the JTF staff, such as the JTF deputy commander or chief of staff, serves as chairperson of this board. If a CMOC has been established at the JTF level, the CMOC director would be a key member of the board and also may serve as its chairperson. During multinational operations, the JTF commander should normally include multinational partners on the board unless there are compelling reasons not to. The type of C2 structure and the level of staff integration in the JTF should drive the decision to establish a coordination board and determine its membership. Depending on the situation, the JTF commander should include selected members from the US country team on the board.

(8) **JCMOTF.** The JTF commander may establish a JCMOTF to improve CMO. The JCMOTF can provide the JFC a subordinate command to exercise necessary control and coordinating support when the size and scope of the mission is beyond organic CMO capabilities. The JCMOTF should be functionally organized, with augmentation, around an existing command structure. The JFC designates the JCMOTF commander. A JCMOTF is composed of units from more than one military department and is formed to carry out CMO. Although the JCMOTF is not a CA organization, there may be a requirement for strong representation of CA. Because of their expertise in dealing with NGOs, international organizations, and USG interagency partners, they will greatly enhance the opportunity for success in counterinsurgency operations. By design, the US Army CA brigade, the maritime CA group, or the USMC CA group can provide the structure to form a JCMOTF in support of the JTF commander. In rare instances, and depending on resource availability, a JCMOTF could be formed as a standing organization.

For more information, refer to JP 3-57, Civil-Military Operations.

APPENDIX G

NATIONAL GUARD ORGANIZATIONS AND RELATIONSHIPS

1. General

a. The NG is forward-based in nearly 3,000 communities throughout the US; the territories of Guam, the Virgin Islands, and Puerto Rico; and the District of Columbia. It is readily available to conduct domestic operations, including HD, DSCA, NG civil support, and HS activities. As a military organization, the NG routinely interacts with state and local emergency managers, local law enforcement, first responders, and Title 10, USC, forces. The NG is experienced in supporting neighboring communities in times of crisis. NG forces have both federal and state responsibilities specified in the Constitution of the United States; Title 10, USC; Title 32, USC; and applicable state constitutional provisions and statutes. It operates not only as reserve components of the US Army and the USAF supporting the President and their assigned CCMDs when under Titles 10 and/or Title 32, USC, in time of war and in national contingencies, but also as an organized militia supporting governors in domestic operations in Title 32, USC, or state active duty status. It is important that other Service/component commanders and staffs understand that the statutory roles and authorities of NG forces, when acting under state control, vary from state to state.

b. State NG brings unique capabilities; community relationships; and partnerships with local and state governments, NGOs, the private sector, NVOAD, and others to integrate NG capabilities and plans to address emergency response situations. NG state plans are integrated at the local level and also link the NG's non-federal capabilities to enhance unity of effort.

c. The non-federalized NG is commanded and controlled by the governor through TAG of each state (or, in the case of the District of Columbia, by SecDef through the commanding general of the District of Columbia NG.) TAG exercises C2 through that state's NG JFHQ-State. The NG JFHQ-State is comprised of ARNG and ANG members of that state. It operates as a C2 organization for ARNG and ANG forces during an emergency response. In addition, they are designed and aligned to correspond to the HQ staff of a CCMD to facilitate a joint approach to plans, operations, and military-to-military coordination. The model depicted in Figure G-1 may be tailored according to state resources and requirements, including the assignment of a DSC who can provide C2 of both federalized and non-federalized forces.

For more information on the DSC, refer to JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

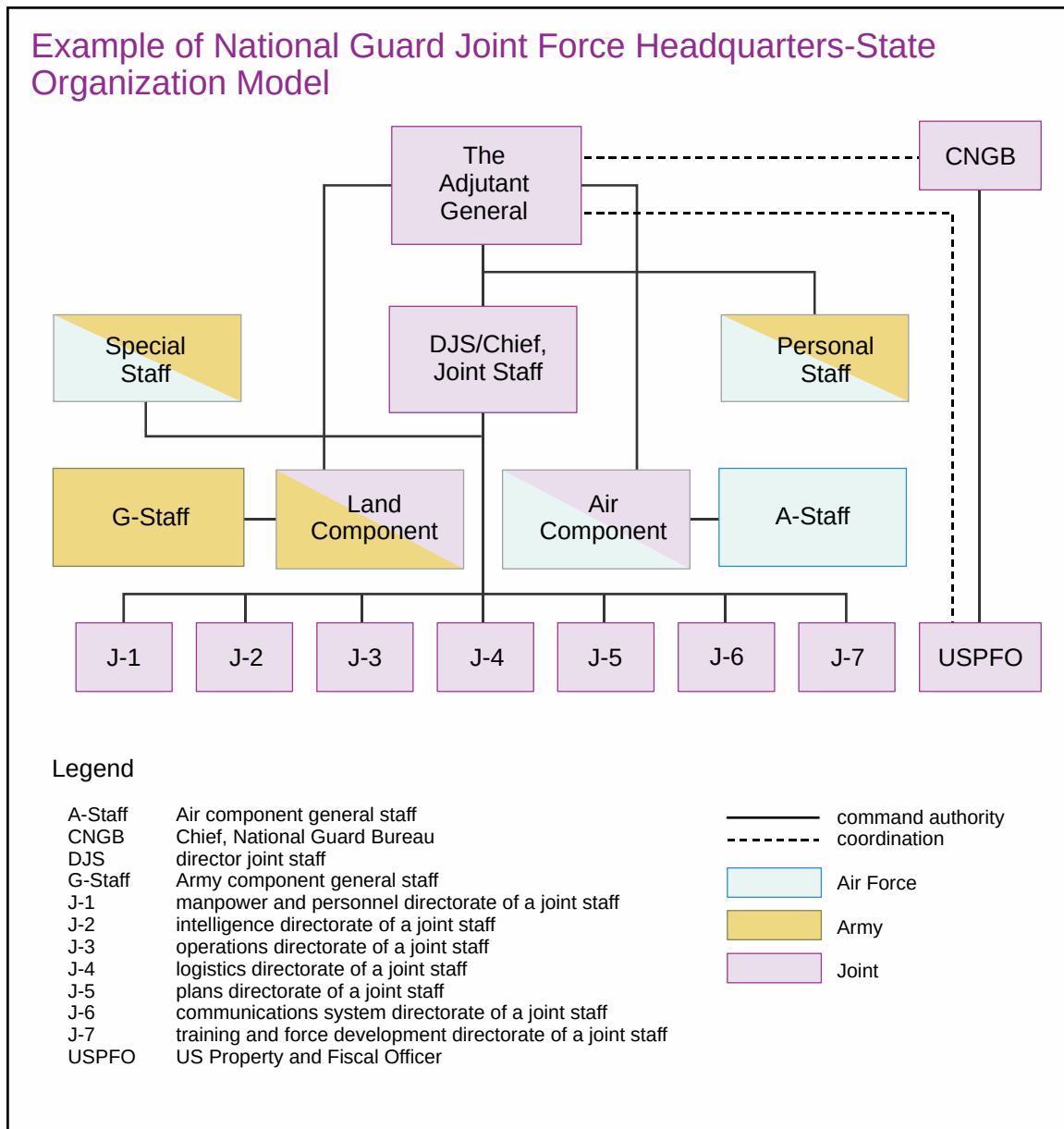


Figure G-1. Example of National Guard Joint Force Headquarters-State Organization Model

d. Additionally, some states maintain organized militias, generally referred to as state defense forces, that are generally integrated as additional forces under the command of the governor through TAG. Such forces may be integrated with ARNG and ANG forces during emergency response. These forces remain under state control and are not subject to DOD direction, regulations, or policy under any circumstances. They are subject to Title 32, USC, Section 109, which provides that state defense forces as a whole may not be called, ordered, or drafted into the Armed Forces of the United States, thus preserving their separation from the NG.

2. National Guard Bureau

a. NGB is a joint activity of the DOD. Responsibilities of the CNGB include serving as the principal advisor to the Secretary of the Army, Chief of Staff of the Army, Secretary of the Air Force, and Chief of Staff of the Air Force, on NG issues; serving as an advisor to CCDRs on NG matters pertaining to their missions; and supporting planning and coordination for such activities. NGB also serves as a channel of communications on all matters pertaining to the NG between SecDef, the CJCS, and DOD components other than the Department of the Army and the Department of the Air Force, and the states. Similarly, it serves as a channel of communication on all matters pertaining to the NG. The CNGB also consults with the heads of the DOD components and the OSD principal staff assistants on NG matters. In addition to these functions, the NGB also provides interorganizational cooperation during operations by providing liaison and shared situational awareness capability and serving as a channel of communications among the NG JFHQs-State, JS, the CCMDs, the Military Departments, and the DOD components when NG JFHQs-State are operating under the C2 of their respective governors. It assists the NG JFHQs-State, with the consent of the governors, by facilitating mutual support among the states to the extent allowed by law, and helps establish unity of effort by facilitating the integration of state NG and DOD planning and other activities. The NG, at all levels, forges strong, interagency, interorganizational, and multinational partnerships to advance NG missions in the homeland, theater security cooperation, and emergency response environments.

b. **NGCC.** The NGCC maintains and provides situational awareness and a COP of the NG's operations and capabilities. Using situational awareness and the COP, the NGCC coordinates and optimizes the NGB's support to all states, territories, the District of Columbia Joint Force HQ, OSD, the CJCS, USNORTHCOM, USPACOM, and interagency partners. The NGCC is the NGB's primary communication node and focal point for matters involving the NG.

For more detailed information on the roles and responsibilities of the CNGB and the NGB, see DODD 5105.77, National Guard Bureau (NGB).

3. National Guard Joint Force Headquarters-State

The NG JFHQ-State maintains trained and equipped forces as reserve components of the US Army and USAF and performs missions as directed by the governor of that state or, in the case of the District of Columbia, The Secretary of the Army, and, when federalized, by the President or appropriate federal authorities. The NG JFHQ-State exercises C2 of all ARNG and ANG forces and any ARNG or ANG forces of other states that are operating in that state under EMACs. IAW policies and procedures established by SecDef, Secretary of the Army, and Secretary of the Air Force, the NG JFHQ-State is prepared to provide one or more JTF command elements; provide expertise and situational awareness to DOD authorities to facilitate integration of federal and state activities; participate in federal domestic preparedness planning, training, and exercises; and develop plans coordinated with local, state, and federal authorities and agencies. NG JFHQ-State gives DOD a focused communications channel through NGB between OSD,

JS, CCDRs (e.g., CDRUSNORTHCOM, CDRUSPACOM), and the non-federalized NG; joint C2 for non-federalized NG operations; and a joint C2 capability in each state for Title 10, USC, HD, DSCA, and other related operations. In this respect, NG JFHQ-State is able to bridge the state and federal components of government as well as bridge the active and reserve components of the US military in a way that complements the constitutional roles and authorities of the state and federal governments. In addition, NG JFHQ-State:

a. Provides specific C2 and integration capabilities. The focus is on shared situational awareness and unity/continuity of effort under frequently complex command relationships and overlapping authorities.

b. Facilitates integration of DOD joint capabilities for HD, DSCA, NG civil support, and HS with local, state, and federal agencies.

c. Improves unity of effort among military organizations of all Services and components.

d. When a dual-status command relation is authorized, a DSC can facilitate unity of effort between state and federal military forces conducting domestic operations.

e. Creates synergy in many states where TAG is also the state HS and/or emergency operations director. See Figure G-2 for an overview of these roles.

For more information on NG JFHQ-State, refer to DODD 5105.83, National Guard Joint Force Headquarters-State (NG JFHQs-State). For more information on DSC, refer to JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

f. Enhances states' ability to plan and operate in joint, interagency, and intergovernmental environments.

g. Plans, monitors, assesses, and guides the execution of TAG/commander decisions while maintaining and promoting situational awareness by all partners.

h. Maintains a deployable communications element. NG JFHQ-State may have joint incident site communications capability available for HD and DSCA operations.

4. National Guard Joint Force Headquarters-State Joint Operations Center

The NG JFHQ-State joint operations center in each state is the fusion center for state (and territory) military operations. As the focal point for all domestic operational matters, its primary tasks are to initiate response to, monitor, alert, notify, and report on all activities ranging from natural or man-made disasters, terrorist attacks, NSSEs, or any civil-military related incidents in the state or territory. The NG JFHQ-State joint operations center monitors, plans, assesses, and assists the civil authorities; maintains and promotes situational awareness by all mission partners and agencies; and keeps the NGB aware of its actions and need for assistance.

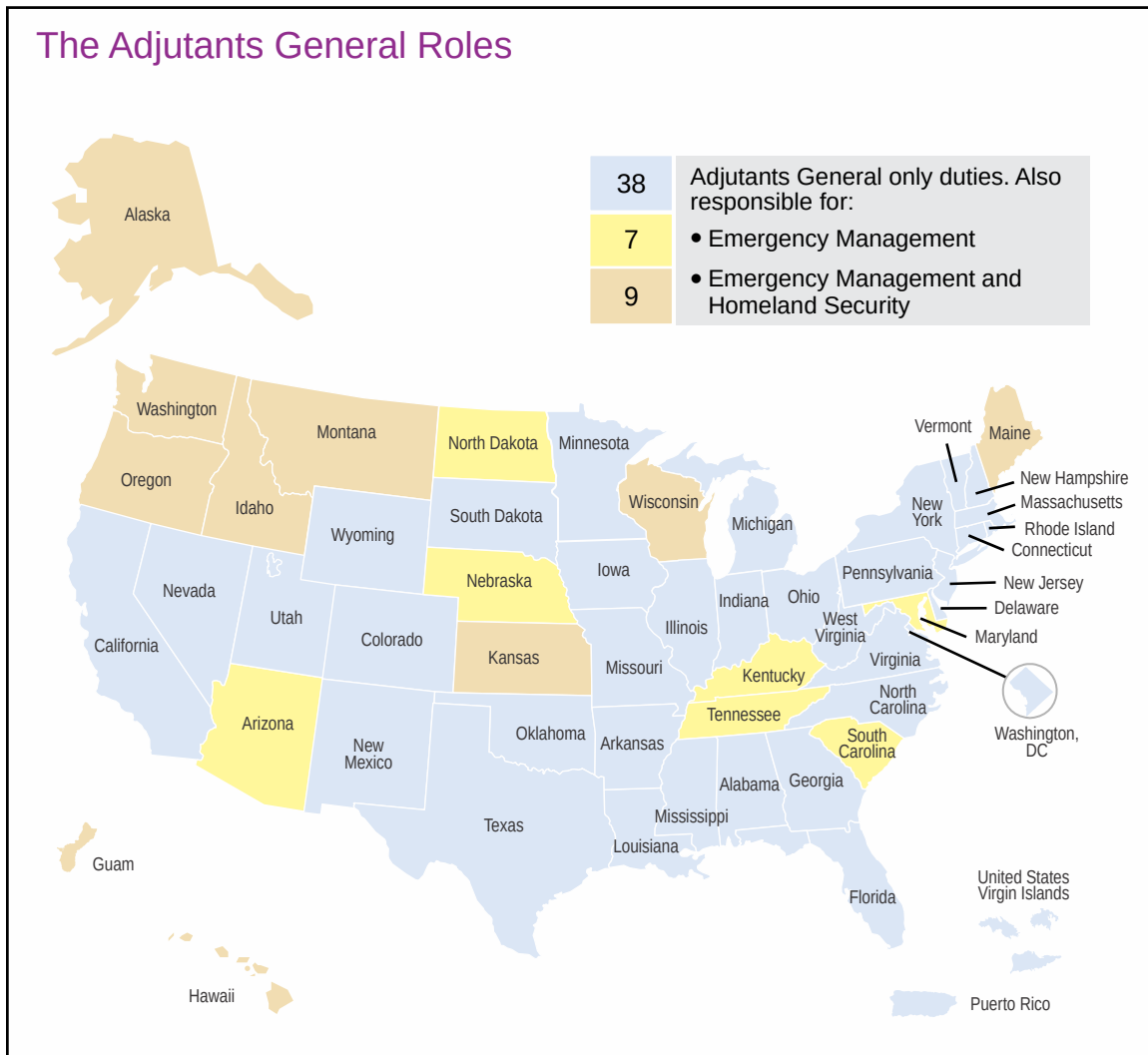


Figure G-2. The Adjutants General Roles

5. Joint Task Force-State

a. Each state and territory is capable of fielding one or more JTF command element(s) to provide C2 for operations within the state. The joint task force-state (JTF-State) may be formed around an existing ARNG or ANG unit within the state, or may be formed as a sub-organization of an NG JFHQ-State. This JTF-State may function under the control of the governor (i.e., in state active duty or Title 32, USC, status), when federalized (i.e., Title 10, USC, status), or it may be a DSC.

For more details on a DSC, see JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

b. As depicted in Figure G-3, the JTF-State commander interacts with multiple outside elements in working to achieve unity of effort in support of domestic operations. C2 always remains vested in the governor and TAG of that state, unless the forces and HQ in question have been federalized under Title 10, USC.

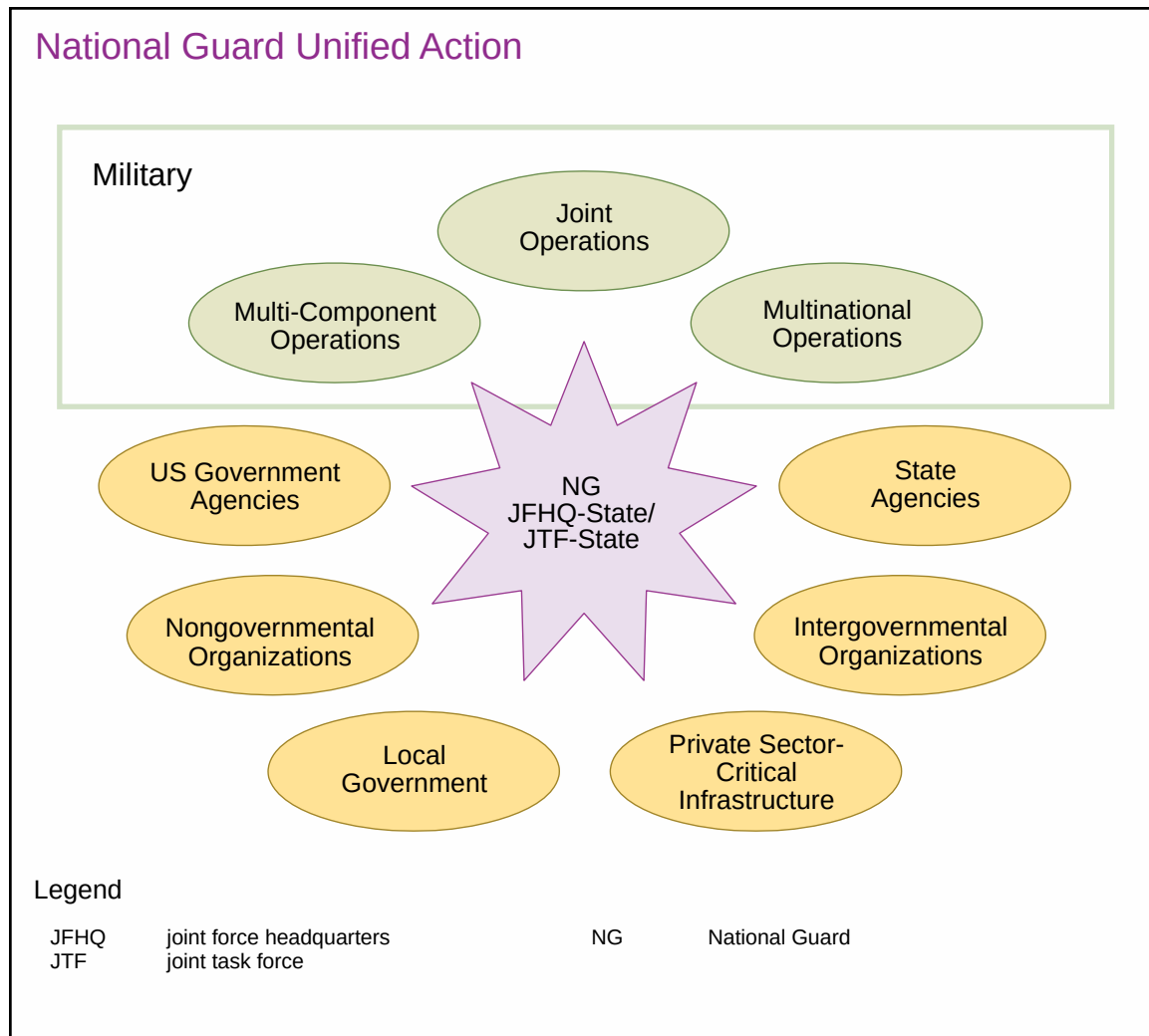


Figure G-3. National Guard Unified Action

For more details on JTF-State, see JP 3-33, Joint Task Force Headquarters.

c. For response to a major incident, the JTF-State commander may have a variety of forces deployed. A governor or TAG may direct deployment of NG forces (e.g., a WMD-civil support team; a CBRN and high-yield explosives-enhanced response force package; or homeland response force) and these forces respond to an incident under state active duty or Title 32, USC, authorities. This includes interstate compact agreements or EMAC requests. Forces allocated to DOD CBRN response force or the C2 CBRN response elements will conduct operations in Title 10, USC, status under federal control. The C2 structures in response to an incident are dependent on the nature and size of the incident.

For more information on NG CBRN capabilities, see CJCSI 3125.01, Defense Response to Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear (CBRN) Incidents in the Homeland; and JP 3-41, Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Response.

APPENDIX H

REFERENCES

The development of JP 3-08 is based upon the following primary references.

1. General

- a. Insurrection Act (Title 10, USC, Sections 331-335).
- b. The Foreign Assistance Act (Title 22, USC, Sections 2151- 2431k).
- c. Military Support for Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies (Title 10, USC, Sections 371-382).
- d. National Narcotics Leadership Act (Title 21, USC, Sections 1521-1524).
- e. Posse Comitatus Act (Title 18, USC, Section 1385).
- f. Stafford Disaster Relief and Emergency Assistance Act (Title 42, USC, Sections 5121-5207).
- g. DOD's Humanitarian Assistance and Disaster Relief Authorities (Title 10, USC, Sections 401-407, 2557, 2561).
- h. PPD-1, Organization of the National Security Council System.
- i. PPD-21, Critical Infrastructure Security and Resilience and the National Infrastructure Protection Plan 2013.
- j. National Response Framework.
- k. National Protection Framework.
- l. National Prevention Framework.
- m. National Mitigation Framework.
- n. National Disaster Recovery Framework.
- o. National Security Strategy.
- p. National Defense Strategy.
- q. National Military Strategy of the United States of America.
- r. National Strategy for Combating Terrorism.
- s. Strategy for Homeland Defense and Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

- t. National Strategy for the Development of Security Professionals.
- u. US National Strategy for Public Diplomacy and Strategic Communication.
- v. NSPD-47/HSPD-16, Aviation Security Policy.

2. Department of Defense Publications

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- b. DODD 2000.13, *Civil Affairs*.
- c. DODD 3000.07, *Irregular Warfare (IW)*.
- d. DODD 3020.40, *DOD Policy and Responsibilities for Critical Infrastructure*.
- e. DODD 3025.13, *Employment of DOD Capabilities in Support of the US Secret Service (USSS), Department of Homeland Security (DHS)*.
- f. DODD 3025.14, *Evacuation of US Citizens and Designated Aliens from Threatened Areas Abroad*.
- g. DODD 3025.18, *Defense Support of Civil Authorities (DSCA)*.
- h. DODD 4500.09E, *Transportation and Traffic Management*.
- i. DODD 5100.01, *Functions of the Department of Defense and Its Major Components*.
- j. DODD 5100.46, *Foreign Disaster Relief (FDR)*.
- k. DODD 5105.77, *National Guard Bureau (NGB)*.
- l. DODD 5105.83, *National Guard Joint Force Headquarters-State (NG JFHQs-State)*.
- m. DODD 5158.04, *United States Transportation Command (USTRANSCOM)*.
- n. DODD 5205.75, *DOD Operations at US Embassies*.
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- p. DODI 3000.05, *Stability Operations*.
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s. DODI 3020.50, *Private Security Contractors (PSCs) Operating in Contingency Operations, Humanitarian or Peace Operations, or Other Military Operations or Exercises*.

t. DODI 3025.21, *Defense Support of Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies*.

u. DODI 3025.22, *The Use of the National Guard for Defense Support of Civil Authorities*.

v. DODI 4000.19, *Support Agreements*.

w. DODI 4500.57, *Transportation and Traffic Management*.

x. DODI 4515.13, *Air Transportation Eligibility*.

y. DODI C-5105.81, *Implementing Instructions for DOD Operations at US Embassies (U)*.

z. DODI 6000.11, *Patient Movement (PM)*.

aa. DODI 6010.22, *National Disaster Medical System (NDMS)*.

bb. DODI 8220.02, *Information and Communications Technology (ICT) Capabilities for Support of Stabilization and Reconstruction, Disaster Relief, and Humanitarian and Civic Assistance Operations*.

cc. Department of Defense Strategy for Countering Weapons of Mass Destruction.

dd. *DOD Dictionary of Military and Associated Terms*.

3. Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff Publications

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b. CJCSI 3125.01D, *Defense Response to Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear (CBRN) Incidents in the Homeland*.

c. CJCSI 3214.01E, *Defense Support for Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Incidents on Foreign Territory*.

d. CJCSI 3710.01B, *DOD Counterdrug Support*.

e. CJCSI 5130.01F, *Relationships Between Commanders of Combatant Commands and International Commands and Organizations (U)*.

f. CJCSI 5205.01C, *Implementing Instructions for Defense Attaché Offices and Security Cooperation Organizations (U)*.

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h. CJCSM 3130.03, *Adaptive Planning and Execution (APEX) Planning Formats and Guidance*.

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k. JP 1-06, *Financial Management Support in Joint Operations*.

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o. JP 2-03, *Geospatial Intelligence in Joint Operations*.

p. JP 3-0, *Joint Operations*.

q. JP 3-05, *Special Operations*.

r. JP 3-07.2, *Antiterrorism*.

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t. JP 3-07.4, *Counterdrug Operations*.

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y. JP 3-13.3, *Operations Security*.

z. JP 3-16, *Multinational Operations*.

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bb. JP 3-27, *Homeland Defense*.

- c. JP 3-28, *Defense Support of Civil Authorities*.
- dd. JP 3-29, *Foreign Humanitarian Assistance*.
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- jj. JP 3-68, *Noncombatant Evacuation Operations*.
- kk. JP 4-0, *Joint Logistics*.
- ll. JP 4-01, *The Defense Transportation System*.
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- pp. JP 4-10, *Operational Contract Support*.
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- rr. JP 6-0, *Joint Communications System*.

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- e. Convention on the Safety of United Nations and Associated Personnel.
- f. 3D Planning Guide: Diplomacy, Development, Defense.

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- u. USAID Primer: What We Do and How We Do It.
- v. James McArthur, William Betts, Nelson Bregón, Faith Chamberlain, George Katsos, Mark Kelly, Craig Levy, Matthew Lim, Kimberly Mickus, and Paul Stockton, “Interorganizational Cooperation I of III: The Interagency Perspective,” Joint Force Quarterly, Issue 79.
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APPENDIX J

ADMINISTRATIVE INSTRUCTIONS

1. User Comments

Users in the field are highly encouraged to submit comments on this publication to: Joint Staff J-7, Deputy Director, Joint Education and Doctrine, ATTN: Joint Doctrine Analysis Division, 116 Lake View Parkway, Suffolk, VA 23435-2697. These comments should address content (accuracy, usefulness, consistency, and organization), writing, and appearance.

2. Authorship

The lead agent for this publication is the Director for Joint Force Development (J-7). The Joint Staff doctrine sponsor for this publication is the Director for Strategic Plans and Policy (J-5).

3. Supersession

This publication supersedes JP 3-08, *Interorganizational Cooperation During Joint Operations*, 24 June 2011. The appendices in JP 3-08 will be updated on an as needed basis per requests from interorganizational stakeholders with modifications, deletions, or additions that have been approved by the Joint Doctrine Division.

4. Change Recommendations

- a. Recommendations for urgent changes to this publication should be submitted:

TO: Deputy Director, Joint Education and Doctrine (DD JED), Attn: Joint Doctrine Division, 7000 Joint Staff (J-7), Washington, DC 20318-7000 or email:js.pentagon.j7.list.dd-je-d-jdd-all@mail.mil.

- b. Routine changes should be submitted electronically to the Deputy Director, Joint Education and Doctrine, ATTN: Joint Doctrine Analysis Division, 116 Lake View Parkway, Suffolk, VA 23435-2697, and info the lead agent and the Director for Joint Force Development, J-7/JED.

- c. When a Joint Staff directorate submits a proposal to the CJCS that would change source document information reflected in this publication, that directorate will include a proposed change to this publication as an enclosure to its proposal. The Services and other organizations are requested to notify the Joint Staff J-7 when changes to source documents reflected in this publication are initiated.

5. Lessons Learned

The Joint Lessons Learned Program (JLLP) primary objective is to enhance joint force readiness and effectiveness by contributing to improvements in doctrine, organization, training, materiel, leadership and education, personnel, facilities, and

policy. The Joint Lessons Learned Information System (JLLIS) is the DOD system of record for lessons learned and facilitates the collection, tracking, management, sharing, collaborative resolution, and dissemination of lessons learned to improve the development and readiness of the joint force. The JLLP integrates with joint doctrine through the joint doctrine development process by providing lessons and lessons learned derived from operations, events, and exercises. As these inputs are incorporated into joint doctrine, they become institutionalized for future use, a major goal of the JLLP. Lessons and lessons learned are routinely sought and incorporated into draft JPs throughout formal staffing of the development process. The JLLIS Website can be found at <https://www.jllis.mil> or <http://www.jllis.smil.mil>.

6. Distribution of Publications

Local reproduction is authorized, and access to unclassified publications is unrestricted. However, access to and reproduction authorization for classified JPs must be IAW DOD Manual 5200.01, Volume 1, *DOD Information Security Program: Overview, Classification, and Declassification*, and DOD Manual 5200.01, Volume 3, *DOD Information Security Program: Protection of Classified Information*.

7. Distribution of Electronic Publications

a. Joint Staff J-7 will not print copies of JPs for distribution. Electronic versions are available on JDEIS Joint Electronic Library Plus (JEL+) at <https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/index.jsp> (NIPRNET) and <http://jdeis.js.smil.mil/jdeis/index.jsp> (SIPRNET), and on the JEL at <http://www.dtic.mil/doctrine>.

b. Only approved JPs are releasable outside the combatant commands, Services, and Joint Staff. Defense attachés may request classified JPs by sending written requests to Defense Intelligence Agency (DIA)/IE-3, 200 MacDill Blvd., Joint Base Anacostia-Bolling, Washington, DC 20340-5100.

c. JEL CD-ROM. Upon request of a joint doctrine development community member, the Joint Staff J-7 will produce and deliver one CD-ROM with current JPs. This JEL CD-ROM will be updated not less than semi-annually and when received can be locally reproduced for use within the combatant commands, Services, and combat support agencies.

GLOSSARY

PART I—ABBREVIATIONS AND ACRONYMS

ACT	advance civilian team
AJP	Allied joint publication
ANG	Air National Guard
AOR	area of responsibility
APEX	Adaptive Planning and Execution
ARC	American Red Cross
ARNG	Army National Guard
ASD(HD&GS)	Assistant Secretary of Defense (Homeland Defense and Global Security)
ASD(PA)	Assistant Secretary of Defense (Public Affairs)
ASD(RA)	Assistant Secretary of Defense (Reserve Affairs)
ASD(SO/LIC)	Assistant Secretary of Defense (Special Operations and Low-Intensity Conflict)
ASPR	Office of Assistant Secretary for Preparedness and Response (DHHS)
AU	African Union
BIS	Bureau of Industry and Security (DOC)
C2	command and control
CA	civil affairs
CAF	Conflict Assessment Framework (USAID)
CBP	Customs and Border Protection (DHS)
CBRN	chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear
CCDR	combatant commander
CCMD	combatant command
CDC	Centers for Disease Control and Prevention (DHHS)
CDRUSNORTHCOM	Commander, United States Northern Command
CDRUSPACOM	Commander, United States Pacific Command
CFR	Code of Federal Regulations
CI	counterintelligence
CIA	Central Intelligence Agency
CIP	critical infrastructure protection
CJCS	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff
CJCSI	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff instruction
CJCSM	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff manual
CJOC	Canada Joint Operations Command
CJTF	commander, joint task force
CMC	Office of Civilian-Military Cooperation (USAID)
CMO	civil-military operations
CMOC	civil-military operations center
CNGB	Chief, National Guard Bureau
CNMI	Commonwealth of the Northern Mariana Islands

COA	course of action
COM	chief of mission
CONOPS	concept of operations
CONPLAN	concept plan
COP	common operational picture
CSO	Bureau of Conflict and Stabilization Operations (DOS)
CT	counterterrorism
DART	disaster assistance response team
DCE	defense coordinating element
DCHA	Bureau for Democracy, Conflict, and Humanitarian Assistance (USAID)
D/CIA	Director, Central Intelligence Agency
DCM	deputy chief of mission
DCO	defense coordinating officer
DDA	deputy development advisor
DEA	Drug Enforcement Administration (DOJ)
DHHS	Department of Health and Human Services
DHS	Department of Homeland Security
DIA	Defense Intelligence Agency
DNI	Director of National Intelligence
DOC	Department of Commerce
DOD	Department of Defense
DODD	Department of Defense directive
DODI	Department of Defense instruction
DOE	Department of Energy
DOI	Department of the Interior
DOJ	Department of Justice
DOL	Department of Labor
DOS	Department of State
DOT	Department of Transportation
DR	disaster relief
DSC	dual-status commander
DSCA	defense support of civil authorities
DSPD	defense support to public diplomacy
DSR	defense strategy review
DSRSG	Deputy Special Representative of the Secretary-General
DTRA	Defense Threat Reduction Agency
ECOSOC	Economic and Social Council (UN)
EMAC	emergency management assistance compact
EPA	Environmental Protection Agency
ESF	emergency support function
ESG	executive steering group
EU	European Union

FAA	Federal Aviation Administration (DOT)
FAS	Foreign Agricultural Service (USDA)
FBI	Federal Bureau of Investigation (DOJ)
FCO	federal coordinating officer
FCP	functional campaign plan
FDA	Food and Drug Administration
FDO	flexible deterrent option
FEMA	Federal Emergency Management Agency (DHS)
FHA	foreign humanitarian assistance
FP	force protection
FPS	Federal Protective Service (DHS)
GAT	governmental assistance team
GCC	geographic combatant commander
GEF	Guidance for Employment of the Force
GPOI	Global Peace Operations Initiative
GSA	General Services Administration
HA	humanitarian assistance
HACC	humanitarian assistance coordination center
HAST	humanitarian assistance survey team
HC	humanitarian coordinator
HD	homeland defense
HN	host nation
HOC	humanitarian operations center
HOM	head of mission
HQ	headquarters
HS	homeland security
HSC	Homeland Security Council
HSI	Office of Homeland Security Investigations (DHS)
HSPD	homeland security Presidential directive
HUD	Department of Housing and Urban Development
IAP	integrated assessment and planning
IAW	in accordance with
IC	intelligence community
ICAF	Interagency Conflict Assessment Framework (DOS)
ICC	International Criminal Court
ICE	Immigration and Customs Enforcement (DHS)
ICJ	International Court of Justice
ICRC	International Committee of the Red Cross
ICS	incident command system
ICVA	International Council of Voluntary Agencies
IDENT	Automated Biometric Identification System (DHS)
IFRC	International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent

	Societies
ILAB	Bureau of International Labor Affairs (DOL)
INTERPOL	International Criminal Police Organization
IO	information operations
IOM	International Organization for Migration
IPC	interagency policy committee
IPI	indigenous populations and institutions
IRC	information-related capability
ISE	information sharing environment
ITA	International Trade Administration (DOC)
J-2	intelligence directorate of a joint staff
J-3	operations directorate of a joint staff
JCMOTF	joint civil-military operations task force
JCS	Joint Chiefs of Staff
JFC	joint force commander
JFO	joint field office
JIACG	joint interagency coordination group
JIATF	joint interagency task force
JLOC	joint logistics operations center
JOA	joint operations area
JP	joint publication
JPP	joint planning process
JS	the Joint Staff
JSCP	Joint Strategic Capabilities Plan
JTF	joint task force
JTF-State	joint task force-state
LEA	law enforcement agency
LNO	liaison officer
MARAD	Maritime Administration
MARAD RRF	Maritime Administration Ready Reserve Force
MC	Military Committee (NATO)
MITAM	mission tasking matrix
MNC	multinational corporation
MNF	multinational force
MOA	memorandum of agreement
MOC	media operations center
MOTR	maritime operational threat response
MOU	memorandum of understanding
MPAT	Multinational Planning Augmentation Team
MSP	Maritime Security Program
NA5CRO	non-Article 5 crisis response operation (NATO)
NAC	North Atlantic Council (NATO)

NATO	North Atlantic Treaty Organization
NCH	natural and cultural resources and historic properties (DOI)
NCTC	National Counterterrorism Center
NDMS	National Disaster Medical System (DHHS)
NDRF	National Defense Reserve Fleet
NG	National Guard
NGA	National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency
NGB	National Guard Bureau
NGCC	National Guard Coordination Center
NG JFHQ-State	National Guard joint force headquarters-state
NGO	nongovernmental organization
NIH	National Institutes of Health (DHHS)
NIMS	National Incident Management System
NJTTF	National Joint Terrorism Task Force
NOAA	National Oceanic and Atmospheric Administration (DOC)
NORAD	North American Aerospace Defense Command
NPF	national planning framework
NRF	National Response Framework
NSA	National Security Agency
NSC	National Security Council
NSC/DC	National Security Council/Deputies Committee
NSC/IPC	National Security Council/interagency policy committee
NSC/PC	National Security Council/Principals Committee
NSCS	National Security Council System
NSD	National Security Division (FBI)
NSPD	national security Presidential directive
NSS	national security strategy
NSSE	national special security event
NTIA	National Telecommunications and Information Administration (DOC)
NVOAD	National Voluntary Organizations Active in Disaster
OAS	Organization of American States
OBIM	Office of Biometric Identity Management (DHS)
ODNI	Office of the Director of National Intelligence
OES	office of emergency services
OFDA	Office of United States Foreign Disaster Assistance (USAID)
OIA	Office of Insular Affairs (DOI)
OLEM	Office of Land and Emergency Management (EPA)
OPCON	operational control
OPLAN	operation plan
OPSEC	operations security
ORD	Office of Research and Development (EPA)

OSD	Office of the Secretary of Defense
OTA	Office of Technical Assistance (Treasury)
OUSD(P)	Office of the Under Secretary of Defense for Policy
PA	public affairs
PCC	police contributing country
PERMREP	permanent representative (NATO)
PM	Bureau of Political-Military Affairs (DOS)
PO	peace operations
POC	point of contact
POLAD	policy advisor
POLMIL	political-military
PPD	Presidential policy directive
PRC	primary receiving center
PRM	Bureau of Population, Refugees, and Migration (DOS)
PRT	provincial reconstruction team
RC	resident coordinator (UN)
RFA	request for assistance
ROE	rules of engagement
RSF	recovery support function
SAR	search and rescue
SCO	security cooperation organization
SDA	senior development advisor
SDO/DATT	senior defense official/defense attaché
SecDef	Secretary of Defense
SJA	staff judge advocate
SOST	special operations support team
SRSG	special representative of the Secretary-General
SSC	special security center
TACON	tactical control
TAG	the adjutant general
TCC	troop contributing country
TCP	theater campaign plan
UN	United Nations
UNCT	United Nations country team
UNDP	United Nations Development Programme
UNDPKO	United Nations Department of Peacekeeping Operations
UNHCR	United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees
UNOCHA	United Nations Office for the Coordination of Humanitarian Affairs
USAF	United States Air Force
USAFRICOM	United States Africa Command

USAID	United States Agency for International Development
USC	United States Code
USCENTCOM	United States Central Command
USCG	United States Coast Guard
USDA	United States Department of Agriculture
USEUCOM	United States European Command
USG	United States Government
USIP	United States Institute of Peace
USMC	United States Marine Corps
USN	United States Navy
USNORTHCOM	United States Northern Command
USPACOM	United States Pacific Command
USPHS	United States Public Health Service (DHHS)
USSOCOM	United States Special Operations Command
USSOUTHCOM	United States Southern Command
USTRANSCOM	United States Transportation Command
VA	Department of Veterans Affairs
VISA	Voluntary Intermodal Sealift Agreement
WANGO	World Association of Non-Governmental Organizations
WFP	World Food Programme (UN)
WHO	World Health Organization (UN)
WMD	weapons of mass destruction

PART II—TERMS AND DEFINITIONS

chief of mission. The principal officer in charge of a diplomatic facility of the United States, including any individual temporarily assigned to be in charge of such a facility. Also called **COM**. (Approved for incorporation into the *DOD Dictionary*.)

development assistance. None. (Approved for removal from the *DOD Dictionary*.)

disaster assistance response team. A team deployed by the United States Agency for International Development, if a large-scale, urgent, and/or extended response is necessary, to provide specialists to assist the chief of mission and the United States Agency for International Development mission (where present) with the management of the United States Government response to a disaster. Also called **DART**. (Approved for incorporation into the *DOD Dictionary*.)

domestic intelligence. Intelligence relating to activities or conditions within the United States that threaten internal security and that might require the employment of troops; and intelligence relating to activities of individuals or agencies potentially or actually dangerous to the security of the Department of Defense. (*DOD Dictionary*. SOURCE: JP 3-08)

downgrade. None. (Approved for removal from the *DOD Dictionary*.)

interagency. Of or pertaining to United States Government agencies and departments, including the Department of Defense. (*DOD Dictionary*. SOURCE: JP 3-08)

intergovernmental organization. None. (Approved for removal from the *DOD Dictionary*.)

internal security. The state of law and order prevailing within a nation. (*DOD Dictionary*. SOURCE: JP 3-08)

interorganizational cooperation. The interaction that occurs among elements of the Department of Defense; participating United States Government departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; nongovernmental organizations; and the private sector. (Approved for replacement of “interorganizational coordination” and its definition in the *DOD Dictionary*.)

joint interagency coordination group. A staff group that establishes regular, timely, and collaborative working relationships between civilian and military operational planners. Also called **JIACG**. (*DOD Dictionary*. SOURCE: JP 3-08)

lead agency. The United States Government agency designated to coordinate the interagency oversight of the day-to-day conduct of an ongoing operation. (Approved for incorporation into the *DOD Dictionary*.)

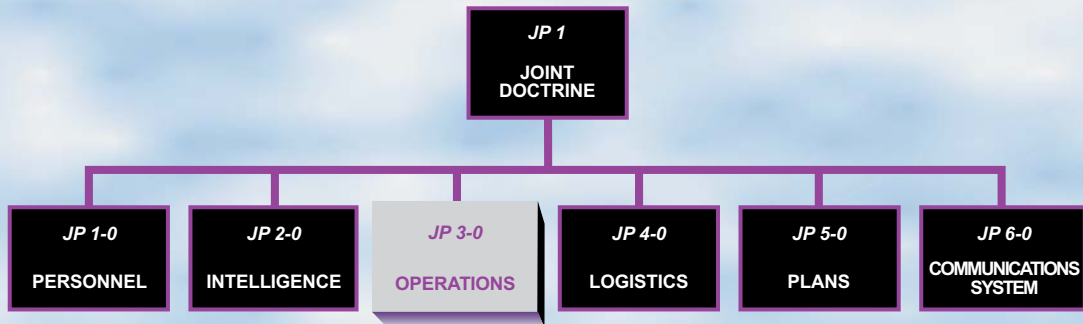
liaison. None. (Approved for removal from the *DOD Dictionary*.)

nongovernmental organization. A private, self-governing, not-for-profit organization dedicated to alleviating human suffering; and/or promoting education, health care, economic development, environmental protection, human rights, and conflict resolution; and/or encouraging the establishment of democratic institutions and civil society. Also called **NGO**. (*DOD Dictionary*. SOURCE: JP 3-08)

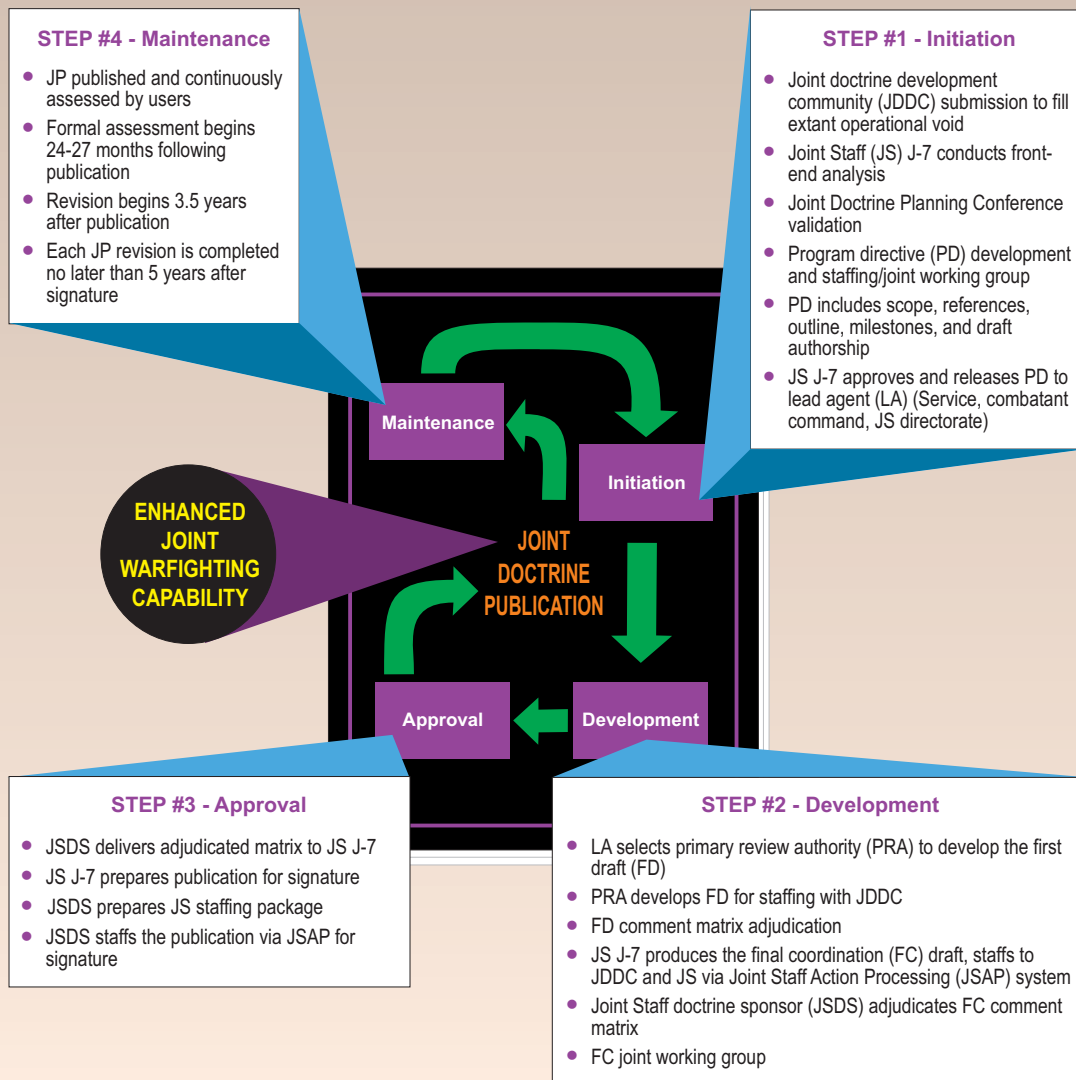
principal officer. The officer in charge of a diplomatic mission, consular office, or other foreign service post, such as a United States liaison office. (Approved for incorporation into the *DOD Dictionary*.)

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JOINT DOCTRINE PUBLICATIONS HIERARCHY



All joint publications are organized into a comprehensive hierarchy as shown in the chart above. **Joint Publication (JP) 3-08** is in the **Operations** series of joint doctrine publications. The diagram below illustrates an overview of the development process:





Culture and Negotiation

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This article develops a model of how culture affects negotiation processes and outcomes. It begins with a description of negotiation from a Western perspective: confrontational, focused on transactions or the resolution of disputes, evaluated in terms of integrative and distributive outcomes. It proposes that power and information processes are fundamental to negotiations and that one impact of culture on negotiations is through these processes. The cultural value of individualism versus collectivism is linked to goals in negotiation; the cultural value of egalitarianism versus hierarchy is linked to power in negotiation; and the cultural value for high versus low context communication is linked to information sharing in negotiation. The article describes why inter-cultural negotiations pose significant strategic challenges, but concludes that negotiators who are motivated to search for information, and are flexible about how that search is carried out, can reach high-quality negotiated outcomes.

Cet article présente un modèle sur la manière dont la culture influence les processus et les résultats d'une négociation. Il commence par une description d'une négociation d'un point de vue occidental: confrontante, centrée sur les transactions ou la résolution de conflits, évaluée par le caractère intégratif et distributif de l'issue. Il propose que les processus de pouvoir et d'information sont fondamentaux dans les négociations et que c'est par ces processus que la culture a un impact sur les négociations. La valeur culturelle individualisme-collectivisme est liée aux buts de la négociation; la valeur culturelle égalitarisme-hiérarchisation est liée au pouvoir dans la négociation; et la valeur culturelle communication contextuelle forte ou faible est liée au partage de l'information dans la négociation. Cet article décrit pourquoi les négociations inter-culturelles présentent des défis stratégiques significatifs, mais conclut que les négociateurs qui sont motivés à chercher l'information et qui sont flexibles dans la manière de la chercher peuvent arriver à obtenir des résultats de grande qualité.

Breakdowns in negotiations when parties are from different cultures are invariably attributed to cultural differences. Though some of these breakdowns may not fairly be attributable to culture, others undoubtedly have cultural origins. This article develops a conceptual model to explain how culture impacts negotiation. It draws on previous research on culture and on negotiation to develop an understanding of how culture affects negotiation processes and outcomes. The article begins with a review of fundamental concepts in the literature on negotiation and culture. These concepts provide a language for what we know and what we do not know about culture and negotiation and allow us to build a model of factors affecting inter-cultural negotiation process and outcome.

A MODEL OF INTER-CULTURAL NEGOTIATION

Negotiation

Negotiation is a form of social interaction. It is the process by which two or more parties try to resolve perceived incompatible goals (Carnevale & Pruitt, 1992). In order to understand the effect of culture on

negotiation, it is useful to have a mental model of negotiation. What is it that people mean when they say they negotiate? What is involved in negotiating? What is a good outcome in negotiation? What does it take to get a good outcome? What goes wrong in a negotiation that has a poor outcome? However, if culture has an effect on negotiation, the mental models of negotiators from one culture may not map on to the mental models of negotiators from another culture, making the specification of a single mental model problematic. There are two ways to approach this problem of specifying a mental model of negotiation. One is to specify the model in use in one culture and then compare and contrast its elements with elements of models of negotiation from other cultures. Alternatively, we can specify the mental models of negotiation in many different cultures and aggregate their common and unique elements. The latter approach is less likely to overlook culturally unique aspects of negotiation, but requires the prior existence or current construction of many culturally emic (unique) models of negotiation. (See Brett, Tinsley, Janssens, Barsness, & Lytle, 1997 for a discussion of these two approaches to designing cross-cultural research.) This article relies on the first approach because there is a well-specified model of negotiation grounded in Western theory and empirical

research by scholars such as Howard Raiffa, Morton Deutsch, Dean Pruitt, Peter Carnevale, and Max Bazerman and Margaret Neale. In taking the Western mental model of negotiation as a starting point, no assumption is made that the Western model is *etic* (generalizable to all cultures).

Direct Confrontation. Negotiation involves direct confrontation, either face-to-face, or electronic, of principles and or their agents. This is clearly the first of many Western biases in the model. Negotiations can be, and in many cultures frequently are, carried out indirectly through third parties. These third parties may act as agents (representatives of the principles), or mediators (neutral third parties trying to facilitate an agreement), or they may act as go-betweens, conveying information among parties and others with interests in the outcome. This is not to say that such indirect third-party activity never occurs in cultures like the US, only that it is not usually what cultural members think about when they think about negotiation. The article in this Special Issue by Peter Carnevale and Dong Won Choi deals with third parties in negotiations.

Types of Negotiations. Negotiations may be transactional with buyers and sellers, or directed toward the resolution of conflict or disputes. Both types of negotiation revolve around a perceived incompatibility of goals (Carnevale & Pruitt, 1992). Negotiators engaged in a transaction are determining whether, despite this anticipated incompatibility of goals, they can negotiate the terms of a relationship that is more favourable than any they believe they can negotiate with alternative buyers or sellers. Conflict or dispute resolution negotiations imply that some blocking of goal attainment has already occurred. Negotiators resolving disputes are determining what can be done about the blocked goal. A dispute is a rejected claim (Folstein, Abel, & Sarat, 1980–81), distinguished from the more general term, conflict (perceived goal incompatibility), by its explicit nature.

Another difference between transactional and conflict management negotiations is the degree to which the negotiators bring emotion to the table. In transactional negotiations, negotiators may try to use positive emotion, such as ingratiation, or feign emotional irrationality to influence outcomes. Negotiators may also become angry during the course of the negotiation. When conflict is the reason for the negotiation, however, negative emotion precedes the negotiation.

Conflict within relationships and transactions to construct relationships occur in and between all cultures. However, every culture has evolved its own ways of managing conflict and transactions.

Distributive and Integrative Agreements. The result of a transactional or conflict resolution negotiation may be a purely distributive agreement or an integrative agreement, or an impasse. Distributive agreements divide

a fixed set of resources among the parties. The division can be equal, which is sometimes what is meant by the term “compromise,” or unequal. Integrative agreements distribute an enhanced set of resources. Few negotiations are pure win-lose situations (Deutsch, 1973). In most situations there are opportunities to expand the resources to be divided, or to integrate, either by adding issues to the table or fractionating a single negotiation issue into parts. With multiple issues, negotiators may be able to trade low-priority issues for high-priority issues, or identify compatible issues that bring value to both parties.

Why should negotiators care about integrative agreements when most fail to realize integrative potential (Thompson, 1998)? There are two important reasons. First, integration can help parties avoid impasse. Second, when parties reach agreements that are suboptimal, they leave resources on the table that neither party is able to recover (Walton & McKersie, 1965).

Processes That Lead to Distributive and Integrative Agreements. The processes by which distributive and integrative agreements are negotiated differ slightly in transactions and the resolution of disputes. To understand these negotiation processes we need to understand how power and information are used in negotiation.

Power is the ability to make the other party concede when that party prefers not to concede (Ury, Brett, & Goldberg, 1993). In transactional negotiations power is typically the economic power of alternatives. Parties' economic power is a function of their dependency on each other (Emerson, 1962). The party with the best alternative to a negotiated agreement (BATNA) (Fisher, Ury, & Patton, 1991) is the more powerful. Economic power may vary as a function of the market (free market economy cultures) and of each party's social status within the market (controlled economy cultures). Normative standards of fairness (Fisher et al., 1991) may also be used to reach distributive agreements. Examples of standards of fairness include relying on past practice, or the agreements reached with other buyers or suppliers. In the resolution of disputes, in addition to economic and social power, and normative standards of fairness, legal standards may be the dominant standard used to determine the distribution of resources.

Two types of information are relevant in negotiation: information about parties' power and information about parties' interests, or the reasons why they take the positions they do (Fisher et al., 1991). Information about power is relevant to both distributive and integrative agreements, because in any integrative agreement, there is still a distribution. Information about interests is relevant to constructing integrative agreements.

With information about relative power, the negotiator can judge (a) when to walk away from a negotiation with confidence that no deal is possible, (b) when to press for more in a negotiation, or (c) when to accept an offer. However, acquiring such information may not be a simple task. First, power is a perception, a psychological

representation of the strength of one's position in the negotiation. Like other perceptions, perceptions of power are likely to be biased by egocentrism (thinking you have more power than you would be assigned as having by a neutral observer), anchoring (being influenced by the persuasive arguments the other side uses about its power), and framing (being influenced by role, for example buyer or seller, or some other contextual variable) (Neale & Bazerman, 1991). Second, perceptions of power are subject to influences such as persuasion, ingratiation, substantiation, and appeals to sympathy (Lewicki, Saunders, & Minton, 1997; Weingart, Thompson, Bazerman, & Carroll, 1990).

The creation of resources that is the hallmark of integrative agreements rests on the identification of trade-offs and mutually beneficial alternatives. To realize integrative potential, negotiators need to know both their own and the other party's priorities and interests. Priority information identifies what issues are more and what issues are less important to a negotiator. Interest information identifies why an issue is important or unimportant (Fisher et al., 1991). When different interests are uncovered, trade-offs can be negotiated. When mutual interests are uncovered, both parties can gain. There are two ways to acquire such information leading to integrative agreements. Parties can engage in reciprocal information sharing about preferences, priorities, and interests underlying positions (Pruitt, 1981). Alternatively, parties can engage in heuristic trial and error processing, during which they may propose alternative deals, slowly working their way toward an integrative agreement (Pruitt, 1981).

Recent empirical research suggests that cultures differ with respect to the basis of power in negotiation (Brett & Okumura, 1998) and appropriate standards of fairness (Leung, 1997). Cultures also differ with respect to information sharing, both in the extent to which information is viewed as important in negotiation (Brett et al., 1998), and in the approach to sharing information relevant to reaching integrative agreements (Adair, Okumura, & Brett, 1998c). Some cultures share the information about interests and priorities needed to reach integrative agreements directly, while others share that information indirectly, and still others not at all (Adair et al., 1998a). Other research shows cultural differences in the emphasis placed on interests, rights, and power in dispute resolution (Tinsley, 1997, 1998).

Culture

Culture is the unique character of a social group. It encompasses the values and norms shared by members of that group. It is the economic, social, political, and religious institutions that direct and control current group members and socialize new members (Lytle, Brett, Barsness, Tinsley, & Janssens, 1995). All of these elements of culture can affect social interactions like negotiations. Cultural values direct group members' attention to what is more and less important. Cultural

norms define what is appropriate and inappropriate behaviour. Cultural values and norms provide the philosophy underlying the society's institutions. At the same time cultural institutions preserve cultural values and norms, give them authority, and provide a context for social interaction.

There are many different cultural values, norms, and institutions. Not all relate to negotiation. However, many do because they provide a basis for interpreting situations (this is a negotiation, therefore I behave) and a basis for interpreting the behaviours of others (he or she threatened me, therefore I should . . .) (Fiske & Taylor, 1991). Cultural values that our research indicates are relevant to norms and strategies for negotiation include individualism versus collectivism, egalitarianism versus hierarchy, and direct versus indirect communications. Other values, no doubt, are also relevant.

Individualism versus Collectivism. Individualism versus collectivism refers to the extent to which a society treats individuals as autonomous, or as embedded in their social groups (Schwartz, 1994). In individualistic cultures, norms and institutions promote the autonomy of the individual. Individual accomplishments are rewarded and revered by economic and social institutions, and legal institutions protect individual rights. In collectivist cultures, norms and institutions promote interdependence of individuals through emphasis on social obligations. Sacrifice of personal needs for the greater good is rewarded and legal institutions place the greater good of the collective above the rights of the individual. Political and economic institutions reward classes of people as opposed to individuals.

The way a society treats people affects the way people self-construct and the way they act toward and interact with each other. People in all cultures distinguish between in-groups, of which they are members, and out-groups, of which they are not (Turner, 1987). In collectivist cultures self-identity is interdependent with in-group membership, but in individualistic cultures self-identity consists of attributes that are independent of in-group membership (Marcus & Kitayama, 1991). Perhaps because collectivists identify more strongly with their in-groups, they are said to be more attuned to the needs of others than individualists (Schweder & Bourne, 1982) and to make stronger in-group/out-group distinctions than individualists (Gudykunst et al., 1992).

Individualism versus collectivism, according to Schwartz (1994, p. 140), reflects cultures' basic preferences and priorities for "some goals rather than others." Goals are motivating; they direct behaviour and sustain effort (Locke & Latham, 1990). We have found that individualists, because of their strong self-interests, set high personal goals in negotiation (Brett & Okumura, 1998). We think these goals motivate individualists to reject acceptable, but suboptimal, agreements and to continue to search among alternative possible agreements for one that best meets the individualists' self-interests.

Because of their identification with in-groups, collectivists' goals should be aligned with their in-groups' goals. If the other negotiator is an in-group member, goal alignment should generate cooperative behaviour in negotiations, whereby parties search together for a mutually satisfying agreement. However, if the other negotiator is an out-group member, as is likely in any inter-cultural negotiation, goals are unlikely to be aligned and competitive behaviour may ensue. In Prisoners' Dilemma games negotiators with individualistic motivational orientations do not change their behaviour depending upon with whom they are interacting (Kelley & Stahelski, 1970). However, in some recent multi-party negotiation research, some individualists changed to a cooperative strategy, perhaps because they were confronted with the possibility of an impasse (Weingart & Brett, 1998), suggesting that individualists may be pragmatic. Negotiators with cooperative motivational orientations vary their behavior, depending on the orientation of the other negotiator (Kelley & Stahelski, 1970). They cooperate when they are dealing with other cooperative negotiators, but in dyads will compete when dealing with negotiators with individualist or competitive orientations.

The distinction between individualistic and competitive behaviour is important. The individualist goes his own way regardless of the behaviour of the other, but may be affected by the structure of the situation. The competitor, like the cooperator, is sensitive to the needs of others, and the competitor seeks to maximize the difference between his own and other's outcomes (Messick & McClintock, 1968). This is a very different orientation from the individualist, who essentially is unconcerned with how well or how poorly the negotiation is going for the other party, so long as it is going well for himself.

Egalitarianism versus Hierarchy. Egalitarianism versus hierarchy refers to the extent to which a culture's social structure is flat (egalitarian) versus differentiated into ranks (hierarchical) (Schwartz, 1994). In hierarchical cultures, social status implies social power. Social superiors are granted power and privilege. Social inferiors are obligated to defer to social superiors and comply with their requests. However, social superiors also have an obligation to look out for the needs of social inferiors (Leung, 1997). No such obligation exists in egalitarian societies, where social boundaries are permeable and superior social status may be short-lived.

Conflict within hierarchical cultures poses a threat to the social structure, since the norm in such a culture is not to challenge the directives of high status members. Thus, conflict between members of different social ranks is likely to be less frequent in hierarchical than egalitarian cultures (Leung, 1997). Conflict between members of the same social rank is more likely to be handled by deference to a superior than by direct confrontation between social equals (Leung, 1997). So, hierarchy reduces conflict by providing norms for interaction, primarily by channelling conflict that does break out to

superiors. The decision by the high status third party reinforces his/her authority without necessarily conferring differentiated status on the contestants as would be the case in a negotiation in which one party won and the other lost.

Conflict within egalitarian cultures also poses a threat to the social structure, but the egalitarian nature of the culture empowers conflicting members to resolve the conflict themselves. Egalitarian cultures support direct, face-to-face negotiations, mediation or facilitation by a peer, and group decision making, to resolve conflict. An agreement between two disputing parties may not distribute resources equally. One party may claim more and the other less. Yet, differentiated status associated with successful claiming in one negotiation may not translate into permanent changes in social status. There are two reasons for this. First, there are few avenues in egalitarian societies for precedent setting. Second, social status is only stable until the next negotiation.

Thus, one implication for negotiations of the cultural value, egalitarianism versus hierarchy, is the way conflict is handled in a culture. A second implication is the view of power in negotiations.

Negotiators from egalitarian and hierarchical societies have rather different views of the bases of power in negotiations (Brett & Okumura, 1998). Consistent with the transitory notion of social structure that is characteristic of egalitarian societies, power in negotiations in egalitarian cultures tends to be evaluated with respect to the situation under negotiation and the alternatives if no agreement can be reached. Every negotiator has a BATNA (best alternative to negotiated agreement). BATNAs are not fixed. If, in analyzing the alternatives, the negotiator is dissatisfied with her BATNA, she may invest in action to improve her BATNA by seeking another alternative. In transactional negotiations, parties' BATNAs are frequently unrelated. The buyer has an alternative seller with whom to negotiate and the seller has an alternative buyer with whom to negotiate. However, in dispute resolution negotiations one party may be able to impose its BATNA on the other. For example, in a dispute over the terms of a contract, the defendant may not simply be able to walk away from a negotiation that has reached an impasse, but will have to defend himself in court, which is the claimant's BATNA.

Negotiators in egalitarian cultures refer to BATNA or any other source of power in transactional negotiations relatively infrequently, so long as negotiations are moving toward agreement (Adair et al., 1998c). These negotiators prefer to focus on the issues under negotiation, sharing information about priorities and interests, and noting similarities and differences (Adair et al., 1998a).

In hierarchical societies, interpersonal relationships are vertical. In almost all social relationships a difference in status exists based on age, sex, education, organization, or position in the organization (Graham, Johnston, & Kamins, 1998). Social status confers social power and

knowledge of status dictates how people will interact. In within-culture negotiations, when parties' social status is known, there may be little need to negotiate the relative distribution of resources. However, when relative status is in doubt, negotiators must somehow determine each party's relative status, and thus the distribution of resources. Research on transactional negotiations shows that negotiators from hierarchical cultures are more likely than negotiators from egalitarian cultures to endorse as normative and to use all types of power in negotiation: status, BATNA, and persuasion (Adair et al., 1998a; Brett et al., 1998).

High- versus Low-context Communication. High- versus low-context communication refers to the degree to which within-culture communications are indirect versus direct (Hall, 1976; Ting-Toomey, 1988). In high-context cultures little information is in the message itself. Instead, the context of the communication stimulates pre-existing knowledge in the receiver. In high-context cultures meaning is inferred rather than directly interpreted from the communication. In low-context cultures information is contained in explicit messages, and meaning is conveyed without nuance and is context free. Communication in low-context cultures is action oriented and solution minded. The implications of the information are laid out in further detailed communications.

Information is the central factor affecting the degree to which negotiated agreements are integrative. Differences between parties in priorities and interests provide one source of integrative potential. Compatibility with respect to issues provides another. If parties are going to realize integrative potential, they must learn about the other party's interests, preferences, and priorities. Negotiation research has shown that integrative agreements may result from information sharing about preferences and priorities (Olekalns, Smith, & Walsh, 1996; Pruitt, 1981; Weingart et al., 1990), or from heuristic trial-and-error search (Pruitt & Lewis, 1975; Tutzauer & Roloff, 1988). Information sharing about preferences and priorities is a direct information sharing approach. Questions are asked and answered in a give-and-take fashion as both sides slowly develop an understanding of what issues are mutually beneficial, what issues are more important to one side than the other, and what issues are purely distributive.

Heuristic trial-and-error search is an indirect information sharing approach. It occurs in negotiations when parties trade proposals back and forth across the bargaining table. When one party rejects the other's proposal, and offers its own, the first party may infer what was wrong with the proposal from the way the second party changed it in making its own proposal. Multi-issue proposals provide a great deal of indirect information about preferences and priorities because the integrative trade-offs are contained within the proposal. Our research shows that negotiators from low-context cultures who share information directly are as capable of negotiating integrative agreements as negotiators from

high-context cultures who share information indirectly (Brett & Okumura, 1998).

The cultural value for high- versus low-context communication may also be related to the willingness of parties in conflict to confront and negotiate directly versus to avoid confrontation and conceal ill feelings, or to confront indirectly by involving third parties (Leung, 1997; Tinsley, 1997; Ting-Toomey, 1988). Most of the research regarding confrontation versus avoidance is survey research of preferences for conflict management processes or descriptions of actual conflict management behaviours. Attributions for these preferences are as frequently made to collectivism as to high-context communication. (See Leung, 1997, for a review.) The cultural value for egalitarianism versus hierarchy also serves as a context for confrontation versus nonconfrontation in negotiations. In research comparing Hong Kong Chinese and US intra-cultural negotiators, we placed parties in a simulated, face-to-face dispute resolution setting, perhaps an uncomfortable setting for the Hong Kong Chinese (Tinsley & Brett, 1998). We found that during the 45-minute negotiation, the Hong Kong Chinese negotiators resolved fewer issues and were more likely to involve a third party than were the US negotiators (Tinsley & Brett, 1998).

MODEL OF CULTURE AND NEGOTIATION

When people from two different cultural groups negotiate, each brings to the table his or her way of thinking about the issues to be negotiated and the process of negotiation. Some of that thinking is affected by the negotiator's cultural group membership and the ways in which issues are typically assessed and negotiations carried out within that cultural group. Figure 1 represents inter-cultural negotiations as a function of differences between parties with respect to preferences on issues and negotiation strategies.

Cultural values may result in preferences on issues that are quite distinct. For example, negotiators from cultures that value tradition may be less enthusiastic about economic development that threatens to change valued ways of life, than negotiators from cultures that value change and development. The same values that generate cultural differences in preferences may also act as cultural blinders. Members of one culture expect preferences to be compatible, and cannot understand the rationality of the other party, whose views on the same issue are at odds with their own. It is generally always unwise in negotiation to label the other party as irrational. Such labelling encourages persuasion to get the other party to adopt the first's view of the situation, rather than the search for trade-offs that are the foundation of integrative agreements. There is opportunity in differences, or what is represented in Fig. 1 as integrative potential.

Cultural values and norms also may affect negotiators' strategic negotiation processes. For example, negotiators from cultures where direct, explicit communications are preferred may share information by stating and reciprocating preferences and priorities, by commenting on similarities and differences, and by giving direct feedback. Negotiators from cultures where the norm is to communicate indirectly and infer meaning may share information by making multi-issue proposals and inferring priorities from subtle changes in proposals. In our research contrasting US and Japanese negotiators, we found that the Japanese were using a relatively large number of proposals, compared to the US negotiators, and the US negotiators were using a whole array of direct communications relatively more frequently than the Japanese (Adair et al., 1998c).

Figure 1 suggests that when the strategies negotiators bring to the table clash, the negotiation process is likely to be less efficient, and agreements are likely to be suboptimal. We found, for example, that Japanese intra-cultural negotiators, using indirect communications, and US intra-cultural negotiators, using direct communications, reached similarly efficient agreements. However, when Japanese expatriate managers negotiated with US managers, agreements were suboptimal. Japanese inter-cultural negotiators understood the US negotiators' priorities, because the US negotiators were sharing information directly. The US negotiators did not understand the Japanese negotiators' priorities, even though the inter-cultural Japanese negotiators shut down their cul-

ture's normative indirect approach to information sharing and tried to adapt to the US strategy of direct information sharing (Adair et al., 1998c; Brett & Okumura, 1998).

There is not much research on what happens when negotiators' initial strategic approaches to bargaining are different, much less when those strategies are linked to cultural differences. In the negotiations literature generally, there is more theorizing than empirical research on incompatible negotiation strategies. This theorizing tends to argue that negotiators must adapt to each other and develop a common "frame" or approach to negotiations, if an agreement is to be reached (Drake & Donohue, 1996; Pinkley & Northcraft, 1994). Weiss (1994) argues that the party who is most familiar with the other's culture should adapt. This pattern of adaptation is consistent with our US-Japanese research. However, we note that the adaptation was not sufficient to generate joint gains. Weiss's perspective also ignores other criteria, like parties' relative power, that might be used as a basis for adaptation. Then again there is the problem of how much adaptation is necessary. Research has identified cultural differences with respect to power, goals, and information sharing in negotiation. Is adaptation uniform across all areas of cultural differences, or is it easier to adapt information sharing strategies than power strategies? Is the adaptation short-lived for the single negotiation, or does the enhanced negotiation strategy continue to be available to the adapting negotiator? Do negotiators even realize that they are adapting?

Inter-Cultural Negotiations

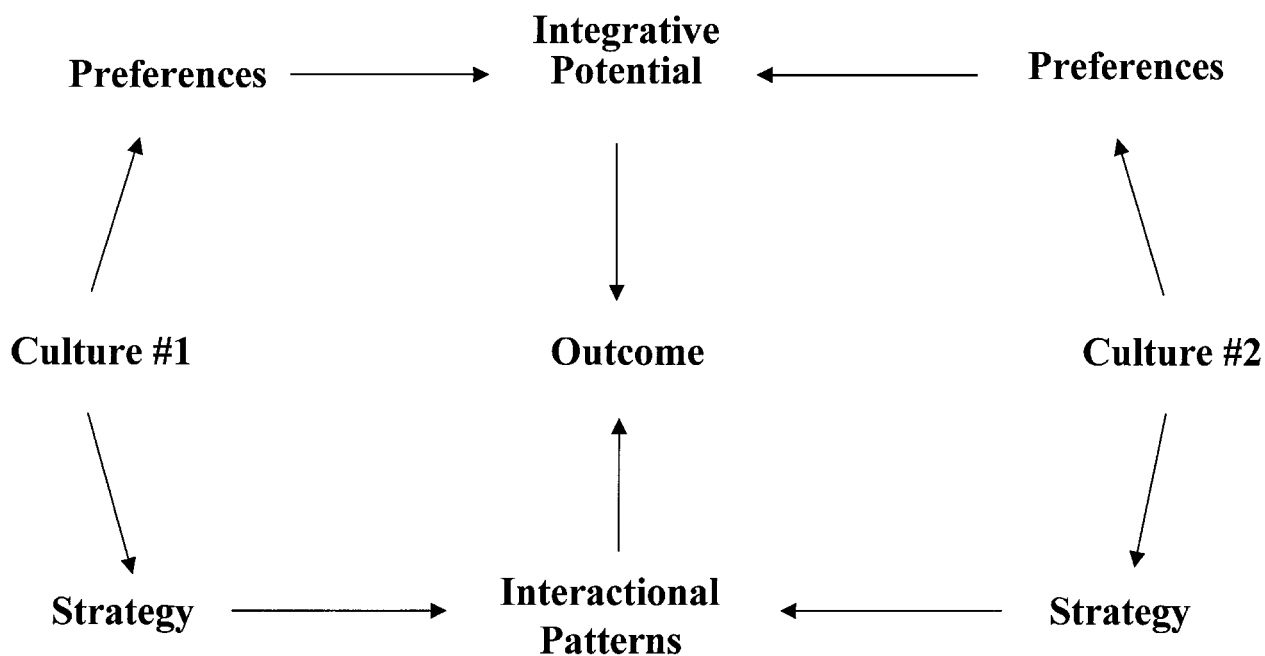


FIG. 1. A model of inter-cultural negotiation.

WHEN CULTURES CLASH IN NEGOTIATION

The practical questions for the cross-cultural negotiator are how the party across the bargaining table is likely to construe the issues and what strategies he or she is likely to use. Culture can provide some insight into these questions. At the same time there are pitfalls of over-reliance on cultural expectations.

Research has shown that there are fundamental differences between cultures with respect to norms for negotiation (Brett et al., 1998) and behaviour in negotiations (Adair et al., 1998a; Tinsley, 1997, 1998). Furthermore, these differences in norms and behaviour are correlated with cultural values (Brett et al., 1998; Tinsley, 1997). Knowing the links between culture and negotiation strategies, and knowing the other party's cultural background, may help reduce uncertainty about issue construal and strategy. There are a number of sources that provide descriptive information about culture and cultural values including Hofstede (1980), Schwartz (1994), Hall (1976), and Morrison, Conaway, and Borden (1994). There are also descriptive accounts of how people from different cultures negotiate (e.g. March, 1990). The best of these is the new edited volume by Leung and Tjosvold (1998), describing negotiation norms in cultures around the Pacific Rim.

These sources agree that there is a major cultural divide between East and West, with the West's profile generally being individualism, egalitarianism, and low-context communication, and the East's profile being collectivism, hierarchy, and high-context communication. However, East-West distinctions at the level of cultural values grossly oversimplify more fine-grained cultural differences in negotiation norms. There are distinct normative differences within regions (Leung & Tjosvold, 1998).

On the other hand, just because negotiators are from different cultures does not necessarily mean that their negotiation strategies will clash and their agreements will be suboptimal. Distinct social groups may have similar cultural values and members may find the inter-cultural negotiation process trouble-free. In addition, not all members of a cultural group with a distinct value profile believe and act consistently with the cultural norm. There is a distribution of cultural traits within a culture. Two negotiators from cultures with distinct but overlapping distributions of cultural characteristics may find they have very similar cultural values and norms, despite the differences in their cultures. If these negotiators are naïve about cultural differences, they may not anticipate differences in the negotiation process and not experience them. On the other hand, if they hold cultural stereotypes, their ability to recognize their fundamental compatibility may be biased by their stereotypes, and make the negotiation process more difficult than it otherwise would be.

This observation raises the troubling issue of whether knowing about the other party's cultural approach to

negotiation is useful information or not. Such knowledge is harmful if it stimulates biased perceptions and inappropriate adjustments of negotiation strategy. It is useful to the extent that it facilitates accurate attributions and allows a negotiator to take the perspective of the other negotiator and adjust her strategy.

When parties are motivated to reach an agreement, much can go on during the course of a negotiation to overcome individual, contextual, and cultural differences in negotiation strategy. Our research has identified three key factors leading to successful integrative and distributive agreements that are affected by culture. The first is a value for information sharing. The second is a means of searching for information. The third is the motivation to search for information. Cultures vary in the importance negotiators place on information sharing, in negotiators' normative approaches to information search, and in what motivates negotiators to search for information that may lead them to alternatives and better outcomes (Adair et al., 1998a, 1998c; Brett et al., 1998; Brett & Okumura, 1998). As a result, negotiating inter-culturally may pose a significant strategic challenge. Yet, if negotiators remain motivated to search for information on which to build acceptable agreements and are flexible in how that search is conducted, cultural differences can be bridged (Adair, Kopelman, Gillespie, & Brett, 1998b).

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Culture in the Mediation of International Disputes

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Unlike most treatments of culture in international diplomacy, this article suggests that culture can play a positive role in the mediation of international disputes. Cultural ties between the mediator and one or both of the disputants can facilitate mediation by, among other things, enhancing the mediator's acceptability to the parties, and enhancing the belief that the mediator can deliver concessions and agreements. Moreover, a mediator who is closer to one side than the other can be effective in mediation, especially when the mediator acts in an even-handed manner. Data from laboratory research on mediation, as well as anecdotal evidence, support this view.

Contrairement à la plupart des analyses de l'influence de la culture en diplomatie internationale, cet article suggère que la culture peut jouer un rôle positif dans la médiation de conflits internationaux. Les liens culturels entre le médiateur et l'un des opposants ou les deux peuvent faciliter la médiation, entre autres, en rendant le médiateur plus acceptable aux deux parties et en favorisant l'idée que le médiateur peut obtenir des concessions et des accords. De plus, un médiateur qui est plus près de l'une des parties que de l'autre peut mener une médiation efficace, particulièrement quand il agit de manière équitable. Les données de laboratoire sur la médiation, de même que les données anecdotiques, appuient ce point de vue.

Most treatments of culture in international diplomacy regard it either as a nonfactor, completely unimportant to the process, or as a negative factor, one that causes conflict or that impedes conflict resolution (Zartman, 1993). This paper considers the alternate proposition, that culture can be a positive factor. Evidence for this proposition can be found, it will be argued here, in the mediation of international disputes. Culture can operate in the context of asymmetric relations between mediator and disputing parties, and this asymmetry can facilitate the mediator's access and influence, and the prospects for agreement (Carnevale, 1986, in press; cf. Cohen, 1993).

CULTURE AS A NEGATIVE FACTOR

The literature on international conflict paints a rather negative view of culture, and there appears to be broad agreement on this point. Consider as an example the start of the Gulf War: Triandis in his 1994 book refers to this event as a major culture mistake. In January 1991, James Baker, then the United States Secretary of State, met with Tariq Aziz, the foreign minister of Iraq. They met in an effort to reach an agreement that would prevent a war. Also present in the room was the half-brother of Saddam Hussein, whose role included frequent calls to Hussein with updates on the talks. Baker stated, in his standard calm manner, that the US would attack if Iraq did not move out of Kuwait. Hussein's half-brother

heard these words and reported that "the Americans will not attack. They are weak. They are calm. They are not angry. They are only talking." Six days later Iraq saw Desert Storm and the loss of about 175,000 of their citizens. Triandis argued that Iraqis attend to *how* something is said more than *what* is said. He further suggests that if Baker had pounded the table, yelled, and shown outward signs of anger, the outcome may have been entirely different.

Consider another example, about 10 years earlier, in the Reagan administration. It was April 1, 1982, and President Reagan was on the telephone with President Leopoldo Galtieri of Argentina. Reagan wanted Argentina to stop their preparations to invade the Falkland Islands. But the next day Argentina invaded, and there was war with the British. On June 14 that year, after about 1000 Argentine deaths and 250 British deaths, the Argentine garrison surrendered to the British (Freedman, 1982). It turns out that the Argentines believed that the US would stay out of it. But within a few weeks, after a failed mediation effort, the US joined the British against Argentina.

These examples illustrate the difficulty of diplomacy in a multi-cultural world. Did Ronald Reagan make a major cross-cultural mistake? If James Baker had pounded the table, or if Ronald Reagan had raised his voice, would war not have occurred? Would Iraq have retreated peacefully from Kuwait? Regardless, the point is that cultural misunderstandings can cause conflict.

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THE MECHANISMS OF CULTURE

To understand the impact of culture on international diplomacy, one needs to examine the psychological mechanisms by which culture can affect conflict. Culture is the “human-made part of the environment” (Herskovits, 1955) that has a subjective aspect, that is, the shared perceptions of the social environment. The subjective aspect of culture results in automatic processing of information, because it specifies the things that are noticed, and provides a language for labelling experience (Markus & Kitayama, 1991; Triandis, 1994, 1995). In addition, culture specifies what behaviours are desirable or proscribed for members of the culture (norms), for individuals in the social structure (roles), as well as the important goals and principles in one’s life (values). Culture also specifies how things are to be evaluated (Carnevale, 1995). This implies that people of different cultures will have greater difficulty in interaction, in understanding, and in valuation.

Perhaps the most important and best-studied dimension of cultural difference is that of individualism and collectivism (Hofstede, 1980; Kagitcibasi & Berry, 1989; Schwartz, 1990; Triandis, 1995). Individualism is a cultural syndrome that emphasizes the idea of individuals as autonomous. Collectivism, on the other hand, is distinguished by the notion that individuals are highly interdependent parts of groups (Triandis, 1995). Corresponding to the individualism and collectivism concepts at the cultural level are processes at the psychological level. For example, individuals associated with collectivist cultures tend to define the group as the basic unit of social perception; the self is defined in terms of in-group relationships; in-group goals have primacy or overlap with personal goals; in-group harmony is a value; and social behaviour tends to be very different when the other person belongs to an in-group versus an out-group. Individuals associated with individualist cultures tend to define the individual as the basic unit of social perception; the self is an independent entity; personal goals have primacy over in-group goals; in-group confrontation is acceptable; and social behaviour is not so different when the other person belongs to an in-group versus an out-group.

In negotiation behaviour, there is evidence of cultural variation. Kelley et al. (1970) found that regions of the world, and regions of the US, differ in terms of the degree to which people will define a negotiation task as cooperative or competitive. Leung and Bond (1984) found that Chinese allocators were inclined to renounce their personal gain to assist in-group members when they distributed a group reward. Americans failed to form such an in-group-out-group distinction. Leung (1988) also discovered that Chinese were less contentious during conflicts with in-group members and more contentious in disputes with out-group members, compared with Americans. Probst, Carnevale, and Triandis (1999) reported a similar effect in a social dilemma study.

CULTURE AS A POSITIVE FACTOR

Cultural ties—even if it is just to one party to the conflict—can provide the basis for access, acceptability, and influence in mediation. In *mediation*, the negotiation continues but is helped along by the third party. Mediation can be distinguished from *arbitration*, where the third party makes a binding decision about the issues. Mediation preserves the voluntary, joint-decision features of negotiation—the disputants retain the right to accept or reject any suggestion made by the mediator. In other words, mediation is a special case of negotiation. It is by no means a new phenomenon, and there is evidence that it occurs in all human societies. One of the earliest recorded mediations occurred more than 4000 years ago in Mesopotamia. There are records indicating that a Sumerian ruler helped to avert a war between neighbouring groups and to develop an agreement in a dispute over land (Kramer, 1963).

The context in which mediation occurs is important in understanding what leads people to mediate or to accept mediation. Most people in North America are familiar with *contractual* contexts of mediation, where mediation occurs within a set of rules and guidelines that have been previously established. It is usually done by a professional who has received formal training, and is available for more than one case. Examples of contractual mediation include community mediation in the US, and labour mediation. In other contexts, especially political and organizational contexts, mediation is *emergent*. In emergent mediation, there is no formally defined mediation role. The mediator typically has an ongoing relationship with the disputants, and is an interested party who emerges from the system of relationships in which the dispute has occurred.

International diplomacy is best seen as emergent mediation. In international diplomacy, mediation is a policy instrument, a preferred alternative in a choice situation. In this framework, it is better to accept a particular mediator—even if they appear biased—than reject that mediator, particularly given what Touval and Zartman (1989) call a “hurting stalemate,” which means that continued conflict is costly to the parties. And, from the perspective of the mediator, it is better to mediate than not mediate given that vital interests need to be protected or extended.

Of course, we have international organizations like the United Nations, whose charters proclaim that one of their main purposes is to help resolve international conflicts. International organizations are often presumed to be well qualified to carry out international mediation. Like the individual members of the international system who also mediate, international organizations have both strengths and weaknesses in mediation (see Bercovitch & Rubin, 1992).

Regardless of the context, the mediator is very much concerned about being acceptable to the parties. What this means is that mediation is very much a matter of interpersonal influence. The mediator wants to affect the

disputing parties; their attitudes, perceptions, and behaviours about the conflict and about the mediation. And the disputing parties want to affect the mediator, not only who mediates and when, but the manner in which the mediation will produce acceptable, if not favourable, outcomes.

The central psychological questions about mediation, then, are about influence: What attributes of the mediator will foster success, for example, acceptance of the mediator, or cease-fire, or settlement? What mediator behaviours applied at what time and in what conditions will have the desired impact? What functions do mediation serve?

Questions about influence point to the prevalent approach to the study of mediation, and that is the analysis of contingencies. In the contingency approach, mediation is an adaptation to shifting circumstances. And influence in mediation, such as the impact of mediator strategies and tactics, is contingent on a variety of factors—including contextual and process variables like characteristics of the dispute and attributes of the mediator.

The contingency approach is well represented in the psychological literature on mediation, for example, in studies by Dan Druckman, Dean Pruitt, Jeff Rubin, Jim Wall, and Peter Carnevale (see Carnevale & Pruitt, 1992, for a review). This is also seen in the work on mediation by political scientists such as Jacob Bercovitch, Saadia Touval, and Bill Zartman. In the past 15 years we have seen a huge increase in research on mediation, and we now know quite a lot about the variety of strategies and tactics that mediators can use, and their impact on disputes.

PSYCHOLOGICAL PROCESSES IN INTERNATIONAL MEDIATION

Psychologists have identified many variables that have implications for international mediation. These include the use of the caucus, face-saving, and the role of incentives. Probably the most common tactic of mediation is the *caucus*, which entails separating the parties and meeting privately with each side. The caucus occurs in just about every context of mediation, in the US in community mediation, labour-management mediation, and we see it often in international mediation. Separating the parties inhibits hostile outbursts, and can facilitate problem-solving discussions. A case in point is the dispute between Italy and Yugoslavia over territory at the northern tip of the Adriatic Sea in 1954. One concern of Yugoslavia was giving up the port city of Trieste. Llewellyn Thompson, the US ambassador to Austria, co-mediated these negotiations with the British. He reported afterwards that one key to success was that he avoided joint meetings between the parties, which only encouraged polemical speeches (Campbell, 1976).

Another example of the impact of the caucus comes from the Camp David talks. The first two face-to-face

meetings between Begin and Sadat apparently produced loud disagreements and tension. This led President Carter and his aides to meet separately with each side for the next 10 days, and the parties were brought back together after agreement on the framework (Touval, 1982). Psychological research supports the contingency notion that the caucus is most effective when the level of hostility between the parties is extremely high. It might also be added that there is a negotiation literature suggesting that the elimination of nonverbal interaction between negotiators who are in a hostile conflict increases the likelihood that they will reach agreement.

Another example of the impact of mediation is *face-saving*. As a matter of fact, the very first laboratory studies on mediation, done in the late 1960s (e.g. Pruitt & Johnson, 1970), demonstrated that mediators can help the parties save face by making suggestions for concessions and taking responsibility for the concessions. By the mediator doing this, negotiators are able to make a concession yet at the same time preserve their own sense of personal strength. This effect is especially likely under high time pressure and when negotiations are hostile. For example, Brian Urquhart (1972) described Secretary General Dag Hammarskjöld's request to Chinese leader Chou En-lai in 1954 to release the US pilots shot down over Korea and held in Chinese prisons. That request was much easier to comply with than if the same request had come from then US President Eisenhower. The request was granted—that is, the concession was made, not to the US, but to the Secretary General.

A third example of a variable that psychologists have discovered to be important in mediation is the role of *incentives*. Psychological research shows that mediators have interests and incentives that motivate their involvement and approach to conflict. This involvement is often driven by cost-benefit calculations. Benefits to the mediator may be humanitarian or material, and include intangible rewards such as prestige, gratitude of the disputants as well as others from the broader community, a sense of personal satisfaction, reputation benefits that may facilitate a political career, and political and economic influence gained or protected. Costs include expenditure in time, energy, loss of tangible resources, sense of frustration (especially in the event of failure), expenditure of political capital, and so on.

Mediators will often work hard to help the parties find integrative agreements or, if an integrative agreement does not seem possible, will offer disputants compensation in exchange for concessions or agreement.

Sometimes the mediator's incentives lead them to go to considerable expense in finding a solution. In mediating in the Middle East, Henry Kissinger, for example, was able to get Israel to withdraw from the Alma oil fields in Sinai when the US promised to extend its commitment to Israel to supply oil if Israel was unable to get what it needed (Touval, 1982). A great example of mediator compensation occurred in the 1954 Trieste dispute between Italy and Yugoslavia. As mentioned earlier, one concern of Yugoslavia was giving up the port city of Trieste; in its

mediation effort, the US promised economic aid to Yugoslavia to develop a new port city, further down the coast, and just like Trieste. This proposal was the basis for the agreement (Campbell, 1976).

United Nations mediators have been known to work hard to come up with integrative agreements—in part because they have no compensation to offer. One person who was great at this was Ralph Bunch, the United Nations Acting Mediator in the Middle East, who took over the UN mediation effort after Count Folke Bernadotte was assassinated in Jerusalem in 1948. Bunch was a genius in coming up with creative proposals, and these led to the Armistice Agreements of 1949. These were integrative proposals. In fact, Bunch was so good at this that he is today known as one of the best mediators the UN has ever seen, and this is reflected in the Nobel Peace prize he won in 1950. In one instance, in the Syria–Israel negotiations, Israel demanded that Syrian troops be withdrawn to a previous border, but Syria wanted to hold the territory it had gained. Ralph Bunch suggested an acceptable arrangement where Syrian troops were withdrawn and areas along the border were demilitarized (Touval, 1982). Each side got something that they wanted.

THE IMPORTANCE OF CULTURE IN INTERNATIONAL MEDIATION

Mediator interests and incentives stem from the issues at hand or from the broader political, economic, or cultural context and relationships with either side. The cultural context can provide the basis for help in resolving conflicts. In international relations, cultural ties can provide the qualifications for a third party to enter the conflict. It can provide the basis for influence in mediation. Cultural ties can add to the mediator's capacity and desire to influence. In other words, a mediator may have access to one or both sides, due to culture, and therefore the potential to deliver concessions and agreements.

This also suggests that a biased mediator—one who has something at stake and is closer to one side than the other, politically, economically, and culturally—can be effective and in fact can even be desirable. Examples include the Algerian mediators in the Iran hostage crisis. The Algerian mediators, compared to other groups who offered to mediate, according to one analyst, had “The required revolutionary credentials and the necessary international connections needed for the job” (Slim, 1992, p. 228; see Sick, 1985). In addition, during the mediation, there is good evidence that the Algerian mediators were instrumental in helping interpret messages from Iran, and played a critical role in explaining US offers to Iran. Some have stated that it was unfortunate that the Reagan administration never gave them the credit that they deserved.

Not unrelated to this is the concept of the “Insider-Partial” developed by Wehr and Lederach (1991) in their analysis of mediation in Central America. This is a type of mediator who emerges from within the conflict, whose

involvement stems from a positive, trust-based connection to the parties and the future relationship between disputant and mediator. In addition, Lieb (1985, p. 82) notes that Iran and Iraq agreed on mediation by the Algerians, by Boumedienne, a Muslim leader, a member of the Muslim community, in part because he was, “A member of the same family.”

Could the Pope have served as a mediator in the conflict between Iraq and Iran? Probably not. But the Pope was acceptable as a mediator in the Beagle Channel Dispute between Argentina and Chile from 1979–1985. The Pope was able to explain mediation to the disputing parties as follows: “Relying on this trust, the mediator, after having asked God for enlightenment, presents suggestions to the Parties with the purpose of carrying out his work of rapprochement . . .” (cited in Princen, 1987, p. 350).

The point is this: cultural ties can facilitate mediation. And this can happen even if the mediator has stronger cultural ties to one side than the other. This is not what we think mediators should have. More often than not, we think of the mediator as, in the words of Roger Fisher, a “Eunuch from Mars,” in other words, distant and disinterested, indifferent to the conflict and the issues at hand.

Why might biased mediation work? The party that is favoured may want to preserve its relationship with the mediator. The disfavoured party may seek to earn the mediator's goodwill. This is heightened to the extent that the mediator has benefits to provide, such as resources to reward concessions and cooperation.

An important thing to keep in mind is that it is what mediators do in mediation that is most important. Mediators can act in an evenhanded manner, despite their initial closer ties to one side. Mediator acceptability is not a single-act decision at the start of negotiation, it is earned and recognized throughout negotiation (Touval, 1975, 1985). In the book by Kalb and Kalb (1974), Kissinger is described as continuously concerned about his credentials as an “evenhanded” mediator. In the 1966 mediation of the India/Pakistan conflict over Kashmir at Tashkent, Aleksei Kosygin, premier of the Soviet Union, stressed his evenhandedness despite stronger ties to India. Signs of this included his efforts to maintain balanced press coverage of both sides, balanced references to each side in Soviet speeches, and even ritualistic alternation of whose name was mentioned first.

In other words, mediators are able to alter their behaviour to temper their biases and attempt to preserve their acceptability to disputants. This suggests that evenhanded mediator behaviour may eclipse the initial apparent expected bias of the mediator. This suggests that there may be two basic forms of bias in mediation: (1) *bias of content*, which pertains to mediator behaviour, for example one side being favoured over the other in a mediator's settlement proposal; and (2) *bias of source characteristic*, which pertains to expectations that stem from the mediator's closer personal, political, or economic ties with one party.

Carnevale and Arad (1996) had university students play the role of negotiators in a laboratory negotiation task. The students dealt with a mediator (actually a computer programme) who made outcome recommendations. There were two independent variables: *Mediator source bias or alignment* and *Mediator content bias—the recommendations*. The consistent finding is that mediators who made evenhanded suggestions were seen as most fair, and behaviour in mediation was more important than the initial alignment or source characteristics of the mediator. There are two effects of particular interest: (a) mediators who made proposals that were unfavourable were seen as more fair when the initial expectation was that the mediator would be on one's own side, which was labelled a "cushioning" effect; and (b) mediators gained in acceptability when the initial expectation was that the mediator would be aligned with the other, but then made proposals that were clearly evenhanded, labelled a "fairness pays" effect.

In other words, a mediator who you think will be against you—but who acts in an evenhanded manner in the negotiation—is seen as an acceptable mediator. It is not so much what you bring to the mediation table, but rather what you do when you are there.

EVIDENCE FROM A CURRENT INTERNATIONAL MEDIATION

A recent international mediation where this may be operating is the 1998 Geneva talks involving the US, China, and North and South Korea. These talks are called the 4-Party talks, and represent a hope for a solution to the problems in Korea. In the 4-Party talks, it is possible, and useful, to view the US and China as co-mediators.

This may seem strange for two reasons: first, by any measure, the US and China have tremendous vested interests in the region. And second—and this is the remarkable thing—the US and China fought directly in the Korean War, and today we see them acting as co-mediators.

We know that former enemies can work together and reach agreement; here we see former enemies working together as mediators to help others reach agreement. This, we believe, is due largely to the incentives that are now in place. The key factors that have made this co-mediation possible are:

1. The US is now acceptable as a mediator in the relationship between the North and the South. Prior to this year, the South has objected to North Korea and the US getting closer.
2. North Korea appears to be willing to talk to the South.
3. The South is willing to talk to China. It is interesting to note that Chinese trade with the South has grown from \$18 million in 1979 to an estimated \$30 billion in 1997.
4. And the US and China want the same thing—peace and stability. No doubt the Chinese would prefer to see the Korean peninsula governed by a Leninist

structure like the one in China; but this might just be offset by their desire to have economic stability in the region.

And once again, we see that the model of mediation that has the mediator as a neutral, impartial, powerless, third party simply does not apply in international relations. Mediators who have interests, who even are biased, are often involved in international conflicts, and are often effective. The new thing about Korea is that we have two such biased mediators, the US and China, acting as *co-mediators* in the talks between North and South Korea. How are the US and China getting along as co-mediators? Quite well, it seems, as the recent statement of Stanley Roth, Assistant Secretary for East Asian and Pacific Affairs appears to substantiate (see Appendix).

What may be operating here, in this co-mediation? The co-mediation in the 4-Party talks, by the US and China, may be effective because each mediator has the opportunity to benefit from a cushioning effect as well as a fairness pays effect in the mediation. Of course, there are a lot of other things going on here, but these are two psychological principles that have implications for this current and important mediation.

CONCLUSIONS

This article began with the observation that most treatments of culture in international diplomacy regard it either as a nonfactor, or as a negative factor, and has presented the case for the positive role that culture can play in the mediation of international disputes. This case was based largely on the mediation of international disputes, and the proposition that biased mediation can succeed. It should be noted that there are examples of this even in domestic contexts. Ken Kressel has written about labour-management conflicts in the United States. A management negotiator accepted mediation by a pro-labour mediator when that mediator was seen as having greater capacity to influence the intransigent union negotiator (Kressel, 1972). The mediator with a labour-culture—with an ability to speak "labour's language"—was ultimately the more effective mediator. All of this challenges the view that mediator bias and interests are totally incompatible with success, and also suggests it can enhance influence and success. A biased mediator may not only be the only one available to mediate the conflict, but may be the one with the greatest influence over the party that most needs to change.

In international diplomacy, and in mediation, there are large questions that are terribly difficult to answer. These include certain policy and even moral questions. For example, the focus on incentives, as we have done here, leads us to wonder about those cases of conflict where no third party finds it worth their while to assume a third party role (Young, 1972, p. 55). This is one of the most troubling areas for international diplomacy, especially in a world in which ethnic conflicts in remote places are the rule.

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APPENDIX

On-the-record briefing on the President's Trip to China, Washington, DC, June 19, 1998, from Stanley Roth, Assistant Secretary for East Asian and Pacific Affairs, US Department of State

"... It's based on the premise that many global and regional problems are not going to be solved unless the United States and China can cooperate and, therefore, we have to talk about them... regarding North Korea... I choose this issue because as the lead negotiator for the United States in the Four-Party Peace Talks in Geneva, it's rather near and dear to my heart. The interesting thing, I would say, is that I believe that as a result of the conversations that President Clinton and other senior American officials have had with the Government of China on North Korea, that we are extremely close in our policy positions... Indeed, I would suggest that I could practically have written the talking points for the Chinese delegation during the last round of the Four-Party Talks in Geneva; that their position was very similar to our own, meaning that they recognize and said repeatedly to the North Koreans that if there is going to be peace or tension reduction on the Peninsula, that it had to come about as the result of direct discussions between the two parties on the Peninsula itself. This is exactly the American position... They also do not want to see a nuclear Korean Peninsula—the position is the same as ours—and they certainly don't want to see a conventional conflict which would have as great an implication for them, bordering North Korea, as it would have for us with our 37,000 troops there. So here's an area where I believe that we have been able to identify through discussions what our common interests are and start to coordinate policy. And we worked very closely—I did, personally—with the Chinese head of delegation in Geneva..."

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Dimensionalizing Cultures: The Hofstede Model in Context

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Dimensionalizing Cultures: The Hofstede Model in Context

Abstract

This article describes briefly the Hofstede model of six dimensions of national cultures: Power Distance, Uncertainty Avoidance, Individualism/Collectivism, Masculinity/Femininity, Long/Short Term Orientation, and Indulgence/Restraint. It shows the conceptual and research efforts that preceded it and led up to it, and once it had become a paradigm for comparing cultures, research efforts that followed and built on it. The article stresses that dimensions depend on the level of aggregation; it describes the six entirely different dimensions found in the Hofstede et al. (2010) research into organizational cultures. It warns against confusion with value differences at the individual level. It concludes with a look ahead in what the study of dimensions of national cultures and the position of countries on them may still bring.

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Introduction

Culture has been defined in many ways; this author's shorthand definition is: "*Culture is the collective programming of the mind that distinguishes the members of one group or category of people from others*". It is always a collective phenomenon, but it can be connected to different collectives. Within each collective there is a variety of individuals. If characteristics of individuals are imagined as varying according to some bell curve; the variation between cultures is the shift of the bell curve when one moves from one society to the other. Most commonly the term culture is used for tribes or ethnic groups (in anthropology), for nations (in political science, sociology and management), and for organizations (in sociology and management). A relatively unexplored field is the culture of occupations (for instance, of engineers versus accountants, or of academics from different disciplines). The term can also be applied to the genders, to generations, or to social classes. However, changing the level of aggregation studied changes the nature of the concept of 'culture'. Societal, national and gender cultures, which children acquire from their earliest youth onwards, are much deeper rooted in the human mind than occupational cultures acquired at school, or than organizational cultures acquired on the job. The latter are exchangeable when people take a new job. Societal cultures reside in (often unconscious) values, in the sense of *broad tendencies to prefer certain states of affairs over others* (Hofstede, 2001, p. 5). Organizational cultures reside rather in (visible and conscious) practices: the way people perceive what goes on in their organizational environment.

Classifying Cultures: Conceptual Dimensions

In an article first published in 1952, U.S. anthropologist Clyde Kluckhohn (1962) argued that there should be universal categories of culture:

In principle ... there is a generalized framework that underlies the more apparent and striking facts of cultural relativity. All cultures constitute so many somewhat distinct answers to essentially the same questions posed by human biology and by the generalities of the human situation. ... Every society's patterns for living must provide approved and sanctioned ways for dealing with such universal circumstances as the existence of two sexes; the helplessness of infants; the need for satisfaction of the elementary biological requirements such as food, warmth, and sex; the presence of individuals of different ages and of differing physical and other capacities. (pp. 317-18).

Many authors in the second half of the twentieth century have speculated about the nature of the basic problems of societies that would present distinct dimensions of culture (for a review see Hofstede, 2001, pp. 29-31). The most common dimension used for ordering societies is their degree of economic evolution or modernity. A one-dimensional ordering of societies from traditional to modern fitted well with the nineteenth- and twentieth-century

belief in progress. Economic evolution is bound to be reflected in people's collective mental programming, but there is no reason why economic and technological evolution should suppress other cultural variety. There exist dimensions of culture unrelated to economic evolution.

U.S. anthropologist Edward T. Hall (1976) divided cultures according to their ways of communicating, into high-context (much of the information is implicit) and low-context cultures (nearly everything is explicit). In practice this distinction overlaps largely with the traditional versus modern distinction.

U.S. sociologists Talcott Parsons and Edward Shils (1951, p. 77) suggested that all human action is determined by five *pattern variables*, choices between pairs of alternatives:

1. *Affectivity* (need gratification) versus *affective neutrality* (restraint of impulses);
2. *Self-orientation* versus *collectivity-orientation*;
3. *Universalism* (applying general standards) versus *particularism* (taking particular relationships into account);
4. *Ascription* (judging others by who they are) versus *achievement* (judging them by what they do);
5. *Specificity* (limiting relations to others to specific spheres) versus *diffuseness* (no prior limitations to nature of relations).

Parsons and Shils (1951) claimed that these choices are present at the individual (personality) level, at the social system (group or organization) level, and at the cultural (normative) level. They did not take into account that different variables could operate at different aggregation levels.

U.S. anthropologists Florence Kluckhohn and Fred Strodtbeck (1961, p. 12) ran a field study in five geographically close, small communities in the Southwestern United States: Mormons, Spanish Americans, Texans, Navaho Indians, and Zuni Indians. They distinguished these communities on the following value orientations:

1. An evaluation of *human nature* (evil - mixed - good);
2. The relationship of man to the surrounding *natural environment* (subjugation - harmony - mastery);
3. The orientation in *time* (toward past - present - future);
4. The orientation toward *activity* (being - being in becoming - doing); and
5. *Relationships among people* (linearity, i.e., hierarchically ordered positions – collaterality, i.e., group relationships – individualism).

Others have extrapolated Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck's (1961) classification to all kind of social comparisons, without concern for their geographic limitations without considering the effect of levels of aggregation, and without empirical support.

British anthropologist Mary Douglas (1973) proposed a two-dimensional ordering of ways of looking at the world:

1. 'Group' or inclusion - the claim of groups over members, and
2. 'Grid' or classification - the degree to which interaction is subject to rules.

Douglas saw these categories as relating to a wide variety of beliefs and social actions: Views of nature, traveling, spatial arrangements, gardening, cookery, medicine, the meaning of time, age, history, sickness, and justice. She seemed to imply that these dimensions are applicable to any level of aggregation.

The one- or more-dimensional classifications above represent subjective reflective attempts to order a complex reality. Each of them is strongly colored by the subjective choices of its author(s). They show some overlap, but their lack of clarity about and mixing of levels of analysis (individual-group-culture) are severe methodological weaknesses.

These weaknesses were avoided in an extensive review article by U.S. sociologist Alex Inkeles and psychologist Daniel Levinson (1969, first published 1954). The authors limited themselves to culture at the level of nations, and they summarized all available sociological and anthropological studies dealing with what was then called *national character*, which they interpreted as a kind of modal (most common) personality type in a national society. What I have labelled *dimensions* they called *standard analytic issues*. From their survey of the literature Inkeles and Levinson (1969) distilled three standard analytic issues that met these criteria:

1. Relation to authority;
2. Conception of self, including the individual's concepts of masculinity and femininity;
3. Primary dilemmas or conflicts, and ways of dealing with them, including the control of aggression and the expression versus inhibition of affect.

As will be shown below, Inkeles and Levinson's (1969) standard analytic issues were empirically supported in a study by this author more than 20 years later.

Empirical Approaches and the Hofstede Dimensions

In 1949 U.S. psychologist Raymond Cattell published an application of the new statistical technique of factor analysis to the comparison of nations. Cattell had earlier used factor analysis for studying aspects of intelligence from test scores of individual students. This time he took a matrix of nation-level variables for a large number of countries, borrowing from geography, demographics, history, politics, economics, sociology, law, religion and medicine. The resulting factors were difficult to interpret, except for the important role of economic development. Replications of his method by others produced trivial results (for a review see Hofstede, 2001, pp. 32-33). More meaningful were applications to restricted facets of societies. U.S. political scientists Phillip Gregg and Arthur Banks (1965) studied aspects of political systems; U.S. economists Irma Adelman and Cynthia Taft Morris

(1967) studied factors influencing the development of poor countries, and Irish psychologist Richard Lynn (1971; Lynn & Hampson, 1975) studied aspects of mental health.

In the 1970s this author – more or less by accident – got access to a large survey database about values and related sentiments of people in over 50 countries around the world (Hofstede, 1980). These people worked in the local subsidiaries of one large multinational corporation: IBM. Most parts of the organization had been surveyed twice over a four-year interval, and the database contained more than 100,000 questionnaires. Initial analyses of the database at the level of individual respondents proved confusing, but a breakthrough occurred when the focus was directed at correlations between mean scores of survey items at the level of countries. Patterns of correlation at the country level could be strikingly different from what was found at the individual level, and needed an entirely different interpretation. One of the weaknesses of much cross-cultural research is not recognizing the difference between analysis at the societal level and at the individual level; this amounts to confusing anthropology and psychology. From 180 studies using my work reviewed by Kirkman, Lowe, and Gibson (2006), more than half failed to distinguish between societal culture level and individual level differences, which led to numerous errors of interpretation and application.

My hunch that the IBM data might have implications beyond this particular corporation was supported when I got the opportunity to administer a number of the same questions to nearly 400 management trainees from some 30 countries in an international program unrelated to IBM. Their mean scores by country correlated significantly with the country scores obtained from the IBM database. So it seemed that employees of this multinational enterprises – a very special kind of people – could serve for identifying differences in *national* value systems. The reason is that from one country to another they represented almost perfectly matched samples: they were similar in all respects except nationality, which made the effect of national differences in their answers stand out unusually clearly.

Encouraged by the results of the country-level correlation analysis I then tried country-level factor analysis. The latter was similar to the approach used earlier by Cattell and others, except that now the variables in the matrix were not indices for the country as a whole, but mean scores and sometimes percentages of survey answers collected from individuals in those countries. Analyses of data at higher levels of aggregation are called *ecological*. Ecological factor analysis differs from the factor analysis of individual scores in that a usual caution no longer applies: the number of cases does not need to be (much) larger than the number of variables. The stability of the results of an ecological factor analysis does not depend on the number of cases, but on the number of individuals whose scores were aggregated into these cases. Ecological factor analysis may even be performed on matrices with fewer cases than variables.

Factor analyzing a matrix of 32 values questions for initially 40 countries, I found these values to cluster very differently from what was found at the individual level. The new factors revealed common problems with which IBM employees in all these societies

had to cope, but for which their upbringing in their country presented its own profile of solutions. These problems were:

1. Dependence on superiors;
2. Need for rules and predictability, also associated with nervous stress;
3. The balance between individual goals and dependence on the company;
4. The balance between ego values (like the need for money and careers) and social values (like cooperation and a good living environment); the former were more frequently chosen by men, the latter by women, but there were also country differences.

These empirical results were strikingly similar to the *standard analytical issues* described in Inkeles and Levinson's 1969 article. Dependence on superiors relates to the first, need for predictability to the third, the balance between the individual and the company to the conception of self, and the balance between ego and social values to concepts of masculinity and femininity, which were also classified under the second standard analytic issue.

The four basic problem areas defined by Inkeles and Levinson (1969) and empirically supported in the IBM data represent dimensions of national cultures. A dimension is an aspect of a culture that can be measured relative to other cultures. The four dimensions formed the basis for my book *Culture's Consequences* (Hofstede, 1980).

The main message of the 1980 book was that scores on the dimensions correlated significantly with conceptually related external data. Thus Power Distance scores correlated with a dimension from Gregg and Banks' (1965) analysis of political systems and also with a dimension from Adelman and Morris' (1967) study of economic development; Uncertainty Avoidance correlated with a dimension from Lynn and Hampson's (1975) study of mental health; Individualism correlated strongly with national wealth (Gross National Product per capita) and Femininity with the percentage of national income spent on development aid. The number of external validations kept expanding, and the second edition of *Culture's Consequences* (Hofstede, 2001, Appendix 6, pp. 503-520) lists more than 400 significant correlations between the IBM-based scores and results of other studies. Recent validations show no loss of validity, indicating that the country differences these dimensions describe are, indeed, basic and enduring.

In the 1980s, on the basis of research by Canadian psychologist Michael Harris Bond centered in the Far East, a fifth dimension 'Long-Term versus Short-Term Orientation' was added (Hofstede & Bond, 1988; see also Hofstede, 1991; Hofstede, 2001).

In the 2000s, research by Bulgarian scholar Michael Minkov using data from the World Values Survey (Minkov, 2007) allowed a new calculation of the fifth, and the addition of a sixth dimension (Hofstede, Hofstede & Minkov, 2010). The six dimensions are labelled:

1. *Power Distance*, related to the different solutions to the basic problem of human inequality;
2. *Uncertainty Avoidance*, related to the level of stress in a society in the face of an unknown future;
3. *Individualism* versus *Collectivism*, related to the integration of individuals into primary groups;
4. *Masculinity* versus *Femininity*, related to the division of emotional roles between women and men;
5. *Long Term* versus *Short Term Orientation*, related to the choice of focus for people's efforts: the future or the present and past.
6. *Indulgence* versus *Restraint*, related to the gratification versus control of basic human desires related to enjoying life.

Each country has been positioned relative to other countries through a score on each dimension. The dimensions are statistically distinct and do occur in all possible combinations, although some combinations are more frequent than others.

After the initial confirmation of the country differences in IBM in data from management trainees elsewhere, the Hofstede dimensions and country scores were validated through replications by others, using the same or similar questions with other cross-national populations. Between 1990 and 2002 six major replications (14 or more countries) used populations of country elites, employees and managers of other corporations and organizations, airline pilots, consumers and civil servants (see Hofstede et al., 2010, p. 35).

In correlating the dimensions with other data, the influence of national wealth (Gross National Product per capita) should always be taken into account. Two of the dimensions, Individualism and small Power Distance, are significantly correlated with wealth. This means that all wealth-related phenomena tend to correlate with both these dimensions. Differences in national wealth can be considered a more parsimonious explanation of these other phenomena than differences in culture. In correlating with the culture dimensions, it is therefore advisable to always include the wealth variable. After controlling for national wealth correlations with culture usually disappear.

Of particular interest is a link that was found between culture according to the Hofstede dimensions and personality dimensions according to the empirically based Big Five personality test (Costa & McCrae, 1992). After this test had been used in over 30 countries, significant correlations were found between country norms on the five personality dimensions (Neuroticism, Extraversion, Openness to experience, Agreeableness and Conscientiousness) and national culture dimension scores. For example, 55% of country differences on Neuroticism can be explained by a combination of Uncertainty Avoidance and Masculinity, and 39% of country differences on Extraversion by Individualism alone (Hofstede & McCrae, 2004). So culture and personality are linked but the link is statistical; there is a wide variety of individual personalities within each national culture, and national culture scores should not be used for stereotyping individuals.

Validating the dimensions is of course not only and not even mainly a quantitative issue. Equally important is the qualitative interpretation of what differences on the dimensions mean for each of the societies studied, which calls for an *emic* approach to each society, supporting the *etic* of the dimensional data.

The Hofstede Dimensions in a nutshell

In this section I will summarize the content of each dimension opposing cultures with low and high scores. These oppositions are based on correlations with studies by others, and because the relationship is statistical, not every line applies equally strongly to every country.

Power Distance

Power Distance has been defined as the extent to which the less powerful members of organizations and institutions (like the family) accept and expect that power is distributed unequally. This represents inequality (more versus less), but defined from below, not from above. It suggests that a society's level of inequality is endorsed by the followers as much as by the leaders. Power and inequality, of course, are extremely fundamental facts of any society. All societies are unequal, but some are more unequal than others.

Table 1
Ten Differences Between Small- and Large- Power Distance Societies

Small Power Distance	Large Power Distance
Use of power should be legitimate and is subject to criteria of good and evil	Power is a basic fact of society antedating good or evil: its legitimacy is irrelevant
Parents treat children as equals	Parents teach children obedience
Older people are neither respected nor feared	Older people are both respected and feared
Student-centered education	Teacher-centered education
Hierarchy means inequality of roles, established for convenience	Hierarchy means existential inequality
Subordinates expect to be consulted	Subordinates expect to be told what to do
Pluralist governments based on majority vote and changed peacefully	Autocratic governments based on co-optation and changed by revolution
Corruption rare; scandals end political careers	Corruption frequent; scandals are covered up
Income distribution in society rather even	Income distribution in society very uneven
Religions stressing equality of believers	Religions with a hierarchy of priests

Table 1 lists a selection of differences between national societies that validation research showed to be associated with the Power Distance dimension. For a more complete review the reader is referred to Hofstede (2001) and Hofstede et al. (2010). The statements refer to extremes; actual situations may be found anywhere in between the extremes, and the association of a statement with a dimension is always statistical, never absolute.

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Power Distance Index scores are listed for 76 countries; they tend to be higher for East European, Latin, Asian and African countries and lower for Germanic and English-speaking Western countries.

Uncertainty Avoidance

Uncertainty Avoidance is not the same as risk avoidance; it deals with a society's tolerance for ambiguity. It indicates to what extent a culture programs its members to feel either uncomfortable or comfortable in unstructured situations. Unstructured situations are novel, unknown, surprising, and different from usual. Uncertainty avoiding cultures try to minimize the possibility of such situations by strict behavioral codes, laws and rules, disapproval of deviant opinions, and a belief in absolute Truth; 'there can only be one Truth and we have it'.

Table 2

Ten Differences Between Weak- and Strong- Uncertainty Avoidance Societies

Weak Uncertainty Avoidance	Strong Uncertainty Avoidance
The uncertainty inherent in life is accepted and each day is taken as it comes	The uncertainty inherent in life is felt as a continuous threat that must be fought
Ease, lower stress, self-control, low anxiety	Higher stress, emotionality, anxiety, neuroticism
Higher scores on subjective health and well-being	Lower scores on subjective health and well-being
Tolerance of deviant persons and ideas: what is different is curious	Intolerance of deviant persons and ideas: what is different is dangerous
Comfortable with ambiguity and chaos	Need for clarity and structure
Teachers may say 'I don't know'	Teachers supposed to have all the answers
Changing jobs no problem	Staying in jobs even if disliked
Dislike of rules - written or unwritten	Emotional need for rules – even if not obeyed
In politics, citizens feel and are seen as competent towards authorities	In politics, citizens feel and are seen as incompetent towards authorities
In religion, philosophy and science: relativism and empiricism	In religion, philosophy and science: belief in ultimate truths and grand theories

Research has shown that people in uncertainty avoiding countries are also more emotional, and motivated by inner nervous energy. The opposite type, uncertainty accepting cultures, are more tolerant of opinions different from what they are used to; they try to have fewer rules, and on the philosophical and religious level they are empiricist, relativist and allow different currents to flow side by side. People within these cultures are more phlegmatic and contemplative, and not expected by their environment to express emotions. Table 2 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with the Uncertainty Avoidance dimension.

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Uncertainty Avoidance Index scores are listed for 76 countries; they tend to be higher in East and Central European countries, in Latin countries, in Japan and in German speaking countries, lower in English speaking, Nordic and Chinese culture countries.

Individualism

Individualism on the one side versus its opposite, **Collectivism**, as a societal, not an individual characteristic, is the degree to which people in a society are integrated into groups. On the individualist side we find cultures in which the ties between individuals are loose: everyone is expected to look after him/herself and his/her immediate family. On the collectivist side we find cultures in which people from birth onwards are integrated into strong, cohesive in-groups, often extended families (with uncles, aunts and grandparents) that continue protecting them in exchange for unquestioning loyalty, and oppose other in-groups. Again, the issue addressed by this dimension is an extremely fundamental one, regarding all societies in the world. Table 3 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with this dimension.

Table 3
Ten Differences Between Collectivist and Individualist Societies

Individualism	Collectivism
Everyone is supposed to take care of him- or herself and his or her immediate family only	People are born into extended families or clans which protect them in exchange for loyalty
"I" – consciousness	"We" –consciousness
Right of privacy	Stress on belonging
Speaking one's mind is healthy	Harmony should always be maintained
Others classified as individuals	Others classified as in-group or out-group
Personal opinion expected: one person one vote	Opinions and votes predetermined by in-group
Transgression of norms leads to guilt feelings	Transgression of norms leads to shame feelings
Languages in which the word "I" is indispensable	Languages in which the word "I" is avoided
Purpose of education is learning how to learn	Purpose of education is learning how to do
Task prevails over relationship	Relationship prevails over task

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Individualism Index scores are listed for 76 countries; Individualism tends to prevail in developed and Western countries, while collectivism prevails in less developed and Eastern countries; Japan takes a middle position on this dimension.

Masculinity – Femininity

Masculinity versus its opposite, **Femininity**, again as a societal, not as an individual characteristic, refers to the distribution of values between the genders which is another fundamental issue for any society, to which a range of solutions can be found. The IBM studies revealed that (a) women's values differ less among societies than men's values; (b) men's values from one country to another contain a dimension from very assertive and competitive and maximally different from women's values on the one side, to modest and caring and similar to women's values on the other. The assertive pole has been called 'masculine' and the modest, caring pole 'feminine'. The women in feminine countries have the same modest, caring values as the men; in the masculine countries they are somewhat assertive and competitive, but not as much as the men, so that these countries show a gap between men's values and women's values. In masculine cultures there is often a taboo around this dimension (Hofstede et al., 1998).

Table 4
Ten Differences Between Feminine and Masculine Societies

Femininity	Masculinity
Minimum emotional and social role differentiation between the genders	Maximum emotional and social role differentiation between the genders
Men and women should be modest and caring	Men should be and women may be assertive and ambitious
Balance between family and work	Work prevails over family
Sympathy for the weak	Admiration for the strong
Both fathers and mothers deal with facts and feelings	Fathers deal with facts, mothers with feelings
Both boys and girls may cry but neither should fight	Girls cry, boys don't; boys should fight back, girls shouldn't fight
Mothers decide on number of children	Fathers decide on family size
Many women in elected political positions	Few women in elected political positions
Religion focuses on fellow human beings	Religion focuses on God or gods
Matter-of-fact attitudes about sexuality; sex is a way of relating	Moralistic attitudes about sexuality; sex is a way of performing

Taboos are based on deeply rooted values; this taboo shows that the Masculinity/Femininity dimension in some societies touches basic and often unconscious values, too painful to be explicitly discussed. In fact the taboo validates the importance of the dimension. Table 4 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with this dimension.

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Masculinity versus Femininity Index scores are presented for 76 countries; Masculinity is high in Japan, in German speaking countries, and in some Latin countries like Italy and Mexico; it is moderately high in English speaking Western countries; it is low in Nordic countries and in the Netherlands and moderately low in some Latin and Asian countries like France, Spain, Portugal, Chile, Korea and Thailand.

Long-Term vs. Short-Term Orientation

This dimension was first identified in a survey among students in 23 countries around the world, using a questionnaire designed by Chinese scholars (Chinese Culture Connection, 1987). As all countries with a history of Confucianism scored near one pole which could be associated with hard work, the study's first author Michael Harris Bond labeled the dimension *Confucian Work Dynamism*. The dimension turned out to be strongly correlated with recent economic growth. As none of the four IBM dimensions was linked to economic growth, I obtained Bond's permission to add his dimension as a fifth to my four (Hofstede & Bond, 1988). Because it had been identified in a study comparing students from 23 countries, most of whom had never heard of Confucius, I re-named it Long-Term versus Short-Term Orientation; the long-term pole corresponds to Bond's Confucian Work Dynamism. Values found at this pole were perseverance, thrift, ordering relationships by status, and having a sense of shame; values at the opposite, short term pole were reciprocating social obligations, respect for tradition, protecting one's 'face', and personal steadiness and stability. The positively rated values of this dimension were already present in the teachings of Confucius from around 500 BC. There was much more in Confucius' teachings so Long-Term Orientation is not Confucianism *per se*, but it is still present in countries with a Confucian heritage. In my book for a student readership *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind* (Hofstede, 1991) the fifth dimension was first integrated into my model. It was more extensively analyzed in the second edition of *Culture's Consequences* (Hofstede, 2001) and in the new edition of *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind*, for which my eldest son Gert Jan Hofstede joined me as a co-author (Hofstede & Hofstede, 2005).

My initial cross-cultural data collected around 1970 by the IBM corporation among its employees in more than 50 countries worldwide represented probably the largest matched-sample cross-national database available anywhere at that time. Bond's Chinese Value Survey showed the power of adding results from other surveys; unfortunately, it covered only 23 countries, and attempts to extend it to other populations were small-scale and hardly reliable.

In the past quarter century the volume of available cross-cultural data on self-scored values and related issues has increased enormously. If I had to start my research now, I

would select the best elements from all these new databases. My prime choice would be the *World Values Survey*. In the early 1980s departments of Divinity at six European Universities, concerned with a loss of Christian faith, jointly surveyed the values of their countries' populations through public opinion survey methods. In the following years their *European Values Survey* expanded and changed focus: in the hands of U.S. sociologist Ronald Inglehart it grew into a periodic World Values Survey (WVS). Subsequent data collection rounds took place with 10-year intervals; as this is written, a fourth round is in process. The survey now covers more than 100 countries worldwide with a questionnaire including more than 360 forced-choice items. Areas covered are ecology, economy, education, emotions, family, gender and sexuality, government and politics, health, happiness, leisure and friends, morality, religion, society and nation, and work. The entire WVS data bank, including previous rounds and down to individual respondent scores, is freely accessible on the Web (www.worldvaluessurvey.org). So far it has remained under-used; potential users tend to drown in its huge volume of information.

Michael Minkov, a Bulgarian linguist and sociologist whom I had met on the e-mail at the turn of the millennium, took up the challenge of exploring the riches of the WVS. In 2007 he published a book with a Bulgarian publisher, in which he described three new cross-national value dimensions extracted from recent WVS data, which he labeled Exclusionism versus Universalism, Indulgence versus Restraint and Monumentalism versus Flexumility (the latter a combination of flexibility and humility). Exclusionism versus Universalism was strongly correlated with Collectivism/Individualism and could be considered an elaboration of aspects of it. The other two dimensions were new, although Monumentalism versus Flexumility was moderately but significantly correlated with Short Term/Long Term Orientation.

Minkov's findings initially inspired the issuing of a new, 2008 version of the Values Survey Module, a set of questions available to researchers who wish to replicate my research into national culture differences. Earlier versions were issued in 1982 (VSM82) and 1994 (VSM94). Next to the established five Hofstede dimensions, the VSM08 included on an experimental basis Minkov's dimensions Indulgence versus Restraint and Monumentalism versus Flexumility (which I re-baptized Self-Effacement). The Values Survey Module (VSM) can be downloaded from www.geerthofstede.nl. Aspiring users should carefully study the accompanying Manual before they decide to collect their own data. In most cases, the use of available results of already existing quality research is to be preferred above amateur replications.

The next step in our cooperation with Minkov was that Gert Jan Hofstede and I invited him to become a co-author for the third edition of *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind* (Hofstede et al., 2010). Minkov's Exclusionism versus Universalism was integrated into the Individualism/Collectivism chapter. By combining elements from his Monumentalism versus Flexumility dimension with additional WVS items, Minkov succeeded in converting into a new version of Long- versus Short-Term Orientation, now available for 93 countries and regions. Indulgence versus Restraint became an entirely new dimension that will be described below.

Table 5 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with the old and new version of the Long- versus Short-Term Orientation dimension. In our 2010 book, dimension scores have been re-calculated including Minkov's analysis of recent World Values Survey data.

Long-term oriented are East Asian countries, followed by Eastern- and Central Europe. A medium term orientation is found in South- and North-European and South Asian countries. Short-term oriented are U.S.A. and Australia, Latin American, African and Muslim countries.

Table 5
Ten Differences Between Short- and Long-Term-Oriented Societies

Short-Term Orientation	Long-Term Orientation
Most important events in life occurred in the past or take place now	Most important events in life will occur in the future
Personal steadiness and stability: a good person is always the same	A good person adapts to the circumstances
There are universal guidelines about what is good and evil	What is good and evil depends upon the circumstances
Traditions are sacrosanct	Traditions are adaptable to changed circumstances
Family life guided by imperatives	Family life guided by shared tasks
Supposed to be proud of one's country	Trying to learn from other countries
Service to others is an important goal	Thrift and perseverance are important goals
Social spending and consumption	Large savings quote, funds available for investment
Students attribute success and failure to luck	Students attribute success to effort and failure to lack of effort
Slow or no economic growth of poor countries	Fast economic growth of countries up till a level of prosperity

Indulgence versus Restraint

The sixth and new dimension, added in our 2010 book, uses Minkov's label Indulgence versus Restraint. It was also based on recent World Values Survey items and is more or less complementary to Long-versus Short-Term Orientation; in fact it is weakly negatively correlated with it. It focuses on aspects not covered by the other five dimensions, but known from literature on "happiness research". Indulgence stands for a society that allows relatively free gratification of basic and natural human desires related to enjoying life and having fun. Restraint stands for a society that controls gratification of needs and regulates it by means of strict social norms. Scores on this dimension are also available for 93

countries and regions. Table 6 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with this dimension.

Indulgence tends to prevail in South and North America, in Western Europe and in parts of Sub-Sahara Africa. Restraint prevails in Eastern Europe, in Asia and in the Muslim world. Mediterranean Europe takes a middle position on this dimension.

Table 6
Ten Differences between Indulgent and Restrained Societies

Indulgence	Restrained
Higher percentage of people declaring themselves very happy	Fewer very happy people
A perception of personal life control	A perception of helplessness: what happens to me is not my own doing
Freedom of speech seen as important	Freedom of speech is not a primary concern
Higher importance of leisure	Lower importance of leisure
More likely to remember positive emotions	Less likely to remember positive emotions
In countries with educated populations, higher birthrates	In countries with educated populations, lower birthrates
More people actively involved in sports	Fewer people actively involved in sports
In countries with enough food, higher percentages of obese people	In countries with enough food, fewer obese people
In wealthy countries, lenient sexual norms	In wealthy countries, stricter sexual norms
Maintaining order in the nation is not given a high priority	Higher number of police officers per 100,000 population

Other Applications of the Dimensional Paradigm

When *Culture's Consequences* appeared in 1980, it represented a new paradigm in social science research: analyzing survey-based values data at the national level and quantifying differences between national cultures by positions on these dimensions. Like other new paradigms, it initially met with rejection, criticism and ridicule next to enthusiasm (Kuhn, 1970). By the 1990s the paradigm had been taken over by many others, and discussions shifted to the content and number of dimensions. The paradigm inspired a number of other studies into dimensions of national cultures.

Many projects further explored the dimension of individualism versus collectivism (e.g. Kim et al., 1994; Hofstede, 2001, ch. 5; Triandis, 1995). From all the Hofstede dimensions, this one met with the most positive reactions among psychologists, especially in the U.S.A. which happened to be the highest scoring country on it. Individualism/Collectivism scores were strongly correlated with national wealth which led some people to the conclusion that promoting individualism in other cultures would

contribute to their economic development. In fact, data show that the causality is most probably reversed: wealth tends to lead to individualism (Hofstede, 2001, p. 253). The individualism in U.S. culture also led people to studying it at the *individual* level (comparing one person to another), not at the level of societies. In this case it is no longer a dimension of culture but an aspect of personality. Also there is no more reason why individualism and collectivism need to be opposite; they should rather be considered separate features of personality. An extensive review of studies of individualism *at the individual level* was published by Oyserman, Coon and Kemmelmeier (2002). Comparing these studies across societies they found a different ranking of countries from the Hofstede studies; but Schimmack, Oishi and Diener (2005) proved this was due to a methodological error: Oyserman et al. (2002) forgot to control for acquiescence (response set), and the acquiescence in their data was significantly negatively correlated with the object of their study which made their results random.

The cultural focus on the Individualism versus Collectivism dimension led Triandis (1995) to splitting it into horizontal and vertical individualism. This split overlooks the fact that the Hofstede dimension of large versus small Power Distance already covered the horizontal/vertical aspect quite satisfactorily. From my point of view the horizontal/ vertical distinction for Ind/Col as a dimension of culture is redundant. It may be useful at the individual level, but this is for others to decide.

Like individualism and collectivism, the terms masculinity and femininity have also been used for describing values at the individual level. Earlier studies by U.S. psychologist Sandra Bem (1974) showed already that in this case masculinity and femininity should again rather be treated as separate aspects than as opposite poles.

An important alternative application of the dimensional paradigm was developed by the Israeli psychologist Shalom Schwartz. Borrowing mainly from the work of U.S. psychologist Milton Rokeach (1972, 1973) who studied values of U.S. individuals, Schwartz composed a list of 56 values. Through a network of colleagues he collected scores from samples of elementary school teachers and of college students in over 50 countries. (Schwartz, 1994; Schwartz & Bardi, 2001). Respondents scored the importance of each value "as a guiding principle in my life". Schwartz at first assumed the same dimensions would apply to individuals and to countries, but his data showed he needed different classifications at different levels. At the country level he distinguished seven dimensions: Conservatism (later rebaptized "Embeddedness"), Hierarchy, Mastery, Affective autonomy, Intellectual autonomy, Egalitarianism and Harmony. Country scores for teachers published by Schwartz in 1994 were significantly correlated with the IBM scores for Individualism, Masculinity and Uncertainty Avoidance (Hofstede, 2001, p. 265).

Another large scale application was the GLOBE (Global Leadership and Organizational Behaviour Effectiveness) project, conceived by US management scholar Robert J. House in 1991. At first House focused on leadership, but soon the study branched out into other aspects of national and organizational cultures. In the period 1994-1997 some 170 voluntary collaborators collected data from about 17,000 managers in nearly 1,000 local (non-multinational) organizations belonging to one of three industries: food processing, financial services, and telecommunication services, in some 60 societies

throughout the world. In the preface to the book describing the project (House et al., 2004), House writes "We have a very adequate dataset to replicate Hofstede's (1980) landmark study and extend that study to test hypotheses relevant to relationships among societal-level variables, organizational practices, and leader attributes and behavior".

For conceptual reasons GLOBE expanded the five Hofstede dimensions to nine. They maintained the labels Power Distance and Uncertainty Avoidance (but not necessarily their meaning). They split Collectivism into Institutional Collectivism and In-Group Collectivism, and Masculinity-Femininity into Assertiveness and Gender Egalitarianism. Long Term Orientation became Future Orientation. They added two more dimensions: Humane Orientation and Performance Orientation. The nine dimensions were covered by 78 survey questions, half of them asking respondents to describe their culture ('as is') and the other half to judge it ('should be'). GLOBE thus produced $9 \times 2 = 18$ culture scores for each country: nine dimensions 'as is' and nine dimensions 'should be'.

In an evaluation of the GLOBE project (Hofstede, 2006), I re-factor analyzed the country scores on GLOBE's 18 dimensions. Five meta-factors emerged, of which the strongest, grouping seven of the 18 measures, was highly significantly correlated with GNP per capita and next with the Hofstede Power Distance dimension. Three more meta-factors were significantly correlated with respectively the Hofstede Uncertainty Avoidance, Individualism and Long Term Orientation dimensions. The GLOBE questionnaire contained very few items covering Masculinity in the Hofstede sense, but whatever there was belonged to the fifth meta-factor. The results show that in spite of a very different approach, the massive body of GLOBE data still reflected the structure of the original Hofstede model. The GLOBE research has provoked an extensive debate in the literature, but I have seen few applications relevant for practical use by cross-cultural practitioners (Hofstede, 2010). Minkov and Blagoev (2011) have tried to validate each of GLOBE's 18 dimensions by testing their nomological networks (correlation patterns with variables from other sources). The largest number of GLOBE's mutually correlated dimensions can be considered useful as facets of Hofstede's Individualism/Collectivism; some have enriched insights into Hofstede's Power Distance dimension, and GLOBE's Assertiveness "should be" provides some new elements. GLOBE's Humane Orientation and Performance Orientation, both "as is" and "should be" cannot be meaningfully validated at all.

An author sometimes cited as having researched dimensions of national culture is the Dutch management consultant Fons Trompenaars (1993). He distinguished seven conceptual dimensions, the first five borrowed from Parsons and Shils (1951) and the last two from Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck (1961) which he applied to the level of nations (see earlier in this article). Trompenaars collected a database of survey items related to these dimensions, but in the only statistical analysis of his data published so far, applying Multidimensional Scaling to some 9,000 questionnaires, only two interpretable factors emerged, both correlated with Hofstede's Individualism, one of these also with Power Distance (Smith, Dugan, & Trompenaars, 1996; Smith, Trompenaars, & Dugan, 1995). The only country scores that could be based on Trompenaars' data refer to these two flavors of individualism (Smith, Peterson, & Schwartz, 2002). Trompenaars' claim to seven dimensions therefore lacks empirical support.

The World Values Survey has been described above. Although the search for dimensions was not a primary purpose of this study, WVS director Ronald Inglehart in an overall statistical analysis found two key country-level factors which he called: 'Well-being versus survival' and 'Secular-rational versus traditional authority' (Inglehart, 1997, pp. 81-98). Well-being versus survival correlated with a combination of Individualism and Masculinity; Secular-rational versus traditional authority negatively with Power Distance.

Michael Minkov issued an extended and updated version of his 2007 book in a new volume *Cultural Differences in a Globalizing World* (Minkov, 2011). For the dimensions Exclusionism versus Universalism and Monumentalism versus Flexumility, country scores have been re-calculated from partly different sources, for 86 countries for exclusionism and for 43 countries for monumentalism. Indulgence versus Restraint has been reversed and renamed Industry versus Indulgence; scores for 43 countries have been based on a slightly different choice of WVS items. The old and new versions of these three dimensions are still strongly correlated, in the case of Indulgence obviously negatively.

A unique feature of the new book is the addition of a dimension not based on survey questions but on a statistically strong cluster of national statistics: murder rates, HIV (AIDS) rates, adolescent fertility rates and low average IQ (Intelligence Quotient, explainable from low education levels). This can be used for validation of dimensions based on survey items. Minkov called it Hypometropia versus Prudence; hypometropia is a medical term for short-sightedness, which he borrowed to avoid an *a priori* depreciating term. He calculated hypometropia scores for 80 countries. It correlates significantly with Minkov's Exclusionism and Monumentalism. From the six dimensions in Hofstede et al. (2010) only Individualism correlates significantly negatively with hypometropia, across 55 overlapping countries.

Dimensions of Organizational Cultures

The dimensional paradigm can be applied at other than the national level as well, in particular at the organizational and occupational levels (Helmreich & Merritt, 1998). A research project similar to the IBM studies but focusing on organization rather than national differences was carried out by this author and a team of collaborators in the 1980s (Hofstede, Neuijen, Ohavy, & Sanders, 1990). Qualitative and quantitative data were collected in twenty work organizations or parts of organizations in the Netherlands and Denmark. The units studied varied from a toy manufacturing company to two municipal police corps. The study consisted of three phases: open-ended interviews with a selection of informants, forced-choice questionnaires with all, or random samples of, employees, and collecting measurable characteristics at the organization level. The questionnaires included the items used for calculating national culture dimensions in the IBM cross-national survey, but added a large number of questions collected by the 18 interviewers in the interview phase. This study found large differences among units in perceptions of daily practices but only modest differences in values, beyond those due to such basic facts as nationality, education, gender and age group.

Six independent dimensions, resembling distinctions known from organization sociology, were identified that describe the larger part of the variety in organization practices. These six dimensions can be used as a framework to describe organization cultures, but their research base in twenty units from two countries is too narrow to consider them as universally valid and sufficient. For describing organization cultures in other countries and/or in other types of organizations, additional dimensions may be necessary or some of the six may be less useful. The six dimensions found in our research were:

1. *Process-oriented versus results-oriented*

Process-oriented cultures are dominated by technical and bureaucratic routines, results-oriented by a common concern for outcomes. This dimension was associated with the culture's degree of homogeneity: in results-oriented units, everybody perceived their practices in about the same way; in process-oriented units, there were vast differences in perception among different levels and parts of the unit. The degree of homogeneity of a culture is a measure of its 'strength': the study confirmed that strong cultures are more results-oriented than weak ones, and vice versa (Peters & Waterman, 1982).

2. *Job-oriented versus employee-oriented*

The former assume responsibility for the employees' job performance only, and nothing more; employee-oriented cultures assume a broad responsibility for their members' well-being. At the level of individual managers, the distinction between job orientation and employee orientation has been popularized by Blake and Mouton's Managerial Grid (1964). The Hofstede et al. study (1990) shows that job versus employee orientation is part of a culture and not (only) a choice for an individual manager. A unit's position on this dimension seems to be largely the result of historical factors, like the philosophy of its founder(s) and the presence or absence in its recent history of economic crises with collective layoffs.

3. *Professional versus parochial*

In the former, the (usually highly educated) members identify primarily with their profession; in the latter, the members derive their identity from the organization for which they work. Sociology has long known this dimension as 'local' versus 'cosmopolitan', the contrast between an internal and an external frame of reference (Merton, 1949).

4. *Open systems versus closed systems*

This dimension refers to the common style of internal and external communication, and to the ease with which outsiders and newcomers are admitted. This is the only one of the six dimensions for which a systematic difference was found between Danish and Dutch units. It seems that organizational openness is a societal characteristic of Denmark more than of the Netherlands. This shows that organization cultures also contain elements from national culture differences.

5. *Tight versus loose control*

This dimension deals with the degree of formality and punctuality within the organization; it is partly a function of the unit's technology: banks and pharmaceutical companies can be expected to show tight control, research laboratories and advertising agencies loose control; but even with the same technology some units may still be tighter or looser than others.

6. *Pragmatic versus normative*

The last dimension describes the prevailing way (flexible or rigid) of dealing with the environment, in particular with customers. Units selling services are likely to be found towards the pragmatic (flexible) side, units involved in the application of laws and rules towards the normative (rigid) side. This dimension measures the degree of 'customer orientation', which is a highly popular topic in the marketing literature.

The research grounding of these dimensions is documented extensively in Hofstede et al. (1990). Applications and implications can be found in Hofstede et al. (2010, ch. 10).

Dimensionality of Cultures in the Future

The fact that the world around us is changing does not need to affect the usefulness of the dimensional paradigm; on the contrary, the paradigm can help us understand the internal logic and the implications of the changes.

Some critics suggest that the number of dimensions should be extended. Triandis (2004) has defended this position, and the GLOBE project actually tried to extend the five Hofstede dimensions to 18. But additional dimensions are only meaningful if they are both conceptually and statistically independent from those already available, and they should also be validated by significant correlations with conceptually related external measures. There is an epistemological reason why the number of meaningful dimensions will always be small. Dimensions should not be reified. They do not 'exist' in a tangible sense. They are constructs: if they exist, it is in our minds (Levitin, 1973). They should help us in understanding and handling the complex reality of our social world. But human minds have a limited capacity for processing information, and therefore dimensional models that are too complex will not be experienced as useful. In a famous short article, Miller (1956) argued that useful classifications should not have more than seven categories, plus or minus two. I would go for the minus rather than the plus.

Within the dimensional model cultures can of course change their position on a dimension. Critics argue that Hofstede country scores based on IBM subsidiaries around 1970 are obsolete. But studies correlating the old country scores with related variables available on a year-by-year basis in many cases find no weakening of the correlations. A good reason for this is that the country scores on the dimensions do not provide *absolute* country positions, but only their positions *relative to the other countries* in the set. The relationship of the dimensions to basic problems of societies and the historical evidence of the continuity of national solutions to such problems suggest that even over much longer

periods the measures obtained will retain their validity. Influences like those of new technologies tend to affect all countries without necessarily changing their relative position or ranking; if their cultures change, they change together. Only if on a dimension one country leapfrogs over others will the validity of the original scores be reduced. This is a relatively rare occurrence. China might be one of those rare cases, where after a period of relative isolation, decades of unparalleled double-digit economic development concurrent with rapid global exposure and integration may be bringing about shifts, especially in the younger generation. But this remains to be demonstrated in carefully designed research.

Some authors predict that new technologies will make societies more and more similar. Technological modernization is an important force toward culture change and it leads to partly similar developments in different societies, but there is not the slightest proof that it wipes out variety on other dimensions. It may even increase differences, as on the basis of pre-existing value systems societies cope with technological modernization in different ways.

Culture change basic enough to invalidate the country dimension index rankings, or even the relevance of the dimensional model, will need either a much longer period – say, 50 to 100 years – or extremely dramatic outside events. Many differences between national cultures at the end of the 20th century were already recognizable in the years 1900, 1800 and 1700 if not earlier. There is no reason why they should not play a role until 2100 or beyond.

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About the Author

Geert Hofstede (1928) holds an M.Sc. level degree in mechanical engineering and a Ph.D. level degree in social psychology. He had a varied career both in industry and in academia, retiring as a professor of organizational anthropology and international management from the University of Maastricht, the Netherlands, in 1993. Through his book *Culture's Consequences* (1980, new edition 2001) he became a pioneer of comparative intercultural research; his ideas are used worldwide. A student-level book *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind* (1991, third edition 2010 co-authored with Gert Jan Hofstede and Michael Minkov) has so far appeared in 17 European and 4 Asian languages. Geert Hofstede was listed in the Wall Street Journal of May 2008 among the Top 20 most influential business thinkers. He held visiting professorships in Hong Kong, Hawaii, Australia and New Zealand. He received honorary doctorates from ten European universities, and is a Fellow of the Academy of Management and the Academy of International Business in the USA and a Honorary Fellow of the International Association for Cross-Cultural Psychology.

Discussion Questions

1. In today's newspaper, find an article about an event or situation in which cultural differences between persons born and educated in different countries may have played a role (there are always several). Which *one* of the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions is most useful for understanding what was said and done?¹
2. Think of the last time you personally experienced a culture shock. Culture shock occurs when somebody becomes painfully aware that a person or persons born and educated in another country think(s), feel(s) and/or act(s) differently from what was expected. What happened and which *one* of the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions explains best the reason for the shock?
3. Next time you attend an international meeting, compare the theories and ways of presentation of participants born and educated in different countries. Which *one* of the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions was most useful for understanding the differences in what was said and how?
4. Draw the culture profile of the country in which you grew up on the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions. Then imagine two persons from two different countries and imagine how each of them will describe your culture to a compatriot.

¹ Culture scores of countries can be found in Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov (2010) and on our home website www.geerthofstede.eu under "research and VSM" and "dimension data matrix". Scores are also published on other websites and apps, but the author is not responsible for the information presented there.

of international law was the maintenance of peace and stability based on mutual respect for each state's territorial integrity and domestic jurisdiction; issues of distributive justice and the protection of basic human rights lay outside its brief (see Case Study 1).

In recent decades states have sought to move beyond the simple pursuit of international order towards the ambitious yet amorphous objective of global governance, and international law has begun to change in fascinating ways. First, although states are 'still at the heart of the international legal system' (Higgins 1994:

39), individuals, groups, and nations are increasingly becoming recognized as subjects of international law. The development of a new body of international human rights law, involving mechanisms of enforcement, has given individuals, as well as some collectivities such as minority groups or indigenous peoples, clear rights under international law. And recent moves to hold individuals criminally responsible for violations of those rights—evident in the war crimes tribunals for Rwanda and the former Yugoslavia, and in the creation of the International Criminal

Case Study 1 Is international law an expression of Western dominance?



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political characteristics and only if they were willing and able to participate in the prevailing diplomatic practices. The standard was heavily biased towards Western political and legal institutions as the accepted model. On the basis of the standard, European powers divided the world's peoples into 'civilized', 'barbarian', and 'savage' societies, a division they used to justify various degrees of Western tutelage.

Many claim that Western bias still characterizes the international legal order. Cited here is the Anglo-European dominance of peak legal institutions, most notably the United Nations Security Council, and international human rights law, which is said to impose a set of Western values about the rights of the individual on non-Western societies where such ideas are alien. These biases are seen as coming together around the issue of humanitarian intervention. Western powers are accused of using their privileged position on the Security Council, and of brandishing human rights norms, to intervene in the domestic politics of weak, developing countries.

All these criticisms have validity. However, the nature and role of international law in contemporary world politics is more complex than it first appears. To begin with, at the heart of the modern international legal system lies a set of customary norms that uphold the legal equality of all sovereign states, as well as their rights to self-determination and non-intervention. Non-Western states have been the most vigorous proponents and defenders of these cardinal legal norms, and their survival as independent political entities depends on the continued salience of these principles. Second, non-Western peoples were more centrally involved in the development of the international human rights regime than is commonly acknowledged. The Universal Declaration of Human Rights was the product of a deliberate and systematic process of intercultural dialogue, a dialogue involving representatives of the world's major cultures (Glendon 2002). And the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, which is often portrayed as a reflection of Western values, was shaped in critical ways by newly independent postcolonial states (Reus-Smit 2001). What is more, international human rights law has been an important resource in the struggles of many subject peoples against repressive governments and against institutions such as colonialism.

From one perspective, international law is easily cast as a Western, even imperial, institution. As we have seen, its roots lie in the European intellectual movements of the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries. Ideas propagated at that time not only drew on ideas of natural law, which could be traced back to ancient Greek and Roman thought, they also drew a clear distinction between international laws that were appropriate among Christian peoples and those that should govern how Christians related to peoples in the Muslim world, the Americas, and later Asia. The former were based on assumptions of the inherent equality of Christian peoples, the latter on the inherent superiority of Christians over non-Christians.

Further evidence of this Western bias can be found in the 'standard of civilization' that European powers codified in international law during the nineteenth century (Gong 1984). According to this standard, non-Western polities were granted sovereign recognition only if they exhibited certain domestic



CROSS-CULTURAL COMPETENCE – UNITY FACTOR OR CHALLENGE IN THE MULTINATIONAL OPERATIONAL ENVIRONMENT

Rita PALAGHIA*

The aim of the article is to present, analyze and understand the way in which cultural knowledge and the development of cross cultural competence contribute to the participants' training for taking part into multinational joint missions, and also for the increase of their operational efficiency in order to accomplish the given tasks and, implicitly, of the planned objectives.

The article takes into consideration the training methods, stressing the need to understand the strategies and the principles of action, of the way in which cross-cultural competence is developed and checked, in direct connection with the risks and the situational awareness from the theater of operations from Afghanistan and also with a direct relationship, on one hand, among the participating actors and, on the other hand, the relationship between them and the local population.

Keywords: *cross-cultural competence, multiculturalism, interrelationship, interoperability, Resolute Support Mission, cultural understanding.*

Introductory Framework

Cultural understanding represents a sum of knowledge and adaptive behavior that facilitate individual functionality in multinational

groups, understanding of the environment and accomplishing the objectives.

Notifying the change in the way the modern warfare is conducted, the armies of the participating states to multinational missions initiated, starting with 2001, after the Al Qaida attack upon the United States of America, changes in the provisions of their national doctrines, in personnel policies and regarding their organization, establishing and/or developing language or cultural training centers.

The programmes developed by the language and cultural training centers belonging to the Allied military structures provide a large amount of information about the traditions and behaviors specific to their national cultures. These programmes were very useful for military personnel, negotiators, and businessmen and also for the participating volunteers in joint multinational missions. The identification of the common cultural aspects of the participating nations in international missions, to which is added cultural knowledge of the local population, contribute to the increase of the efficiency in the accomplishment of the missions and, implicitly, of the planned objectives.

As part of the cultural training programmes, there was a smooth shift from the general cultural training to specific regional ones, depending

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on the executed military operations. There are strong debates at international level related to this decision, as it is considered that a training focused on regions is a error at the expense of the general cultural training, very useful for the efficiency of the activities executed during multinational joint missions, in which multiculturalism is manifested. In our opinion, there is useful a combination of both types of training, focusing on the deployment area of the personnel.

The success of the mission and, implicitly, the increase of interoperability require a correct interpretation of the social interaction and of communication, of the verbal and non-verbal messages, of the symbols and of the perception. For the international personnel participating into multinational joint missions, language knowledge, symbols, rituals and the behavioral patterns are essential. All these elements are part of the general cultural training.

The importance of culture – including here religion – in multinational operations is recognized especially at the national level and is valued more and more at Allied level. Troop Contributing Nations are responsible for the preparation and training of their soldiers for the mission and most of them introduced the cultural knowledge module in the training program for the mission: for example USA, United Kingdom, Norway etc. More than that, the repeated exercises organized by NATO Headquarters, aiming at the preparation of their soldiers for the mission comprise also cultural knowledge modules. But all of these are ad-hoc initiatives. The explanation is that even if cultural aspects are a standardized part of NATO operational planning process, there is no Allied Doctrine to impose cultural training. Commanders apply, to a great extent, specific policies based on their own experience and training, in solving cultural discrepancies, thus getting different results, as a consequence of the interpretation of variables and factors, such as existing situations, in direct connection with what the respect for another culture means.

1. Strategies and principles of action for a common cultural knowledge

Moving forward, we shall underline seven principles of action which ensure a better cultural understanding¹. In our opinion, these are part of common cultural knowledge.

1. *Being aware of the meaning or of the possible meaning of the conversation, action and context.* The success of the joint missions depends on the capacity of the military to correctly interpret the messages and to interact in a positive way from the cultural point of view.

2. *Paying an increased attention to symbols.* Aspects related to symbols are an additional cause of the difficulty regarding interoperability in joint missions. They can be the cause for the political and cultural conflict at the international level. For example, in some countries, certain symbols represent political parties, thus, citizens can vote knowingly without a need to be literate. Very often, symbols are common elements, such as flowers, birds or colours. Similar colours or symbols that are used by foreign entities on a county's territory can be read as a support for one party or another and can generate misunderstandings and tensions. Special attention is needed in regard to the meaning of symbols for the local population. This understanding can be difficult to achieve, but the absence of understanding those symbols can have devastating effects over a mission, transmitting the opposite meaning of the messages about power, respect and partnership.

3. *Avoiding to assign a reason to an action.* One of the most common aspects underlining the lack of intercultural communication is the assumption that others will act having the same reasons as us. It is difficult to distinguish the reasons of the population, but it has to be taken into consideration that they have to survive also after the mission is ended. All complex situations are generating, on short and long terms, tensions

¹ Barbara Adams, D., Jessica Sartori, *Validating the Trust in Teams and Trust in Leaders Scale*, Defence Research and Development, Contract Report (CR-2006-008), Toronto, Canada, 2006, available at <https://pdfs.semanticscholar.org/373a/0f8e81b9b816a256917ff7a339dfdcfe04c1.pdf>, accessed on 03.09.2017.



influencing the support of local population or even the fight against Coalition Forces. For a joint multinational mission to be efficient, the motivations of the local population have to be very carefully analyzed, such as to avoid assigning reasons to actions in a wrong manner, either negatively or positively.

4. *Culture and conflict management.* Methods of managing conflicts or solving indigenous disputes from the area of responsibility can be different from those used frequently by the International Community. In day to day life, local population and international actors can be confronted with the notion of “rule of law” in utterly opposite ways.

5. *Taking measures so that cultural expectations to be explicitly and correctly understood by participants in the dialogue.* From the beginning, it is essential to have consistent communication with the local population in order to acknowledge reciprocal expectations.

6. *Avoiding to create divisions inside/outside the group.* By interacting with the local population one may discover divisions existent in a community. Social differences are an important part of human communities. Participants into a multinational joint mission have to be aware that some of those differences can facilitate their work, while some can be harmful. Understanding the limits in between the groups and the achievement of the level of flexibility and permeability is very important for interoperability. Within communities, significant differences will drift down around ethnicity and religion, education, gender, social class, kinship and place of residence.

7. *Being informed in relation to the distribution of power inside the community.* In every community, there are hierarchies and distribution of power, more or less obvious. Differences can be seen regarding the following aspects: who holds social legitimacy, who has the credibility to negotiate and to offer reassurance, who has the power to intervene when there is a need, who are those that can provide reliable advice. Forces participating into joint multinational missions have to understand not only the hierarchies

in a society, but also the distribution of power and expertise in that community. The aim of understanding the structure of power and the local influence is not to change them, significantly, but to find the possible ways in which young people and women from the community can be engaged in those local structures and processes.

Each soldier, disregarding the Armed Forces to which he/she belongs, has to concentrate during the execution of the mission on some important activities: movement, communication, survival, adaptation and fight. Corroborating all of these is increasing the security and efficiency in the operational environment. *Adaptation* has as a main component cross-cultural competence.

The term “cross-cultural competence”² was created in order to reflect the amount of language and cultural knowledge, training and experience of individuals that are fighting in multicultural environment. One of the definitions of cross-cultural competence is “the ability of individuals’ belonging to distinct cultures to understand rapidly and correctly the incorporated elements of the nearby environment and to engage effectively in getting the desired effects, despite the fact that they do not have a deep knowledge of the culture with which they interact”³.

Military and civilian personnel that are carrying out an extended activity in a multicultural or bi-cultural environment acquire a certain level of intercultural expertise. That can be achieved attending different forms of training: general, linguistic, cultural, obtained in successive stages through professional training programmes, incorporated into educational curricula and periodic courses - to which are added formal and informal meetings and experiences resulted from the multinational exercises and missions. The expertise is materialized in different strategies and behavioral conducts that help the military to understand, adapt to and integrate more rapidly into the new cultures.

² Brian R. Selmeski, “*Military Cross-Cultural Competence: Core Concept and Individual Development*”, Kingston, Ontario: Royal Military College of Canada, Center for Security, Armed Forces and Society, 2007.

³ *Ibidem*.



The relationship inside the multinational military community from Resolute Support Mission in Afghanistan and those of the Afghan Community are aspects that permanently concern the leadership of the Alliance. This concern has intensified with the change of the operation's character, from counterinsurgency (ISAF) into one for training and advice of the Afghan Security Forces and of the personnel from different ministries of the Afghan Government.

To make an introduction into the cultural training process of the military personnel in order to take part in such type of joint missions led by the Alliance, we will present some strategies and principles of cultural knowledge that facilitate cultural learning, which we consider more important.

In the article "Strategies for developing and practicing cross-cultural expertise in the Military", the authors⁴ identify seven mental habits organized around *three metacognitive strategies*:

1. The strategy of adopting a cross-cultural stance. This comprises three directions in which the individual has to act in order to acquire a certain degree of cultural knowledge:

a) *Self-knowledge and identification of one's own cultural aspects*, different from the culture in which they are functioning. This is influenced by personal history, national culture, living environment. Thus, there are emphasized both perspectives of different aspects and the effects over cultural interaction.

b) *Knowing the value of cultural understanding/knowledge*. This is reducing interaction uncertainty among individuals belonging to different cultures, with effects over interaction and accomplishment of the mission. The language of communication is extremely important in building relationships, contributing to consolidating the personnel's security.

c) *Defining intercultural interaction as being a learning opportunity*. In military missions,

civilian personnel belonging to local cultures is that who provides correct learning and understanding landmarks. The interest to understand and to communicate with the help of translators is an element that consolidates the relationship in between forces participating in the mission and the local population. It is important to understand that experts in cultural aspects are, usually, specialized on certain specific cultural aspects. Thus, corroborating at least two opinions in important cultural issues is a recommended attitude within the process of building educational curricula.

2. The strategy of seeking and extending cultural understanding also comprises three directions on which the individual has to concentrate:

a) *Focused attention on surprise and unusual elements*. In those situations, experts are focused on data related to history, individual and group relations, the reaction of local population in similar situations, taking into consideration the elements in which the person/tribe has formed and functions. The 'other perspective' increases the ability to discover hidden agreements and allows to obtain positive results in the negotiations.

b) *Permanent testing of cultural knowledge* is done both during the training period for the mission and during the execution.

c) *Reflect on your own experiences*, from those focused on the analysis of the details they have only to learn from that. This reflection can be done internally in a form of a dialogue with the participants to the cultural learning.

3. The strategy of applying cultural understanding to guide actions comprises the applied part of interrelationship.

Within this strategy there stands out a specific type of behavior: *adaptation of what you want to express and the way of expression in relation with the environment*. The expert in cultural matters develops a metacognitive way of thinking that starts from the objectives, the way in which (s)he wants to be perceived, getting to the aggregation of knowledge and abilities at his/her disposal. Therefore, it is a reverse thinking process of the whole execution of the action. The process is adjusted during all its period, generated by

⁴ Rassmunsen L. J., Sieck W. R. & Smart P. R., "US/UK Mental Models of Planning: The relationship between plan detail and plan quality", in NATO RTO HFM, Symposium on Adaptability in Coalition Team-work, April 2008, Copenhagen, Denmark.



intercultural communication signals (verbal and non-verbal language, clothing, social context, etc.)

For example, I noticed very carefully the way in which Western-Europeans and the Americans conduct meetings. The objectives are clearly defined, the starting and ending time of the meeting is precisely determined, the content is carefully prepared, and the expected result is supported by intense work. In the same context, I have noticed that, for the Afghans, for example, time is a relative notion, orientation being set towards relationship rather than objectives, the purpose of the meeting being measured in the advantage of their family, tribe, and close community. The vision is on a short term. It is a natural cultural pattern, generated by endless conflictual disputes and it represents a survival behavior. That is why, referring to this strategy, patience is a feature that has to be cultivated, a result of cultural knowledge.

In 2002, M. David Merrill published “The first principles of instruction”⁵, where he exposed five important principles in structuring training in order to facilitate learning:

- Implicating the students or the personnel in solving some real problems with bi or multicultural participation – it is by far more effective than a mere presentation of cultures at theoretical level. Case studies, incidents, narratives based on reality are some of the ways in which cultural contexts are prepared.

- The existence of a previous multicultural experience that is activating the learning process through the interest towards the subject. Selfknowledge is an important process, because is establishing its own cultural limits, stereotypes and cultural conditionings.

- Concrete examples at the expense of a flat rendering of the content. Learning in multinational and multicultural groups offers comparison and adaptation opportunities of a culture with another.

- The staff is to be asked to apply what they

learnt for solving the problems. Performance is increased when intercultural experience is obtained directly from the theater of operations. One of the techniques used in this type of learning is confrontation with one’s own action for getting the report in terms of communication with people from another culture (receive a comprehensive description of the expectations from the interaction, establishing the interaction within the exercise –which is filmed – and, after that it is analysed its efficiency and the way in which his/her own culture was adapted to the foreign culture).

- Learning is achieved when what has been taught and practiced is transferred to other participants as part of the cultural exchange, through discussions, teaching and application in real situations.

The benefits of the research results obtained by David Merrill are that they are offering the pedagogical framework of the learning process in its different stages.

2. Development and evaluation of cross-cultural competence

After we approached the aspects related to principles and strategies, we will focus our attention on the learning and developing stages, directions, programmes and tools of cross-cultural competence.

The technical report No. 1284 of U.S. Army Research Institute for the Behavioral and Social Sciences Department⁶ is providing informational recommendations about the way in which the *personnel must be trained from the cultural point of view, the developing directions and the way to evaluate cross-cultural competence.*

Also, the cited authors are identifying two facets of cultural training: learning and cultural agility.

⁵ David Merrill, *First Principles of Instruction, Educational Technology Research and Development*, 50/2002, <https://mdavidmerrill.com/Papers/firstprinciplesbymerill.pdf>, pp. 43-59.

⁶ Paula Caligiuri, Raymond Noe, Riall Nolan, Ann Marie Ryan, Fritz Drasgow, Training, Developing and Assessing Cross-Cultural Competence in Military Personnel, Technical Report, U.S. Army Research Institute for the Behavioral and Social Sciences Department of the Army Deputy Chief of Staff, G1, April 2011, <http://www.dtic.mil/dtic/tr/fulltext/u2/a559500.pdf>, accessed on 12.10.2017.



- *Learning* offers the personnel the possibility to rapidly accumulate basic information related to the operational cultural context. Geographic features, resources, economy, social and political structure, symbols, beliefs, communication ways, history, material culture etc. are basic elements of cultural learning.

In the learning process, there are highlighted *five stages of learning*: identifying new perspectives, understanding principles, efficient use within the new system, use of knowledge of the new environment and integration some elements in one's own cultural thinking.

A wide range of *techniques* can be used in the learning process. From those, we mention: domain and events analysis, community map, the analysis of the relationship inside community, life stories, key information holders, the analysis of the critical incidents, the Delphy technique, the technique for rapid rural evaluation, etc⁷. It has been determined that the ability to develop reports is generates the quality of the gained information.

- *Cultural agility* implies effective response in situations that illustrate cultural diversity. Observation and experience are the ways of pathing from theoretical learning stage to that of efficiency. From all the techniques and practices used for developing cultural agility, we mention: the analysis and debrief of the critical cultural incidents, quality contacts in between individuals belonging to different cultures within military training programmes in multinational environments and military coalitions.

There are several directions to develop cultural competence, but we are going to highlight only those that we consider more important:

- Learning by using technology (used as a form of distance learning), through which soldiers assimilate and exercise cultural content. Simulations, thematic games based on experts' information about certain deployment areas or having as subject only valid cultural general rules.

- Learning thorough social interaction, through direct participation or distance observa-

tion of the social interaction.

- Participation in the elaboration and information sharing during conferences, in teams, at the meetings, by phone, in personal conversations in some occasions that generate trust and opening towards intercultural communication. This is a complementary method of formal education.

- Creation of a cultural management system favors the creation of some electronic tools: electronic cultural catalogs that identify individuals, teams, leaders, their level of training and cultural competence, the ability to form other members of the team, the knowledge they gained, the specificity of the area in which the soldiers were trained. To that are added online libraries, with linguistic and cultural content.

All those methods are built and they are under the coordination of linguistic experts and of those from specific cultures from the deployment area.

Another necessary step in the preparation for the mission is evaluation of the cross-cultural competence – this is an essential stage for all types of cultural training but, because of the costs inflicted, it is not applied in every situation. For each category of personnel and occupied position within the structure of the organization/mission, there is analysed the need for the evaluation of the cross-cultural competence. In order to have a degree of comparison in between the initial and the final stage of the training, the evaluation is done at the beginning and at the end of the training period. The type of evaluation is different depending on the soldier's level of training, the position for which he is trained and the area of responsibility in which he will operate. The evaluation is done mainly taking into consideration the following aspects: reactions after the cultural training, the evaluation of the taught content, the individual's efficiency in multicultural situations and the operational results.

We consider those cross-cultural competence strategies and development directions as being useful in projecting training programmes – educational curricula –, both by the stages of the projecting process and by focusing on the efficient behaviors in those stages.

⁷ *Ibidem*.



Nord-Atlantic Alliance has launched a variety of programmes and established offices, boards, and working groups in order to deal with the issue of interoperability in a standardized way. Until recently, this was an exclusive technical exercise and has not included cultural interoperability.

The ability of the National Armies to prepare their personnel for the military multinational mission depends on the selection of the personnel and the forms of cultural and language training. US Army has developed *DOTMLPF training concept* that comprises: doctrine, organization, training, materiel support, leaders' preparation, personnel and infrastructure. *Doctrines* create the legal foundation and provide the action directions. Organizations are increasing their number of interpreters and experts on the domain. *Training* aims to create cultural competence. *Materiel support* is represented by the funds allocated for personnel and training. *Personnel* must be identified according to the needs, abilities and their stage in the military carrier. *Infrastructure* that is needed for training must be provided during peacetime, and in operational areas.

Developped countries understood the importance of adequate cultural training for soldiers and civilian personnel participating to international missions. We mention some of the training programmes that are functioning, for example, in the US Army: "Cultural Studies Project", "Army 360 Training", "Army Excellence in Leadership Tool", "Combined Action Platoon Program", "Personal Response Program", "Field Support Guides", "Language Survival Kits", "ARFORGEN (Army Force Generation) "Pre-deployment regional training", "Cadet Study Abroad", "PMESII- analitic tools", etc.

Forming individuals from the language and cultural knowledge point of view starts when joining the Defense System, irrespective of the appointment/position into the organization, and continues with pre-deployment courses for the mission and during the mission, helping for a better knowledge of local traditions and cultural norms. The general responsibility for the initiation of the cultural knowledge process lies with the leaders of the organization. In a counterinsurgency (COIN) environment it is

often counter-productive to use troops with a low level of training or that are not familiarized with the culture of the local population. COIN forces are used to mobilize the will of the people against insurgents. Thus, population has to feel protected, not threatened by the counterinsurgency forces' actions and operations.

When troops are operating in a COIN environment, the effort for the information collection has to move from the "enemy centered towards "local population centered Cultural and human environments from the area of operations become key elements of the operational environment.

In order to fully understand the dynamics of the modern fighting ground, NATO is working to increase cultural communication competencies, supports the development of the analysis process and, in this respect, has invested in a Cultural Operational Network (OCN). OCN is a graphical digitized tool based on categories of elements of a society, according to their norms of self-representation (over systems, and sub-systems). OCN operates at three levels (macro, medium and micro) and functions in each of them, according to the socio-cultural analysis process. Each level represents a specific objective of the strategic community. Institutionalization of cultural knowledge competencies will need a change in the organizational culture. The institutionalized implementation concept can be achieved using a multilateral approach that comprises a series of intercultural resources, including:

- professional education and forming;
- evaluations at the individual and unit level;
- information (at local and regional level);
- research and collection of information.

In order to reach interoperability, the existing cultural differences amongst military personnel, NGOs and other participating organizations to the mission have to be anticipated and harmonized based on partnership and mutual respect. The authentic respect and partnership in between international actors and local population impose to the coalition that its actions be contextualized in certain historical experiences of the Community.

Both for Iraq and Afghanistan, local culture



experts have produced “cultural guides” so called “smart cards”, whose use does not need instructors. In our opinion, this attempt can be considered a good idea and is a start, but simplification of concepts on an insufficient cultural foundation does more harm than good. Training centers for the mission extended the cultural training base, leaving it to decision makers to determine whether these guides are to be used or not.

Another cultural knowledge instrument is the programme developed by A.J. Kramer that functions in the form of specific group cultural training. This program includes role playing, lectures, situational analysis exercises, and the group offers a cultural analysis of the discussed situation.

Learning by using video games and simulation is also an efficient method, but, in the initial stages, personnel are focused too much on graphical details and loses from attention the general situation, with its risks and opportunities. “ELECT-BILAT” is a recent simulation teaching programme that facilitates pre-cultural training for the mission for a great number of personnel and with a reduced cost.

In order to put into practice the lessons learnt in the field of cultural knowledge, NATO Resolute Support Mission from Afghanistan initiated the set up of different types of teams: Human Terrain Teams (HTTS), Key Leader Engagements (KLE); Female Engagement Teams (FETs) Company Intelligence Support Teams (CoISTs).

During initial operations in Afghanistan, the matter of collaboration with Afghan women has not been approached and, most probably, not even thought of. As a result, there were no doctrinal foundation, tactics or procedures (TTPs) for the FET activities. Over the time, through experience and adaptation, a wide doctrinal consensus has been reached for FET operations. The direction for action of the FET teams are: finding the needs and the problems of the female gender population; approaching the issues related to their safety and security, and also their potential connections with the insurgents; carrying out intelligence activities, in a respectful cultural way, aiming to build trust and support

for the Government of the Islamic Republic of Afghanistan / GIROA) and for Resolute Support Mission. According to the action reports from units that comprise FET teams, it was found that those bring significant advantages in the field of intelligence gathering. FET was used in a variety of operations and activities, including intelligence gathering, search, key leaders’ engagement, civil-military programmes, information operation and dissemination consolidation for PsyOps⁸. FET is not the only initiative of the mission’s leadership for a close engagement of the Afghan population. FET success has generated the establishment of other gender teams, such as CoIST⁹, created as an effort to accelerate the information flow and collection from the company level structures to the General Headquarters. Those are specific cultural issues that represent only a part of the situational awareness of the area.

Another interesting and efficient instrument for the increase of the level of cultural knowledge was the concept named “One family - one soldier”. The idea was to generate cultural experience at the lowest level in any domain through day to day interaction of a soldier with an Afghan family. In order to better understand the cultural and social characteristics of the population, it was necessary to observe carefully the following patterns:

- organization of the key groups;
- relationship and interactions among groups;
- ideologies and the stories that are shared by the groups;
- groups’/tribes’ etc. values, interests and reasons;
- the way in which groups communicate;
- the leading system of the society.

Before the leadership of the mission started to understand the social and cultural issues of the Afghan population, it was necessary that efforts

⁸ Steve Israel and Robert Scales, “Iraq Proves It: Military Needs Better Intel”, *New York Daily News*, January 7th, 2004. See also Robert Scales, “Culture Centric Warfare”, *U.S. Naval Institute Proceedings*, October, 2004.

⁹ Adda Bozeman, *Strategic Intelligence and Statecraft*, New York: Brassey’s, 1992, p. 57. Also see Ken Booth, *Strategy and Ethnocentrism*, New York: Holmes & Meier Publishers, Inc., 1979.



be focused on intelligence gathering. A concept/instrument known as ASCOPE was used to lead this holistic intelligence collection effort.

A - area: where do people live, work, meet and where is their worship place?

S - structures: what are the important structures in the area? Bridges, mosques, markets, tea places, net cafés, hospitals etc.

C - capabilities: who is producing inside the community?

O - organizations: what are the diverse groups in the area?

P - people: how do they communicate/interact?

E - events: what is the frequency of appearance of events, when do they appear?

Conclusions

Despite the increased interest of different national defense structures in relation to language and cultural training, the coordination effort to develop the necessary knowledge, skills and competencies in order to understand and interact successfully with a specific population in a certain region is still at an early stage within the Alliance.

In our opinion, cross/cultural competence, in connection with the place and role of cultural knowledge in planning and conducting military operations contributes to a great extent to gaining awareness of the global situation and taking efficient decisions; offers a better understanding of the way in which planned military actions will influence both population and the insurgents; can help in the prediction of the population's behavior; can lead to an increased communication and to the prevention of useless tensions, also contributing to the force protection.

Cultural mistakes and/or actions and the improper cultural behavior in a mission can escalate easily, being an increased risk for future missions, which is why training participants for multinational joint missions is necessary, and this training should include, in our opinion, cultural training guides in order to develop specific competencies.

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Case Study 1 Is international law an expression of Western dominance?



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From one perspective, international law is easily cast as a Western, even imperial, institution. As we have seen, its roots lie in the European intellectual movements of the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries. Ideas propagated at that time not only drew on ideas of natural law, which could be traced back to ancient Greek and Roman thought, they also drew a clear distinction between international laws that were appropriate among Christian peoples and those that should govern how Christians related to peoples in the Muslim world, the Americas, and later Asia. The former were based on assumptions of the inherent equality of Christian peoples, the latter on the inherent superiority of Christians over non-Christians.

Further evidence of this Western bias can be found in the 'standard of civilization' that European powers codified in international law during the nineteenth century (Gong 1984). According to this standard, non-Western polities were granted sovereign recognition only if they exhibited certain domestic

political characteristics and only if they were willing and able to participate in the prevailing diplomatic practices. The standard was heavily biased towards Western political and legal institutions as the accepted model. On the basis of the standard, European powers divided the world's peoples into 'civilized', 'barbarian', and 'savage' societies, a division they used to justify various degrees of Western tutelage.

Many claim that Western bias still characterizes the international legal order. Cited here is the Anglo-European dominance of peak legal institutions, most notably the United Nations Security Council, and international human rights law, which is said to impose a set of Western values about the rights of the individual on non-Western societies where such ideas are alien. These biases are seen as coming together around the issue of humanitarian intervention. Western powers are accused of using their privileged position on the Security Council, and of brandishing human rights norms, to intervene in the domestic politics of weak, developing countries.

All these criticisms have validity. However, the nature and role of international law in contemporary world politics is more complex than it first appears. To begin with, at the heart of the modern international legal system lies a set of customary norms that uphold the legal equality of all sovereign states, as well as their rights to self-determination and non-intervention. Non-Western states have been the most vigorous proponents and defenders of these cardinal legal norms, and their survival as independent political entities depends on the continued salience of these principles. Second, non-Western peoples were more centrally involved in the development of the international human rights regime than is commonly acknowledged. The Universal Declaration of Human Rights was the product of a deliberate and systematic process of intercultural dialogue, a dialogue involving representatives of the world's major cultures (Glendon 2002). And the International Covenant on Civil and Political Rights, which is often portrayed as a reflection of Western values, was shaped in critical ways by newly independent postcolonial states (Reus-Smit 2001). What is more, international human rights law has been an important resource in the struggles of many subject peoples against repressive governments and against institutions such as colonialism.

Culture and Conflict

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Members of different cultures sample with diverse probabilities different kinds of information from their environment. Some sample the content of communications more than the context (e.g. tone of voice, gestures), whereas others do the reverse. Some sample processes internal to individuals (e.g. attitudes, beliefs) whereas others sample processes external to individuals (e.g. social influences, roles) with higher probabilities. Some give greater weights to ascribed attributes of persons, such as ethnicity, race, religion, and others to achieved attributes, such as beliefs, attitudes, or a record of achievements. These differences have profound implications for the probability of conflict and the type of conflict that will develop between individuals and groups.

Les membres d'une culture échantillonnent différents types d'information de leur environnement avec des probabilités différentes. Certains échantillonnent le contenu des communications davantage que le contexte (ex: ton de la voix, gestes), tandis que d'autres font l'inverse. Certains échantillonnent les processus internes de l'individu (ex: attitudes, croyances), tandis que d'autres échantillonnent les processus externes (ex: influences sociales, rôles). Certains donnent plus de poids aux attributs intrinsèques des personnes comme le groupe ethnique, la race, la religion et d'autres donnent plus de poids aux attributs acquis comme les croyances, les attitudes ou les accomplissements. Ces différences ont des implications importantes pour la probabilité d'un conflit et pour le type de conflit qui surgira entre individus ou groupes.

A report that appeared in the *New York Times* claimed that on January 9, 1991, at a meeting where the Foreign Minister of Iraq, Tariq Aziz, met the Secretary of States of the USA, James Baker, they miscommunicated. According to the report Baker was very clear that the US will attack, if Iraq does not leave Kuwait. But he said it calmly. The miscommunication occurred because next to Aziz was seated Saddam Hussein's brother, who paid attention only to *how* Baker talked, rather than to *what* he said. He reported back to Baghdad that "the Americans will not attack. They are weak. They are calm. They are not angry. They are only talking."

We do know that Western individualist cultures sample mostly the *content* of communications, whereas Eastern, collectivist cultures sample mostly the *context* of communication (Gudykunst, 1993; Triandis, 1994). Thus, it is plausible that Hussein's brother, who had little exposure to the West, did not sample the conversation correctly. Also, Baker did not throw anything at Aziz, to show that he was angry. He acted calmly. It is doubtful that Baker could have thrown anything. People cannot change their behaviour that drastically, just because they are interacting with members of other cultures. We do not know what report Aziz gave to Hussein, but it is plausible that Hussein paid special attention to his brother's assessment, since trust in collectivist cultures is much greater within the intimate in-group than within the outer in-group. In any case, we do know that a war

took place after that meeting. Cultural differences often cause miscommunications and conflict.

Conflict is greater when the two cultures are very different than when they are similar. Technically this difference is called "cultural distance" (Triandis, 1994).

CULTURAL DISTANCE

Cultural distance is greater when people speak different languages. Even speaking languages that are related can be a problem. For example the ancient Greek root of *sympathetic* is "to feel together." That is fairly close to the English meaning. But modern Greek, Italian, Spanish, and French use terms that are derived from that root yet mean "a nice, pleasant person." So, "I am sympathetic" does not translate correctly into "Je suis sympathique!"

Triandis (1994) listed many funny examples of mis-translations. For instance, at the office of an Italian physician: "Specialist in women and other diseases." Of course, what happens when languages are members of the same language family (say, Indo-European) can be even more of a problem when the languages have very different structures (e.g. tonal or click languages).

Cultural distance is also larger when people have different social structures, such as family structures. Todd (1983) has identified eight types of family structure, and

simple terms like “aunt” may convey different meanings when the family structure is different.

Religions, of course, can be a great source of differences in points of view. Even when one knows that the other person believes something different, there is the problem that humans use themselves as the anchors for such judgements. The diplomat may not believe that it is possible for the other diplomat to have such “outlandish” beliefs. A well-established social psychological phenomenon is called the “false consensus” effect (Mullen et al., 1985). Even when people know about this bias they cannot wipe it out (Krueger & Clement, 1994). The phenomenon is that if we agree with a particular position we believe that most other people also agree with it; if we disagree with a particular position we believe that most people disagree with it. The phenomenon is even stronger when we interact with people who are similar to us in dress, profession, etc.

Differences in standards of living can create cultural distance. When the cost of sending a letter is a substantial fraction of one's budget, it may not be as likely that one will send the letter as when the cost of the letter is trivial in relation to one's budget.

Values differ substantially between cultures (Schwartz, 1992, 1994). These values are related to the cultural syndromes that we will discuss here.

MEANING OF CULTURE

Culture is a shared meaning system, found among those who speak a particular language dialect, during a specific historic period, and in a definable geographic region (Triandis, 1994). It functions to improve the adaptation of members of the culture to a particular ecology, and it includes the knowledge that people need to have in order to function effectively in their social environment.

Cultures differ drastically in the amount of aggression that is found both within and between them. For example, the Lepcha of the Indian Himalayas had one murder two centuries ago (Segall, Ember, & Ember, 1997). Homicide rates in some segments of US society are extremely high. There is evidence that the absence of fathers during socialization is a factor in high rates (Segall et al.). There is some evidence that high between-cultures aggression is related to high within-culture aggression (Segall et al.). Warfare is associated with the unpredictability of resources, conflicts over territory, and is found most usually in societies that permit aggression within the family, where the media of communication portray aggression, where there are war-like sports, and where there is severe punishment for wrongdoing (Segall et al.). There is evidence that democracies do not fight with each other (Ember, Ember, & Russett, 1992), so much so that some analysts have argued that it is “counterproductive to support any undemocratic regimes, even if they happen to be enemies of our enemies” (Ember & Ember, 1994).

Shared patterns of elements of subjective culture constitute cultural syndromes (Triandis, 1996). A cultural syndrome is a shared pattern of beliefs, attitudes, self-definitions, norms, roles, and values organized around a theme.

Cultural differences are best conceptualized as different patterns of sampling information found in the environment (Triandis, 1989). In collectivist cultures (most traditional cultures, most Asian and Latin American cultures) people are more likely: (a) to sample the collective self (reflecting interdependence with others) and to think of themselves as interdependent with their groups (family, co-workers, tribe, co-religionists, country, etc.) rather than to sample the individual self (reflecting the independent self) and to see themselves as autonomous individuals who are independent of their groups (Markus & Kitayama, 1991); (b) to give priority to the goals of their in-group than to their personal goals (Triandis, 1995); (c) to use in-group norms to shape their behaviour than personal attitudes (Abrams, Ando, & Hinkle, 1998; Suh, Diener, Oishi, & Triandis, 1998); (d) to conceive of social relationships as communal (Mills & Clark, 1982) rather than in exchange theory terms (Triandis, 1995). That is, they pay attention to the needs of others and stay in relationships even when that is not maximally beneficial to them. There is evidence that these four aspects are interrelated (Triandis & Gelfand, 1998).

The sampling of collectivists focuses on groups, and people are seen as appendages of groups; the sampling of individualists focuses on individuals. A recent example is the coverage of the Kosovo war: CNN and BBC cover the refugees (individuals) in great detail. The Russians and the Serbs present nothing about the refugees on their television. The *Times* of London (April 7, 1999) had a story about a member of the Russian Duma who was so upset that the Russian TV did not mention the refugees at all that he went on a hunger strike. Finally, 12 days into the war an independent Russian station mentioned the refugees. We called a friend in Belgrade and asked her if she knew why NATO was bombing her city. She did not! Of course, such control of information is part of the war effort, but when it is consistent with the culture it is a natural bias. Culture shapes us so we pay more attention to individuals and to the internal processes of individuals (attitudes, beliefs) if we are raised in individualist cultures, and more attention to groups, roles, norms, duties, and intergroup relationships if we are raised in a collectivist culture.

Collectivist cultures have languages that do not require the use of “I” and “you” (Kashima & Kashima, 1997, 1998). They also have many culture-specific relational terms that are not found in individualist cultures, such as *philotimo* in Greek (Triandis, 1972), which is a positive attribute of an individual who does what the in-group expects, *amae* in Japanese, which reflects tolerance of deviation from norms by a dependent person (Yamaguchi, 1998), *simpatia* among Latin Americans (Triandis, Marin, Lisansky, & Betancourt, 1984), which

reflects the expectation that social relationships will include mostly positive and very few negative behaviours, and so on.

Collectivists use action verbs (e.g. he offered to help) rather than state verbs (e.g. he is helpful). This is because they prefer to use context in their communications. Zwier (1997), in four studies, obtained support for this cultural difference. Specifically, she found that the accounts of events given by Turkish and Dutch students show this difference. She content analyzed the radio commentaries of Turkish and Dutch radio personalities and found the same difference. She asked Turkish and Dutch students to write a letter requesting a favour, and content analyzed the letters. She examined the writing of Turkish/Dutch bilinguals when writing in the two languages, and found the same pattern.

The contrasting cultural pattern is individualism. Here people tend to (a) sample the individual self; this pattern is very common in North and Western Europe, North America (except in Mexico), Australia, and New Zealand, where the self is conceived as independent of ingroups; (b) give priority to personal goals; (c) use attitudes much more than norms as determinants of their social behaviour; (d) pay attention to their own needs only and abandon interpersonal relationships that are not optimally beneficial to them. Individualist cultures have languages that require the use of "I" and "you" (Kashima & Kashima, 1997, 1998). English is a good example. It would be difficult to write a letter in English without the use of these words. Individualists are very positive about "me" and "we" whereas collectivists are sometimes ambivalent about "me" but very positive about "we."

CULTURAL SYNDROMES

Complexity

Some cultures (e.g. hunters and gatherers) are relatively simple, and other cultures (e.g. information societies) are relatively complex. The organizing theme of the syndrome is complexity. For example, in complex societies one finds subgroups with different beliefs, attitudes, etc. whereas in simple societies individuals are in considerable agreement about their beliefs and attitudes. In fact, cultural uniformity and conformity are higher in simple than in complex societies. Simple cultures have few jobs; if we take into account specialties such as urologist and general practitioner, complex cultures have a quarter of a million different jobs (see *Dictionary of Occupational Titles*). The size of settlements is one of the best ways to index cultural complexity (Chick, 1997).

Tightness

Tight cultures have many rules, norms, and ideas about what is correct behaviour in each situation; loose cultures have fewer rules and norms. In tight cultures, people also

become quite upset when others do not follow the norms of the society, and may even kill those who do not behave as is expected, whereas in loose cultures people are tolerant of many deviations from normative behaviours.

Thus, conformity is high in tight cultures. In Thailand, which is a loose culture, the expression "*mai bin rai*" (never mind) is used frequently. In Japan, which is a tight culture, people are sometimes criticized for minor deviations from norms, such as having too much suntan, or having curly hair (Kidder, 1992). Most Japanese live in fear that they will not act properly (Iwao, 1993).

Tightness is more likely when the culture is relatively isolated from other cultures, so that consensus about what is proper behaviour can develop. It is also more likely that tightness will occur in situations where people are highly interdependent (when the other deviates from norms it hurts the relationship) and where there is a high population density (high density requires norms so that people will not hurt each other; also when the other deviates one notices it).

When cultures are at the intersections of great cultures (e.g. Thailand is at the intersection of China and India) contradictory norms may be found, and people cannot be too strict in imposing norms. Also, when the population density is low, it may not even be known that a person who is miles away has behaved improperly. Cosmopolitan cities are loose, except when they have ethnic enclaves, which can be very tight, whereas small communities are relatively tight.

Individualism and Collectivism

Triandis (1994) has suggested that individualism emerges in societies that are both complex and loose; collectivism in societies that are both simple and tight. For example, theocracies or monasteries are both tight and relatively poor; Hollywood stars live in a culture that is both complex and loose. This speculation has not been tested rigorously, but the data seem to hang together reasonably well so that it may be the case that, for instance, contemporary Japan, which is now quite complex, is less collectivist than the Japan of the 19th century. In fact, reports of 19th century travellers to Japan (see Edgerton, 1985) mentioned hundreds of rules for how to laugh, sit, etc., which apparently no longer operate in modern Japan.

Bond and Smith (1996) did a meta-analysis of studies of conformity that used the Asch paradigm, and found that collectivist cultures were higher in conformity than individualist cultures. This is what we would expect if tightness and collectivism were closely linked.

Kim and Markus (1998) showed that in the West people see "uniqueness" as desirable, whereas in East Asia it is often seen as "deviance"; in the West "conformity" is sometimes seen as undesirable, but in East Asia it is seen as "harmony." For example, content analyses of advertisements from the US and Korea show different frequencies of uniqueness and conformity

themes. Conformity themes were used by 95% of the Korean and 65% of the American advertisements; uniqueness themes were used by 89% of the American and 49% of the Korean advertisements.

Vertical and Horizontal Cultures

Vertical cultures accept hierarchy as a given. People are different from each other. Hierarchy is a natural state. Those at the top “naturally” have more power and privileges than those at the bottom of the hierarchy. Horizontal cultures accept equality as a given. People are basically similar, and if one is to divide any resource it should be done equally (Triandis, 1995).

Active–Passive Cultures

In active cultures individuals try to change the environment to fit them; in passive cultures people change themselves to fit into the environment (Diaz-Guerrero, 1979). The active cultures are more competitive, action-oriented, and emphasize self-fulfilment; the passive ones are more cooperative, emphasize the experience of living, and are especially concerned with getting along with others. In general, individualist cultures are more active than collectivist cultures, though the relationship between the two cultural syndromes is not strong.

Universalism–Particularism

In universalist cultures people try to treat others on the basis of universal criteria (e.g. all competent persons regardless of who they are in sex, age, race, etc. are acceptable employees); in particularist cultures people treat others on the basis of who the other person is (e.g. I know Joe Blow and he is a good person, so he will be a good employee; Parsons, 1968). In general individualists are universalists and collectivists are particularists.

Diffuse–Specific

Diffuse cultures respond to the environment in a holistic manner (e.g. I do not like your report means I do not like you). Specific cultures discriminate different aspects of the stimulus complex (e.g. I do not like your report says nothing about liking you; Foa & Chemers, 1967).

Instrumental–Expressive

People may sample more heavily attributes that are instrumental (e.g. get the job done) or expressive (e.g. enjoy the social relationship). In general, individualists are more instrumental and collectivists are more expressive. When Latin Americans meet a friend in the street they are likely to stop and chat, even when they are late for an appointment. The importance of the social rela-

tionship eclipses the importance of the instrumental relationship (Levine & Norenzayan, 1999).

Emotional Expression or Suppression

People may express their emotions freely, no matter what the consequences, or they may control the expression of emotion. The free expression of negative emotions can disrupt relationships, so collectivists tend to control such emotions. Individualists are often high in emotional expression. For example, Stephan, Stephan, and de Vargas (1996) tested the hypothesis that people in collectivist cultures would feel less comfortable expressing negative emotions than people in individualist cultures, and found strong support for that hypothesis.

In addition, the instigation of emotion is often culture specific. Stipek, Weiner, and Li (1989) found that when Americans were asked to recall what made them angry they remembered mostly events that happened to them personally; when Chinese were given that task they remembered mostly events that occurred to other people. This self-focus versus other focus is an important contrast between individualism and collectivism (Kagitcibasi, 1997).

The Weights Given to Different Attributes in Social Perception

In addition to sampling different attributes, members of different cultures give different weights to the attributes that they sample. For example, in a conflict situation an individual might sample the ethnicity of the other person, his profession, and his competence. Members of some cultures will give most of the weight to ethnicity and react to the other person on the basis of ethnicity; members of other cultures will give most of the weight to competence and profession, and disregard ethnicity. Triandis (1967) reviewed many cross-cultural studies showing differences in the weights used in social perception. In general members of collectivist cultures tend to sample and weigh ascribed attributes more heavily, whereas members of individualist cultures sample and weigh achieved attributes more heavily.

One can identify many more syndromes, such as those reflected in the Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck (1961) value orientations, the culture of honour (Nisbett & Cohen, 1996), and others. This introduction is sufficient for our purposes.

CULTURAL SYNDROMES AND THE SITUATION

Humans have predispositions to respond that can be traced to culture, but their behaviour depends very much more on the situation. For example, all humans have both collectivist and individualist cognitions, but they sample them with different probabilities depending

on the situation. For instance, when the in-group is being attacked most humans become collectivists.

The larger the in-group, the less effective it is likely to be in calling for individuals to do what the in-group authorities want done. A call to arms by a clan leader is more likely to be effective than a call to arms by a state, though penalties may make the latter effective in many countries.

Certain factors increase the probability that the collectivist cognitive system will be activated. This is most likely to happen when (a) the individual knows that most other people in the particular situation are collectivists, which makes the norm that one must act as a collectivist more salient; (b) the individual's membership in a collective is especially salient, for instance, the individual represents a country; (c) within an in-group the situation emphasizes what people have in common, for instance, common goals; (d) within an in-group the situation emphasizes that people are in the same collective, for instance, people use the same uniforms; and (e) within an in-group the task is cooperative.

Certain factors increase the probability that the individualistic cognitive system will be activated. This is most likely to happen when (a) others in the situation are and behave like individualists, which makes individualist norms more salient; (b) the situation makes the person focus on what makes him or her different from others (Trafimow, Triandis, & Goto, 1991), for instance, the person is dressed very differently from the rest of the group; and (c) the task is competitive.

Culture is relevant for understanding conflict in at least two domains: How conflict starts and how conflict evolves. Problems of poor communication are the major causes of the first, and problems of the way members of different cultures treat out-groups are relevant for understanding the second of these domains.

CULTURAL SYNDROMES AND COMMUNICATION

When people come into contact with members of other cultures they are often not aware of their miscommunications, because they think that the others are more or less like they are. This is the stage of *unconscious incompetence*. After some interpersonal difficulties people realize that they are miscommunicating, but they do not know exactly what is wrong. That is the stage of *conscious incompetence*. As they get to know more and more about the culture of the other, they begin communicating correctly, but they have to make an effort to communicate in a different way. That is the stage of *conscious competence*. Finally, after they develop habits of correct communication with members of the other culture they reach the stage of *unconscious competence*, where the communication is effortless, and correct.

A very serious problem in communication is that people do not perceive the same "causes" of behaviour (Miller, 1984; Morris & Peng, 1994). We call these attri-

butions. When the actor thinks that a behaviour is due to one cause and the observer thinks that the behaviour is due to a different cause, they each give a different meaning to the behaviour. For instance, a diplomat may invite another diplomat to dinner. The inviter may do so because he likes the other diplomat. The invitee, however, may use the cause "his boss told him to invite me." Obviously, the meaning of the invitation is different for the two diplomats.

There are training procedures, called "culture assimilators" (Fiedler, Mitchell, & Triandis, 1971), which consist of 100 or so episodes involving interactions between members of the 2 relevant cultures, and each episode is followed by 4 attributions. Usually three attributions are "incorrect" from the point of view of the culture the trainee is learning about, and one is "correct." The trainee selects one attribution, and gets feedback as to whether it is the correct one from the point of view of the culture she is trying to learn about. Trainees who go through this training gradually learn to make the correct attributions from the point of view of the other culture. This reduces miscommunications (Bhawuk, 1998).

There is a well-researched phenomenon. When two groups, A and B, are in conflict, if a member of group B does something "nice," members of group A attribute the behaviour to external factors (e.g. he was forced to do it by the circumstances); when a member of group B does something "nasty," members of group A attribute it to internal factors (e.g. they are nasty "by nature"). The attributions that group B makes about the behaviour of group A are exact mirror images, that is, when A does something nice it is due to external factors and when A does something nasty it is due to internal factors. When a member of group A makes attributions about the actions of members of group A, if the action is positive it is attributed to internal factors and if it is negative it is attributed to external factors.

In all cultures, when we ask actors why they did something they report external causes, but observers of these actions tend to use causes internal to the actor. This is called the "fundamental attribution error." In short, people all over the world have a tendency to make attributions incorrectly. However, those from individualistic cultures are even worse in this bias than those from collectivist cultures.

Another factor in miscommunications is the tendency of collectivists to sample the context of communications more than individualists, which results in their paying more attention to gestures, eye contact, level of voice, the direction of the two bodies, touching, the distance between the bodies, and the like. There is a large opportunity for errors and misinterpretations in the way people interpret paralinguistic cues. Also, the way people use time can result in misunderstandings, because people from monochronic time cultures are used to carrying out one conversation at the time, whereas people who use polychronic time carry several conversations simultaneously, which confuses and frustrates the users of monochronic time.

The structure of messages can be another source of difficulties. Western people tend to organize their thoughts and messages in a linear fashion: fact 1, fact 2, etc., generalization, conclusion. In many other cultures people start with the conclusion, and then find facts that fit the conclusion, and permit deviations from a straight line. In some cases the argument is like a spiral, starting from general ideological or mystical considerations, and gradually zeroing to a conclusion (Triandis, 1994). The extent to which ideology versus pragmatic matters are sampled also varies with culture. Glenn (1981) gave an interesting example. At a UN conference, the Russians advocated the use of reinforced concrete structures (ideal for all) whereas the American delegates said that "it depends on what works best" (pragmatic). Delegates from the Third World interpreted the exchange in favour of the Russians. They thought that the Americans were saying that "we are not good enough to use what they are using."

When a universalist meets a particularist there can be interpersonal difficulties. For example, when presenting a position, the universalist may expect that all the facts will "fit in" with the position, whereas the particularist may not feel that this is necessary. When such expectations are present, the particularist might need to start the presentation with a universalist position (e.g. "we are all in favour of peace") and then present the particularist view.

Another source of miscommunication is that in some cultures communication is "associative" and in others "abstractive." In the West it is typically abstractive. That is, one abstracts the most important elements of the argument and organizes them for the presentation. An associative presentation can present anything that is vaguely related to the point, which can frustrate the Westerner (Szalay, 1993). For example, in 1932 the finance minister of Japan was assassinated after agreeing to a 17% revaluation of the yen. In 1971, the American Treasury Secretary Connally, oblivious to Japanese history, demanded a 17% revaluation of the yen. His Japanese counterpart rejected it without explanation. When Connally suggested a 16.9% upward revaluation, the Japanese minister accepted it (Cohen, 1991).

Examples of associative communications abound. The *Los Angeles Times*, on February 12, 1977, published a conversation between two Egyptians. One was Westernized and the other was traditional. The communication of the traditional was not understood by the Westernized. Another example was the presentation of the Egyptian ambassador to the UN in 1967, in which he accused the Americans of actively helping the Israelis. The American ambassador asked for proof, but the Egyptian answered that no proof was needed because it was "obvious that the Americans had intervened. How else could one explain that three quarters of the Egyptian air force was destroyed in a few hours? Only a large, powerful country could do this."

In sum, cultural distance can result in miscommunications, which may lead to international conflict. We now turn to the way the conflict is carried out, and look at the role of cultural syndromes in this area.

CULTURAL SYNDROMES AND CONFLICT

We need to distinguish conflict within the in-group from conflict between groups. Individualism is associated with conflict inside a culture, such as crime or divorce. Collectivism is associated with conflict between groups, such as ethnic cleansing or war.

Factors that have been found to increase aggression (see Triandis, 1994) include biological factors (e.g. high levels of testosterone), social structural factors (such as low family cohesion, few intimate relationships, low father involvement in the upbringing of sons, isolation from kin, anonymity, all of which are associated with individualism), high levels of arousal (because of frustration, competition), hot weather, modelling (aggressive models, aggressive people receive more status in the society), gender marking (men and women are seen as very different), retaliation, economic inequality, few resources (associated with collectivism), social stress (e.g. high levels of inflation), ease of being aggressive (e.g. availability of weapons), low costs (aggression does not lead to punishment). Clearly there are many factors, many of which do not have much to do with cultural patterns. Yet culture is important for many of these factors (Segall et al., 1997).

Some of the factors, such as weak families, are associated with individualism, and lead to within-group aggression, and others are associated with collectivism.

When interacting with in-group members people from collectivist cultures tend to be unusually sensitive to the needs of the other, supportive, helpful, and even self-sacrificing. However, when interacting with out-group members they are usually indifferent and, if the two groups have incompatible goals, they are even hostile.

Once the in-group has been called to action against an out-group by in-group authorities, vertical collectivists are especially likely to become aggressive. This pattern leads to especially high levels of hostility when a "culture of honour" is present. Such cultures are found in situations where there are no police (or other authorities that can resolve conflict), so that people have to protect themselves against intruders by means of their personal efforts (Nisbett & Cohen, 1996). To extrapolate to the international scene, conflict would be higher if international bodies such as the United Nations did not exist.

Certain combinations of cultural syndromes can lead to treating the out-group inhumanely. In simple cultures the distinction between different kinds of "others" is unlikely to occur. In vertical cultures, there is likely to be a perception that "others" are very different, just as it is ordinary that people at the top and bottom of a hierarchy are seen as very different. In active cultures the elimination of out-groups (e.g. ethnic cleansing) is likely to be seen as an especially good way to change the socio-political environment. In universalist cultures, treating all out-group members the same fits the cultural pattern. If one enemy is to be killed, all should be killed. In diffuse

cultures, making distinctions between different kinds of enemies is not likely, so that all out-group members are likely to be treated badly. Instrumental cultures may be particularly effective in eliminating their enemies.

Thus, when a particular combination of cultural syndromes is found, namely active, universalistic, diffuse, instrumental, vertical collectivism, inhuman treatment of out-groups is likely to occur.

All humans are ethnocentric (Triandis, 1994). That means that they think of their in-group as the standard of what is good and proper, and of other groups as good only to the extent that they are similar to the in-group. Ethnocentrism also results in members of a culture seeing their own norms and behaviours as "natural" and "correct" and those of members of other cultures as "unnatural" and "incorrect." Ethnocentrism leads people to see their norms as universally valid, to avoid questioning norms, role definitions, and values, and to help in-group members, feel proud of the in-group, and simultaneously to reject out-groups (Triandis, 1994).

The rejection of out-groups is especially likely to occur in collectivist cultures. In extreme collectivist cultures out-groups are often seen as "not quite human" and "not deserving any rights." Although individualists are capable of dealing with out-groups in an inhuman way (e.g. the Mai Lai incident during the Vietnam war), collectivists are even more extreme in dealing with out-groups (e.g. the rape of Nanking; Chang, 1997, where an estimated 300,000 civilians were killed; the Holocaust). Fortunately, the particular combination of active, universalistic, diffuse, instrumental vertical collectivism is rare, so that such incidents do not occur frequently.

Furthermore, as indicated earlier, typical collectivism is usually incompatible with the active, universalistic, and instrumental syndromes so that the above-mentioned combination is really rare. Nevertheless, in the 20th century we have witnessed many cases of genocide and ethnic cleansing, so we cannot ignore the data.

One way to avoid these inhuman actions would be to monitor cultures that tend toward this undesirable combination of syndromes and to change them to reduce the probability of occurrence of the particular combination of syndromes. There is very little research about the factors that result in the various syndromes mentioned earlier, but we do know something about the occurrence of collectivism.

PREVALENCE OF COLLECTIVISM

Collectivism is found in societies that are not affluent (Hofstede, 1980), especially where there is only one normative system, that is a single culture that is not cosmopolitan. There is a fair amount of evidence about the attributes of collectivism and the causes of the development of this cultural pattern (Triandis, 1990).

Collectivism is also high among the lower social classes of any society (Kohn, 1969; Marshall, 1997), among those who have not travelled (Gerganov, Dilova,

Petkova, & Paspalanova, 1996) or were socially mobile, and have not been exposed to the modern mass media (McBride, 1998). When the major economic activity is based on agriculture, rather than on hunting, fishing, industry, or service, collectivism is often high.

Collectivism, thus, is found in societies that are relatively homogeneous (so that in-group norms can be widely accepted), where population density and job interdependence are high (because they require the development and adherence to many rules of behaviour), among members of the society who are relatively old (Noricks et al., 1987) and who are members of large families (because it is not possible for every member to do his or her own thing), and in groups that are quite religious (Triandis & Singelis, 1998). When the in-group is under pressure from the outside, collectivism increases. Thus, one consideration in international relations is whether the advantages of putting pressure on a country out-balance the disadvantages of increasing the collectivism of the country.

CONCLUSION

We examined two major ways in which culture is related to conflict. One is that cultural distance increases the probability of miscommunication. There are training programmes that can overcome this problem. The second is the way a combination of cultural syndromes results in the inhuman treatment of out-groups.

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FACT SHEET

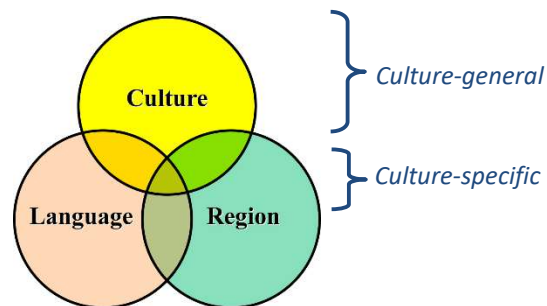
U.S. Air Force Fact Sheet

CROSS-CULTURAL COMPETENCE

Cross-cultural competence, or 3C, is the ability to quickly and accurately comprehend a culturally-complex environment, and then appropriately and effectively act to achieve the desired effect. It's the capability to accomplish a mission despite regional, linguistic or cultural differences. Airmen develop 3C over time, through both deliberate instruction and experience. The importance of 3C was recognized by the Air Force Chief of Staff in his 2009 *Culture, Region and Language Flight Plan*, which makes 3C development a goal for all Airmen.

3C is a critical warfighter skill. It helps Airmen provide global vigilance, reach and power. Language, region and culture are the inputs that make up 3C. Each is a distinct area of learning, but interrelated. Independently, none is sufficient to generate 3C.

Cultural processes and ideals have both general principles, such as categories of behavior and beliefs, and specific manifestations, when they are shaped by particular linguistic or regional aspects. The universal principles are referred to as "culture-general" and the particular manifestations are referred to as "culture-specific." All Airmen receive culture-general force development, while culture-specific instruction is provided primarily for deploying Airmen and LRC professional/enabled groups.

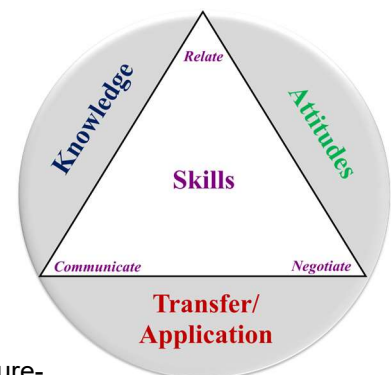


The Air Force Culture and Language Center helps all Airmen (officer, enlisted and civilian) develop 3C across the entire continuum of learning (education, training and experience), at every learning level (rank). Educational efforts are guided by Air University's Quality Enhancement Plan (QEP). Training efforts are integrated into the Air Force's Expeditionary Skills Training (EST) program. Operational experience provides a solid foundation for 3C development.

Some Air Force jobs require extensive language, region and culture capabilities. Depending on their Air Force Specialty Code and force development programs, these Airmen are considered either LRC Professionals or LRC Enabled.

3C consists of four inter-related components:

1. Knowledge of key concepts and principles
2. Skills need to work effectively across cultures, including communicating, relating and negotiating
3. Positive attitudes toward cross-cultural learning and engagement
4. Approaches to transfer/apply general learning in novel specific contexts



The four components of 3C are measurable within the education and training environments. Knowledge tests measure the degree to which culture-general concepts are learned during instruction. Skills are evaluated through simulations and situational judgment tests. Changes in attitude are discerned by using specialized surveys

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Dimensionalizing Cultures: The Hofstede Model in Context

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Dimensionalizing Cultures: The Hofstede Model in Context

Abstract

This article describes briefly the Hofstede model of six dimensions of national cultures: Power Distance, Uncertainty Avoidance, Individualism/Collectivism, Masculinity/Femininity, Long/Short Term Orientation, and Indulgence/Restraint. It shows the conceptual and research efforts that preceded it and led up to it, and once it had become a paradigm for comparing cultures, research efforts that followed and built on it. The article stresses that dimensions depend on the level of aggregation; it describes the six entirely different dimensions found in the Hofstede et al. (2010) research into organizational cultures. It warns against confusion with value differences at the individual level. It concludes with a look ahead in what the study of dimensions of national cultures and the position of countries on them may still bring.

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Introduction

Culture has been defined in many ways; this author's shorthand definition is: "*Culture is the collective programming of the mind that distinguishes the members of one group or category of people from others*". It is always a collective phenomenon, but it can be connected to different collectives. Within each collective there is a variety of individuals. If characteristics of individuals are imagined as varying according to some bell curve; the variation between cultures is the shift of the bell curve when one moves from one society to the other. Most commonly the term culture is used for tribes or ethnic groups (in anthropology), for nations (in political science, sociology and management), and for organizations (in sociology and management). A relatively unexplored field is the culture of occupations (for instance, of engineers versus accountants, or of academics from different disciplines). The term can also be applied to the genders, to generations, or to social classes. However, changing the level of aggregation studied changes the nature of the concept of 'culture'. Societal, national and gender cultures, which children acquire from their earliest youth onwards, are much deeper rooted in the human mind than occupational cultures acquired at school, or than organizational cultures acquired on the job. The latter are exchangeable when people take a new job. Societal cultures reside in (often unconscious) values, in the sense of *broad tendencies to prefer certain states of affairs over others* (Hofstede, 2001, p. 5). Organizational cultures reside rather in (visible and conscious) practices: the way people perceive what goes on in their organizational environment.

Classifying Cultures: Conceptual Dimensions

In an article first published in 1952, U.S. anthropologist Clyde Kluckhohn (1962) argued that there should be universal categories of culture:

In principle ... there is a generalized framework that underlies the more apparent and striking facts of cultural relativity. All cultures constitute so many somewhat distinct answers to essentially the same questions posed by human biology and by the generalities of the human situation. ... Every society's patterns for living must provide approved and sanctioned ways for dealing with such universal circumstances as the existence of two sexes; the helplessness of infants; the need for satisfaction of the elementary biological requirements such as food, warmth, and sex; the presence of individuals of different ages and of differing physical and other capacities. (pp. 317-18).

Many authors in the second half of the twentieth century have speculated about the nature of the basic problems of societies that would present distinct dimensions of culture (for a review see Hofstede, 2001, pp. 29-31). The most common dimension used for ordering societies is their degree of economic evolution or modernity. A one-dimensional ordering of societies from traditional to modern fitted well with the nineteenth- and twentieth-century

belief in progress. Economic evolution is bound to be reflected in people's collective mental programming, but there is no reason why economic and technological evolution should suppress other cultural variety. There exist dimensions of culture unrelated to economic evolution.

U.S. anthropologist Edward T. Hall (1976) divided cultures according to their ways of communicating, into high-context (much of the information is implicit) and low-context cultures (nearly everything is explicit). In practice this distinction overlaps largely with the traditional versus modern distinction.

U.S. sociologists Talcott Parsons and Edward Shils (1951, p. 77) suggested that all human action is determined by five *pattern variables*, choices between pairs of alternatives:

1. *Affectivity* (need gratification) versus *affective neutrality* (restraint of impulses);
2. *Self-orientation* versus *collectivity-orientation*;
3. *Universalism* (applying general standards) versus *particularism* (taking particular relationships into account);
4. *Ascription* (judging others by who they are) versus *achievement* (judging them by what they do);
5. *Specificity* (limiting relations to others to specific spheres) versus *diffuseness* (no prior limitations to nature of relations).

Parsons and Shils (1951) claimed that these choices are present at the individual (personality) level, at the social system (group or organization) level, and at the cultural (normative) level. They did not take into account that different variables could operate at different aggregation levels.

U.S. anthropologists Florence Kluckhohn and Fred Strodtbeck (1961, p. 12) ran a field study in five geographically close, small communities in the Southwestern United States: Mormons, Spanish Americans, Texans, Navaho Indians, and Zuni Indians. They distinguished these communities on the following value orientations:

1. An evaluation of *human nature* (evil - mixed - good);
2. The relationship of man to the surrounding *natural environment* (subjugation - harmony - mastery);
3. The orientation in *time* (toward past - present - future);
4. The orientation toward *activity* (being - being in becoming - doing); and
5. *Relationships among people* (linearity, i.e., hierarchically ordered positions – collaterality, i.e., group relationships – individualism).

Others have extrapolated Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck's (1961) classification to all kind of social comparisons, without concern for their geographic limitations without considering the effect of levels of aggregation, and without empirical support.

British anthropologist Mary Douglas (1973) proposed a two-dimensional ordering of ways of looking at the world:

1. 'Group' or inclusion - the claim of groups over members, and
2. 'Grid' or classification - the degree to which interaction is subject to rules.

Douglas saw these categories as relating to a wide variety of beliefs and social actions: Views of nature, traveling, spatial arrangements, gardening, cookery, medicine, the meaning of time, age, history, sickness, and justice. She seemed to imply that these dimensions are applicable to any level of aggregation.

The one- or more-dimensional classifications above represent subjective reflective attempts to order a complex reality. Each of them is strongly colored by the subjective choices of its author(s). They show some overlap, but their lack of clarity about and mixing of levels of analysis (individual-group-culture) are severe methodological weaknesses.

These weaknesses were avoided in an extensive review article by U.S. sociologist Alex Inkeles and psychologist Daniel Levinson (1969, first published 1954). The authors limited themselves to culture at the level of nations, and they summarized all available sociological and anthropological studies dealing with what was then called *national character*, which they interpreted as a kind of modal (most common) personality type in a national society. What I have labelled *dimensions* they called *standard analytic issues*. From their survey of the literature Inkeles and Levinson (1969) distilled three standard analytic issues that met these criteria:

1. Relation to authority;
2. Conception of self, including the individual's concepts of masculinity and femininity;
3. Primary dilemmas or conflicts, and ways of dealing with them, including the control of aggression and the expression versus inhibition of affect.

As will be shown below, Inkeles and Levinson's (1969) standard analytic issues were empirically supported in a study by this author more than 20 years later.

Empirical Approaches and the Hofstede Dimensions

In 1949 U.S. psychologist Raymond Cattell published an application of the new statistical technique of factor analysis to the comparison of nations. Cattell had earlier used factor analysis for studying aspects of intelligence from test scores of individual students. This time he took a matrix of nation-level variables for a large number of countries, borrowing from geography, demographics, history, politics, economics, sociology, law, religion and medicine. The resulting factors were difficult to interpret, except for the important role of economic development. Replications of his method by others produced trivial results (for a review see Hofstede, 2001, pp. 32-33). More meaningful were applications to restricted facets of societies. U.S. political scientists Phillip Gregg and Arthur Banks (1965) studied aspects of political systems; U.S. economists Irma Adelman and Cynthia Taft Morris

(1967) studied factors influencing the development of poor countries, and Irish psychologist Richard Lynn (1971; Lynn & Hampson, 1975) studied aspects of mental health.

In the 1970s this author – more or less by accident – got access to a large survey database about values and related sentiments of people in over 50 countries around the world (Hofstede, 1980). These people worked in the local subsidiaries of one large multinational corporation: IBM. Most parts of the organization had been surveyed twice over a four-year interval, and the database contained more than 100,000 questionnaires. Initial analyses of the database at the level of individual respondents proved confusing, but a breakthrough occurred when the focus was directed at correlations between mean scores of survey items at the level of countries. Patterns of correlation at the country level could be strikingly different from what was found at the individual level, and needed an entirely different interpretation. One of the weaknesses of much cross-cultural research is not recognizing the difference between analysis at the societal level and at the individual level; this amounts to confusing anthropology and psychology. From 180 studies using my work reviewed by Kirkman, Lowe, and Gibson (2006), more than half failed to distinguish between societal culture level and individual level differences, which led to numerous errors of interpretation and application.

My hunch that the IBM data might have implications beyond this particular corporation was supported when I got the opportunity to administer a number of the same questions to nearly 400 management trainees from some 30 countries in an international program unrelated to IBM. Their mean scores by country correlated significantly with the country scores obtained from the IBM database. So it seemed that employees of this multinational enterprises – a very special kind of people – could serve for identifying differences in *national* value systems. The reason is that from one country to another they represented almost perfectly matched samples: they were similar in all respects except nationality, which made the effect of national differences in their answers stand out unusually clearly.

Encouraged by the results of the country-level correlation analysis I then tried country-level factor analysis. The latter was similar to the approach used earlier by Cattell and others, except that now the variables in the matrix were not indices for the country as a whole, but mean scores and sometimes percentages of survey answers collected from individuals in those countries. Analyses of data at higher levels of aggregation are called *ecological*. Ecological factor analysis differs from the factor analysis of individual scores in that a usual caution no longer applies: the number of cases does not need to be (much) larger than the number of variables. The stability of the results of an ecological factor analysis does not depend on the number of cases, but on the number of individuals whose scores were aggregated into these cases. Ecological factor analysis may even be performed on matrices with fewer cases than variables.

Factor analyzing a matrix of 32 values questions for initially 40 countries, I found these values to cluster very differently from what was found at the individual level. The new factors revealed common problems with which IBM employees in all these societies

had to cope, but for which their upbringing in their country presented its own profile of solutions. These problems were:

1. Dependence on superiors;
2. Need for rules and predictability, also associated with nervous stress;
3. The balance between individual goals and dependence on the company;
4. The balance between ego values (like the need for money and careers) and social values (like cooperation and a good living environment); the former were more frequently chosen by men, the latter by women, but there were also country differences.

These empirical results were strikingly similar to the *standard analytical issues* described in Inkeles and Levinson's 1969 article. Dependence on superiors relates to the first, need for predictability to the third, the balance between the individual and the company to the conception of self, and the balance between ego and social values to concepts of masculinity and femininity, which were also classified under the second standard analytic issue.

The four basic problem areas defined by Inkeles and Levinson (1969) and empirically supported in the IBM data represent dimensions of national cultures. A dimension is an aspect of a culture that can be measured relative to other cultures. The four dimensions formed the basis for my book *Culture's Consequences* (Hofstede, 1980).

The main message of the 1980 book was that scores on the dimensions correlated significantly with conceptually related external data. Thus Power Distance scores correlated with a dimension from Gregg and Banks' (1965) analysis of political systems and also with a dimension from Adelman and Morris' (1967) study of economic development; Uncertainty Avoidance correlated with a dimension from Lynn and Hampson's (1975) study of mental health; Individualism correlated strongly with national wealth (Gross National Product per capita) and Femininity with the percentage of national income spent on development aid. The number of external validations kept expanding, and the second edition of *Culture's Consequences* (Hofstede, 2001, Appendix 6, pp. 503-520) lists more than 400 significant correlations between the IBM-based scores and results of other studies. Recent validations show no loss of validity, indicating that the country differences these dimensions describe are, indeed, basic and enduring.

In the 1980s, on the basis of research by Canadian psychologist Michael Harris Bond centered in the Far East, a fifth dimension 'Long-Term versus Short-Term Orientation' was added (Hofstede & Bond, 1988; see also Hofstede, 1991; Hofstede, 2001).

In the 2000s, research by Bulgarian scholar Michael Minkov using data from the World Values Survey (Minkov, 2007) allowed a new calculation of the fifth, and the addition of a sixth dimension (Hofstede, Hofstede & Minkov, 2010). The six dimensions are labelled:

1. *Power Distance*, related to the different solutions to the basic problem of human inequality;
2. *Uncertainty Avoidance*, related to the level of stress in a society in the face of an unknown future;
3. *Individualism* versus *Collectivism*, related to the integration of individuals into primary groups;
4. *Masculinity* versus *Femininity*, related to the division of emotional roles between women and men;
5. *Long Term* versus *Short Term Orientation*, related to the choice of focus for people's efforts: the future or the present and past.
6. *Indulgence* versus *Restraint*, related to the gratification versus control of basic human desires related to enjoying life.

Each country has been positioned relative to other countries through a score on each dimension. The dimensions are statistically distinct and do occur in all possible combinations, although some combinations are more frequent than others.

After the initial confirmation of the country differences in IBM in data from management trainees elsewhere, the Hofstede dimensions and country scores were validated through replications by others, using the same or similar questions with other cross-national populations. Between 1990 and 2002 six major replications (14 or more countries) used populations of country elites, employees and managers of other corporations and organizations, airline pilots, consumers and civil servants (see Hofstede et al., 2010, p. 35).

In correlating the dimensions with other data, the influence of national wealth (Gross National Product per capita) should always be taken into account. Two of the dimensions, Individualism and small Power Distance, are significantly correlated with wealth. This means that all wealth-related phenomena tend to correlate with both these dimensions. Differences in national wealth can be considered a more parsimonious explanation of these other phenomena than differences in culture. In correlating with the culture dimensions, it is therefore advisable to always include the wealth variable. After controlling for national wealth correlations with culture usually disappear.

Of particular interest is a link that was found between culture according to the Hofstede dimensions and personality dimensions according to the empirically based Big Five personality test (Costa & McCrae, 1992). After this test had been used in over 30 countries, significant correlations were found between country norms on the five personality dimensions (Neuroticism, Extraversion, Openness to experience, Agreeableness and Conscientiousness) and national culture dimension scores. For example, 55% of country differences on Neuroticism can be explained by a combination of Uncertainty Avoidance and Masculinity, and 39% of country differences on Extraversion by Individualism alone (Hofstede & McCrae, 2004). So culture and personality are linked but the link is statistical; there is a wide variety of individual personalities within each national culture, and national culture scores should not be used for stereotyping individuals.

Validating the dimensions is of course not only and not even mainly a quantitative issue. Equally important is the qualitative interpretation of what differences on the dimensions mean for each of the societies studied, which calls for an *emic* approach to each society, supporting the *etic* of the dimensional data.

The Hofstede Dimensions in a nutshell

In this section I will summarize the content of each dimension opposing cultures with low and high scores. These oppositions are based on correlations with studies by others, and because the relationship is statistical, not every line applies equally strongly to every country.

Power Distance

Power Distance has been defined as the extent to which the less powerful members of organizations and institutions (like the family) accept and expect that power is distributed unequally. This represents inequality (more versus less), but defined from below, not from above. It suggests that a society's level of inequality is endorsed by the followers as much as by the leaders. Power and inequality, of course, are extremely fundamental facts of any society. All societies are unequal, but some are more unequal than others.

Table 1
Ten Differences Between Small- and Large- Power Distance Societies

Small Power Distance	Large Power Distance
Use of power should be legitimate and is subject to criteria of good and evil	Power is a basic fact of society antedating good or evil: its legitimacy is irrelevant
Parents treat children as equals	Parents teach children obedience
Older people are neither respected nor feared	Older people are both respected and feared
Student-centered education	Teacher-centered education
Hierarchy means inequality of roles, established for convenience	Hierarchy means existential inequality
Subordinates expect to be consulted	Subordinates expect to be told what to do
Pluralist governments based on majority vote and changed peacefully	Autocratic governments based on co-optation and changed by revolution
Corruption rare; scandals end political careers	Corruption frequent; scandals are covered up
Income distribution in society rather even	Income distribution in society very uneven
Religions stressing equality of believers	Religions with a hierarchy of priests

Table 1 lists a selection of differences between national societies that validation research showed to be associated with the Power Distance dimension. For a more complete review the reader is referred to Hofstede (2001) and Hofstede et al. (2010). The statements refer to extremes; actual situations may be found anywhere in between the extremes, and the association of a statement with a dimension is always statistical, never absolute.

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Power Distance Index scores are listed for 76 countries; they tend to be higher for East European, Latin, Asian and African countries and lower for Germanic and English-speaking Western countries.

Uncertainty Avoidance

Uncertainty Avoidance is not the same as risk avoidance; it deals with a society's tolerance for ambiguity. It indicates to what extent a culture programs its members to feel either uncomfortable or comfortable in unstructured situations. Unstructured situations are novel, unknown, surprising, and different from usual. Uncertainty avoiding cultures try to minimize the possibility of such situations by strict behavioral codes, laws and rules, disapproval of deviant opinions, and a belief in absolute Truth; 'there can only be one Truth and we have it'.

Table 2

Ten Differences Between Weak- and Strong- Uncertainty Avoidance Societies

Weak Uncertainty Avoidance	Strong Uncertainty Avoidance
The uncertainty inherent in life is accepted and each day is taken as it comes	The uncertainty inherent in life is felt as a continuous threat that must be fought
Ease, lower stress, self-control, low anxiety	Higher stress, emotionality, anxiety, neuroticism
Higher scores on subjective health and well-being	Lower scores on subjective health and well-being
Tolerance of deviant persons and ideas: what is different is curious	Intolerance of deviant persons and ideas: what is different is dangerous
Comfortable with ambiguity and chaos	Need for clarity and structure
Teachers may say 'I don't know'	Teachers supposed to have all the answers
Changing jobs no problem	Staying in jobs even if disliked
Dislike of rules - written or unwritten	Emotional need for rules – even if not obeyed
In politics, citizens feel and are seen as competent towards authorities	In politics, citizens feel and are seen as incompetent towards authorities
In religion, philosophy and science: relativism and empiricism	In religion, philosophy and science: belief in ultimate truths and grand theories

Research has shown that people in uncertainty avoiding countries are also more emotional, and motivated by inner nervous energy. The opposite type, uncertainty accepting cultures, are more tolerant of opinions different from what they are used to; they try to have fewer rules, and on the philosophical and religious level they are empiricist, relativist and allow different currents to flow side by side. People within these cultures are more phlegmatic and contemplative, and not expected by their environment to express emotions. Table 2 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with the Uncertainty Avoidance dimension.

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Uncertainty Avoidance Index scores are listed for 76 countries; they tend to be higher in East and Central European countries, in Latin countries, in Japan and in German speaking countries, lower in English speaking, Nordic and Chinese culture countries.

Individualism

Individualism on the one side versus its opposite, **Collectivism**, as a societal, not an individual characteristic, is the degree to which people in a society are integrated into groups. On the individualist side we find cultures in which the ties between individuals are loose: everyone is expected to look after him/herself and his/her immediate family. On the collectivist side we find cultures in which people from birth onwards are integrated into strong, cohesive in-groups, often extended families (with uncles, aunts and grandparents) that continue protecting them in exchange for unquestioning loyalty, and oppose other in-groups. Again, the issue addressed by this dimension is an extremely fundamental one, regarding all societies in the world. Table 3 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with this dimension.

Table 3
Ten Differences Between Collectivist and Individualist Societies

Individualism	Collectivism
Everyone is supposed to take care of him- or herself and his or her immediate family only	People are born into extended families or clans which protect them in exchange for loyalty
"I" – consciousness	"We" –consciousness
Right of privacy	Stress on belonging
Speaking one's mind is healthy	Harmony should always be maintained
Others classified as individuals	Others classified as in-group or out-group
Personal opinion expected: one person one vote	Opinions and votes predetermined by in-group
Transgression of norms leads to guilt feelings	Transgression of norms leads to shame feelings
Languages in which the word "I" is indispensable	Languages in which the word "I" is avoided
Purpose of education is learning how to learn	Purpose of education is learning how to do
Task prevails over relationship	Relationship prevails over task

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Individualism Index scores are listed for 76 countries; Individualism tends to prevail in developed and Western countries, while collectivism prevails in less developed and Eastern countries; Japan takes a middle position on this dimension.

Masculinity – Femininity

Masculinity versus its opposite, **Femininity**, again as a societal, not as an individual characteristic, refers to the distribution of values between the genders which is another fundamental issue for any society, to which a range of solutions can be found. The IBM studies revealed that (a) women's values differ less among societies than men's values; (b) men's values from one country to another contain a dimension from very assertive and competitive and maximally different from women's values on the one side, to modest and caring and similar to women's values on the other. The assertive pole has been called 'masculine' and the modest, caring pole 'feminine'. The women in feminine countries have the same modest, caring values as the men; in the masculine countries they are somewhat assertive and competitive, but not as much as the men, so that these countries show a gap between men's values and women's values. In masculine cultures there is often a taboo around this dimension (Hofstede et al., 1998).

Table 4
Ten Differences Between Feminine and Masculine Societies

Femininity	Masculinity
Minimum emotional and social role differentiation between the genders	Maximum emotional and social role differentiation between the genders
Men and women should be modest and caring	Men should be and women may be assertive and ambitious
Balance between family and work	Work prevails over family
Sympathy for the weak	Admiration for the strong
Both fathers and mothers deal with facts and feelings	Fathers deal with facts, mothers with feelings
Both boys and girls may cry but neither should fight	Girls cry, boys don't; boys should fight back, girls shouldn't fight
Mothers decide on number of children	Fathers decide on family size
Many women in elected political positions	Few women in elected political positions
Religion focuses on fellow human beings	Religion focuses on God or gods
Matter-of-fact attitudes about sexuality; sex is a way of relating	Moralistic attitudes about sexuality; sex is a way of performing

Taboos are based on deeply rooted values; this taboo shows that the Masculinity/Femininity dimension in some societies touches basic and often unconscious values, too painful to be explicitly discussed. In fact the taboo validates the importance of the dimension. Table 4 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with this dimension.

In Hofstede et al. (2010) Masculinity versus Femininity Index scores are presented for 76 countries; Masculinity is high in Japan, in German speaking countries, and in some Latin countries like Italy and Mexico; it is moderately high in English speaking Western countries; it is low in Nordic countries and in the Netherlands and moderately low in some Latin and Asian countries like France, Spain, Portugal, Chile, Korea and Thailand.

Long-Term vs. Short-Term Orientation

This dimension was first identified in a survey among students in 23 countries around the world, using a questionnaire designed by Chinese scholars (Chinese Culture Connection, 1987). As all countries with a history of Confucianism scored near one pole which could be associated with hard work, the study's first author Michael Harris Bond labeled the dimension *Confucian Work Dynamism*. The dimension turned out to be strongly correlated with recent economic growth. As none of the four IBM dimensions was linked to economic growth, I obtained Bond's permission to add his dimension as a fifth to my four (Hofstede & Bond, 1988). Because it had been identified in a study comparing students from 23 countries, most of whom had never heard of Confucius, I re-named it Long-Term versus Short-Term Orientation; the long-term pole corresponds to Bond's Confucian Work Dynamism. Values found at this pole were perseverance, thrift, ordering relationships by status, and having a sense of shame; values at the opposite, short term pole were reciprocating social obligations, respect for tradition, protecting one's 'face', and personal steadiness and stability. The positively rated values of this dimension were already present in the teachings of Confucius from around 500 BC. There was much more in Confucius' teachings so Long-Term Orientation is not Confucianism *per se*, but it is still present in countries with a Confucian heritage. In my book for a student readership *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind* (Hofstede, 1991) the fifth dimension was first integrated into my model. It was more extensively analyzed in the second edition of *Culture's Consequences* (Hofstede, 2001) and in the new edition of *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind*, for which my eldest son Gert Jan Hofstede joined me as a co-author (Hofstede & Hofstede, 2005).

My initial cross-cultural data collected around 1970 by the IBM corporation among its employees in more than 50 countries worldwide represented probably the largest matched-sample cross-national database available anywhere at that time. Bond's Chinese Value Survey showed the power of adding results from other surveys; unfortunately, it covered only 23 countries, and attempts to extend it to other populations were small-scale and hardly reliable.

In the past quarter century the volume of available cross-cultural data on self-scored values and related issues has increased enormously. If I had to start my research now, I

would select the best elements from all these new databases. My prime choice would be the *World Values Survey*. In the early 1980s departments of Divinity at six European Universities, concerned with a loss of Christian faith, jointly surveyed the values of their countries' populations through public opinion survey methods. In the following years their *European Values Survey* expanded and changed focus: in the hands of U.S. sociologist Ronald Inglehart it grew into a periodic World Values Survey (WVS). Subsequent data collection rounds took place with 10-year intervals; as this is written, a fourth round is in process. The survey now covers more than 100 countries worldwide with a questionnaire including more than 360 forced-choice items. Areas covered are ecology, economy, education, emotions, family, gender and sexuality, government and politics, health, happiness, leisure and friends, morality, religion, society and nation, and work. The entire WVS data bank, including previous rounds and down to individual respondent scores, is freely accessible on the Web (www.worldvaluessurvey.org). So far it has remained under-used; potential users tend to drown in its huge volume of information.

Michael Minkov, a Bulgarian linguist and sociologist whom I had met on the e-mail at the turn of the millennium, took up the challenge of exploring the riches of the WVS. In 2007 he published a book with a Bulgarian publisher, in which he described three new cross-national value dimensions extracted from recent WVS data, which he labeled Exclusionism versus Universalism, Indulgence versus Restraint and Monumentalism versus Flexumility (the latter a combination of flexibility and humility). Exclusionism versus Universalism was strongly correlated with Collectivism/Individualism and could be considered an elaboration of aspects of it. The other two dimensions were new, although Monumentalism versus Flexumility was moderately but significantly correlated with Short Term/Long Term Orientation.

Minkov's findings initially inspired the issuing of a new, 2008 version of the Values Survey Module, a set of questions available to researchers who wish to replicate my research into national culture differences. Earlier versions were issued in 1982 (VSM82) and 1994 (VSM94). Next to the established five Hofstede dimensions, the VSM08 included on an experimental basis Minkov's dimensions Indulgence versus Restraint and Monumentalism versus Flexumility (which I re-baptized Self-Effacement). The Values Survey Module (VSM) can be downloaded from www.geerthofstede.nl. Aspiring users should carefully study the accompanying Manual before they decide to collect their own data. In most cases, the use of available results of already existing quality research is to be preferred above amateur replications.

The next step in our cooperation with Minkov was that Gert Jan Hofstede and I invited him to become a co-author for the third edition of *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind* (Hofstede et al., 2010). Minkov's Exclusionism versus Universalism was integrated into the Individualism/Collectivism chapter. By combining elements from his Monumentalism versus Flexumility dimension with additional WVS items, Minkov succeeded in converting into a new version of Long- versus Short-Term Orientation, now available for 93 countries and regions. Indulgence versus Restraint became an entirely new dimension that will be described below.

Table 5 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with the old and new version of the Long- versus Short-Term Orientation dimension. In our 2010 book, dimension scores have been re-calculated including Minkov's analysis of recent World Values Survey data.

Long-term oriented are East Asian countries, followed by Eastern- and Central Europe. A medium term orientation is found in South- and North-European and South Asian countries. Short-term oriented are U.S.A. and Australia, Latin American, African and Muslim countries.

Table 5
Ten Differences Between Short- and Long-Term-Oriented Societies

Short-Term Orientation	Long-Term Orientation
Most important events in life occurred in the past or take place now	Most important events in life will occur in the future
Personal steadiness and stability: a good person is always the same	A good person adapts to the circumstances
There are universal guidelines about what is good and evil	What is good and evil depends upon the circumstances
Traditions are sacrosanct	Traditions are adaptable to changed circumstances
Family life guided by imperatives	Family life guided by shared tasks
Supposed to be proud of one's country	Trying to learn from other countries
Service to others is an important goal	Thrift and perseverance are important goals
Social spending and consumption	Large savings quote, funds available for investment
Students attribute success and failure to luck	Students attribute success to effort and failure to lack of effort
Slow or no economic growth of poor countries	Fast economic growth of countries up till a level of prosperity

Indulgence versus Restraint

The sixth and new dimension, added in our 2010 book, uses Minkov's label Indulgence versus Restraint. It was also based on recent World Values Survey items and is more or less complementary to Long-versus Short-Term Orientation; in fact it is weakly negatively correlated with it. It focuses on aspects not covered by the other five dimensions, but known from literature on "happiness research". Indulgence stands for a society that allows relatively free gratification of basic and natural human desires related to enjoying life and having fun. Restraint stands for a society that controls gratification of needs and regulates it by means of strict social norms. Scores on this dimension are also available for 93

countries and regions. Table 6 lists a selection of differences between societies that validation research showed to be associated with this dimension.

Indulgence tends to prevail in South and North America, in Western Europe and in parts of Sub-Sahara Africa. Restraint prevails in Eastern Europe, in Asia and in the Muslim world. Mediterranean Europe takes a middle position on this dimension.

Table 6
Ten Differences between Indulgent and Restrained Societies

Indulgence	Restrained
Higher percentage of people declaring themselves very happy	Fewer very happy people
A perception of personal life control	A perception of helplessness: what happens to me is not my own doing
Freedom of speech seen as important	Freedom of speech is not a primary concern
Higher importance of leisure	Lower importance of leisure
More likely to remember positive emotions	Less likely to remember positive emotions
In countries with educated populations, higher birthrates	In countries with educated populations, lower birthrates
More people actively involved in sports	Fewer people actively involved in sports
In countries with enough food, higher percentages of obese people	In countries with enough food, fewer obese people
In wealthy countries, lenient sexual norms	In wealthy countries, stricter sexual norms
Maintaining order in the nation is not given a high priority	Higher number of police officers per 100,000 population

Other Applications of the Dimensional Paradigm

When *Culture's Consequences* appeared in 1980, it represented a new paradigm in social science research: analyzing survey-based values data at the national level and quantifying differences between national cultures by positions on these dimensions. Like other new paradigms, it initially met with rejection, criticism and ridicule next to enthusiasm (Kuhn, 1970). By the 1990s the paradigm had been taken over by many others, and discussions shifted to the content and number of dimensions. The paradigm inspired a number of other studies into dimensions of national cultures.

Many projects further explored the dimension of individualism versus collectivism (e.g. Kim et al., 1994; Hofstede, 2001, ch. 5; Triandis, 1995). From all the Hofstede dimensions, this one met with the most positive reactions among psychologists, especially in the U.S.A. which happened to be the highest scoring country on it. Individualism/Collectivism scores were strongly correlated with national wealth which led some people to the conclusion that promoting individualism in other cultures would

contribute to their economic development. In fact, data show that the causality is most probably reversed: wealth tends to lead to individualism (Hofstede, 2001, p. 253). The individualism in U.S. culture also led people to studying it at the *individual* level (comparing one person to another), not at the level of societies. In this case it is no longer a dimension of culture but an aspect of personality. Also there is no more reason why individualism and collectivism need to be opposite; they should rather be considered separate features of personality. An extensive review of studies of individualism *at the individual level* was published by Oyserman, Coon and Kemmelmeier (2002). Comparing these studies across societies they found a different ranking of countries from the Hofstede studies; but Schimmack, Oishi and Diener (2005) proved this was due to a methodological error: Oyserman et al. (2002) forgot to control for acquiescence (response set), and the acquiescence in their data was significantly negatively correlated with the object of their study which made their results random.

The cultural focus on the Individualism versus Collectivism dimension led Triandis (1995) to splitting it into horizontal and vertical individualism. This split overlooks the fact that the Hofstede dimension of large versus small Power Distance already covered the horizontal/vertical aspect quite satisfactorily. From my point of view the horizontal/ vertical distinction for Ind/Col as a dimension of culture is redundant. It may be useful at the individual level, but this is for others to decide.

Like individualism and collectivism, the terms masculinity and femininity have also been used for describing values at the individual level. Earlier studies by U.S. psychologist Sandra Bem (1974) showed already that in this case masculinity and femininity should again rather be treated as separate aspects than as opposite poles.

An important alternative application of the dimensional paradigm was developed by the Israeli psychologist Shalom Schwartz. Borrowing mainly from the work of U.S. psychologist Milton Rokeach (1972, 1973) who studied values of U.S. individuals, Schwartz composed a list of 56 values. Through a network of colleagues he collected scores from samples of elementary school teachers and of college students in over 50 countries. (Schwartz, 1994; Schwartz & Bardi, 2001). Respondents scored the importance of each value "as a guiding principle in my life". Schwartz at first assumed the same dimensions would apply to individuals and to countries, but his data showed he needed different classifications at different levels. At the country level he distinguished seven dimensions: Conservatism (later rebaptized "Embeddedness"), Hierarchy, Mastery, Affective autonomy, Intellectual autonomy, Egalitarianism and Harmony. Country scores for teachers published by Schwartz in 1994 were significantly correlated with the IBM scores for Individualism, Masculinity and Uncertainty Avoidance (Hofstede, 2001, p. 265).

Another large scale application was the GLOBE (Global Leadership and Organizational Behaviour Effectiveness) project, conceived by US management scholar Robert J. House in 1991. At first House focused on leadership, but soon the study branched out into other aspects of national and organizational cultures. In the period 1994-1997 some 170 voluntary collaborators collected data from about 17,000 managers in nearly 1,000 local (non-multinational) organizations belonging to one of three industries: food processing, financial services, and telecommunication services, in some 60 societies

throughout the world. In the preface to the book describing the project (House et al., 2004), House writes "We have a very adequate dataset to replicate Hofstede's (1980) landmark study and extend that study to test hypotheses relevant to relationships among societal-level variables, organizational practices, and leader attributes and behavior".

For conceptual reasons GLOBE expanded the five Hofstede dimensions to nine. They maintained the labels Power Distance and Uncertainty Avoidance (but not necessarily their meaning). They split Collectivism into Institutional Collectivism and In-Group Collectivism, and Masculinity-Femininity into Assertiveness and Gender Egalitarianism. Long Term Orientation became Future Orientation. They added two more dimensions: Humane Orientation and Performance Orientation. The nine dimensions were covered by 78 survey questions, half of them asking respondents to describe their culture ('as is') and the other half to judge it ('should be'). GLOBE thus produced $9 \times 2 = 18$ culture scores for each country: nine dimensions 'as is' and nine dimensions 'should be'.

In an evaluation of the GLOBE project (Hofstede, 2006), I re-factor analyzed the country scores on GLOBE's 18 dimensions. Five meta-factors emerged, of which the strongest, grouping seven of the 18 measures, was highly significantly correlated with GNP per capita and next with the Hofstede Power Distance dimension. Three more meta-factors were significantly correlated with respectively the Hofstede Uncertainty Avoidance, Individualism and Long Term Orientation dimensions. The GLOBE questionnaire contained very few items covering Masculinity in the Hofstede sense, but whatever there was belonged to the fifth meta-factor. The results show that in spite of a very different approach, the massive body of GLOBE data still reflected the structure of the original Hofstede model. The GLOBE research has provoked an extensive debate in the literature, but I have seen few applications relevant for practical use by cross-cultural practitioners (Hofstede, 2010). Minkov and Blagoev (2011) have tried to validate each of GLOBE's 18 dimensions by testing their nomological networks (correlation patterns with variables from other sources). The largest number of GLOBE's mutually correlated dimensions can be considered useful as facets of Hofstede's Individualism/Collectivism; some have enriched insights into Hofstede's Power Distance dimension, and GLOBE's Assertiveness "should be" provides some new elements. GLOBE's Humane Orientation and Performance Orientation, both "as is" and "should be" cannot be meaningfully validated at all.

An author sometimes cited as having researched dimensions of national culture is the Dutch management consultant Fons Trompenaars (1993). He distinguished seven conceptual dimensions, the first five borrowed from Parsons and Shils (1951) and the last two from Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck (1961) which he applied to the level of nations (see earlier in this article). Trompenaars collected a database of survey items related to these dimensions, but in the only statistical analysis of his data published so far, applying Multidimensional Scaling to some 9,000 questionnaires, only two interpretable factors emerged, both correlated with Hofstede's Individualism, one of these also with Power Distance (Smith, Dugan, & Trompenaars, 1996; Smith, Trompenaars, & Dugan, 1995). The only country scores that could be based on Trompenaars' data refer to these two flavors of individualism (Smith, Peterson, & Schwartz, 2002). Trompenaars' claim to seven dimensions therefore lacks empirical support.

The World Values Survey has been described above. Although the search for dimensions was not a primary purpose of this study, WVS director Ronald Inglehart in an overall statistical analysis found two key country-level factors which he called: 'Well-being versus survival' and 'Secular-rational versus traditional authority' (Inglehart, 1997, pp. 81-98). Well-being versus survival correlated with a combination of Individualism and Masculinity; Secular-rational versus traditional authority negatively with Power Distance.

Michael Minkov issued an extended and updated version of his 2007 book in a new volume *Cultural Differences in a Globalizing World* (Minkov, 2011). For the dimensions Exclusionism versus Universalism and Monumentalism versus Flexumility, country scores have been re-calculated from partly different sources, for 86 countries for exclusionism and for 43 countries for monumentalism. Indulgence versus Restraint has been reversed and renamed Industry versus Indulgence; scores for 43 countries have been based on a slightly different choice of WVS items. The old and new versions of these three dimensions are still strongly correlated, in the case of Indulgence obviously negatively.

A unique feature of the new book is the addition of a dimension not based on survey questions but on a statistically strong cluster of national statistics: murder rates, HIV (AIDS) rates, adolescent fertility rates and low average IQ (Intelligence Quotient, explainable from low education levels). This can be used for validation of dimensions based on survey items. Minkov called it Hypometropia versus Prudence; hypometropia is a medical term for short-sightedness, which he borrowed to avoid an *a priori* depreciating term. He calculated hypometropia scores for 80 countries. It correlates significantly with Minkov's Exclusionism and Monumentalism. From the six dimensions in Hofstede et al. (2010) only Individualism correlates significantly negatively with hypometropia, across 55 overlapping countries.

Dimensions of Organizational Cultures

The dimensional paradigm can be applied at other than the national level as well, in particular at the organizational and occupational levels (Helmreich & Merritt, 1998). A research project similar to the IBM studies but focusing on organization rather than national differences was carried out by this author and a team of collaborators in the 1980s (Hofstede, Neuijen, Ohavy, & Sanders, 1990). Qualitative and quantitative data were collected in twenty work organizations or parts of organizations in the Netherlands and Denmark. The units studied varied from a toy manufacturing company to two municipal police corps. The study consisted of three phases: open-ended interviews with a selection of informants, forced-choice questionnaires with all, or random samples of, employees, and collecting measurable characteristics at the organization level. The questionnaires included the items used for calculating national culture dimensions in the IBM cross-national survey, but added a large number of questions collected by the 18 interviewers in the interview phase. This study found large differences among units in perceptions of daily practices but only modest differences in values, beyond those due to such basic facts as nationality, education, gender and age group.

Six independent dimensions, resembling distinctions known from organization sociology, were identified that describe the larger part of the variety in organization practices. These six dimensions can be used as a framework to describe organization cultures, but their research base in twenty units from two countries is too narrow to consider them as universally valid and sufficient. For describing organization cultures in other countries and/or in other types of organizations, additional dimensions may be necessary or some of the six may be less useful. The six dimensions found in our research were:

1. *Process-oriented versus results-oriented*

Process-oriented cultures are dominated by technical and bureaucratic routines, results-oriented by a common concern for outcomes. This dimension was associated with the culture's degree of homogeneity: in results-oriented units, everybody perceived their practices in about the same way; in process-oriented units, there were vast differences in perception among different levels and parts of the unit. The degree of homogeneity of a culture is a measure of its 'strength': the study confirmed that strong cultures are more results-oriented than weak ones, and vice versa (Peters & Waterman, 1982).

2. *Job-oriented versus employee-oriented*

The former assume responsibility for the employees' job performance only, and nothing more; employee-oriented cultures assume a broad responsibility for their members' well-being. At the level of individual managers, the distinction between job orientation and employee orientation has been popularized by Blake and Mouton's Managerial Grid (1964). The Hofstede et al. study (1990) shows that job versus employee orientation is part of a culture and not (only) a choice for an individual manager. A unit's position on this dimension seems to be largely the result of historical factors, like the philosophy of its founder(s) and the presence or absence in its recent history of economic crises with collective layoffs.

3. *Professional versus parochial*

In the former, the (usually highly educated) members identify primarily with their profession; in the latter, the members derive their identity from the organization for which they work. Sociology has long known this dimension as 'local' versus 'cosmopolitan', the contrast between an internal and an external frame of reference (Merton, 1949).

4. *Open systems versus closed systems*

This dimension refers to the common style of internal and external communication, and to the ease with which outsiders and newcomers are admitted. This is the only one of the six dimensions for which a systematic difference was found between Danish and Dutch units. It seems that organizational openness is a societal characteristic of Denmark more than of the Netherlands. This shows that organization cultures also contain elements from national culture differences.

5. *Tight versus loose control*

This dimension deals with the degree of formality and punctuality within the organization; it is partly a function of the unit's technology: banks and pharmaceutical companies can be expected to show tight control, research laboratories and advertising agencies loose control; but even with the same technology some units may still be tighter or looser than others.

6. *Pragmatic versus normative*

The last dimension describes the prevailing way (flexible or rigid) of dealing with the environment, in particular with customers. Units selling services are likely to be found towards the pragmatic (flexible) side, units involved in the application of laws and rules towards the normative (rigid) side. This dimension measures the degree of 'customer orientation', which is a highly popular topic in the marketing literature.

The research grounding of these dimensions is documented extensively in Hofstede et al. (1990). Applications and implications can be found in Hofstede et al. (2010, ch. 10).

Dimensionality of Cultures in the Future

The fact that the world around us is changing does not need to affect the usefulness of the dimensional paradigm; on the contrary, the paradigm can help us understand the internal logic and the implications of the changes.

Some critics suggest that the number of dimensions should be extended. Triandis (2004) has defended this position, and the GLOBE project actually tried to extend the five Hofstede dimensions to 18. But additional dimensions are only meaningful if they are both conceptually and statistically independent from those already available, and they should also be validated by significant correlations with conceptually related external measures. There is an epistemological reason why the number of meaningful dimensions will always be small. Dimensions should not be reified. They do not 'exist' in a tangible sense. They are constructs: if they exist, it is in our minds (Levitin, 1973). They should help us in understanding and handling the complex reality of our social world. But human minds have a limited capacity for processing information, and therefore dimensional models that are too complex will not be experienced as useful. In a famous short article, Miller (1956) argued that useful classifications should not have more than seven categories, plus or minus two. I would go for the minus rather than the plus.

Within the dimensional model cultures can of course change their position on a dimension. Critics argue that Hofstede country scores based on IBM subsidiaries around 1970 are obsolete. But studies correlating the old country scores with related variables available on a year-by-year basis in many cases find no weakening of the correlations. A good reason for this is that the country scores on the dimensions do not provide *absolute* country positions, but only their positions *relative to the other countries* in the set. The relationship of the dimensions to basic problems of societies and the historical evidence of the continuity of national solutions to such problems suggest that even over much longer

periods the measures obtained will retain their validity. Influences like those of new technologies tend to affect all countries without necessarily changing their relative position or ranking; if their cultures change, they change together. Only if on a dimension one country leapfrogs over others will the validity of the original scores be reduced. This is a relatively rare occurrence. China might be one of those rare cases, where after a period of relative isolation, decades of unparalleled double-digit economic development concurrent with rapid global exposure and integration may be bringing about shifts, especially in the younger generation. But this remains to be demonstrated in carefully designed research.

Some authors predict that new technologies will make societies more and more similar. Technological modernization is an important force toward culture change and it leads to partly similar developments in different societies, but there is not the slightest proof that it wipes out variety on other dimensions. It may even increase differences, as on the basis of pre-existing value systems societies cope with technological modernization in different ways.

Culture change basic enough to invalidate the country dimension index rankings, or even the relevance of the dimensional model, will need either a much longer period – say, 50 to 100 years – or extremely dramatic outside events. Many differences between national cultures at the end of the 20th century were already recognizable in the years 1900, 1800 and 1700 if not earlier. There is no reason why they should not play a role until 2100 or beyond.

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About the Author

Geert Hofstede (1928) holds an M.Sc. level degree in mechanical engineering and a Ph.D. level degree in social psychology. He had a varied career both in industry and in academia, retiring as a professor of organizational anthropology and international management from the University of Maastricht, the Netherlands, in 1993. Through his book *Culture's Consequences* (1980, new edition 2001) he became a pioneer of comparative intercultural research; his ideas are used worldwide. A student-level book *Cultures and Organizations: Software of the Mind* (1991, third edition 2010 co-authored with Gert Jan Hofstede and Michael Minkov) has so far appeared in 17 European and 4 Asian languages. Geert Hofstede was listed in the Wall Street Journal of May 2008 among the Top 20 most influential business thinkers. He held visiting professorships in Hong Kong, Hawaii, Australia and New Zealand. He received honorary doctorates from ten European universities, and is a Fellow of the Academy of Management and the Academy of International Business in the USA and a Honorary Fellow of the International Association for Cross-Cultural Psychology.

Discussion Questions

1. In today's newspaper, find an article about an event or situation in which cultural differences between persons born and educated in different countries may have played a role (there are always several). Which *one* of the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions is most useful for understanding what was said and done?¹
2. Think of the last time you personally experienced a culture shock. Culture shock occurs when somebody becomes painfully aware that a person or persons born and educated in another country think(s), feel(s) and/or act(s) differently from what was expected. What happened and which *one* of the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions explains best the reason for the shock?
3. Next time you attend an international meeting, compare the theories and ways of presentation of participants born and educated in different countries. Which *one* of the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions was most useful for understanding the differences in what was said and how?
4. Draw the culture profile of the country in which you grew up on the six Hofstede et al. (2010) dimensions. Then imagine two persons from two different countries and imagine how each of them will describe your culture to a compatriot.

¹ Culture scores of countries can be found in Hofstede, Hofstede and Minkov (2010) and on our home website www.geerthofstede.eu under "research and VSM" and "dimension data matrix". Scores are also published on other websites and apps, but the author is not responsible for the information presented there.

The United States and the UN Security Council: Examining U.S. Perspectives and Approaches to Key Issues

Examining U.S. perspectives and approaches to enduring and emerging issues on the UN Security Council's agenda.

BY [Alex Hopkins](#) · [Rachel Stohl](#)

- February 15, 2022

As the Biden administration navigates a Security Council increasingly defined by great power rivalries, U.S. views and approaches to key issues have come into focus and merit fresh examination. Building on desk research and interviews with U.S. government officials, this issue brief explores current U.S. policy priorities and how they fit within the Security Council's agenda. The research specifically centers on four thematic areas that represent a blend of enduring issues that have been on the Security Council's agenda since its founding and emerging areas of focus among permanent and temporary members, including (1) global health security and COVID-19 pandemic recovery; (2) arms control and disarmament; (3) conflict; and (4) climate change and security.

U.S. Priorities

In addition to stating that “America is back” and that “diplomacy is back at the center of our foreign policy,” President Biden’s first foreign policy address in February 2021 included references to key priorities of his administration. These priorities include addressing rising authoritarianism, the ambitions of China and Russia, and accelerating global challenges such as the COVID-19 pandemic, climate change, and nuclear proliferation.¹ The Biden administration’s Interim National Security Strategic Guidance, released in March 2021, noted the United States “will again embrace international cooperation toward a better, safer, more resilient, more prosperous world,” highlighting that the United States “will move swiftly to earn back our position of leadership in international institutions, joining with the international community to tackle the climate crisis and other shared challenges.”² The Interim National Security Strategic Guidance also makes clear the U.S. position that multilateral fora, such as the Security Council, are vital to advancing U.S. priorities:

Because the United Nations and other international organizations, however imperfect, remain essential for advancing our interests, we will re-engage as a full participant and work to meet our financial obligations, in full and on time. Across a range of crucial issues – from climate change to global health, peace and security, humanitarian response, revitalizing democracy and human rights, digital connectivity and technology governance, sustainable and inclusive development, and forced displacement and migration – effective global cooperation and institutional reform require America to resume a leadership role in multilateral organizations. It is also critical that these institutions continue to reflect the universal values, aspirations, and norms that have underpinned the UN system since its founding 75 years ago, rather than an authoritarian agenda. In a world of deepening rivalry, we will not cede this vital terrain.³

The values noted above are at the core of U.S. reengagement with the Security Council. In the face of rising authoritarianism, the United States views the Security Council as a platform to respond to

disinformation, aggressive action, and human rights violations, exposing violators for what they are. Across the issue areas discussed in this paper, U.S. officials have stressed that one of their overarching objectives is to restore credibility and integrity in U.S. leadership while engaging with allies and competitors in a manner that builds trust.

U.S. Views Across Select Thematic Focus Areas

The Security Council has recognized the influence of the global COVID-19 pandemic as having the potential to worsen the humanitarian impact of armed conflict and aggravating the socioeconomic drivers of violence and instability, especially in developing countries. The Biden administration is navigating this new environment and simultaneously reinvigorating its multilateral approach. To further clarify U.S. views, Stimson focused on the following four thematic areas: (1) global health security and pandemic recovery; (2) arms control and disarmament; (3) conflict; and (4) climate change and security. These topics represent a blend of legacy issues that have been on the Security Council's agenda since its founding, as well as emerging areas of focus that have gained momentum among permanent and temporary members. Stimson conducted in-depth interviews with U.S. officials based in Washington, DC to supplement its desk research.

Global Health Security and COVID-19 Pandemic Recovery

Since the onset of the COVID-19 pandemic in March 2020, the Security Council has considered the security concerns and challenges raised by the global health emergency. Over the next two to three years, the Security Council will continue to address a range of global health security challenges, including the long-term implications of COVID-19. Since assuming office in January 2021, the Biden administration has supported multilateral approaches to combating the pandemic and ensuring equitable access to vaccines. The U.S. Department of State has worked closely with the World Health Organization (WHO) to accelerate vaccine development and deployment, increase manufacturing capacity, improve information sharing, and bolster vaccine confidence.⁴ In March 2021, during the month-long U.S. presidency of the Security Council, President Biden hosted a virtual gathering of Permanent Representatives at the White House where he and U.S. Ambassador to the United Nations, Linda Thomas-Greenfield, reaffirmed the U.S. commitment to working with global partners through multilateral institutions to recover from the COVID-19 pandemic, improve global health security, and foster an equitable and sustainable economic recovery.⁵ Ahead of UNGA76, Ambassador Thomas-Greenfield highlighted several U.S. priorities, including robust support for the global response to COVID-19.⁶ The U.S. approach to battling COVID-19 with the UN and across international regimes is built around increasing vaccination production and access while simultaneously strengthening health systems around the world.

While the United States would like to see the Security Council do more on COVID-19, the United States will also focus on the nexus between health and security across the UN System. Accordingly, the Biden administration believes that the UN System should be more capable of addressing public health crises and their security threats.⁷ Yet, concerns remain about the Security Council's ability to find the procedural rhythm required to respond to rapidly-evolving health security threats in the future.⁸ Ideally, the United States would like to insert health security and pandemic preparedness thematically throughout the work of the Security Council, including in the deployment of peace operations like peacekeeping and special political missions, as well as the work of UN country teams around the world.⁹

In addition to its strategic and political consequences, COVID-19 has also impacted the work of the Security Council at a practical level. During the first few months of the Biden administration, the pandemic altered the working methods of the Security Council, including necessitating virtual convenings and straining the consensus-building process. While this dynamic has improved, reduced agility in Security Council procedures hindered the Biden administration's efforts to use the body in a preventive fashion: advocating for earlier interventions before the conflict escalated, an approach that can be somewhat contentious and at odds with consensus-building.^{[10](#)}

Arms Control and Disarmament

The Biden Administration has reiterated its intent to remain a leader in arms control and disarmament. In remarks to the UN First Committee, Ambassador Bonnie Jenkins, Under Secretary of State for Arms Control and International Security, stressed the United States' commitment to diplomacy and transparency, and to building a "predictable foundation for the future of arms control."^{[11](#)} The United States understands the current strategic environment to be one of "increased geopolitical tension and competition," which has led the Biden administration to spearhead efforts in the UN First Committee aimed at compliance within existing frameworks and emerging issues such as responsible state behavior at the intersection of cyberspace and arms control.

Some of the issues in front of the Security Council include managing the nuclear ambitions of Iran and North Korea, and shoring up existing non-proliferation frameworks. Despite these major challenges, the five Permanent Members of the Security Council do not see the world in the same way, and collective action on issues of nuclear disarmament and nonproliferation is harder to find as the primacy of strategic competition pervades Security Council deliberations.^{[12](#)}

In terms of the nonproliferation agenda for the U.S., a major focus continues to be the ongoing talks in Vienna surrounding the future of the Joint Comprehensive Plan of Action (JCPOA).^{[13](#)} Four years after President Trump walked away from the agreement, President Biden has made returning to the deal with mutual compliance a top priority. With regard to North Korea, Secretary of State Antony Blinken stated that the United States "remains focused on denuclearization."^{[14](#)} Secretary Blinken also spoke on Syria's failure to comply with the Chemical Weapons Convention (CWC) and Russia's perpetuation of Syrian violations. The United States condemned Syria's and Russia's actions and called upon the two countries to reestablish their CWC commitment. Secretary Blinken stressed that "there can be no impunity. We must preserve international law against the use of chemical weapons – or we risk normalizing their use."^{[15](#)} Secretary Blinken addressed the threat of weaponizing "disease and biological agents," but gave no country specific examples of misuse. Lastly, Secretary Blinken addressed the need to negotiate "a treaty banning the production of fissile material for use in nuclear weapons."^{[16](#)}

In remarks to the Conference on Disarmament in February 2021, Secretary Antony Blinken addressed key U.S. priorities and concerns on disarmament, both generally and in relation to specific country cases. Secretary Blinken underscored the need for "standards and norms of responsible behavior in outer space" on an international scale, and urged States to refrain from anti-satellite weapon tests, noting that Russia contradicted its own stance against the weaponization of space by conducting such a test on the ground in 2020. Secretary Blinken also addressed U.S. readiness to engage in conversation with Russia regarding arms control, security issues, and nuclear arsenals, while also asserting the need for China to be more transparent about its weapons programs.^{[17](#)}

Depending on the diplomatic level of engagement and the countries at the table, U.S. arms control and disarmament priorities vary from a specific focus on renewing dialogue to advocating for the application of a human rights lens to conventional arms transfers.¹⁸ At the bilateral level, the U.S. is focused on its evolving relationships with Russia and China. Substantial diplomatic effort went into the February 2021 agreement with Russia to extend the New START Treaty until February 2026. In a statement detailing the implications of the extension, Secretary Blinken stressed the importance of having verifiable limits on Russian intercontinental ballistic missiles, submarine-launched ballistic missiles, and heavy bombers.¹⁹ Since Biden took office, and following the extension of the New START Treaty, the U.S. and Russia have met three times in the context of the bilateral Strategic Stability Dialogue to discuss the future of arms control between the two nuclear powers.²⁰ The 2022 iteration of these talks will be further complicated by escalating tensions between Russia and Ukraine, including the massing of Russian forces near the Ukrainian border, which the U.S. and its NATO Allies have condemned as aggressive, regionally destabilizing, and threatening to Ukrainian sovereignty.²¹

Also at the bilateral level, a key priority for the U.S. will be to push China to engage in formal arms control talks, perhaps similar in nature to the U.S.-Russia Strategic Stability Dialogue.²² If formal talks do not materialize, the U.S. is prepared to continue engaging China in an informal way on nuclear disarmament issues.²³

In terms of conventional arms, the United States is currently reviewing its Conventional Arms Transfer (CAT) Policy. While the updated policy is not finalized, rhetoric from the Biden administration has focused on elevating human rights concerns, stressing the principles of restraint and responsible use, and considering the state of security sector governance of potential arms transfer recipients. According to public statements from State Department officials, the updated policy will reflect “the President’s goals of putting diplomacy first, respecting human rights and international humanitarian law, revitalizing and reimagining alliances, and delivering for the American people.”²⁴

Conflict

Responding to and preventing conflict is the core mandate of the Security Council. As such, several ongoing conflicts are likely to remain at the top of the agenda through the next temporary membership cycle, including the deteriorating situations in Afghanistan, Ethiopia, Syria, and Myanmar, among others. A key challenge for the Council in general, and for the United States in particular, will be finding ways to work around major power rivalries in order to get permanent and temporary members to act in a preventive way. This will require moving beyond the current status quo wherein only disaster scenarios spur meaningful action.²⁵ Moving away from crisis intervention and toward preventive diplomacy is also in line with the vision laid out by Secretary-General Antonio Guterres, who recently secured a second term.²⁶ An emphasis on preventive diplomacy also tracks with rhetoric from the Biden Administration. For example, at a Security Council briefing on preventive diplomacy, Ambassador Jeffrey DeLaurentis, U.S. Senior Advisor for Special Political Affairs, offered the following remarks:

The UN has a unique advantage when engaging in preventive diplomacy, given its extensive presence in conflict-affected settings worldwide. UN field mechanisms like the Resident Coordinator system, peace and development advisors, special political missions, and peacekeeping operations are on the frontlines of preventive diplomacy, and we must empower them and reinforce their efforts.

A modern approach to our work requires a modern approach to conflict prevention and peacebuilding. The United States is now implementing the U.S. Strategy to Prevent Conflict and Promote Stability, which details lessons learned and best practices for addressing the root causes of conflict and preventing future ones. Many of these lessons are relevant to the UN, including: the primacy of political solutions to conflict; the value of local buy-in, legitimacy, and accountability; the need for monitoring and evaluation; and the importance of integrating all diplomatic, assistance, and security activities under a coherent plan.

Fundamentally, we have found that conflicts are often fueled by the abuse of human rights, which is one reason it is so important. Member States uphold their international obligations and commitments.[27](#)

Despite these goals, the geopolitical realities that define today's conflicts have hindered a wider transition towards a preventive diplomacy centered on human rights. U.S. officials have stressed the importance of paying attention to significant humanitarian issues that might not always be "front-page news," such as U.S. efforts in Ethiopia and the surrounding region to establish a ceasefire and avoid famine, as well as the ongoing humanitarian challenge in the Sahel which has been exacerbated by the dual threats of climate change and conflict. And while there have been discrete examples of compromise among P5 rivals on issues related to particular conflicts, the Council Members have often dealt with ancillary or procedural matters related to those conflicts in order to avoid sensitivities surrounding intervention or resolution.[28](#) Yet, even these compromises have managed to lead to controversy amongst non-P5 Members. Several conflicts illustrate the challenges and provide insights into the U.S. approach.

Afghanistan

In the aftermath of the U.S. withdrawal from Afghanistan and the Taliban takeover, the U.S. has stressed that Afghanistan needs the UN and the UN Assistance Mission to Afghanistan (UNAMA) more than ever, specifically to help prevent human rights violations and abuses, and to pursue accountability for those that have already occurred.[29](#) A key priority since August 2021 has been the relocation and resettlement in the United States of "Afghan individuals to whom the U.S. has a commitment."[30](#) While the situation in Afghanistan is very difficult, the Security Council has an important role to play and there is room for common interest among the five permanent members (P5), including on issues such as leveraging existing UN sanctions on the Taliban.[31](#) Responding to the unfolding humanitarian crisis in Afghanistan – especially during the winter months – is also a priority of the Biden administration, as evidenced by recent increases in humanitarian aid from USAID and U.S. efforts at the Security Council to carve out exemptions for humanitarian assistance and other activities that support basic human needs from sanctions imposed under resolutions 2255 (2015) and 1988 (2011).[32](#) [33](#) Since its departure, the U.S. has leaned on UN mechanisms, including the UN Emergency Relief Coordinator, to support urgently needed humanitarian assistance and other activities related to shelter and settlement assistance, food security, education, and livelihoods support, among others.[34](#)

Myanmar

According to U.S. officials, the situation in Myanmar continues to worsen and requires increased vigilance and engagement from the Security Council and regional partners. In response to the military coup in February 2021, the Biden administration condemned the violence and human rights abuses perpetrated by the military. In August 2021, Vice President Harris stressed that she and President Biden

are “deeply concerned by the military coup and the human rights abuses that have followed.” She condemned the violence and said the U.S. “stands with the people of Myanmar.”³⁵ The United States has called for the release of those unjustly detained and restoration of a path toward democratic rule. In the G7 Summit Communiqué, President Biden and other leaders pledged “support to those advocating peacefully for a stable and inclusive democracy.” The Communiqué also highlighted ASEAN’s central role and welcomed and urged the implementation of the Five Point Consensus, an agreement reached during the April 2021 ASEAN Leaders Summit, which called for, among other things, a cessation of hostilities and constructive dialogue, for the junta to allow for humanitarian assistance, and for ASEAN’s special envoy and delegation to meet all parties concerned.³⁶

Climate Change and Security

The issue of climate change and its potential implications for international peace and security have gained traction in the Security Council in recent years. Previously, the Security Council considered climate-related conflict risks, issues facing specific regions and countries, and the role of UN missions and offices. The Biden administration has signaled that this issue will be a key priority for the United States and its engagement on the Council, as evidenced by remarks from U.S. Climate Envoy, John Kerry, at a February 2021 high-level, open debate on climate and security hosted by the United Kingdom. At that virtual meeting, Kerry stressed that “the climate crisis is indisputably a Security Council issue,” adding that the U.S. Department of Defense has, for years, considered the impact of climate change as a “threat multiplier.”³⁷ The remarks reflect the current U.S. view that climate change is one of the most complex and challenging security issues the United States and its allies will face in the coming decades. In his remarks, Kerry also highlighted the overlapping threats posed in fragile states, noting:

The sad reality is that if you look at a map of the most fragile states in the world and you overlay that with the map of those most vulnerable to devastating climate impacts, you can see exactly how much overlap there is. Many of the regions where we’re focused on peacebuilding and conflict prevention, are projected to be the literal hotspots in the coming crisis. And we know the conflict and the climate crisis are linked in places like Sudan and so many others. We simply cannot ignore how climate is affecting these regions. On the contrary, climate impacts need to be reflected in every aspect of this body’s decision-making and field reporting.³⁸

To address these risks and build resilience around the world against the effects of climate change, the Biden administration rejoined the Paris Agreement and has directed a “whole-of-government approach to address the climate crisis, to elevate the issue as a national security priority, and to put America on an irreversible path to achieve net-zero emissions by 2050 or earlier.”³⁹ In addition, the United States formally joined the UN Group of Friends on Climate and Security in 2021 – a group of over 50 countries and the EU dedicated to developing solutions for the impact of climate on security policy, raising public awareness, and boosting the involvement of the UN.⁴⁰

In December 2021, the Security Council voted on a thematic resolution on climate change and security put forward by Ireland and Niger. Despite being co-sponsored by over 113 Member States, the draft resolution failed to pass, receiving 12 votes in favor, two against from India and veto-wielding Russia, and one abstention from China.⁴¹ While experts noted that the resolution was largely symbolic, the text included several specific actions such as a request for the Secretary-General to “integrate climate-related security risks as a central component into comprehensive conflict-prevention strategies.”^{42 43} The United States strongly supported the resolution and noted that “by vetoing this

resolution, Russia has stopped the world's most important body for maintaining international peace and security from taking a small, practical, and necessary step to combat the impacts of climate change." [44](#) In her remarks, Ambassador Linda Thomas-Greenfield spoke in favor of Security Council action arguing that it "can and should complement, support, and reinforce our collective work under the Paris Agreement and the UNFCCC in ways that are necessary to fight this security threat." [45](#)

Conclusion

The Biden administration's return to multilateralism has been challenged by new geo-political realities and a difficult environment at the Security Council. Great power rivalries, a general degradation of the Security Council's ability to carry out its core mandate, and a growing menu of global crises undermine the rhetoric espoused by the Biden administration about a return to multilateral tools to address the world's greatest challenges, including the thematic areas explored in this issue brief. Although the Biden administration's rhetoric has demonstrated an eagerness to utilize the Security Council to develop global solutions, the United States has been repeatedly stymied in trying to undertake even the most cautious of steps on many occasions. For the Security Council to meet the current state of global challenges, it will take more than the arrival of a new administration in Washington. Progress will be slow, but with a commitment that goes beyond just words, the Biden administration could build goodwill amongst Security Council members and move toward a more impactful term.

Validating America's Core Values and Vital Interests to Recraft its Grand Strategy and Grand Strategic Assumptions

By [Chad Buckel](#), [June 24, 2021](#)

AMERICAN POLICY MAKERS MUST REVISIT SOME OF THEIR MOST BASIC GRAND STRATEGIC ASSUMPTIONS, ESPECIALLY THE ONES IT MAKES ABOUT ITSELF.

INTRODUCTION

As the global pandemic recedes, the U.S. emerges to a very different international power dynamic. Strategic assumptions held by America's political and military leaders, rooted in the premise of a world seeking intrusive U.S. leadership and dominance, may no longer be valid.[1] Societies have adapted and economies have been profoundly reshaped, exacerbating old tensions and exposing new challenges, which is testing America's ability to respond and cope. This change is especially true for the U.S., where large social, political, and economic movements have coincided with, and been exacerbated by, the pandemic. Created after the end of the Cold War and revised after the 9/11 terrorist attacks, America bases its strategic outlook on the grand strategic assumptions of U.S. political, military, economic, and social dominance, combined with an assumption of domestic prosperity and unity, that may no longer be valid. To thrive and survive in this new world, the U.S. needs to revise its old grand strategic assumptions, specifically ones about who it is and how it acts in the world.

To do this, American policy makers must revisit some of their most basic grand strategic assumptions, especially the ones it makes about itself. By understanding what it assumes about itself, who it is in the world, and how it acts within that world, the U.S. can reframe what it wants to and can feasibly achieve in domestic and international affairs. To challenge these basic assumptions, U.S. policy makers must first determine, solidify, and validate what constitutes American core values before reexamining what the nation's vital interests are.

According to the Center for Strategic and Budgetary Assessments, seven assumptions underpinned U.S. grand strategy since the end of the Cold War, to include: 1) the maintenance of military primacy, 2) a strong network of allies that export security, 3) the ability to integrate challengers into the U.S.-led system, 4) access to a favorable international system, 5) an end to great power military conflict, 6) the continued spread of democracy, and 7) using technological change to advance U.S. interests.[2]

These assumptions are under constant pressure as the world no longer fits the context that produced them. They reflect a by-gone era that existed in the immediate aftermath of the Cold War. The strategic environment has shifted from a unipolar to multipolar order and the U.S. has begun redefining itself and its place in the world, both domestically and internationally. As a result of these two changes, these seven assumptions become less reflective of reality and must be reassessed.

COHERENT AND RELEVANT STRATEGY CAN ONLY BE CRAFTED BY UNDERSTANDING WHAT PEOPLE VALUE. WHAT A SOCIETY VALUES CAN CHANGE OVER TIME, AND THIS CHANGE MUST BE RECOGNIZED TO UNDERSTAND HOW AN ACTOR WILL ACT AND REACT IN THE WORLD.

To realign and revise America's grand strategic assumptions, the U.S. must first recognize that its image of the post-COVID world must shift. COVID-19, along with a polarized political and social climate and a recovering economy, has placed pressure on how the U.S. views and defines its core values. The reshaping of the nation and how it views its most fundamental values and beliefs will have profound impacts on how the nation formulates strategy, makes assumptions, and acts within the world.

Strategy, particularly grand strategy, is concerned with understanding and exploiting meaning. People rarely fight over objects and places; rather, they fight over the value and meaning that objects and places represent.[3] Coherent and relevant strategy can only be crafted by understanding what people value. What a society values can change over time, and this change must be recognized to understand how an actor will act and react in the world.

Assumptions are made in the absence of evidence and represent general beliefs about the environment, other actors, and one's self. They allow a nation to envision how the international environment will respond to its actions. Strategic assumptions, like any assumption, must exist with certain foundations of fact to be relevant. For an assumption to be accepted as truth, it must be recognized as an assumption and an internal logic must exist to provide a foundation and broad acceptance.

AMERICA'S CORE VALUES

Values are those beliefs that are held in the highest regard and guide perceptions, decisions, and structure actions.[4] They help to determine principles, inform behaviors, set norms, and provide an impetus for how people view themselves and society. COVID-19 and recent unrest have had profound impacts on the American population socially, economically and politically. The pandemic has deeply affected society, causing many Americans to reconsider its core values. This can be seen in debates over vaccination, the role of the police, political fallout from the presidential election, the relationship between man and climate change, and economic disparities amongst certain communities. The pandemic did not cause these issues, but the symptoms and effects of these issues have been amplified by the social changes caused by the pandemic. All of these issues touch America's core values because they are all viewed and acted upon from the lens of those values and how those values are socially interpreted.

BEFORE THE U.S. CAN EFFECTIVELY REFRAME ITS GRAND STRATEGIC ASSUMPTIONS, IT MUST VALIDATE ITS CORE VALUES AT THE POLITICAL AND SOCIAL LEVEL, SO THAT IT CAN THEN EXAMINE ITS VITAL INTERESTS.

From primary American political documents, one can surmise or identify twelve historic core values. These are: freedom, liberty, equality, individual rights, human rights, security, progress, democracy, mobility, prosperity, justice, and free enterprise.[5] Before the U.S. can effectively reframe its grand strategic assumptions, it must validate its core values at the political and social level, so that it can then examine its vital interests. This must occur, prior to examining assumptions, because a person's or organization's beliefs will impact how that person or organization views, processes, and reacts to a situation.

AMERICAN VITAL INTERESTS

U.S. Joint Doctrine defines interests as "those fundamental, enduring conditions a state chooses to pursue." [6] Vital interests are described as those things that people and organizations are willing to sacrifice for, such as security, safety, prosperity, and preservation.[7] To be vital, these interests must be tied to a country's core values, which means that how a group defines security,

safety, prosperity, and preservation will be different for each culture, as will how people justify violence and sacrifice. Causes such as religion, nationalism, fear, honor, and interests are manifestations of national and cultural values.

U.S. capstone strategy documents have institutionalized a broad consensus on what constitutes the country's vital interests. The National Security Strategy and the Interim National Security Strategic Guidance designate several vital interests: protect the security of the American people; protect the homeland and the American way of life; promote American prosperity and opportunity; preserve peace through strength; advance American influence; and realize and defend the democratic values at the heart of the American way of life.[8]

BY DESIGN, OR NOT, AMERICA'S CORE VALUES HAVE SHAPED HOW IT PERCEIVES ITS VITAL NATIONAL INTERESTS, WHICH IN TURN HAS DICTATED WHAT ASSUMPTIONS THE NATION MAKES ABOUT ITSELF AND ITS ENVIRONMENT.

In 1996, a commission of former government officials conducted a study of American vital interests. This commission identified five key interests: (1) prevent, deter, and reduce the threat of nuclear, biological, and chemical weapons attacks on the United States; (2) prevent the emergence of a hostile hegemon in Europe or Asia; (3) prevent the emergence of a hostile major power on U.S. borders or in control of the seas; (4) prevent the catastrophic collapse of major global systems; and (5) ensure the survival of U.S. allies.[9] It is in this document that one begins to see ties to the pre-COVID set of strategic assumptions, outlined by the Center for Strategic and Budgetary Assessments, specifically those that presume America's role and image in the world. For instance, four of the five vital interests start with prevent, assuming a U.S. military primacy, the ability to bring challengers into the U.S. led system, and access to a favorable global system, backed by a growth in democracies and a network of allies.

From these sources, one can surmise seven historic vital interests of the United States. They are: security of the homeland and its people, stability of the western hemisphere and its societies, prosperity of the American people, defense and promotion of democratic and humanitarian values, protection of allies and partners, maintenance of a balance of power in Europe and Asia, and continued access to the global commons. When looked at closely, one can see the influence of the twelve identified core values in this list, and in the ones presented above. By design, or not, America's core values have shaped how it perceives its vital national interests, which in turn has dictated what assumptions the nation makes about itself and its environment.

GRAND STRATEGIC ASSUMPTIONS

Grand strategy is ultimately about relevant advantage against a competitor or in an environment. This means that one actor has an advantage, in some way, over another. Grand strategy is the exception, as it does not focus on any single actor or location; rather, it provides a theory of overall or general success for a country. It is in this inclusive manner that grand strategy guides all other policies and strategies. This is why grand strategy is about relevant advantage: it seeks domestic and international relevance, or logic and coherence to its environment.

By validating its core values and vital interests, policy makers can consciously address central assumptions they make about the U.S. and the world. These assumptions should recognize the world as it is and not as the U.S. would like it to be. These assumptions should not align against a specific situation, but can be tailored to any number of actors or locations for regional policy or strategy development. For instance, an assumption of continued economic growth underpins political, economic, social and military power that the U.S. plans to use over specific environments and actors. This assumption is underpinned by another assumption, that the U.S.

will remain competitive on world markets and have a properly trained and educated workforce.

GRAND STRATEGIC ASSUMPTIONS MUST FIND A BASIS IN SOME FORM OF NATIONAL SENSE OF SELF TO BE VIABLE. THEY MUST BE BASED NOT ONLY ON THE GOALS OF A COUNTRY BUT ALSO ON WHAT THAT COUNTRY STANDS FOR AND VALUES.

Correlating or rationalizing values to interests can enable the U.S. to make sound assumptions about the future of the strategic environment by grounding those assumptions in elements of certainty. Specifically, when making assumptions about itself, values and interest-based grand strategic assumptions will give U.S. policymakers certainty and flexibility. Moreover, such a process would improve the strategic effectiveness of the U.S. by reliably centering the U.S. on its values, enabling flexibility for situational and environmental context, and providing a reliable basis for strategic action.

Some values and interest-based grand strategic assumptions about the future could be: 1) that America will remain an attractive place for immigration and education; 2) that America will be a political and economic power that attracts allies and partners; 3) that America will defend a world order based on equal access, open markets, and rules; 4) that America will defend other nations who share its values; and 5) that America will continue to champion the human and economic rights of individuals and nations. These five assumptions not only link with America's core values, vital interests, and what it seeks to achieve in the world, but they also can be applied and acted on in many different locations around the globe.

GRAND STRATEGIC ASSUMPTIONS MUST FIND A BASIS IN SOME FORM OF NATIONAL SENSE OF SELF TO BE VIABLE. THEY MUST BE BASED NOT ONLY ON THE GOALS OF A COUNTRY BUT ALSO ON WHAT THAT COUNTRY STANDS FOR AND VALUES.

These assumptions also allow for America to make choices in crafting a grand strategy, establishing policies, budgets, and priorities, and driving national conversation. They find relevance within the post-COVID environment and can enable the U.S. and its allies and partners to craft grand strategies that enhance policy aims. These assumptions can also be monitored for accuracy and trends. Since an assumption is accepted as true, assumptions should be purposeful and have a means to prove or deny them.

Grand strategic assumptions must find a basis in some form of national sense of self to be viable. They must be based not only on the goals of a country but also on what that country stands for and values. Grand strategic logic is formed from the linking and interplay of core values, vital interests, and the conditions a nation seeks to create, while remaining grounded in the strategic environment. The post-COVID world will present novel challenges, requiring the U.S. president and his top policymakers to reinvent the relationship between the country's enduring values and its vital interests to the demands of the evolving domestic and international environment. America must validate and acknowledge its core values and vital interests before it can determine what it assumes about itself and the world and before it can seek to establish any realistic goals.

Chad Anthony Buckel is a Marine Infantry Officer. The views expressed in this article are those of the author alone and do not represent those of the Department of Defense, the Department of the Navy, or the U.S. Marine Corps.

NOTES:

[1] Hal Brands, Peter Feaver, William Inboden, and Paul D. Miller, Critical Assumptions and America's Grand Strategy (Center for Strategic and Budgetary Assessments, 2017), 9.

[2] Ibid, 11-21.

[3] Colin S. Gray, Strategy and Defense Planning (Oxford, United Kingdom: Oxford University Press, 2018), 144.

[4] Sarah Sutler-Cohen, Core Values: What they are, why they matter, and how to define yours, accessed on 18 June 2021, (<https://medium.com/@scoutcoaching/core-values-what-they-are-why-they-matter-and-how-to-define-yours-93164383eada>).

[5] "The U.S. Declaration of Independence," National Archives, accessed March 29, 2021, <https://www.archives.gov/founding-docs/declaration-transcript>; "The U.S. Constitution," National Constitution Center, accessed March 29, 2021, <https://constitutioncenter.org/interactive-constitution/full-text>; Office of the President of the United States, National Security Strategy of the United States, 2017, (Washington, DC: Government Publishing Office, 2017), 41; Office of the President of the United States, Interim National Security Strategic Guidance, 2021 (Washington, DC: Government Publishing Office, 2021), Front Letter.

[6] Joint Doctrine Note 1-18, Strategy, vii.

[7] Joint Doctrine Note 1-18, vii.

[8] Office of the President of the United States, National Security Strategy of the United States, 2-4; Office of the President of the United States, Interim National Security Strategic Guidance, 9.

[9] The Commission on America's National Interests, America's National Interests (Cambridge, MA: Center for Science and International Affairs, 1996), 3.

NATO Activates Response Force For The First Time

WRITTEN BY OLYMPIA ILIOPOULOU

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Recently, NATO activated the Alliance's Response Force (NRF) for collective defence and deterrence for the first time. This measure comes as a response to "Russia's massive military build-up" says NATO Secretary-General Jens Stoltenberg. As Russia pushes deeper into Ukraine, units of the NRF, led by France, have already arrived in Romania and remain on high alert.

1. What is NATO's Response Force?

The NRF is a multinational force comprising 40,000 land, sea, air, and special operation troops, including those from non-allied countries such as Finland and Sweden (North Atlantic Treaty Organization, 2022d). It is based on a rotational system where allies commit their units for a period of 12 months and is considered central to NATO's military transformation and interoperability (Barry, 2012).

The NRF was created in 2002 to be a rapidly deployable unit that could provide immediate assistance to any emerging crisis. Since then, NATO has modified the NRF concept three times, adapting to its changing security environment (Ringsmose & Rynning, 2017). At first, the NRF was intended to facilitate operations on non-allied territory, while today it has been linked to collective defence and Article 5 of the North Atlantic Treaty. Furthermore, it is now more preoccupied with providing military responses rather than crisis management. The last modification was made in 2014, responding to Russia's first attacks against Ukraine, and has ever since been focused on Eastern Europe (Ringsmose & Rynning, 2017). The NRF was then doubled in size and reinforced with special units, creating the "enhanced" form with which it is known today. The enhanced NRF consists of four main parts: a Command and Control element; the Very High Readiness Joint Task Force (VJFT); the Initial Follow-On Forces Group (IFFG) and the Response Forces Pool.

It is worth noting that the NRF had long been considered a "failure". The main argument was that "it did not become the operational tool envisioned by the allies in 2002" (Ringsmose & Rynning, 2017, p. 444). More specifically, the principal reasons behind its "failure" were located in the shortcomings of the allied countries, especially the European ones, firstly, in supplying sufficient military forces and, secondly, in reaching a consensus that would give authorisation for the use of the force (Barry, 2012; Ringsmose & Rynning, 2017). That explains why it had never been deployed for defence or deterrence before but only for protection (2004 Summer Olympics in Greece; Afghan presidential elections), disaster relief (2005 Hurricane Katrina; the earthquake in Pakistan), and non-combat evacuation operations (2021 evacuation from Afghanistan). Hence, the decision to activate the NRF now is all the more important as it shows that the Alliance has overcome its chronic constraints and is moving forward more unified than ever.

2. Why is it being activated now?

Considering that Ukraine is not a member country of NATO, it cannot be covered by the security guarantee of the Washington Treaty. Hence, NATO is not deploying its troops directly to Ukraine but instead placing them in strategic positions around the country to reinforce its Eastern presence.

The NRF serves a double role. On the one hand, it ensures readiness, and on the other hand, it offers reassurance to the Eastern allied countries that are feeling nervous over Moscow's aggressiveness. NATO's strong commitment to guaranteeing its allies' safety is well known. In a recent press conference, Stoltenberg was adamant about it "Make no mistake; we will defend and protect every ally against any attack and every inch of NATO territory". He continued, "And that's the reason also we have increased our presence in the eastern part of the alliance with thousands of more troops, ships and planes over the last weeks to send a very clear message; an attack on one ally will trigger the response of the whole Alliance."

In the same vein, "These deterrence measures are prudent and enhance our speed, responsiveness and capability to shield and protect the one billion citizens we swore to protect," said in a statement NATO Supreme Allied Commander Gen. Tod Wolters.

3. Overview of deployments

The exact number of troops that are being deployed following the activation of the NRF remains unspecified. However, Stoltenberg emphasised the Alliance's intention to further increase its presence in the Eastern flank whenever needed.

Currently, in addition to the NRF units that have already arrived in Romania, NATO has enhanced its forward presence in the East with four battalion-sized battlegroups in Estonia, Latvia, Lithuania, and Poland. Of course, these deployments are supported and complemented by allied and especially US troops. The US has several bases in Lithuania, Poland, and Romania, and the Pentagon has also ordered the urgent deployment of over 10,000 additional troops in Europe. Moreover, it has been reported that because of the situation in Ukraine, the Pentagon is considering the establishment of permanent US troops in the Eastern part of the Alliance.

4. The beginning of a new era?

Although it is difficult to say how the situation will evolve, the activation of the NRF as a collective defence tool, for the first time in its existence, sends a clear message that NATO is not taking any chances with the security of the Alliance. Furthermore, it shows that NATO is not a rigid organisation but rather constantly evolves by adapting to the rapidly changing security environment. This activation may be introducing a new era of increased, more efficient, and rapid transatlantic cooperation. After all, as the history of the NRF can attest, if anyone can trigger such a change to the Alliance, it is Russia.

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Russia's Posture in the Mediterranean: Implications for NATO and Europe

MARC PIERINI

In the past decade, Russia has reinforced its posture in and around the Mediterranean—from the Levant to North Africa and, in multiple ways, vis-à-vis Turkey. Through its recent actions, Russia's priorities in the region have revolved around four main axes: boosting its presence in the energy sector; deploying a permanent military force in Syria and fighting Islamist extremism; partnering with Turkey for Russia's wider strategic goals; and making the Russian military presence in the region more efficient through a combination of small bases and military commuting.

In these domains, Russia's stance creates new challenges for NATO and the EU, especially considering the development of permanent bases in Syria, Libya, and Sudan and Russia's involvement in Turkey's missile defense. These implications go far beyond the Mediterranean Basin proper and also concern the Black Sea, Western Europe, and Africa.

When assessed against Russia's prevailing belief that NATO intends to encircle the country, Moscow's activities in the Mediterranean combine a defensive

posture with a renewed ambition to assert its presence on the global stage. NATO and its members should seize the opportunity of a revived transatlantic relationship to respond more robustly in several areas.

The developments surveyed in this article are based on open-source information. This analysis is not an attempt to theorize Russia's strategy in the Mediterranean but an empirical effort to make sense of a significant accumulation of actions in different fields.

POLICY PRIORITIES EMERGING FROM RUSSIAN ACTIONS

The actions taken by Russia in and around the Mediterranean are the country's instruments of choice for competing with the EU and NATO on their southern flank. Moscow's policies benefit from a traditionally strong energy sector and recently revitalized armed forces, but they suffer from a limited financial capacity to intervene outside these two sectors.



Energy Politics

Energy politics has long been a central part of Russia's geopolitical influence in the world. The country's foreign ministry stated in 2013 that [Russia's goal in the field of energy](#) was to "[strengthen] its strategic partnership with major producers of energy resources while actively promoting dialogue with consumers and transit countries."

Analysts have long argued that [energy is a major driver of Moscow's policies in the region](#). According to one expert, "Russia has multiple reasons to intervene in the Eastern Mediterranean. . . . Among its main regional interests . . . is increasing world energy prices. The Russian economy is largely the business of exporting oil and gas. This has been true for decades."

The Mediterranean has indeed been a major focus of this strategy, alongside other components such as reducing Moscow's reliance on Ukraine for gas supplies to Western Europe, thwarting the EU's energy diversification strategy, and creating a new gas corridor toward southeastern Europe via the Turk Stream gas pipeline.

Part of Russia's strategy in the Mediterranean is to get a foothold in countries where new energy developments are taking place. In Egypt, Russia bought from Italy's Eni a 30 percent stake in the [Zohr offshore gas field](#), a major gas-producing field in the Eastern Mediterranean. In Lebanon, [Russia's Novatek has acquired](#) 20 percent of a gas-exploration joint venture of which Italy's Eni and France's Total own 40 percent each. While few developments have taken place in Syria due to the ongoing civil war there, Russia is involved in several oil and gas projects in Iraqi Kurdistan.

In Algeria, Gazprom is involved in hydrocarbon exploration. But it is in Libya that Russia has had the highest stakes since the era of former leader Muammar Qaddafi. Moscow's recent military support for the forces of General Khalifa Haftar in the east and south of the country and the [red line](#) from Sirte to Al Jufrah drawn

by Russian forces and proxies in 2020 have an important energy aspect as much as a strategic dimension.

As for Turkey, where Moscow has long been the major gas supplier, the country's energy dependence on Russia has been boosted by the 2020 entry into service of the Turk Stream pipeline, which feeds Turkey and southeastern Europe, and by the construction of the Akkuyu nuclear power plant, due to enter into service in 2023 under Russian ownership and operational control. While Turkey has reduced its [dependence on its agreements with Moscow](#), Russia is likely to remain an important player in the country's energy sector.

This being said, Russia's use of energy politics for foreign policy purposes has its challenges. The Russian economy relies heavily on energy income, and therefore state resources depend on fluctuations in energy prices. Trade in liquefied natural gas is substantially transforming energy markets worldwide, while the coronavirus-induced recession will result in a lasting drop in energy demand in Western European countries, as will the greening of their economies. And Russia is facing strong competition from Iran and the Gulf kingdoms as major oil and gas producers.

All things considered, [Russia's energy politics](#) will likely remain a crucial component of the country's presence on the world stage, in particular in the Mediterranean. But these policies will have to keep evolving in response to a fast-changing environment in the gas sector and political developments such as the stabilization and reconstruction process in Libya.

A Permanent, Multipurpose Deployment in Syria

Syria has long been a military client of Russia and, previously, the Soviet Union, especially during the 1971–2000 presidency of Hafez al-Assad. The relationship took on a new dimension after the start of the Syrian civil war in 2011 and the gradual disengagement of the United States from the Middle East.

The first of [Russia's military objectives in Syria](#) after its September 2015 intervention was to rescue the army of Syrian President Bashar al-Assad from the brink. Moscow did just that, with an implied political message reminding Western leaders that Russia also has friends, that it cares about them, and that it will not allow them to be ousted at will by Western powers. This attitude mirrored [Moscow's strong disapproval](#) of Western actions against Qaddafi in Libya in 2011—because in its view the West exceeded the mandate authorized by the UN Security Council, because Russia lost an ally and a client, and out of fear that the West could in future organize a color revolution in Russia.

Russia's second objective was to establish a forward military base in the Middle East. Moscow swiftly transformed the Syrian civilian airport of Latakia into an efficient—if rustic by U.S. standards—air force base renamed Hmeimim and substantially increased the use of its naval facility in Tartus. This allowed Russia to launch intensive air campaigns, including against rebels threatening to cut off vital road links between Latakia and Aleppo as well as between Damascus and Aleppo. As the Russian defense minister announced in December 2017, these [two bases were there to stay and grow](#), consistent with Moscow's long-term objectives in the region and vis-à-vis NATO.

Russia's military intervention in Syria served this wider geopolitical objective by demonstrating that Moscow possessed enough military might to respond swiftly to a crisis in accordance with its own interests and independently of other major powers. In addition, Russia deployed much more powerful military assets in Syria than needed to fight an insurgency, with an arsenal that comprised S-400 missiles, cruise missiles launched from the air and from ships in the Caspian and Mediterranean Seas, and an air interdiction policy over parts of Syria. To carry out this military expedition, Russia set up a massive maritime resupply mission via the Turkish Straits, dubbed by some the Tartus Express.

Russia's intervention in Syria has demonstrated Moscow's substantially enhanced capacity to project power. Access to the Mediterranean by sea and air was no constraint for Russian forces when such access corresponded to a political and military priority. Well beyond rescuing the Assad regime, Russia's strategic priority was to beef up its buffer zone against NATO on the country's southern flank. Today, this priority is still a guiding principle of Russia's policy in the Mediterranean and is likely to remain valid for the foreseeable future.

Russia's demonstration of its operational capabilities also served to [showcase its military industry](#) in the Middle East and the Gulf, where arms sales are highly competitive. Being able to prove the combat performance of weapons systems such as fighter aircraft, attack helicopters, cruise missiles, and electronic warfare is a powerful commercial argument for Russia's military industry, as illustrated by Moscow's [sale of Su-35 fighter jets to Egypt](#).

Part of the reason for the intervention in Syria was that Russian authorities have long been wary of Islamist terrorism at home, especially in or from Chechnya, Dagestan, Ingushetia, and Muslim enclaves in Russia's heartland. Paradoxically, the involvement of substantial numbers of Russian Muslims with the so-called Islamic State in Syria and Iraq has reduced the risk of Islamist extremism at home. Moscow's lasting priority is most likely to prevent the return of these fighters to Russian territory.

In addition, Russia's diplomatic mediation to minimize the consequences of a major chemical attack by the Assad regime in 2013 is considered to have worked to the benefit of both Damascus and Moscow. As one analyst noted, "[the role played by Russia](#), sparing the Syrian regime from a military operation by hesitant Western powers, was considered a great victory of [Russian] diplomacy which made the country an important actor in the Middle East."



Russia's Relationship With Turkey

In implementing its energy strategy in Europe and its politico-military strategy in Syria, Russia needed to establish close cooperation with Turkey. But the relationship between Moscow and Ankara took on other dimensions, too.

The Turk Stream pipeline—together with the Nord Stream 1 and 2 pipelines linking Russia and Germany via the Baltic Sea—served to bypass Ukraine and hence keep Moscow's dominance over gas supplies to Western Europe. This deprived the Ukrainian government of transit fees and reduced the attractiveness of pipelines that supply Central Asian gas to Europe via Turkey.

In Syria, the Russia-Turkey relationship is more challenging because, in principle, the two countries have opposite political objectives. Moscow aims at restoring the full control of the Assad regime over Syrian territory, while Ankara supports Assad's ouster.

Yet, various diplomatic contacts since 2016 as well as the Astana Process since 2017 and the 2019 Sochi Agreement have led to Moscow's consent to several Turkish military operations on Syrian territory: Operation Euphrates Shield in 2016, Operation Olive Branch in 2018, Operation Peace Spring in 2019, and Operation Spring Shield in 2020. Relations developed amid some serious military incidents, such as the November 2015 downing of a Russian aircraft by the Turkish Air Force and the February 2020 disabling of an entire Turkish mechanized infantry battalion in Idlib province by Syrian and Russian aircraft.

Despite the ambiguities in the relationship, it can be argued that, up to a point, Russia relied on Turkey—a NATO member—for its operations in Syria, for example when setting up joint Turkish-Russian patrols following the partial withdrawal of U.S. special forces from northeastern Syria obtained by Ankara from former U.S. president Donald Trump's administration. The substantial deployment of Turkish ground troops

also allowed Russia to focus its military deployment on the air force, the navy, force protection, and joint patrols of its military police with the Turkish Land Forces.

Another major development was the July 15, 2016 coup attempt in Turkey. This was a turning point for Russia, as it created an opportunity to enhance military and political relations. While Moscow, like all Western capitals, supported Turkey's president after the coup attempt, it uttered no criticism of potential breaches of the rule of law following the failed takeover. The Russian president hosted his Turkish counterpart in Saint Petersburg on August 8, 2016. Days earlier, this author had hypothesized that the coup attempt might encourage Russia to “go for a long-term game-changing move and [lure Turkey away from the West](#) as part of a broader geopolitical reconfiguration.” It was indeed the beginning of an opportunistic convergence of minds, which culminated in 2019 in the delivery and deployment by Turkey of Russian-made [S-400 missile systems](#). More generally, this first sale of Russian armaments to Turkey heralded an era of Ankara's repositioning partly outside the [Atlantic alliance](#).

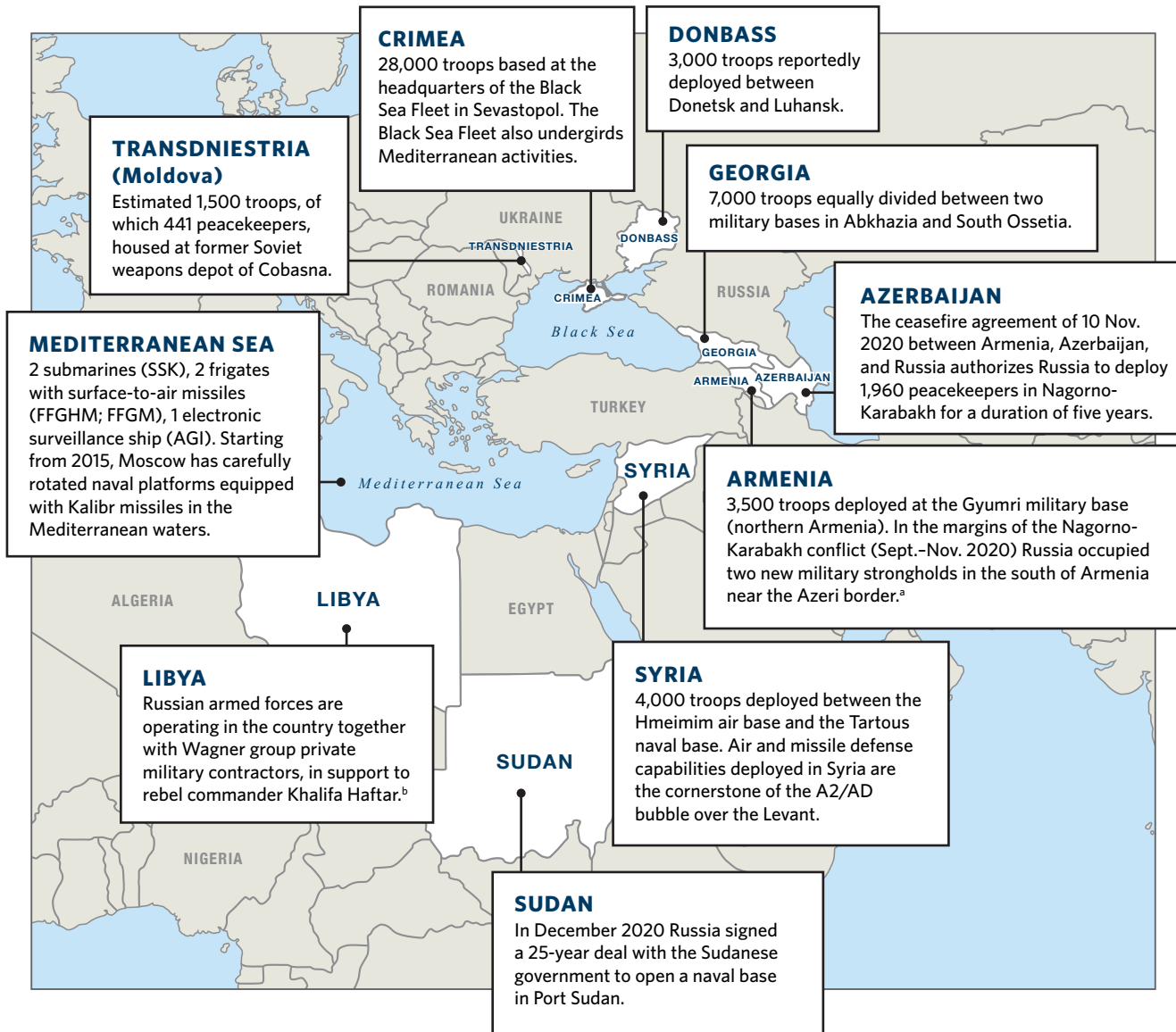
When Russia's and Turkey's respective positions on the Libyan conflict, the disputed territory of Nagorno-Karabakh, and eastern Ukraine and Crimea are added to the picture, the relationship between the two countries in the Mediterranean and beyond can best be described as an unusual mix of cooperation and managed divergences, sometimes referred to as conflictual connivance. Barring a major conflict between Russia and NATO in another region, the pattern of cooperation between Moscow and Ankara in Syria is likely to continue in the near future.

Russia's Economic and Military Presence in the Mediterranean

Beyond the energy sector, Russia has a strong economic presence in the Mediterranean (see map 1), especially in [Cyprus](#), where tourism, banking, and real estate are the main sectors of activity. The [Russian Navy](#) makes

MAP 1

Russia's Presence in and Around the Mediterranean Basin



a <https://www.reuters.com/world/russian-military-armenia-reinforce-areas-near-azeri-border-agencies-2021-05-03/>, last accessed May 27, 2021.

b <https://www.aficom.mil/pressrelease/32887/russia-deploys-military-fighter-aircraft-to-l>, last accessed May 27, 2021.

NOTE: Unless otherwise indicated, all figures are taken from IISS Military Balance 2021.



calls to the Cypriot port of Limassol for replenishment purposes. Russia and Cyprus are both keen to keep a strong political relationship.

Russia has long maintained a military presence in the Eastern Mediterranean, including bases in Egypt until 1972. Later, Moscow substantially downsized its presence, with only a small naval resupply facility in the Syrian city of Tartus. Russia is now returning to a more ambitious presence with what one observer has called “a commitment to playing the long game against NATO in the East Mediterranean.” Meanwhile, Moscow’s “steadfast belief in a Western encirclement strategy continues to shape its vision and activities, including the current build-up in the Mediterranean.” This defensive strategy starts in the Black Sea, extends to Syria and the Eastern Mediterranean, and, ultimately, reaches into sub-Saharan Africa and the Red Sea.

The Mediterranean is an area of choice for Russia’s naval strategy. Short of being able to pose a global challenge to the U.S. Navy, Moscow opts for a more circumscribed area of competition. In the words of one analyst, “for Russia, the Mediterranean symbolizes the larger competition between Moscow and Washington. By building up its naval forces, Russia is hoping to circumscribe NATO access to the region, protect Russia’s southern flank, and assist its current and potential future client states in the region.” The same analyst argues that, for economic reasons, “Moscow’s focus on developing and augmenting the Mediterranean squadron is . . . a far more achievable limited objective that is well-aligned with Russia’s foreign policy objectives in the region.”

Regarding the air force segment of Moscow’s strategy, short of developing major infrastructure comparable with the joint Turkish-U.S. air base at Incirlik, Russia has opted for swift and opportunistic initiatives. These include transforming the Latakia civilian airport into a military base, taking over facilities left behind by U.S. special forces in northeastern Syria, and repairing the damaged Al Jufrah air base in Libya.

Overall, Russia has implemented a very consistent strategy in terms of its defensive posture against NATO. Moscow has now deployed S-400 missile systems in Crimea, Abkhazia, and Syria while presumably keeping a degree of control over the S-400 systems sold to Turkey. This creates a vastly improved buffer zone on Russia’s southern flank, including the Black Sea and the Eastern Mediterranean.

IMPLICATIONS BEYOND THE MEDITERRANEAN

Russia’s air and sea bases bring additional benefits for its military deployments overseas. Beyond the Mediterranean itself, Moscow’s assertive posture in the region has significant consequences farther afield. These concern not only countries in the wider region, such as Libya and Sudan, but also the NATO alliance as well as Russia’s place on the international stage.

Syria as a Stepping Stone

Under the reasonable assumption that Russia’s presence in Syria is for the long term, cooperation with Turkey will remain crucial. If Russian military planes were to routinely fly over Anatolia—on routes similar to those taken by VIP and humanitarian flights on December 22, 2019 and March 29, 2020—flights from the Moscow area (specifically the Chkalovskiy Air Base) to Syria (Hmeimim) would be considerably shortened from some 3,600 kilometers (2,236 miles) over the Caspian Sea, Iran, and Iraq, to around 2,350 kilometers (1,460 miles) over Anatolia.

Under this hypothesis, by using Hmeimim as a stepping stone for operations in Libya, Russia could also shorten the flight route from some 5,500 kilometers (3,400 miles) to around 4,300 kilometers (2,700 miles), saving nearly one-fourth of the distance.

MAP 2

Moscow—Latakia Air Corridors



SOURCE: Author's elaboration.



Russia will likely continue to use its fixed bases in Syria—the Hmeimim air base and the Tartus naval station—in combination with an increased mobility of air and naval assets drawn from home bases and regularly rotated. This formula of military commuting offers Russia a favorable cost-benefit ratio.

In this strategic context, the resolution of the Syrian civil war through multilateral dialogue is probably a lesser concern for Moscow. On the contrary, maintaining a close relationship with Assad will allow Moscow to not only develop its military infrastructure in the country but also help contain both Iran and Turkey in Syria.

Libya and Sudan as the Next Steps?

The possibility of Russia developing a permanent base at Al Jufrah in Libya and deploying high-end assets there has considerable implications for NATO and the EU. In the words of a general from [U.S. Africa Command](#), “if Russia secures a permanent position in Libya and, worse, deploys long-range missile systems, it will be a game changer for Europe, NATO, and many Western nations.” In addition, the use of a forward base in Al Jufrah would enhance Russia’s existing capability to [deploy private military contractors \(PMCs\)](#) in sub-Saharan Africa, such as in the Central African Republic. However, Russia’s eventual permanent presence in Libya will very much depend on the UN-led peace process in the country, which clearly calls for the withdrawal of all foreign forces—regular troops and PMCs—from Libyan territory.

From a European perspective, a lack of lasting stability in Libya would pose multiple challenges, from the security of energy supplies to irregular migration from sub-Saharan Africa, in addition to a permanent Russian military presence. This makes Libya a [European emergency](#).

Similar reasoning applies to forthcoming developments concerning a Russian naval base on Sudan’s Red Sea

coast, using the Tartus naval base as a springboard. [If fully implemented](#), this move would clearly enhance the Russian Navy’s capabilities to project forces in the Red Sea, the Arabian Sea, and the Indian Ocean. To an extent, such a facility would partly match U.S. and French infrastructure in Djibouti and the Persian Gulf.

Shaping Turkey’s Missile Defense as a Wedge in NATO’s Policies

Implanting Russian missile defense systems at the heart of a major NATO air force through its 2019 sale of the S-400 system to Turkey was a major political achievement for the Kremlin. It disrupted NATO’s European defense architecture and caused a sharp degradation of the U.S.-Turkey relationship. Although Moscow did not offer technology transfers associated with the sale, despite Turkish claims to the contrary and ongoing negotiations on [future technology transfers](#), Russia did manage to shape Turkey’s missile defense architecture to its advantage.

Having evaluated the psychological damage left by the July 2016 failed coup, in which Turkey’s own air force attacked major state buildings for the first time ever, and taking advantage of Turkey’s protracted and unsuccessful negotiations with the United States on missile defense, Moscow offered Ankara an oversized system relative to the actual threats linked to the coup. There is no immediate medium- or long-range missile threat to Turkey since the country is currently allied in Syria with both Iran and Russia. The hypothesis of a Greek or Israeli missile attack on Turkey makes no sense, even as part of a conspiracy theory.

The end result of Moscow’s achievement is of staggering significance. First, Russia has set foot in the heart of a major NATO air force with sophisticated systems that require the calibration of the entire inventory of the Turkish Air Force, which is mostly U.S. made, and periodic maintenance—that is, access—by Russian personnel.

Second, Russia has prevented the deployment of U.S.-made Patriot missiles—or their French-Italian alternative—on its southern flank, whereas it would be normal practice for a NATO member to procure missile defense systems from within the alliance for the sake of operational compatibility.

Third, by betting on U.S. sanctions imposed in relation to the S-400 procurement, which led the United States to cancel Turkey's purchase of U.S.-made F-35 stealth fighters, Moscow has prevented the sale of one hundred F-35s to Turkey's air force and, potentially, twenty additional F-35b aircraft to operate from the *Anadolu* helicopter carrier. In so doing, Russia has reduced NATO's potential deployment of stealth fighters over the Black Sea and the Eastern Mediterranean. Simultaneously, Moscow has made political gains and opened military sales prospects with Turkey while degrading the country's standing as a NATO military power.

Fourth, given [Turkey's exclusion from the F-35 industrial program](#), Russia has indirectly weakened Ankara's aerospace industry. That [industry is now losing an estimated \\$1.4 billion](#) of subcontracting orders and, more importantly, is deprived of a beneficial high-technology cooperation scheme.

In the context of its perception of a Western threat, Russia has drawn a double strategic benefit from its S-400 sale to Turkey: Russia's southern flank is now free of both Patriot missiles and F-35 stealth fighters. If the view of one analyst that a resolution of the U.S.-Turkey disagreement over S-400 missiles is "[a long way off](#)" proves correct, this strategic benefit for Moscow will be all the more substantial. At the time of writing, NATO has not drawn any consequences from the new situation in Turkey. A NATO advanced radar station is operational in Kürecik in Malatya Province, Eastern Anatolia.

The Mediterranean as a Way to Return to the World Stage

At issue in the Mediterranean is not only Russia's control of Syria and, potentially, part of Libya. [Moscow's wider objective](#) is clearly to counter Western—that is, NATO—influence on Russia's southeastern and southern flanks. Consistent with past and current actions in Crimea, eastern Ukraine, Georgia, and Armenia—and farther afield in the Arctic and the Baltic—the Kremlin is intent on countering what it perceives as the anti-Russian stance of Western powers.

Russian President Vladimir Putin explained his country's overall strategy in his September 28, 2015, speech to the UN General Assembly. In short, he asserted that from then on, the world order would be shaped with Russia at the table, not by the United States and its European allies alone. Already at that time, the [global diplomatic dimension of the Russian takeover](#) in Syria was clear. Even before the military buildup had been fully documented, Moscow's creation of a kind of protectorate in western Syria gave a tangible dimension to the Russian concept of a new world order. From Moscow's perspective, that meant putting an end to the West's propensity to unilaterally impose its own global order.

In the words of Carnegie's Dmitri Trenin, a preliminary result of [Moscow's military campaign in Syria](#) was that "Russia did away with the U.S. monopoly on political and military action in the Middle East." Trenin further argued that this was perhaps not the outcome of a grand strategy but instead showed that Russia's opportunistic return to the region was of strategic importance in that it brought the country back to the top level of global politics.

If this assessment were to hold water, it would illustrate how much Russia's campaign in Syria, its limited deployment in Libya, and its complex interactions with Turkey represent a game changer in European and transatlantic geopolitics. Whether Russia acted

according to a grand design or not, questions arise about the weak reactions of NATO allies to Moscow's politico-military initiatives in the Mediterranean.

ISSUES FOR NATO MEMBERS

NATO and its members keep Russia's military deployment in the Mediterranean and the Black Sea under close watch (see map 3). The alliance's efforts are made easier by the return to a peaceful relationship between the U.S. administration and its European partners, the EU, and NATO. Going forward, these efforts should focus on three main areas.

Actively Supporting Multilateral Conflict Prevention

In recent years, the reactions of Western countries facing Russian activities on the European continent have mostly consisted of successive economic sanctions, the effectiveness of which is questionable.

Ironically, Western countries have not collectively invested a substantial level of coordinated diplomatic resources into the multilateral resolution of the Syrian war or the Libyan stalemate. In many ways, Russia has used this vacuum to fill the voids, autonomously advance its own interests, and create facts on the ground that prove difficult to reverse.

MAP 3

NATO's Presence in and Around the Mediterranean Basin



SOURCE: <https://www.nato.int/nato-on-the-map/#lat=37.50498572336105&lon=23.897068827266963&zoom=1&layer=5;>
[https://www.americansecurityproject.org/national-security-strategy/u-s-bases-in-the-middle-east/;](https://www.americansecurityproject.org/national-security-strategy/u-s-bases-in-the-middle-east/) both last accessed on May 4, 2021.

The depth of the Syrian crisis and its unfathomable human consequences as well as the fragility of the stabilization process in Libya require Western countries to put their weight behind the multilateral processes available to bring peace and stability to the two countries. This task cannot take place without a modicum of consensus between Western nations and Russia, and it will constitute a litmus test for the political and military stability of the region as a whole.

A recently proposed multilateral conference on the Eastern Mediterranean gathering all parties concerned will face difficulties in materializing. Such an initiative would imply, among other things, the presence at the table of the so-called Turkish Republic of Northern Cyprus, an entity recognized only by Turkey. A more modest track 2 format consisting of nongovernmental and informal contacts might be a useful venue for unofficial dialogue on energy and maritime boundaries in the region.

Reassessing NATO's Military Presence in the Mediterranean and the Black Sea

NATO and its members can enhance their military presence in the Mediterranean and the Black Sea in multiple ways. First, they can increase the rotations of their naval forces in the area, given that their major bases—Taranto in southern Italy, Toulon in southern France, and Rota in Spain—are some distance away. Meanwhile, the United States is upgrading the Souda Bay naval station in Crete, Greece. Naval aviation and air surveillance assets, already very active over the Black Sea, will play an enhanced role over the Eastern Mediterranean.

Second, NATO allies should increase the readiness and interoperability of their air and naval forces as a

way to improve collective efficiency and cost-sharing among them. Third, allies should boost the efficiency of NATO's joint naval operations that contribute to maritime security in the area, such as Operation Sea Guardian.

Reevaluating Turkey-Russia Relations

Despite occasional claims to the contrary, it is a fact that Russia's sale of missile defense systems to Turkey has created a major issue for NATO's defense architecture, to the point that no progress can be realistically expected from an approach based on technical committees. At the same time, deactivating S-400 missiles located in Turkey and storing them under international supervision would probably create a crisis between Ankara and Moscow—and possibly beyond.

NATO and its members will have to evaluate the situation carefully while avoiding a scenario in which the status quo develops into a fresh crisis between Russia and the United States. Yet, the bottom line for the United States and NATO in this respect is simple: Turkey's deployment of S-400 missiles is mutually exclusive with its acquisition of F-35 fighter jets and creates a distinct incompatibility with NATO's policies and procedures, since interoperability remains a key principle for the Alliance.

Overall, Russia's more assertive posture in the Mediterranean calls for a concerted and efficient response from NATO allies, given the multiple effects it could have on transatlantic and European interests in the region at large—as well as in terms of reducing the role of the United Nations system in resolving regional conflicts. Europe's interests are particularly high in the fields of energy, trade and investment, irregular migration, and security.

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NOTES

For complete source notes, please read this article at [CarnegieEurope.eu](https://carnegieeurope.eu).

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North Atlantic Treaty Organization

U.S. MISSION

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Fact Sheet: 2022 National Defense Strategy

Today, the Department of Defense transmitted to Congress the classified 2022 National Defense Strategy (NDS).

For the first time, the Department conducted its strategic reviews in a fully integrated way – incorporating the Nuclear Posture Review (NPR) and Missile Defense Review (MDR) in the NDS – ensuring tight linkages between our strategy and our resources. The unclassified NDS will be forthcoming.

Consistent with the President’s Interim National Security Strategic Guidance, the classified NDS sets out how the Department of Defense will contribute to advancing and safeguarding vital U.S. national interests – protecting the American people, expanding America’s prosperity, and realizing and defending our democratic values.

The Defense priorities are:

1. Defending the homeland, paced to the growing multi-domain threat posed by the PRC
2. Deterring strategic attacks against the United States, Allies, and partners
3. Deterring aggression, while being prepared to prevail in conflict when necessary, prioritizing the PRC challenge in the Indo-Pacific, then the Russia challenge in Europe
4. Building a resilient Joint Force and defense ecosystem.

The Department will act urgently to sustain and strengthen deterrence, with the People’s Republic of China (PRC) as our most consequential strategic competitor and the pacing challenge for the Department.

Russia poses acute threats, as illustrated by its brutal and unprovoked invasion of Ukraine. We will collaborate with our NATO Allies and partners to reinforce robust deterrence in the face of Russian aggression.

The Department will remain capable of managing other persistent threats, including those from North Korea, Iran, and violent extremist organizations.

Changes in global climate and other dangerous transboundary threats, including pandemics, are transforming the context in which the Department operates. We will adapt to these challenges, which increasingly place pressure on the Joint Force and the systems that support it.

Recognizing growing kinetic and non-kinetic threats to the United States’ homeland from our strategic competitors, the Department will take necessary actions to increase resilience – our ability to withstand, fight through, and recover quickly from disruption.

Mutually-beneficial Alliances and partnerships are an enduring strength for the United States, and are critical to achieving our objectives, as the unified response to Russia's further invasion of Ukraine has demonstrated. Answering this "call to action," the Department will incorporate ally and partner perspectives, competencies, and advantages at every stage of defense planning.

The Department will advance our goals through three primary ways: integrated deterrence, campaigning, and actions that build enduring advantages.

- Integrated deterrence entails developing and combining our strengths to maximum effect, by working seamlessly across warfighting domains, theaters, the spectrum of conflict, other instruments of U.S. national power, and our unmatched network of Alliances and partnerships. Integrated deterrence is enabled by combat-credible forces, backstopped by a safe, secure, and effective nuclear deterrent.
- Campaigning will strengthen deterrence and enable us to gain advantages against the full range of competitors' coercive actions. The United States will operate forces, synchronize broader Department efforts, and align Department activities with other instruments of national power, to undermine acute forms of competitor coercion, complicate competitors' military preparations, and develop our own warfighting capabilities together with Allies and partners.
- Building enduring advantages for the future Joint Force involves undertaking reforms to accelerate force development, getting the technology we need more quickly, and making investments in the extraordinary people of the Department, who remain our most valuable resource.

The Department will develop, design, and manage our forces – linking our operational concepts and capabilities to achieve strategic objectives. This requires a Joint Force that is lethal, resilient, sustainable, survivable, agile, and responsive.

The North Atlantic Treaty (1949)

Washington D.C. - 4 April 1949

The Parties to this Treaty reaffirm their faith in the purposes and principles of the Charter of the United Nations and their desire to live in peace with all peoples and all governments.

They are determined to safeguard the freedom, common heritage and civilisation of their peoples, founded on the principles of democracy, individual liberty and the rule of law. They seek to promote stability and well-being in the North Atlantic area.

They are resolved to unite their efforts for collective defence and for the preservation of peace and security. They therefore agree to this North Atlantic Treaty:

Article 1

The Parties undertake, as set forth in the Charter of the United Nations, to settle any international dispute in which they may be involved by peaceful means in such a manner that international peace and security and justice are not endangered, and to refrain in their international relations from the threat or use of force in any manner inconsistent with the purposes of the United Nations.

Article 2

The Parties will contribute toward the further development of peaceful and friendly international relations by strengthening their free institutions, by bringing about a better understanding of the principles upon which these institutions are founded, and by promoting conditions of stability and well-being. They will seek to eliminate conflict in their international economic policies and will encourage economic collaboration between any or all of them.

Article 3

In order more effectively to achieve the objectives of this Treaty, the Parties, separately and jointly, by means of continuous and effective self-help and mutual aid, will maintain and develop their individual and collective capacity to resist armed attack.

Article 4

The Parties will consult together whenever, in the opinion of any of them, the territorial integrity, political independence or security of any of the Parties is threatened.

Article 5

The Parties agree that an armed attack against one or more of them in Europe or North America shall be considered an attack against them all and consequently they agree that, if such an armed attack occurs, each of them, in exercise of the right of individual or collective self-defence recognised by Article 51 of the Charter of the United Nations, will assist the Party or Parties so attacked by taking forthwith, individually and in concert with the other Parties, such action as it deems necessary, including the use of armed force, to restore and maintain the security of the North Atlantic area.

Any such armed attack and all measures taken as a result thereof shall immediately be reported to the Security Council. Such measures shall be terminated when the Security Council has taken the measures necessary to restore and maintain international peace and security.



Article 6 (1)

For the purpose of Article 5, an armed attack on one or more of the Parties is deemed to include an armed attack:

- on the territory of any of the Parties in Europe or North America, on the Algerian Departments of France (2), on the territory of or on the Islands under the jurisdiction of any of the Parties in the North Atlantic area north of the Tropic of Cancer;
- on the forces, vessels, or aircraft of any of the Parties, when in or over these territories or any other area in Europe in which occupation forces of any of the Parties were stationed on the date when the Treaty entered into force or the Mediterranean Sea or the North Atlantic area north of the Tropic of Cancer.

Article 7

This Treaty does not affect, and shall not be interpreted as affecting in any way the rights and obligations under the Charter of the Parties which are members of the United Nations, or the primary responsibility of the Security Council for the maintenance of international peace and security.

Article 8

Each Party declares that none of the international engagements now in force between it and any other of the Parties or any third State is in conflict with the provisions of this Treaty, and undertakes not to enter into any international engagement in conflict with this Treaty.

Article 9

The Parties hereby establish a Council, on which each of them shall be represented, to consider matters concerning the implementation of this Treaty. The Council shall be so organised as to be able to meet promptly at any time. The Council shall set up such subsidiary bodies as may be necessary; in particular it shall establish immediately a defence committee which shall recommend measures for the implementation of Articles 3 and 5.

Article 10

The Parties may, by unanimous agreement, invite any other European State in a position to further the principles of this Treaty and to contribute to the security of the North Atlantic area to accede to this Treaty. Any State so invited may become a Party to the Treaty by depositing its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America. The Government of the United States of America will inform each of the Parties of the deposit of each such instrument of accession.

Article 11

This Treaty shall be ratified and its provisions carried out by the Parties in accordance with their respective constitutional processes. The instruments of ratification shall be deposited as soon as possible with the Government of the United States of America, which will notify all the other signatories of each deposit. The Treaty shall enter into force between the States which have ratified it as soon as the ratifications of the majority of the signatories, including the ratifications of Belgium, Canada, France, Luxembourg, the Netherlands, the United Kingdom and the United States, have been deposited and shall come into effect with respect to other States on the date of the deposit of their ratifications. (3)



Article 12

After the Treaty has been in force for ten years, or at any time thereafter, the Parties shall, if any of them so requests, consult together for the purpose of reviewing the Treaty, having regard for the factors then affecting peace and security in the North Atlantic area, including the development of universal as well as regional arrangements under the Charter of the United Nations for the maintenance of international peace and security.

Article 13

After the Treaty has been in force for twenty years, any Party may cease to be a Party one year after its notice of denunciation has been given to the Government of the United States of America, which will inform the Governments of the other Parties of the deposit of each notice of denunciation.

Article 14

This Treaty, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies will be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of other signatories.

1. The definition of the territories to which Article 5 applies was revised by Article 2 of the Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the accession of Greece and Turkey signed on 22 October 1951.
2. On January 16, 1963, the North Atlantic Council noted that insofar as the former Algerian Departments of France were concerned, the relevant clauses of this Treaty had become inapplicable as from July 3, 1962.
3. The Treaty came into force on 24 August 1949, after the deposition of the ratifications of all signatory states.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of Greece and Turkey

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Kingdom of Greece and the Republic of Turkey to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Government of the United States of America shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Kingdom of Greece and the Government of the Republic of Turkey an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty, as it may be modified by Article 2 of the present Protocol. Thereafter the Kingdom of Greece and the Republic of Turkey shall each become a Party on the date when it deposits its instruments of accession with the Government of the United States of America in accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty.

Article 2

If the Republic of Turkey becomes a Party to the North Atlantic Treaty, Article 6 of the Treaty shall, as from the date of the deposit by the Government of the Republic of Turkey of its instruments of accession with the Government of the United States of America, be modified to read as follows:

For the purpose of Article 5, an armed attack on one or more of the Parties is deemed to include an armed attack:

1. on the territory of any of the Parties in Europe or North America, on the Algerian Departments of France, on the territory of Turkey or on the islands under the jurisdiction of any of the Parties in the North Atlantic area north of the Tropic of Cancer;
2. on the forces, vessels, or aircraft of any of the Parties, when in or over these territories or any other area in Europe in which occupation forces of any of the Parties were stationed on the date when the Treaty entered into force or the Mediterranean Sea or the North Atlantic area north of the Tropic of Cancer.

Article 3

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of the receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 4

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Federal Republic of Germany

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Federal Republic of Germany to that Treaty, and Having noted that the Federal Republic of Germany has, by a declaration dated October 3, 1954, accepted the obligations set forth in Article 2 of the Charter of the United Nations and has undertaken upon its accession to the North Atlantic Treaty to refrain from any action inconsistent with the strictly defensive character of that Treaty, and

Having further noted that all member governments have associated themselves with the declaration also made on October 3, 1954, by the Governments of the United States of America, the United Kingdom of Great Britain and Northern Ireland and the French Republic in connection with the aforesaid declaration of the Federal Republic of Germany, Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of the present Protocol, the Government of the United States of America shall on behalf of all the Parties communicate to the Government of the Federal Republic of Germany an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. Thereafter the Federal Republic of Germany shall become a Party to that Treaty on the date when it deposits its instruments of accession with the Government of the United States of America in accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force, when

- a. each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified to the Government of the United States of America its acceptance thereof,
- b. all instruments of ratification of the Protocol modifying and completing the Brussels Treaty have been deposited with the Belgian Government, and
- c. all instruments of ratification or approval of the Convention on the Presence of Foreign Forces in the Federal Republic of Germany have been deposited with the Government of the Federal Republic of Germany.

The Government of the United States of America shall inform the other Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of the receipt of each notification of acceptance of the present Protocol and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of the other Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of Spain

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Kingdom of Spain to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organization shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Kingdom of Spain an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Kingdom of Spain shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Czech Republic

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Czech Republic to that Treaty,

Agree as follows :

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organization shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Czech Republic an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with article 10 of the Treaty, the Czech Republic shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.

In witness whereof, the undersigned plenipotentiaries have signed the present Protocol.

Signed at Brussels on the 16th day of December 1997.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Republic of Hungary

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Hungary to that Treaty,

Agree as follows :

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organization shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Hungary an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Hungary shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.

In witness whereof, the undersigned plenipotentiaries have signed the present Protocol.

Signed at Brussels on the 16th day of December 1997.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Republic of Poland

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Poland to that Treaty,

Agree as follows :

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organization shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Poland an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Poland shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.

In witness whereof, the undersigned plenipotentiaries have signed the present Protocol.

Signed at Brussels on the 16th day of December 1997.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Republic of Bulgaria

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Bulgaria to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Bulgaria an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Bulgaria shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Republic of Estonia

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Estonia to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Estonia an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Estonia shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the accession of the Republic of Latvia

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Latvia to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Latvia an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Latvia shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the accession of the Republic of Lithuania

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Lithuania to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Lithuania an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Lithuania shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the accession of Romania

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of Romania to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of Romania an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, Romania shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the accession of the Slovak Republic

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Slovak Republic to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Slovak Republic an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Slovak Republic shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the accession of the Republic of Slovenia

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Slovenia to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Slovenia an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with Article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Slovenia shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Republic of Albania

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Albania to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Albania an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Albania shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.

In witness whereof, the undersigned plenipotentiaries have signed the present Protocol.

Signed at Brussels on the 1st day of April 2009.



Protocol to the North Atlantic Treaty on the Accession of the Republic of Croatia

The Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty, signed at Washington on April 4, 1949,

Being satisfied that the security of the North Atlantic area will be enhanced by the accession of the Republic of Croatia to that Treaty,

Agree as follows:

Article 1

Upon the entry into force of this Protocol, the Secretary General of the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation shall, on behalf of all the Parties, communicate to the Government of the Republic of Croatia an invitation to accede to the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with article 10 of the Treaty, the Republic of Croatia shall become a Party on the date when it deposits its instrument of accession with the Government of the United States of America.

Article 2

The present Protocol shall enter into force when each of the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty has notified the Government of the United States of America of its acceptance thereof. The Government of the United States of America shall inform all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty of the date of receipt of each such notification and of the date of the entry into force of the present Protocol.

Article 3

The present Protocol, of which the English and French texts are equally authentic, shall be deposited in the Archives of the Government of the United States of America. Duly certified copies thereof shall be transmitted by that Government to the Governments of all the Parties to the North Atlantic Treaty.

In witness whereof, the undersigned plenipotentiaries have signed the present Protocol.

Signed at Brussels on the 1st day of April 2009.



10 things you need to know about NATO

1. **Collective defence:** The North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) was founded in 1949 and is a group of 29 countries from Europe and North America that exists to protect the people and territory of its members. The Alliance is founded on the principle of 'collective defence,' meaning that if one NATO Ally is attacked, then all NATO Allies are attacked. For example, when terrorists attacked the United States on 9/11 2001, all NATO Allies stood with America as though they had also been attacked.



Allied forces training during NATO Exercise Trident Juncture 2015

Since 2014, NATO has implemented the biggest increase in its collective defence since the Cold War. For instance, we have now deployed four multinational battlegroups to Estonia, Latvia, Lithuania and Poland. Their purpose is not to provoke a conflict, but to prevent one.

2. **Managing crises around the world:** Promoting stability in our neighbourhood and protecting our people at home can sometimes mean taking action further afield. In the 1990s, NATO stopped further bloodshed from occurring in Bosnia and Kosovo. Since 2003, NATO has helped to ensure that Afghanistan is no longer a safe haven for international terrorist groups. NATO has also helped to prevent piracy off the Horn of Africa and, since 2016, has helped address the refugee and migrant crisis in Europe.

3. **Fighting Terrorism:** NATO plays an important role in fighting terrorism, contributing 16,000 NATO troops to train local forces in Afghanistan. NATO is also a full member of the Global Coalition to Defeat ISIS, and our AWACS surveillance aircraft continue to support the Coalition. At the Brussels Summit, we will launch a new training mission in Iraq, to help Iraqi forces prevent the re-emergence of ISIS or other terrorist groups. Our new Intelligence Division helps us to anticipate and respond to threats. In Naples, NATO has set up a 'Hub for the South' to help monitor regional threats and coordinate efforts.



NATO troops train and advise the Afghan National Army

4. **Working with our partners:** Because threats like terrorism, piracy and cyber warfare know no borders, NATO is committed to cooperation with its global partners. That's why we work with over 40 partner countries around the world, as well as organisations such as the United Nations, the European Union, the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) and the African Union, to spread stability and security.
5. **Troops and Equipment:** Whenever NATO carries out a mission, individual Allies commit troops and equipment to be placed under a unified NATO command. These become known as "NATO forces." The only military equipment that NATO owns is a fleet of AWACS (Airborne Warning and Control) surveillance aircraft. NATO is also developing a capability for Global Hawk surveillance drones.

6. **NATO's Command Structure:** With so many countries working together, having a clear chain of command is vital. Military and civilian personnel from all member states work together every day within NATO's 'Command Structure.' This includes two top-level Strategic Commands: Allied Command Operations, based in Mons, Belgium; and Allied Command Transformation, based in Norfolk in the United States. To remain fit for purpose, the NATO Command Structure is being modernised to enable us to move forces more quickly across Europe and to keep sea lines of communication across the Atlantic free and open.
7. **NATO funding:** Every NATO country contributes to the costs of running the Alliance. By far the Allies' biggest contribution comes in the form of taking part in NATO-led missions and operations. For example, one country might provide fighter jets, while another provides ships, equipment or troops. NATO Allies also provide direct funding to NATO to cover the costs of NATO staff and facilities, its Command Structure and its jointly-owned equipment, like its AWACS aircraft.
8. **Defence Spending:** At the Wales Summit in 2014, NATO Allies pledged to invest more and better in defence – to stop the cuts, move towards spending 2% of GDP on defence by 2024, and to spend 20% of that on major equipment. We are making progress. Over the last four years, European Allies and Canada have spent 87 billion US dollars more on defence.
9. **The "Open Door" Policy:** The Open Door Policy is a founding principle of NATO and means that any country in the Euro-Atlantic area is free to join NATO if it is prepared to meet the standards and obligations of membership, contributes to the security of the Alliance, and shares NATO's values of democracy, reform, and the rule of law. Since 1949, NATO's membership has grown from 12 to 29 countries. In 2017, we welcomed Montenegro as our 29th member of the NATO Alliance.
10. **Cyber Defence:** Cyber-attacks are becoming more common, sophisticated and damaging, making cyber defence a top priority for NATO. In fact, NATO now recognises cyberspace as an 'operational domain' – just as land, sea or air. NATO helps Allies to boost their cyber defences by sharing information about threats, investing in education and training, and through exercises. NATO also has cyber defence experts that can be sent to help Allies under attack.



Image from Locked Shields 2017, the world's largest cyber defence exercise, in Estonia.

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NATO Response Force

The purpose of the NATO Response Force (NRF) concept is to provide NATO with a robust and credible high readiness capability, which is fully trained and certified as a joint and combined armed force, able to deploy quickly to participate in the full spectrum of NATO missions wherever required. The concept of NRF was first endorsed with a declaration of NATO's Heads of State at the Prague Summit on 22 November 2002 and is planned to be fully developed by October 2006.

First elements of the NRF are able to deploy within five days and the whole force is able to operate self-sufficiently for 30 days. Depending on the mission circumstances the NRF will either operate as an Initial Entry Force to facilitate the arrival of Follow-on-Forces or as a Stand-alone Force. Within the full spectrum of NATO missions, the NRF may conduct:

- Non-combatant Evacuation Operations,
- Counter Terrorism Operations
- Embargo Operations,
- Quick Response Operations to support diplomacy as required.

To fulfil these tasks the NRF consists of a combined and joint force package that will be tailored to each specific mission. This force package is based on a brigade size land element (including special operations forces), a joint naval task force, and an air element capable of 200 combat missions per day. Accordingly, the NRF command and control structure consists of a Combined Joint Task Force Headquarters (CJTF HQ) with subordinated Land, Air and Maritime Component Commands (LCC/ACC/MCC). Although already mature, the overall concept and related capabilities will continue to develop over coming years.

Forces participating in the NRF are drawn from the entire NATO Command and Force Structure. Forces will be assigned to the NRF on a rotational basis with the formal stand-by period lasting six months. Units that are assigned undergo a specialised 12-month preparation program that is split into the six months of unit training under national responsibility and six months of joint and combined training under the responsibility of the respective component command. After a successful final test, NATO's Supreme Allied Commander Europe (SACEUR) will certify the force.

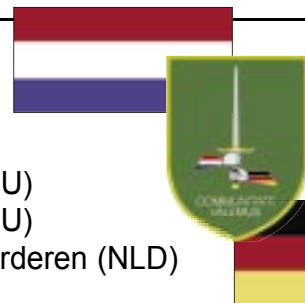
The Governments of Germany and the Netherlands offered NATO the Headquarters 1 (GE/NL) Corps as Land Component Command (LCC) for NRF 4 (January-July 2005) under the lead of NATO's Joint Forces Command Naples (Italy).

In the first half of 2004, Headquarters 1 (GE/NL) Corps prepared itself through a series of seminars, workshops and the two main exercises Peace Rider 1 in January and Honest Sword in March. To meet NATO's new challenge, as of 1 July 2004 the HQ is deepened the joint and combined training as highlighted by exercises Peace Rider 2 in July, Heroic Sword in October and SACEUR's final certification exercise Allied Warrior in November 2004. On 14 January 2005, Headquarters 1 (GE/NL) Corps took over the lead of the 6-month NRF-4 LCC stand-by period.



NRF 4 Force Packet

Stand-by Force (Land) January to July 2005 (update Mar 2005)



- Headquarters 1 (GE/NL) Corps
- Staff Support Battalion 1 (GE/NL) Corps
- CIS Battalion 1 (GE/NL) Corps

Münster (DEU)
Münster (DEU)
Eibergen/Garderen (NLD)

- 43 (NLD) Mechanised Brigade (HQ elements)
- 1 (DNK) Light Reconnaissance Squadron
- 44 (NLD) Mechanised Battle Group
- 373 (DEU) Airborne Infantry Battle Group
- 12 (NLD/DEU) Air Manoeuvre Battle Group
- Telemark Battle Group (NOR)
- 1 (DNK) Light Reconnaissance Squadron
- Artillery Battle Group (FRA)
- 11 (NLD) Armoured Engineer Battalion
- 101 (NLD) CIS Battalion

Darp (NLD)
Rønne (DNK)
Steenwijk (NLD)
Doberlug-Kirchhain (DEU)
Arnhem (NLD)
Rena (NOR)
Rønne (DNK)
Haguenau (FRA)
Wezep (NLD)
Garderen (NLD)

- 101 (NLD) Engineer Battalion
- 103 (MN) ISTAR Battalion (NLD/RO/PT/NOR)
- CBRN Battalion (DEU/USA/ITA/POL/DNK/HUN/SVN/ROU)
- Medical Task Force (DEU/NLD/BEL)
- 4 (DEU) Military Police Company

Wezep (NLD)
't Harde (NLD)
Höxter (DEU)
Leer (DEU)
Wilhemshaven (DEU)

- (MN) LogBase Command (NLD/DEU/NO)
- (NLD) HQ Support Company
- 100 (MN) Transport Battalion (NLD/DEU/DNK/NOR)
- 462 (MN) Support & Supply Battalion (NLD/DEU/NOR)
- 330 (MN) Maintenance Battalion (NLD/DEU/NOR)

Apeldoorn (NLD)
Apeldoorn (NLD)
Garderen (NLD)
Diez/Lahn (DEU)
Garderen (NLD)

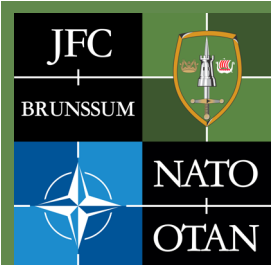
- Airborne Infantry Company (TUR)
- 24 (ESP) Air Defence Battery

Bakanliklar-Ankara (TUR)
Valencia (ESP)

CIS = Communication and Information Systems
CBRN = Chemical Biological Radiological and Nuclear
ISTAR = Intelligence Surveillance Target Acquisition and Reconnaissance

The personnel strength of the Land Component Force for NRF-4 comprises about 8,500 troops. The entire NATO Response Force-4, including Air Force and Navy, will consist of about 17,000 soldiers.





HEADQUARTERS ALLIED JOINT FORCE COMMAND BRUNSSUM



NATO RESPONSE FORCE (NRF) 2022

The NATO Response Force (NRF) was established in 2002 from the Berlin Plus Agreement as a high readiness force comprising of air, land, maritime and Special Forces units capable of rapid deployment. The NRF is capable of performing a wide variety of tasks including the provision of an immediate collective defence response capability (prior to arrival of other forces), crisis management & peace support operations, plus disaster relief and the protection of critical infrastructure.

Overall command of this force belongs to the Supreme Allied Commander Europe (SACEUR).

Two of NATO's three Joint Force Commands (based in Brunssum, the Netherlands, and Naples, Italy) exercise command and control over assigned forces within the NRF each year, on a rotational basis. Rotating forces through the NRF requires contributing Allies and partner nations to meet strict standards and adopt procedures required for defensive and expeditionary operations. As a result, participation in the NRF is preceded by a six-month NATO exercise programme in order to integrate and standardise the various national contingents. Additional training serials are carried out by contributing nations during the 6-18 month period prior to assuming the role of an NRF high-readiness unit.

NRF 2022

Joint Force Command Brunssum is the lead headquarters for the NRF in 2022, and is supported by the following command and control elements:

- Land: Rapid Reaction Corps France (RRC FRA);
- Air: French Joint Force Air Component (FRA JFAC);
- Maritime: United Kingdom Strike Force (UKSTRKFOR);
- Special Operations: Italian Special Operations Component Command (ITA SOCC);
- Joint Logistic Support Group Brunssum (JLSGBS);

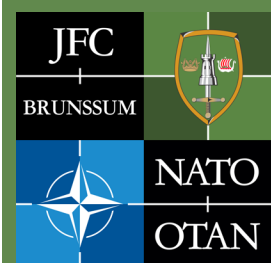
Also contributing to the NRF 2022 package are the French Chemical, Biological, Radiological and Nuclear Defence Task Force (FRA CBRN TF) and the Multi National CIMIC Group, based in Italy.

Air, land, maritime, Special Forces, and logistics troops from across the Alliance have been placed on a high level of readiness and are available to support NRF 2022 if required. The details of the exact composition, locations and readiness of these forces are not publicly releasable in order to protect operational security.

The Enhancement of NRF: developing the VJTF concept

At the 2014 Wales Summit, NATO Allies agreed to enhance the capabilities of the NATO Response Force (NRF) in order to adapt and respond to emerging security challenges, as well as the risks emanating, at the time, from the Middle East and North Africa.

Having carefully considered the options presented during post-Wales discussions, the decision to incorporate a Very High Readiness Joint Task Force (VJTF) within the overall NRF structure was taken, increasing the size of the NRF to 40,000 and providing NATO with a highly capable and flexible air, land, maritime and Special Forces package capable of deploying at short notice when tasked, between two to seven days.



ALLIED JOINT FORCE COMMAND HEADQUARTERS BRUNSSUM



The Very High Readiness Joint Task Force (VJTF)

The VJTF comprises a multinational brigade (approximately 8,500 troops), with up to five manoeuvre battalions, supported by air, maritime and Special Forces. The VJTF is fully operational and can be enabled as a rapid reinforcement capability, in case of a major crisis. If activated, the force will be available to move immediately, following the first indicators and warnings of potential threats before a crisis begins, to act as a potential deterrent to further escalation. The idea is that the rapid arrival of this capable military unit would send a very clear message to any potential aggressor: "any attempt to violate the sovereignty of one NATO nation will result in a decisive military engagement with all 30 allied nations".

The VJTF is established on a rotational and persistent basis and will not be permanently based. Contributions to NRF will rotate between different NATO countries each year, with the need for a number of lead or framework nations to stand up the force. These framework nations, the core of the new force, are expected to provide headquarters, combat forces, logistics and enablers.

In addition, NATO Allies have a wide range of other forces at their disposal. For example: Allies often send forces to conduct exercises in various locations across Europe; all Allies have national troops at high states of readiness that can quickly respond to a crisis.

The VJTF's rapid yet flexible response times are what set it apart from other components of the NRF; some units will be ready to deploy in just two days, whilst the majority of units will be ready to move in less than seven days. In ensuring a high level of readiness, the VJTF will be regularly exercised and deployed at short notice.

NRF Structure

Command and Control element: based on a deployable Joint Task Force HQ;

Very High Readiness Joint Task Force (VJTF): a new component of the NRF consisting of forces at the highest level of readiness. It is a joint force, consisting of a land component with appropriate air, maritime and special operations components, as needed, able to deploy within a few days in response to any threats or challenges that may arise on NATO's flanks;

Initial Follow on Forces Group (IFFG): These are high-readiness forces that can deploy quickly, following the VJTF, in response to a crisis;

Follow-on Forces Group (FFG): The FFG consists of a broad spectrum of military capabilities - encompassing command and control, combat, combat support and combat services support units. FFG forces are nominated by Allied and/or Partner Nations and drawn from their deployable forces.

NATO Force Integration Units (NFIUs)

Rapid deployment of the VJTF, if activated, will be facilitated by small command and control nodes enabling deployment and sustainment activity called NATO Force Integration Units (NFIUs). Six of eight NFIUs are in JFC Brunssum's area of responsibility: Estonia, Hungary, Latvia, Lithuania, Poland and Slovakia.

NFIUs are working in conjunction with host nations to identify logistical networks, transportation nodes and supporting infrastructure in order to ensure that NATO high-readiness forces (VJTF) can deploy to an assigned region as quickly as possible, within two to seven days.

Each NFIU will provide a vital link between national forces and multinational NATO forces, and will have a key role in planning, exercising, and assisting potential reinforcements. In short, the NFIUs will facilitate the rapid deployment of Allied forces to the region, support collective defence planning and assist in coordinating training and exercises.

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10 things you need to know about NATO

1. **Collective defence:** The North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) was founded in 1949 and is a group of 29 countries from Europe and North America that exists to protect the people and territory of its members. The Alliance is founded on the principle of 'collective defence,' meaning that if one NATO Ally is attacked, then all NATO Allies are attacked. For example, when terrorists attacked the United States on 9/11 2001, all NATO Allies stood with America as though they had also been attacked.



Allied forces training during NATO Exercise Trident Juncture 2015

Since 2014, NATO has implemented the biggest increase in its collective defence since the Cold War. For instance, we have now deployed four multinational battlegroups to Estonia, Latvia, Lithuania and Poland. Their purpose is not to provoke a conflict, but to prevent one.

2. **Managing crises around the world:** Promoting stability in our neighbourhood and protecting our people at home can sometimes mean taking action further afield. In the 1990s, NATO stopped further bloodshed from occurring in Bosnia and Kosovo. Since 2003, NATO has helped to ensure that Afghanistan is no longer a safe haven for international terrorist groups. NATO has also helped to prevent piracy off the Horn of Africa and, since 2016, has helped address the refugee and migrant crisis in Europe.

3. **Fighting Terrorism:** NATO plays an important role in fighting terrorism, contributing 16,000 NATO troops to train local forces in Afghanistan. NATO is also a full member of the Global Coalition to Defeat ISIS, and our AWACS surveillance aircraft continue to support the Coalition. At the Brussels Summit, we will launch a new training mission in Iraq, to help Iraqi forces prevent the re-emergence of ISIS or other terrorist groups. Our new Intelligence Division helps us to anticipate and respond to threats. In Naples, NATO has set up a 'Hub for the South' to help monitor regional threats and coordinate efforts.



NATO troops train and advise the Afghan National Army

4. **Working with our partners:** Because threats like terrorism, piracy and cyber warfare know no borders, NATO is committed to cooperation with its global partners. That's why we work with over 40 partner countries around the world, as well as organisations such as the United Nations, the European Union, the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe (OSCE) and the African Union, to spread stability and security.
5. **Troops and Equipment:** Whenever NATO carries out a mission, individual Allies commit troops and equipment to be placed under a unified NATO command. These become known as "NATO forces." The only military equipment that NATO owns is a fleet of AWACS (Airborne Warning and Control) surveillance aircraft. NATO is also developing a capability for Global Hawk surveillance drones.

6. **NATO's Command Structure:** With so many countries working together, having a clear chain of command is vital. Military and civilian personnel from all member states work together every day within NATO's 'Command Structure.' This includes two top-level Strategic Commands: Allied Command Operations, based in Mons, Belgium; and Allied Command Transformation, based in Norfolk in the United States. To remain fit for purpose, the NATO Command Structure is being modernised to enable us to move forces more quickly across Europe and to keep sea lines of communication across the Atlantic free and open.
7. **NATO funding:** Every NATO country contributes to the costs of running the Alliance. By far the Allies' biggest contribution comes in the form of taking part in NATO-led missions and operations. For example, one country might provide fighter jets, while another provides ships, equipment or troops. NATO Allies also provide direct funding to NATO to cover the costs of NATO staff and facilities, its Command Structure and its jointly-owned equipment, like its AWACS aircraft.
8. **Defence Spending:** At the Wales Summit in 2014, NATO Allies pledged to invest more and better in defence – to stop the cuts, move towards spending 2% of GDP on defence by 2024, and to spend 20% of that on major equipment. We are making progress. Over the last four years, European Allies and Canada have spent 87 billion US dollars more on defence.
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